Hooghly gains largely in its dealings with all the adjoining districts of West Bengal except Howrah, where the loss is probably to a great extent fictitious,* but it loses greatly to Calcutta and the 24-Parganas. The natives of Hooghly in Calcutta are chiefly petty shopkeepers and clerks. The better classes who find employment in the metropolis often return home daily after their work is over. The mills attract large numbers of labourers from the United Provinces, Bihar, Chota Nagpur and Cuttack; many Oriyas also come as domestic servants and palki-bearers, and many inhabitants of Chota Nagpur and Bankura, as labourers in the brick-fields and on earth-work during the dry season. The emigrants whom Hooghly supplies to these districts are comparatively few in number and consist mainly of clerks and their families. Howrah gains largely from all the contiguous districts except Calcutta, and also from the United Provinces and Bihar. The mills, iron works, &c., in Howrah town are the cause of most of this immigration and we have already seen that barely one-third of the inhabitants of this busy manufacturing centre are district-born. At the time of the census extensive operations were in progress on the Bengal-Nagpur Railway, in connection with the goods terminus at Shalimar and various sidings, and these gave temporary employment to several thousand coolies from Chota Nagpur, Bankura and Midnapore.

CENTRAL BENGAL.

249. Central Bengal, from the point of view of migration, comprises two very different tracts. Calcutta, with its great trade and numerous industries, attracts large numbers not only from the neighbouring districts, nor even from the whole of Bengal but, it might almost be said, from the whole of India. Barely one-third of its inhabitants own Calcutta as their birth-place; all the rest have come thither from outside, including more than 120,000 from South Bihar, Saran and Muzaffarpur and about 90,000 from the United Provinces, 83,000 from the 24-Parganas, 47,000 from Hooghly, 25,000 from Midnapore, 18,000 each from Cuttack and Burdwan, 15,000 from Dacca and 13,000 each from Nadia and Howrah. The corresponding loss is very small even in the case of neighbouring districts. Elsewhere it is, to a great extent, due to the return home of persons belonging to other districts with their children who were born in Calcutta. The other emigrants are probably persons belonging to the educated classes who have secured appointments elsewhere. The 24-Parganas benefits by its proximity to Calcutta, and the mills which line the bank of the Hooghly are worked mainly by labourers from Bihar and the United Provinces.† Trade also brings many from other parts of Bengal, Rajputana and elsewhere. In addition to this the Sundarbans contain large areas capable of reclamation, and the settlers there include many persons whose permanent home is in Midnapore, Balasore, Nadia and other districts. Except in the case of contiguous districts the number of emigrants from the 24-Parganas is very small.

In the remaining districts of Central Bengal emigration is on a much smaller scale. Nadia loses population to all the districts that adjoin it, even to unhealthy Jessore.‡ In the case of Rajshahi and Pabna this is attributable in part to the action of the Padma which has cut away land from its south bank and thrown it up on the north, but the general loss by migration seems to show that the material condition of the district is less satisfactory than that of its neighbours. The local losses are to some slight extent compensated for by immigration from Bihar and the United Provinces. Murshidabad like Nadia has suffered from diluvion which explains the adverse balance of migration in the case of Malda and Rajshahi. It has gained by the movements of the people on the borders of Nadia and the Sonthal Parganas and has lost slightly along the Birbhum and Burdwan boundary. There is a fair amount of immigration from Bihar and the United Provinces but comparatively little of this is permanent. Many stay for years in the police or in service under the zemindars but they form their matrimonial connections in their own country and ultimately return thither. Jessore is affected by migration to a less

* Howrah is in the revenue jurisdiction of Hooghly, and there is a strong tendency amongst the people to return the latter district as their birthplace.

† The number of immigrants from Bihar and the United Provinces was 95,419. The number of operatives under the Factory Act in 1900, was 86,888.

‡ The main crop in Nadia is the *aus* or early rice. There is no local demand for labour at the time when the winter rice is reaped, and so many harvesters go from the district to help in the reaping of crops in Eastern Bengal. These, however, must for the most part have returned home before the census.

extent than any other district in Central Bengal. It loses slightly to all the surrounding districts except Nadia. The number of immigrants from up-country is insignificant. The emigrants to Khulna are probably, for the most part, persons who have taken up land in the Sundarbans.

NORTH BENGAL.

250. North Bengal is notable for the very small number of its inhabitants who leave it, while it receives more immigrants than any other Natural Division save only Central Bengal. This is explained by the sparseness of its population, especially in the north and centre, the fertility of the soil and the generally low rates of rent. Rajshahi gains from all its neighbours except Dinajpur, but mainly on the south where the Padma has receded at the expense of Nadia and Murshidabad.* There is a considerable amount of permanent migration to the Bárind from the Sonthal Parganas, Ranchi and Manbhum, and the United Provinces and parts of Bihar supply a fair number of cold weather visitors in search of employment on roads and as palki-bearers, tank-diggers and labourers in the mulberry fields. The emigration to non-contiguous districts is small. Many of the landlords are absentees living in Calcutta and elsewhere, but the total numbers of this class is small.

The ebb and flow of the population between Dinajpur and Jalpaiguri are practically equal, but in all other directions the former district gains from its neighbours. There is also a considerable immigration from Nadia and Murshidabad and still more from Bihar and the United Provinces. Some of these foreigners have settled down as cultivators and others are domestic servants, but the great majority belong to the periodic type of emigrants who visit the district in the cold weather and return home before the breaking of the rains. But the most striking feature in the returns for this district is the enormous migration from the Chota Nagpur Plateau, and especially from the Sonthal Parganas, which has sent nearly 50,000 permanent settlers into the district in search of new homes in the Bárind. A few Gáro families from Mymensingh have also settled in the district. Jalpaiguri receives as settlers for ordinary cultivation in the Duars a net excess of immigrants from Kuch Bihar, Rangpur and Purnea, especially the two former, but its greatest gain is from the Chota Nagpur Plateau which supplies most of its tea garden coolies. Ranchi alone gives 80,000 coolies to this district, and the Sonthal Parganas 10,000. Many of these settle permanently, either in the gardens or as cultivators and cart owners, but many of them are said to return to their homes at intervals. In the tea gardens on the higher slopes, at the foot of the hills, coolies from Nepal replace those from Chota Nagpur and many of these also find a permanent home in the district. There is a fair number of upcountry coolies, who are employed mainly on the roads and railways, but most of them return to their homes at the end of the cold weather. Nearly a quarter of the present inhabitants of this district are foreign-born and of these nearly three quarters have come from a distance. The corresponding loss by migration is extraordinarily small, and less than 1 per 1,000 of the population was enumerated elsewhere. This seems to show that fewer of the emigrants from Chota Nagpur, or at least of those who are married and have children in Jalpaiguri, return home than is usually supposed.

251. Darjeeling has an even larger proportion of foreigners, and ranks in this respect second only to Calcutta, barely half of its inhabitants having been born in the district. It has received in the Terai numerous settlers from Purnea and Jalpaiguri, for ordinary cultivation, and from Ranchi and the Sonthal Parganas, for work in the tea gardens, but the great bulk of its immigrants (76,301) come from Nepal, chiefly as coolies on the hill tea gardens. Most of these are permanent settlers. The district was very sparsely inhabited when it was first acquired, but it is gradually filling up and the proportion of the foreign born is diminishing. In 1891 more than 60 per cent. of its inhabitants were born outside the district. It sends out very few emigrants and of these the majority are employed in various Military Police battalions. Sikkim stands next to Darjeeling in regard to the number of its immigrants, who represent more than two-fifths of the total population, and like that district,

* The rice harvest in the Bárind attracts numerous labourers from Murshidabad, but these had probably returned to their homes before the date of the census.

it owes most of them to Nepal. Rangpur loses considerably by the movements to and fro across the borders of contiguous districts, gaining on the south from Bogra and Mymensingh and losing on the east, west and north to Goalpara (in Assam), Dinajpur, Jalpaiguri and Kuch Bihar. It gains, however, by migration with places at a distance, especially from Pabna, Dacca and Nadia in Bengal Proper, and still more so from Bihar* and the United Provinces, but persons from these latter places are as a rule only cold weather visitors. Their number was unusually large at the time of the census, owing to the construction of the bridge over the Tista and other railway works then in progress.

Bogra receives more people from Pabna than it gives in return, but taking all contiguous districts together, the net gain is small. There is, however, a considerable immigration from Nadia, Saran, the Chota Nagpur Plateau and the United Provinces. The immigrants from the Chota Nagpur Plateau who are locally known as Bunas, are found mainly in Panchbibi thana which forms part of the Bárind. Pabna gains only from Nadia and loses to all the other surrounding districts; the explanation, so far as the eastern boundary is concerned, is that much land has been diluviated by the Jamuna. It receives a fair number of semi-permanent settlers from Bihar, the United Provinces and Hazaribagh, but not enough to counterbalance the emigration to Calcutta, Rangpur and other non-contiguous districts. Malda benefits by an extensive movement of Santáls to the Gajol and Old Malda thanas in the Bárind and also, though to a much smaller extent, by the advent of Musalmans from Murshidabad to the new *chars* thrown up by the Padma. It also receives numerous settlers from Bhagalpur and other Bihar districts and from the United Provinces. There are very few emigrants from Malda to places at a distance, but it suffers a slight net loss by migration to contiguous districts other than the Sonthal Parganas and Murshidabad. Kuch Bihar loses heavily to Jalpaiguri, but recovers nearly two-thirds of its loss by immigration from Rangpur and Goalpara. Public works in progress at the time of the census were mainly responsible for a fair number of visitors from Saran and other Bihar districts and from the United Provinces.

EAST BENGAL.

252. East Bengal is for the most part cut off from the rest of the province by great rivers which make reciprocal intercourse unusually difficult and have gradually put a stop to intermarriage which is such a fruitful source of migration between contiguous districts elsewhere. Moreover the bulk of the inhabitants are Muhammadans who take their wives from places nearer home than do the Hindus. The amount of casual migration between East Bengal and the adjoining districts of Central and North Bengal is thus unusually small and the proportion of immigrants from, and emigrants to, contiguous districts within the Division is smaller than in any other part of the province. Owing to the inroads of the Padma, Dacca has sustained a small net loss from the movements of the population between it and the adjoining districts. It receives a number of labourers from Monghyr and other districts further west, but it has lost many more people than it has gained. Its boatmen ply on every river in Bengal and its babus are found earning their livelihood throughout Bengal and Assam and even further afield.† There is also a good deal of temporary emigration of the poorer classes to assist in agricultural operations in Backergunge where the people are too well off to work as day labourers.

Mymensingh has also suffered from diluvion and some of its riparian inhabitants have crossed over to Rangpur to cultivate the corresponding accretions on the right bank of the Jamuna. It has also lost along the boundaries of Dacca and Sylhet but has gained from Tippera, whose women are in request as wives and also as maid servants. Its emigrants to distant places are very few but it receives large numbers of labourers from upcountry during the cold weather months, especially from the United Provinces, whose emigrants are more numerous here than in any district of Bengal except only Calcutta, the 24-Parganas, Howrah and Shahabad. Faridpur benefits on the whole by the movements of the people across the line which divides it from

* Saran alone sends 22,161.

† Many of the best clerks in the Government offices in Shillong come from the Bikrampur pargana in this district.

its neighbours. It gains largely from Pabna and Dacca, owing to alluvial accretions, and also, though to a less extent, from Jessore and Nadia; but on the other hand it loses to Tippera and Backergunge, especially to the latter, which it supplies with many of the day labourers of whom that district has no local supply. Many of the itinerant traders in boats who are found on all the rivers of East Bengal are natives of this district. There are a good many immigrants from upcountry, but these are far outnumbered by the emigrants to non-contiguous districts. Many of the latter are labourers in search of temporary employment in Tippera, Noakhali and Mymensingh.

253. The balance of migration between Khulna and the 24-Parganas is slightly adverse to the former, but it gains largely from the other contiguous districts, Backergunge and Jessore, which supply many of the cultivators on new clearances in the Sundarbans. Some of these have settled permanently but the excess of males shows that many are still domiciled elsewhere. Khulna gains also by migration to and from places at a distance, but except in the case of Faridpur, these movements are on a comparatively small scale. Backergunge, as has been seen, loses to Khulna but gains largely from other contiguous districts and also from Dacca. Most of its immigrants are men working temporarily as labourers. The emigration to places at a distance is on a very small scale and is far less than from any other tract in this Division except the Chittagong Hill Tracts and Hill Tippera. Tippera is very little affected by migration. The movements across the boundaries of the adjoining districts result in a slight net loss which is very nearly made good by the excess of immigrants over emigrants in the case of places at a distance. The number of people from up-country is not at present very large but it is rapidly growing now that the jute firms afford a lucrative occupation in the rains, when earthwork is no longer possible. Noakhali gains slightly from Chittagong but loses somewhat heavily to other contiguous tracts. Except in the case of Dacca, where the balance is in favour of Noakhali, there is but little intermigration with places at a distance. Most of the emigrants to distant places are lascars on ships.

The Chittagong Hill Tracts and Hill Tippera attract a good many people from Chittagong and give very few of their own inhabitants in exchange, but in the case of the former they are mainly wood-cutters and other temporary emigrants. The emigrants from Chittagong to Tippera exceed the immigrants, but the former consist to a much larger extent of temporary labourers. But the great feature of migration in Chittagong is the large annual exodus for the Akyab rice harvest where the reapers are said to earn as much as a rupee a day. At the time of the census no fewer than 79,262 natives of this district were found in Burma, of whom all but 14,347 were males. There has been some permanent emigration of Maghs, especially after the cyclone of 1897, but there is no doubt that the great majority of Chittagonians enumerated in Akyab were only temporary absentees who returned home soon after the census. Many others had probably already returned before the census was taken. The Chittagong Hill Tracts receives a good many of immigrants (mostly temporary) from Chittagong, and gives a much smaller number (about a fifth) to Hill Tippera. The movements between this State and the Hill Tracts set sometimes in one direction and sometimes in the other according to the whim of the migratory tribes who live there. Nearly one-fourth of the inhabitants of Hill Tippera are foreign-born. There is a strip of level and fertile, but until recently almost desolate, country running along the northern and western boundary of this State, and this is now attracting numerous settlers from Sylhet, Tippera, Chittagong and Noakhali. These do not at once give up their old homes, but gradually do so as their new cultivation extends and the country becomes more settled.

South Bihar.

254. The statistics for South Bihar have been affected by the prevalence of plague at the time of the census. Many of the inhabitants whose permanent homes were in other districts had fled, and the number of pilgrims was also unusually low, while on the other hand, some of the natives of the district who would otherwise have been away at the time of the census, had returned home to look after their families. The normal amount of migration must be much greater than the present census would show. In Patna the amount of inter-migration with

contiguous districts is still very considerable, but the large proportion of females shows that it is due mainly to the interchange of women. The number of immigrants from distant places is small, but the emigrants aggregate nearly one-twentieth of the district population. They are especially numerous in Calcutta where more than 30,000 natives of this district were enumerated. These are for the most part only temporary absentees and two-thirds of them are males. Gaya sends out numerous emigrants to Hazaribagh and Palamau, where they settle permanently, and also to Bengal Proper, especially Calcutta and the neighbourhood. The emigrants to Calcutta alone constitute more than half the total number of natives of Gaya who were enumerated in non-contiguous districts. The immigrants from adjoining districts are only half as numerous as the emigrants, while those from distant places are outnumbered by the emigrants in the ratio of 27 to 1.

The interchange of population between Shahabad and the United Provinces leaves the number of its inhabitants practically unaltered. It loses slightly to Palamau on the south but gains from the adjoining districts of Bihar. As with Patna and Gaya the emigrants to distant places are far more numerous than the immigrants. The people of this district are greatly in demand all over Bengal, as zemindars' peons and clubmen, but they are especially numerous in Purnea, North Bengal, Dacca and Calcutta. A large number of persons from this district also find their way to Assam. Gaya is the only adjacent district from which Monghyr receives more than it loses, but except in the case of Bhagalpur and the Sonthal Parganas the excess emigration is not very marked. The emigration to a distance far exceeds the countervailing immigration. The places where the natives of Monghyr prefer to seek employment are the metropolitan districts, Dacca, Rangpur and Dinajpur.

NORTH BIHAR.

255. In spite of the fact that Saran, sends out a greater proportion of emigrants than any other district in the Province, outside Chota Nagpur, North Bihar as a whole, is far less affected by migration than the tract south of the Ganges. More than 10 per cent. of the persons born in Saran were enumerated away from home. About one-fifth of these absentees were found in contiguous districts while the remaining four-fifths had gone further afield. The emigrants from this district are scattered all over Bengal Proper but are most numerous in Rangpur, Calcutta, the 24-Parganas and Mymensingh. Champaran is the only Bihar district, except Purnea, where the immigrants outnumber those who have left the district. It gains largely from Gorakhpur in the United Provinces and from Saran, and also, though to a less extent, from Muzaffarpur. Migration between Champaran and distant places takes place only on a comparatively small scale, but those who thus leave, outnumber those who come to the district in the ratio of more than 4 to 1. Muzaffarpur loses slightly to its contiguous districts, chiefly by the interchange of women. The immigrants from a distance are fewer in proportion to its population than in any other North Bihar district, while the number of its emigrants is exceeded only by those from Saran, though they are barely one-third as numerous as those from that district; they are found chiefly in the metropolitan districts, Bhagalpur, Purnea, and North Bengal.

The ebb and flow between Darbhanga and its neighbours is almost at a par; it loses to Bhagalpur and gains in all other directions. The immigrants from a distance are almost as few as in the case of Muzaffarpur, but the emigrants to non-contiguous places are less than half as numerous. The latter go by preference to the neighbourhood of Calcutta, or to Dacca and North Bengal. Bhagalpur shows a larger amount of inter-migration with contiguous districts than any other district in North Bihar. It loses to the Sonthal Parganas and Purnea and gains from Darbhanga and Monghyr, the net result being a loss of some 20,000. It is very little affected by migration to a distance, and the credit and debit balances are here almost equal. It may be noted, however, that (excluding contiguous districts) it is the most westerly district in Bengal which receives any appreciable number of immigrants from the United Provinces.

It will be observed that except in the case of Champaran, the general tendency throughout North Bihar is for the population to move gradually

eastwards. Saran gives to Muzaffarpur more than it gets in exchange, Muzaffarpur does the same to Darbhanga and Darbhanga to Bhagalpur. This tendency is even more marked in Purnea which gains from Bhagalpur and the Sonthal Parganas, and loses to Dinajpur, Malda, Jalpaiguri and Darjeeling, the net result being a gain of nearly 20,000. This is the only part of Bihar which benefits by the movements of the people to places at a distance; it gains nearly 40,000 from non-contiguous Bihar districts and 8,000 from the United Provinces. The number of emigrants to a distance is extraordinarily small, being only 28 per 10,000 of the population. In respect of migration the conditions in Purnea resemble those in North Bengal and differ entirely from those in other parts of Bihar.

ORISSA.

256. Apart from the temporary visits of pilgrims who were specially numerous in Puri on the date when the census was taken, there is but little immigration to Orissa. There are numerous emigrants to the metropolitan districts, where they serve as palanquin bearers, door-keepers and labourers; natives of Orissa are also found working as cooks and domestic servants throughout Bengal, and as cultivators and field labourers in the Sundarbans. There is a general loss by migration to the sparsely inhabited Native States which form the western boundary of the division. Cuttack, being the most densely populated, loses not only to those States but also to Balasore and Puri, the net excess of emigrants being about 28,000. It loses considerably more than twice this number by migration to distant places, chiefly to the metropolitan area, Assam and the Central Provinces. Balasore sends more settlers to the Orissa States than does Cuttack, but its gains from the latter district and, to a less extent, from Midnapore, reduce the net deficit on account of local movements to a comparatively trifling amount. Its emigrants to Calcutta and other distant places are considerably less numerous than those from Cuttack, but it receives an equally small amount of compensatory immigration. The gain and loss by migration between Puri and the adjoining parts of Bengal are about on a par, while there is a very large apparent gain from Madras, the Central Provinces and the United Provinces. A very large proportion of the immigrants, however, were pilgrims. If these were excluded the district would show a net loss by migration.

CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU.

257. The Chota Nagpur Plateau is inhabited by hardy aboriginal tribes who are remarkable for their fecundity, and as the climate is healthy the population tends to grow rapidly. But the country is barren and the natural growth acts, to a great extent, merely as a stimulant to emigration to other places where a better livelihood can be obtained. Hazaribagh is the *nidus* from which the Santáls poured forth about 70 years ago to people the *Damin-i-koh* in the Sonthal Parganas. This movement in its original magnitude has long since died out; but the emigrants to that district are still numerous and greatly exceed the return flow of immigrants. There is also a considerable loss of population to Manbhum, where the coal mines afford remunerative employment, and to Ranchi and Palamau. There is, on the other hand, a considerable influx from Gaya and a smaller one from Monghyr. The net result of these movements to and from adjoining districts is a small gain, but there is a net loss of nearly 100,000 by emigration to more distant places. Assam alone takes nearly 69,000 persons from this district. Heavy as this loss is it is barely half that sustained by Ranchi which sends out more than 200,000 persons to places at a distance, including about 92,000 to Assam and 80,000 to Jalpaiguri. Nearer home the interchange of population with Palamau and Manbhum is fairly even; there is a gain from Hazaribagh, and a heavy loss in the direction of the Chota Nagpur States and Singhbhum.

Palamau gains from Gaya, Shahabad and Hazaribagh, and loses slightly to Ranchi and considerably to the Chota Nagpur States. The net result of this local migration is a gain, not large, but still sufficient to counterbalance the loss on account of emigration to a distance, which, so far as the figures go, is on a smaller scale than from any other district of Chota Nagpur. The Assam returns show that only 6,776 natives of this district were enumerated in that Province compared with ten to thirteen times that number from

Ranchi and Hazaribagh. As already noted this may be due in part to many of the Palamau emigrants having returned their birth district as Lohardaga, the old name for Ranchi, of which Palamau was a subdivision until 1891, and so been assigned to the category of persons born in Ranchi. The migration between Manbhum and the adjoining districts discloses curious variations. There is a loss to the Sonthal Parganas on the north and a considerable gain from Hazaribagh on the north-west, an equilibrium with Ranchi on the west, a loss to Singhbhum and its political States on the south, a gain from Bankura on the east, and a heavy loss to Burdwan on the north-east. The general explanation of these figures is that the tendency of local migration is towards two centres, the coal mines in the north of the district and those in the Raniganj subdivision of Burdwan, while the former also attract labour from Hazaribagh and Bankura. The emigration to other districts in Bengal has resulted in a slight loss. The district sends nearly 70,000 emigrants to Assam and receives in exchange only some 4,000 from the United Provinces, and a few hundred from the Central Provinces. Singhbhum gains considerably from Ranchi, Manbhum and Midnapore, but loses very heavily to the Tributary States of Chota Nagpur and Orissa. It receives a considerable number of permanent settlers from Bankura, Cuttack, Balasore, and Hazaribagh, and of traders, labourers and other temporary residents from Gaya and the United Provinces. It sends out comparatively few emigrants to distant parts of Bengal, but the Assam return of birth-place shows that nearly 13,000 of its natives were enumerated in that Province.

258. The most striking features of migration in the Sonthal Parganas are firstly, its great volume, and secondly, the strong tendency of the people to move eastwards. There is a strong inflow from all the adjoining districts west of a line drawn approximately north and south through the centre of the district (from Sahebganj to Jamtara), *i.e.*, from Bhagalpur, Monghyr, Hazaribagh and Manbhum, and a still stronger ebb in the direction of all districts east of this line, viz., Purnea, Malda, Murshidabad, Birbhum and Burdwan. The immigrants from the west exceed 83,000 while the emigrants to the east number close on 117,000. The great migration of the Santáls from the south and west to the district that now bears their name took place during the middle part of the last century and many of the present immigrants are probably the survivors of those who took part in this movement. The tribe is still spreading east and north and the full effect of the movement is not exhausted in the districts that adjoin the Sonthal Parganas, but makes itself felt even further away, in those parts of Dinajpur, Rajshahi and Bogra which share with Malda the elevated tract of *quasi* laterite known, as the Bárind. Dinajpur alone contains more than 48,000 persons born in the Sonthal Parganas, and Rajshahi and Bogra more than 8,000. The manner in which the jungles of the Bárind are being brought under cultivation has already been explained. These wanderings of the Santáls have hitherto been confined to a laterite soil and they are said to be averse to the payment of rent. In what direction they will spread when they have finished their work of reclamation in the Bárind it is impossible yet to conjecture. The future alone can show whether they will then accept the inevitable and settle down as permanent rent-paying cultivators, or move further afield, overcoming their dislike to alluvial soil,* or retrace their steps and rove once more in the infertile uplands of the Chota Nagpur Plateau. Of emigration from the Sonthal Parganas to more distant places the most noticeable feature is the exodus to the Assam tea gardens, where more than 31,000 natives of this district were enumerated, and to Jalpaiguri where they number more than 10,000.

Angul receives from the Central Provinces and the Orissa States more than twice as many persons as it gives in exchange. It also benefits considerably by immigration from Madras and Cuttack. The Chota Nagpur States gain about 50,000 by migration with the districts of Chota Nagpur and the Orissa States, of which more than half is due to the influx from Ranchi, where in some

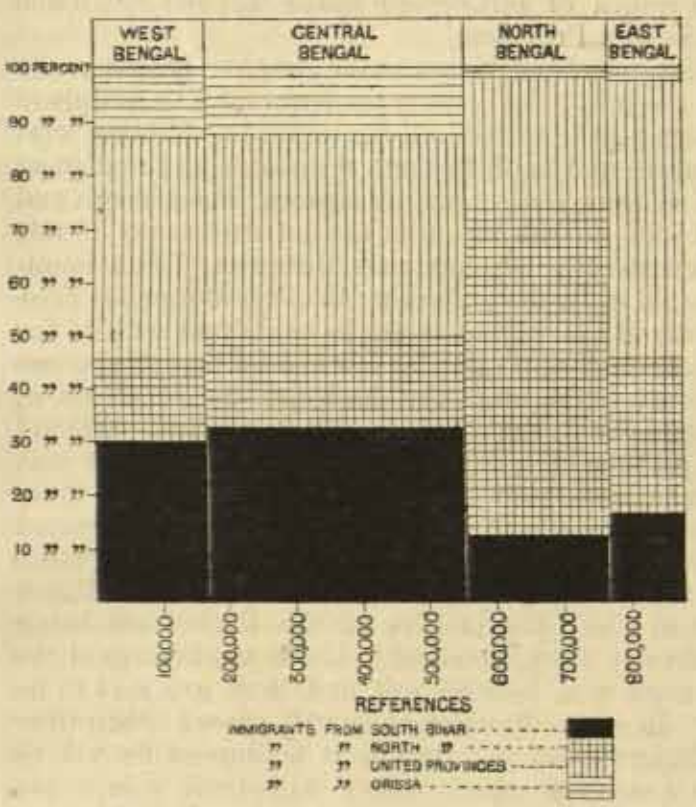
* Their avoidance of alluvial soil may be only fortuitous and due to the fact that hitherto the more broken high country, being comparatively sparsely inhabited, has offered them what they most need, *viz.*, ample room for expansion combined with a minimum of outside interference. Mr. Bompas is of opinion that their movements depend on the existence of *sál* forest and the absence of restrictions on cutting it down. The *sál* tree is, he says, to the Santál what the bamboo is to the Bengali villager.

parts agrarian disputes have unsettled the cultivators. On the side of the Central Provinces the movements backwards and forwards have been considerable; the net result is a very slight gain. There are nearly 8,000 immigrants, from the United Provinces, mostly from the contiguous district of Mirzapur, but only 14 are reported to have emigrated to those Provinces and none are shown in the birth-place returns for Assam. Possibly in both these provinces the persons born in the Chota Nagpur States have been credited to some district of Chota Nagpur. The Orissa States show a net gain of about 60,000 persons from contiguous territory in Bengal and of 7,000 from the Central Provinces. Singhbhum gives about half the total number of emigrants from other parts of Bengal, but there are also numerous settlers from Cuttack, Balasore, Midnapore and Puri. There is a loss to Angul and the Chota Nagpur States. The Assam returns show no emigration from the Orissa States to that province, but possibly some of the persons shown against Cuttack and Balasore were in reality born there.

SUMMARY.

259. It will be convenient to summarise briefly the general tendencies of migration within the province. One of the most noticeable features is the great movement from Bihar to Bengal Proper in quest of work. The total number of persons born in the former, but enumerated in the latter, tract is nearly half a million, and rather more than half of them come from North Bihar. Saran sends out a greater proportion of these emigrants than any other district; then, though at some distance, come the four districts of South Bihar and then, again at a considerable distance, Muzaffarpur. The emigration from the other districts of North Bihar is small and that from Purnea is infinitesimal. The emigrants from South Bihar find their way chiefly to the metropolitan districts and especially to Calcutta. Only 1 in 5 goes to North or East Bengal. In North Bihar, on the other hand, the people prefer to go to districts of North Bengal, especially Dinajpur, Jalpaiguri and Rangpur, and more than half the total number who were enumerated in Bengal Proper were found in this part of the Province. The proportion would be far higher if we omitted Saran, whose numerous emigrants are more catholic in the choice of a temporary home and swamp the figures for Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga.

Diagram showing the proportion of immigrants to Bengal Proper from Bihar, the United Provinces and Orissa.



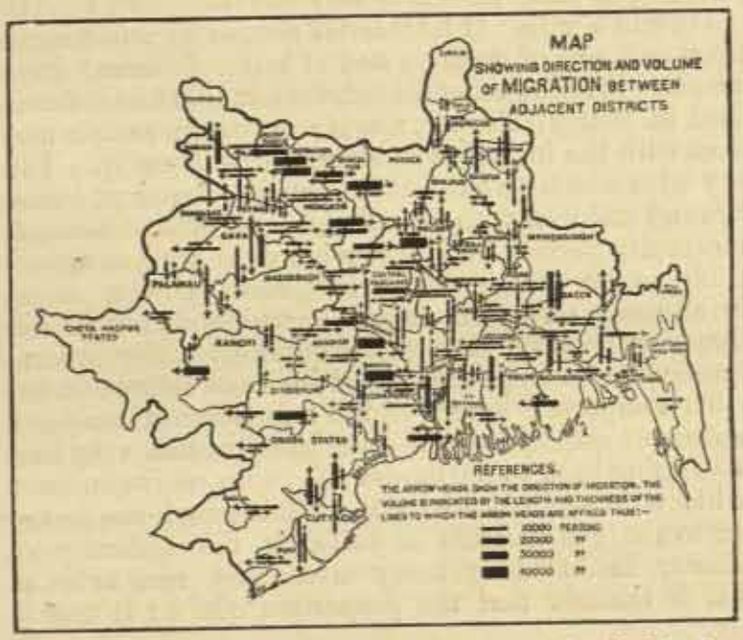
NOTE.—The base of each rectangle indicates the actual number of immigrants and the height, the proportion coming from each locality.

Another point deserving special notice is the way in which the natives of the Chota Nagpur Plateau and the adjoining parts of West Bengal are spreading over this province and Assam. More than 400,000 were enumerated in other parts of Bengal and nearly 300,000 in Assam. The Santáls have been working their way steadily north and east for 70 years or more. The other tribes are following their lead as pioneers of cultivation, and there are also numerous colonies of them in Bengal Proper, the descendants of coolies imported to work in the indigo factories in the days when indigo was extensively cultivated. Large numbers also go out every cold weather to obtain employment on earthwork or as field labourers. Many again take service in the coal fields. But the

most fruitful source of emigration in the case of these tribes is their recruitment for the tea-gardens of Assam and Jalpaiguri. In Chota Nagpur itself the present tendency seems to be to work southwards. Hazaribagh gains from the northern slopes of the hills which lie in Gaya. Ranchi and Manbhum gain from Hazaribagh, Singhbhum from Ranchi and Manbhum and the Orissa States from Singhbhum. To the same southward tendency we may attribute the traditional migration of the Oráons from the south of Shahabad to the north-east of Ranchi, where many of the villages occupied by them still bear Munda names. In North Bihar there is a general trend from west to east but on the south bank of the Ganges no such movement is noticeable. In Bengal Proper emigration takes place on a comparatively small scale. The Sundarbans attract settlers from the surrounding districts and harvesters resort hither and to a few other districts to assist in reaping the winter rice. Nadia sends out more harvesters than any other district except Chittagong, whose inhabitants flock in great numbers to Akyab when the rice crop is ready for the sickle.

MIGRATION AND DENSITY OF POPULATION.

260. There is no apparent correspondence between the density of population and migration. The greatest amount of emigration is from the Chota Nagpur Plateau which is the most sparsely populated tract in the province. Saran, which sends out more emigrants than any plains district, has a very dense population, but it is not so dense as that of Muzaffarpur or Dacca whose emigrants (other than to contiguous districts) are less than one third as numerous. Chittagong, which comes next, has a lower density of population than any other plains district in East Bengal. Gaya is less crowded than Champaran, but its emigrants are five times as numerous. Monghyr has fewer persons to the square mile than Rajshahi, but its natives who seek a livelihood abroad outnumber the emigrants from Rajshahi in the ratio of 8 to 1. If reliable figures showing the area fit for cultivation were available, which is only the case for a few districts recently surveyed, it is probable that a much closer connection between the two sets of figures could be established, but even so, there would be wide differences due to the varying fertility of the soil, the rainfall and general climatic conditions, and the class of crops grown. Speaking generally, it may be said that Eastern Bengal is capable of supporting a much greater population per square mile than Bihar, and that in Bihar the tracts which can support most people are those where rice is grown. This explains why Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga, with their extensive rice tracts, are less dependent on earnings outside the district than Saran, which is reputed to be very fertile and is highly cultivated and well irrigated, but which has a comparatively small area under rice cultivation. Purnea, whence the emigration is least, is almost wholly devoted to the growth of rice.



GENERAL FEATURES OF EMIGRATION FROM CHOTA NAGPUR.

261. The emigration of aboriginal tribes from the Chota Nagpur Plateau and the neighbouring districts of West Bengal takes several forms. Some of it is periodic and confined to the cold weather months. To this category belongs the emigration for crop-cutting or earthwork in the cold weather. Some again is semi-permanent, such as the emigration to the coal-fields. Some again is permanent, as in the case of the Santáls in the Bárind. The emigration to tea

gardens also generally ends in becoming permanent. The aboriginal Munda or Oráon has, it would seem, no strong ties to bind him to his home and, in the case of semi-permanent migration, he is often accompanied by his wife and children. If he be unmarried, he is pretty certain to find maids of his race in his new home, and his simple customs have not yet been sufficiently tinged by Hinduism to stand in the way of his matrimonial arrangements. Consequently if the pay is good and the place suits him, he is readily induced to break off all connection with his old home and settle down permanently. He may not do this at once. Probably after the first two or three years' absence, a longing to return to his country will seize him and he will revisit the old home, only to find that it has not the attractions his imagination had invested it with, and that such as it has, are not sufficient to outweigh the better pay and easier life obtainable abroad. He will again emigrate and, sooner or later, will give up all thought of ever going back to his native home.

General Features of Emigration from Bihar and the United Provinces.

262. In the case of Bihar and the United Provinces the general form of migration is very different. The people are Hindus, and a man who leaves his permanent home suffers from many disadvantages. He is cut off from his old social group and he finds it very difficult, if not impossible, to enter a new one. He has in his own country a certain circle within which he forms his matrimonial connections, and outside that circle it is very difficult either to give a daughter in marriage or to obtain a wife. If he marries abroad he is in danger of finding himself looked upon as a sort of outcaste and of being debarred from intercourse with his own people. It follows that though the struggle for existence is far harder upcountry than in Bengal Proper, few if any, of the people who come in search of work, do so with the intention of settling permanently. The sole object is to make money with which to eke out the family income at home. The emigrant leaves his wife and children with his relations; he returns home at intervals, as funds and opportunity permit, and he cherishes the hope of spending his declining years in his native village. This he generally does, unless circumstances are unusually adverse, or unless disease carries him off in the meantime. But it often happens that the visits to his home gradually become less frequent and that the presence of a large number of his caste fellows in the place where he has made his temporary home, or the acquisition of property there, or the securing of permanent employment or some similar cause, may lead him to give up all thoughts of going back to the harder life in his native country and induce him to send for his wife and children and make a new home in the land of his adoption. Prior to the construction of railways the difficulty of travelling was a potent factor in inducing many upcountry men to settle permanently in Bengal and it is thought that the proportion who do so now is smaller than it was formerly.

263. The extent to which permanent settlement takes place varies a great deal according to circumstances and to the caste to which the migrants belong. Bráhmans and Rájputs who come chiefly as priests, constables, jail-warders, zamindars' peons and the like, very seldom bring their women with them or form matrimonial alliances in Bengal. They may spend their whole life here, but they retain their connection with their homes, remit money regularly to their families and visit them at intervals. Boatmen also are seldom accompanied by their wives, and their visits to Bengal Proper are generally temporary, and confined to the rivers on which they ply their craft. Earth-workers, palki-bearers, syces, and mill-hands may also be said, as a class, to seldom settle in Bengal. There are of course exceptions. Colonies of Bhars and Binds are found in Malda, Mymensingh and other places, and men who have secured permanent employment will sometimes decide to remain, either sending for their families or taking a wife locally. There are also cases where entanglements with local women induce permanent settlement, but these are comparatively rare.* Amongst upcountry men who come for domestic service or as petty shop-keepers, the number who become domiciled in Bengal is larger. They often find that the presence of their women adds to their earnings, and having brought them, the inducements to go home are less strong. They

* In such cases, caste difficulties are usually overcome by conversion to Muhammadanism or Vaishnavism.

usually endeavour, however, to marry their children in their own country or to new comers of their own caste. In order to succeed in this they must retain their old customs and way of living. If they neglect to do so they are looked on as degraded, and no one will marry their daughters. The castes that take most readily to permanent residence in Bengal are those at the bottom of the social scale, the sweeper castes and Chamárs. Sweepers, as a rule, are imported by municipalities with their families and form a community sufficiently large to be independent and self-contained. The pay they get is good and there is no inducement for them to return to their old homes. The Chamárs have no business rivals amongst the indigenous castes of Bengal and the profit from the collection of hides is in inverse proportion to the number of persons engaged in collecting them. They have thus spread all over Bengal and small colonies are to be found in every district. The large proportion of females amongst them shows that they have come to stay.

264. I have said that the extent to which permanent settlement takes place is indicated by the proportion of women amongst the immigrants, but it must be remembered that the railways, by reducing the difficulties of locomotion, have encouraged men to take their wives with them even when they do not intend to abandon their old homes, whereas, formerly this was seldom done except when permanent settlement was intended. This can be the only explanation of the figures noted in the margin unless the general opinion that permanent migration is less frequent than it was before the era of railways is to be set aside as incorrect. The proportion of women amongst emigrants from Bihar is greatest in the metropolitan districts whither the journey is an easy one, and smallest in East Bengal which, to an upcountry man, is the least accessible part of the Province. At the same time the proportion of females from North Bihar in East Bengal is twice as great as it was ten years ago.

Birth-place.	Number of females enumerated in Bengal.			Proportion to 100 Males.		
	1881.	1891.	1901.	1881.	1891.	1901
North Bihar ...	42,141	43,386	46,806	32	24	22
South Bihar ...	39,795	48,593	61,985	40	36	38
United Provinces	*	45,424	84,078	*	30	34

* Figures not available.

265. The occupations of these emigrants have been incidentally enumerated in the previous paragraphs. The great majority are employed on work involving hard physical labour, such as earth-work and palki-bearing, or degradation, such as removing night-soil or manipulating skins. They follow numerous other occupations also, such as boating (from all the river districts, but chiefly from Ballia and Gorakhpur) trade, domestic service and service in the police or as clubmen. There are isolated settlements of up-country cultivators in Dinajpur, Pabna, and other places where waste land is plentiful, but though they are often found working as field labourers, they do not as a general rule obtain possession of land.

Castes and Occupations of Emigrants from Bihar and the United Provinces.

The high castes that come chiefly to Bengal for employment are Bráhmins and Rájputs. Up-country Káyasths and Bábhans are rarely met with. Amongst other castes the most common are perhaps the Tánti, Goála, Kurmi, Kahár, Kalwár, Bhar, Dosádh, Nunia, Bind, Chamár.* Except, in the case of the Chamár who still prefers his own line of business, in which he is hampered by no competitors, caste seems to impose very little restriction on occupation, and all sorts of employments are followed by the upcountry men who come to Bengal, including many that would be deemed degrading in the neighbourhood of their own homes. Thus Bráhmans, though occasionally returned as priests and pilgrim conductors, or as following some other respectable occupation, *e.g.*, that of clerk, are far more commonly found serving as peons or in the police, as door-keepers, cooks and even as coolies and day labourers. Many were entered as beggars and some as singers, but these doubtless were members of some wandering tribe such as the Kápuria, whose claim to Bráhmanical rank is very slender. The Tántis who come to Bengal (mostly from Monghyr) are never found working as weavers, but are almost invariably day labourers, earth-workers and palki-bearers.

* The above enumeration is of course far from exhausting even the castes commonly met with. Amongst others may be mentioned Halwái, Koiri, Kándu, Gonr, Málláh, Kewat, Pási, Dhánuk, Dhobá, Jolahá, Dhuniá and Shekh.

Rájputs follow a multiplicity of occupations, but the great majority are constables, door-keepers, jail warders, peons and the like. Some were returned as railway porters or labourers, but the number following these despised occupations is very small. The up-country Goálá or Ahir who comes to Bengal is usually a labourer, but some have shops or serve as domestic servants. Kaháŕs, Kurmis and Dosádhs are usually labourers or mill-hands, but many of the two first mentioned are in-door servants and Dosádhs are often syces. The emigrants from Orissa are mostly Bráhmans, who are nearly always cooks, Goálás, who act as bearers in European households, and also as door-keepers etc., and various castes who work in the mills and as labourers in the metropolitan districts.

COMPARISON WITH 1891.

266. Want of time prevents a full comparison of the statistics of migration at the time of the present census with the corresponding return of 1891, and a brief indication of the general results is all that can be given.* The total number of persons enumerated in districts other than that of their birth has fallen slightly (0·8 per cent.), but this is due to a decrease in migration between contiguous districts. The number of persons enumerated outside the district of birth and the districts that adjoin it is greater by 18 per cent. than it was ten years ago, while that of persons who were found in districts contiguous to that in which they were born, has fallen by 14 per cent. These results are easily explained. The diminution in the volume of migration between adjacent districts has occurred mainly in Bihar where it is attributable to the plague scare which drove away most of the people whose permanent homes were in the neighbouring districts. The same explanation is given by the Magistrate of the 24-Parganas for the smaller number of persons from the adjoining districts who were in his jurisdiction when the census was taken. There were fewer alterations in district boundaries in the decade preceding the present census than there had been in the previous ten years, and in Howrah the tendency of the people to return their birth-place as Hooghly, the revenue district, was more successfully restrained. There were also fewer religious festivals in progress on the date of the present census than in 1891 and these festivals attract people chiefly from the neighbouring districts The increase in migration to a distance is attributable in the main to the great industrial development which has taken place in the metropolitan area, to the greater demand for labour in the coal mines and tea gardens, and to the opening out of the Bárind by Santáls and other forest tribes.

* Whenever any marked divergence from the figures for 1891 was noticed, careful enquiry was made, and our figures were scrutinized anew. In Champaran, for instance, where the number of immigrants from Saran has fallen from 83,241 to 25,462 and that of those born in Muzaffarpur from 56,076 to 26,968, I caused the statistics for all the thanas contiguous to these districts to be worked out a second time direct from the schedules, the result being a very slight decrease as compared with that originally obtained by sorting the slips. The Magistrate of Champaran explains the difference between the present figures and those of 1891 by saying that the best lands which attracted immigrants had probably been taken up before 1891. But even if there had been no new immigrants the number surviving amongst those in the district in 1891 would far exceed the number now ascertained. Apparently some must have since gone back to their old homes.

SUBSIDIARY TABLES REFERRED TO IN CHAPTER III.—MIGRATION.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE No. I.—Showing the actual amount of immigration to each district.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE No. II.—Showing the actual amount of emigration from each district.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE No. III.—Showing the proportional migration to, and from, each district.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE No. IV.—Showing the migration between (1) Commissioners' Divisions, (2) Natural Divisions.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE No. V.—Showing the gain or loss by migration between Bengal and other parts of India.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE No. VI.—Showing the number of immigrants from certain foreign countries.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE No. I.—Showing the actual amount of Immigration to each District.

District and Natural Division where enumerated.	Born in.											
	District or Division.			Contiguous District in Province.			Other parts of Province.			Outside Province.		
	Total.	Male.	Female.	Total.	Male.	Female.	Total.	Male.	Female.	Total.	Male.	Female.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13
BENGAL ...	**77,578,252**	**38,708,939**	**38,869,313**	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	**915,158**	**569,247**	**345,911**
WEST BENGAL ...	**7,894,999**	**3,898,075**	**3,996,924**	**136,651**	**63,837**	**72,814**	**120,287**	**91,832**	**28,455**	**88,139**	**63,208**	**24,931**
Burdwan ...	1,374,128	680,534	693,594	108,195	49,925	58,270	33,416	22,414	11,002	16,736	11,869	4,867
Birbhum ...	841,674	417,496	424,179	51,438	21,240	30,198	7,044	4,504	2,540	2,124	1,450	674
Bankura	1,086,677	537,744	549,133	25,805	9,241	16,564	2,577	1,582	995	1,152	917	235
Midnapore ...	2,739,253	1,362,479	1,376,774	31,556	14,391	17,165	8,241	6,626	1,615	10,064	6,737	3,327
Hooghly	909,568	446,456	463,112	91,981	44,772	47,209	33,457	26,716	6,741	14,276	10,335	3,941
Howrah	705,894	340,864	365,030	49,461	25,719	23,742	51,372	41,022	10,350	43,787	31,900	11,887
CENTRAL BENGAL	**6,978,939**	**3,510,497**	**3,468,442**	**240,178**	**143,112**	**97,066**	**320,473**	**248,099**	**72,374**	**200,395**	**148,684**	**51,711**
24-Parganas ...	1,852,992	937,963	915,029	66,290	40,134	26,156	106,658	78,415	28,243	52,419	36,404	16,015
Calcutta	290,657	160,994	129,663	95,434	55,110	40,324	327,907	295,389	32,518	133,796	101,103	32,693
Nadia	1,608,481	797,283	811,198	44,233	19,556	24,678	9,723	6,611	3,112	5,054	4,060	994
Murshidabad ...	1,262,088	617,498	644,590	50,881	21,549	29,332	13,325	9,104	4,221	6,890	5,195	1,695
Jessore	1,766,119	889,540	876,579	38,799	18,419	20,380	6,003	4,144	1,859	2,234	1,922	312
NORTH BENGAL	**9,291,291**	**4,713,942**	**4,577,349**	**251,482**	**145,594**	**105,888**	**268,393**	**183,542**	**84,851**	**194,011**	**120,136**	**73,875**
Rajshahi	1,383,228	694,875	688,353	46,649	25,460	21,189	26,465	16,612	9,853	6,065	4,743	1,322
Dinajpur	1,435,077	743,153	691,924	27,220	13,901	13,319	95,114	60,243	34,871	8,669	6,645	3,024
Jalpaiguri ...	599,157	317,963	281,194	48,210	24,354	23,856	113,908	65,272	48,636	26,105	15,288	10,817
Darjeeling ...	124,726	61,716	63,010	15,212	8,455	6,757	26,044	15,172	9,872	83,135	46,662	36,473
Rangpur	2,044,765	1,044,689	1,000,076	23,834	12,665	11,169	70,050	55,894	14,156	15,532	11,861	3,671
Bogra	816,636	414,991	401,645	17,282	8,424	8,858	15,062	10,202	4,860	5,553	3,732	1,821
Pabna	1,371,421	675,238	696,183	28,495	17,443	11,052	12,236	9,918	2,318	8,309	6,797	1,512
Malda	786,143	382,539	403,574	67,088	33,995	33,093	22,355	14,927	7,428	8,444	6,148	2,296
Kuch Bihar ...	522,131	273,498	248,633	21,696	9,165	12,531	14,923	12,668	2,255	8,224	6,051	2,173
Sikkim	34,010	17,455	16,552	1,909	1,017	892	120	111	9	22,975	12,209	10,766
EAST BENGAL ...	**16,706,826**	**8,407,513**	**8,299,313**	**82,421**	**51,020**	**31,401**	**67,480**	**56,028**	**11,452**	**101,360**	**69,289**	**32,071**
Khulna	1,187,326	609,773	577,553	47,717	28,655	19,062	16,304	13,445	2,859	1,696	1,597	99
Dacca	2,564,223	1,255,650	1,308,573	48,756	26,406	22,350	23,105	19,629	3,476	13,438	10,742	2,696
Mymensingh ...	3,800,058	1,932,045	1,868,013	41,371	26,582	14,789	25,755	22,584	3,171	47,884	33,594	14,290
Faridpur	1,864,163	923,491	940,672	56,415	33,377	23,038	11,957	9,302	2,595	5,081	3,904	1,177
Backergunge ...	2,231,787	1,124,818	1,106,969	35,321	29,392	5,929	22,768	20,057	2,711	1,896	1,636	260
Tippera	2,061,239	1,048,894	1,012,345	38,115	23,974	14,141	7,701	6,764	937	10,936	6,357	4,579
Noakhali ...	1,122,385	568,092	554,293	11,479	5,691	5,788	7,486	4,780	2,706	378	304	74
Chittagong ...	1,341,911	634,365	707,546	2,638	1,615	1,023	6,406	3,903	2,502	2,296	1,511	785
Do. Hill Tracts ...	117,898	61,901	55,997	6,204	3,824	380	471	372	99	189	141	48
Hill Tippera ...	129,431	67,667	61,764	23,701	13,535	10,166	2,627	1,790	837	17,566	9,503	8,063
NORTH BIHAR ...	**13,552,644**	**6,567,070**	**6,985,574**	**128,596**	**59,419**	**69,177**	**15,886**	**9,880**	**6,006**	**133,994**	**65,534**	**68,460**
Saran	2,353,085	1,076,836	1,276,249	21,742	5,874	15,868	1,809	944	865	32,873	11,634	21,239
Champaran ...	1,683,682	839,560	853,122	52,420	25,765	26,655	3,526	2,333	1,193	50,835	26,940	23,895
Muzaffarpur ...	2,667,068	1,286,347	1,380,741	71,208	24,696	46,512	3,842	2,376	1,466	12,652	5,128	7,524
Darbhanga ...	2,822,031	1,383,091	1,439,030	71,253	33,288	37,965	7,221	5,047	2,174	12,106	5,138	6,968
Bhagalpur ...	1,931,415	965,522	1,011,886	73,195	35,189	38,006	20,500	14,436	6,064	13,843	8,351	5,492
Purnea	1,766,789	889,420	877,369	51,109	29,023	22,086	45,211	31,705	13,506	11,685	8,304	3,381
SOUTH BIHAR ...	**7,555,609**	**3,693,538**	**3,862,071**	**89,273**	**36,592**	**52,681**	**8,402**	**5,150**	**3,252**	**63,134**	**28,698**	**34,436**
Patna	1,542,545	772,321	770,224	71,262	24,981	46,281	2,794	1,615	1,179	8,384	5,066	2,718
Gaya	2,013,819	992,398	1,021,421	38,691	13,789	25,102	3,064	2,159	905	4,139	2,927	1,212
Shahabad ...	1,878,783	909,667	969,116	36,815	9,930	26,885	3,560	1,975	1,585	43,538	14,972	28,566
Monghyr ...	1,962,735	974,056	1,008,679	69,561	29,529	43,041	8,435	5,871	3,564	7,073	5,133	1,940
ORISSA	**4,081,654**	**1,989,932**	**2,091,722**	**26,552**	**6,842**	**19,710**	**13,116**	**4,972**	**8,144**	**29,917**	**18,045**	**11,872**
Cuttack	2,029,814	983,803	1,046,011	22,664	5,482	17,182	2,119	1,323	796	8,161	4,801	3,360
Balasore	1,041,730	504,308	537,422	24,375	9,699	14,676	1,765	1,228	537	3,327	2,308	1,019
Puri	964,251	485,920	478,331	23,837	6,653	17,184	10,767	3,330	7,437	18,429	10,936	4,703
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU ...	**9,492,627**	**4,694,194**	**4,798,433**	**158,749**	**82,057**	**76,692**	**93,734**	**46,402**	**49,332**	**104,208**	**55,653**	**481,555**
Hazaribagh ...	1,136,078	559,653	585,425	35,348	15,360	19,988	3,596	2,256	1,340	2,939	1,853	1085
Ranchi	1,155,869	569,150	586,719	18,720	8,184	10,536	10,824	7,051	3,773	2,512	1,925	587
Palamau ...	580,762	286,304	294,458	31,386	15,396	15,990	1,252	1,025	227	6,200	3,478	2,722
Manbhum ...	1,239,245	615,945	623,300	42,162	22,494	19,668	13,586	10,131	3,455	6,371	4,766	1,605
Singhbhum ...	576,999	283,889	293,110	25,193	11,892	13,301	8,569	5,039	3,530	2,818	1,695	1,123
Sonthal Parganas ...	1,698,212	843,182	855,030	82,631	36,553	46,078	19,510	11,396	8,114	9,384	5,242	4,142
Angul	170,379	86,572	83,807	12,755	4,995	7,758	2,323	1,927	396	6,456	2,441	4,015
Chota Nagpur Tributary States ...	896,753	452,414	444,339	58,769	28,838	29,931	6,789	4,812	1,977	39,118	20,695	18,422
Orissa Do. ...	1,895,410	993,673	901,737	104,570	47,411	57,159	9,412	5,231	4,181	28,410	13,658	14,752

In Jalpaiguri, Columns 11 to 13 include 60 persons (47 males and 13 females) born in Goalpara in Assam.
In Rangpur, Columns 11 to 13 include 872 persons (443 males and 429 females) born in Goalpara in Assam.
In Mymensing, Columns 11 to 13 include 9,040 persons (5,130 males and 3,910 females) born in Sylhet in Assam.
In Saran, Columns 11 to 13 include 24,936 persons (7,622 males and 17,414 females) born in Gorakhpur, 584 persons (407 males and 177 females) born in Azamgarh, and 302 persons (187 males and 115 females) in Ghazipur, in the United Provinces of Agra and Oudh.
In Champaran, Columns 11 to 13 include 21,407 persons (11,209 males and 10,198 females) born in Gorakhpur.
In Patna, Columns 11 to 13 include 513 persons (370 males and 143 females) born in Ballia.
In Shahabad, Columns 11 to 13 include 13,816 persons (3,481 males and 10,335 females) born in Ballia, 15,340 persons (4,360 males and 10,980 females) in Ghazipur, 2,994 persons (1,801 males and 3,112 females) in Benares. and 3,677 persons (1,473 males and 2,204 females) in Mirzapur.
In Puri, Columns 11 to 13 include 4,705 persons (2,075 males and 2,630 females) born in Ganjam in Madras.
In Palamau, Columns 11 to 13 include 2,204 persons (1,279 males and 925 females) born in Sambalpur in the Central Provinces.
In the Chota Nagpur Tributary States, Columns 11 to 13 include 8,278 persons (3,902 males and 4,376 females) born in Ganjam in Madras ; 8,654 persons (3,946 males and 4,708 females) in Sonpur, 200 persons (103 males and 106 females) in Riarakhal, 270 persons (129 males and 91 females) in Bamra, 576 persons (389 males and 487 females) in Patna in the Central Provinces.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE No. II.—Showing the actual amount of Emigration from each district.

District and Natural Division. Born in—	Enumerated in— District or Division.			Contiguous District in Province.			Other parts of Province.			Outside Province.		
	Total.	Male.	Female.	Total.	Male.	Female.	Total.	Male.	Female.	Total.	Male.	Female.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13
BENGAL ...	**77,578,259**	**38,708,939**	**38,869,313**	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	**879,583**	**504,965**	**374,618**
WEST BENGAL ...	**7,894,999**	**3,898,075**	**3,996,924**	**139,616**	**70,349**	**69,267**	**135,983**	**86,887**	**49,096**	**55,571**	**27,266**	**28,305**
Burdwan ...	1,374,128	680,534	693,594	52,055	26,497	25,558	33,961	19,617	14,334	8,398	3,413	4,985
Birbhum ...	841,674	417,495	424,179	33,392	12,463	20,929	6,424	4,509	3,915	5,655	3,914	1,741
Bankura ...	1,086,877	537,744	549,133	107,226	54,198	53,028	17,180	10,091	7,089	22,112	10,380	11,732
Midnapore ...	2,739,253	1,362,479	1,376,774	85,348	44,571	40,777	31,403	19,115	12,288	17,494	8,443	9,051
Hooghly	909,568	446,456	463,112	111,718	64,027	47,691	9,456	5,339	4,107	1,687	934	753
Howrah	705,894	340,884	365,010	21,117	13,087	7,430	1,954	1,015	939	325	184	143
CENTRAL BENGAL	**6,978,939**	**3,510,497**	**3,468,442**	**164,552**	**88,096**	**76,456**	**55,473**	**33,251**	**22,222**	**10,220**	**5,777**	**4,443**
24-Parganas ...	1,852,992	937,963	915,029	28,017	11,371	14,646	90,196	49,977	40,219	2,747	1,669	1,078
Calcutta	290,657	160,994	129,663	17,176	8,517	8,659	16,066	8,023	8,043	3,078	1,382	1,696
Nadia	1,608,481	797,253	811,188	86,177	45,617	40,560	34,978	23,948	11,030	2,582	1,595	987
Murshidabad ...	1,262,086	617,498	644,590	64,680	30,183	34,497	13,262	7,912	5,350	754	374	380
Jessore	1,766,119	889,540	876,579	61,744	28,035	33,709	18,331	14,983	3,348	1,059	757	302
NORTH BENGAL	**9,991,991**	**4,713,942**	**4,577,349**	**51,874**	**28,257**	**23,617**	**10,144**	**7,104**	**3,040**	**23,628**	**13,694**	**9,934**
Rajshahi ...	1,383,228	694,875	688,353	19,610	9,694	9,916	3,493	2,022	1,471	509	225	284
Dinajpur ...	1,435,077	743,183	691,894	14,583	6,784	7,799	2,218	1,416	802	392	220	172
Jalpaiguri ...	599,157	317,963	281,194	16,741	7,114	9,627	345	247	98	340	194	146
Darjeeling ...	124,726	61,716	63,010	4,142	2,147	1,995	750	486	264	502	405	307
Rangpur ...	2,044,765	1,044,689	1,000,076	34,564	15,882	18,682	2,145	1,237	908	17,463	9,573	7,890
Bogra	816,636	414,991	401,645	14,783	7,575	7,208	655	377	278	318	185	133
Pabna	1,371,421	675,238	696,183	42,034	24,529	17,505	19,895	13,398	6,497	2,376	1,990	386
Malda	786,143	382,509	403,574	24,666	11,887	12,779	1,932	1,244	688	166	89	77
Kuch Bihar ...	522,131	273,493	248,638	30,781	15,764	15,017	490	374	216	1,272	723	549
Sikkim	34,010	17,488	16,552	2,106	1,004	1,102	82	42	40	.....	.....	.....
EAST BENGAL ...	**16,706,896**	**8,407,513**	**8,299,513**	**66,329**	**38,911**	**27,418**	**60,873**	**49,247**	**11,626**	**133,302**	**98,246**	**35,056**
Khulna	1,187,328	609,773	577,555	19,683	9,697	10,046	5,995	4,306	1,689	205	125	80
Dacca	2,564,223	1,255,650	1,308,573	61,212	40,859	20,353	53,874	43,472	10,402	13,401	10,511	2,890
Mymensingh ...	3,800,058	1,932,045	1,868,013	48,054	24,909	23,145	10,211	8,434	1,777	22,300	12,728	9,572
Faridpur ...	1,884,163	923,491	940,672	48,843	33,088	15,755	24,855	19,581	5,274	2,112	1,521	591
Backergunge ...	2,231,767	1,124,818	1,106,949	30,375	18,231	12,144	8,203	6,002	2,201	434	302	132
Tippera	2,061,239	1,048,894	1,012,345	40,127	22,490	17,637	2,845	2,141	704	12,557	5,736	6,821
Noakhali ...	1,122,385	558,092	564,293	27,816	20,862	6,954	5,232	4,748	484	535	529	6
Chittagong ...	1,341,911	634,363	707,548	15,414	10,933	4,481	9,181	8,359	822	81,442	66,492	14,950
Chittagong Hill Tracts ...	117,898	61,991	55,907	1,554	806	748	2	.....	2	315	301	14
Hill Tippera ...	129,431	67,667	61,764	114	54	60	37	33	4	1	1	.....
NORTH BIHAR ...	**13,552,644**	**6,567,070**	**6,985,574**	**172,737**	**94,121**	**78,616**	**187,834**	**161,703**	**26,131**	**66,214**	**35,467**	**30,747**
Saran	2,353,085	1,076,836	1,276,249	54,151	29,629	24,522	138,902	119,602	19,298	49,437	24,937	24,500
Champaran ...	1,683,882	830,560	853,322	23,122	6,496	16,626	10,447	8,518	1,929	2,508	1,428	1,080
Muzaffarpur ...	2,667,088	1,286,347	1,380,741	80,758	26,114	54,644	67,325	56,983	11,242	5,454	4,310	1,144
Darbhanga ...	2,822,031	1,383,001	1,439,030	74,488	27,603	46,885	33,198	29,118	4,080	3,628	1,742	2,104
Bhagalpur ...	1,981,415	969,529	1,011,886	93,321	46,746	46,575	27,111	17,442	9,669	3,873	2,303	1,570
Purnea	1,766,789	889,420	877,369	32,078	17,114	14,964	4,224	2,734	1,490	1,116	767	349
SOUTH BIHAR ...	**7,555,609**	**3,693,538**	**3,862,071**	**154,049**	**72,013**	**82,029**	**269,113**	**190,979**	**78,134**	**98,735**	**41,545**	**57,190**
Patna ...	1,542,545	772,321	770,224	64,485	22,767	41,718	70,365	47,175	23,190	7,468	4,040	3,428
Gaya	2,013,819	992,396	1,021,423	77,432	29,749	47,683	81,164	58,505	22,659	14,873	8,276	6,597
Shahabad ...	1,878,783	909,687	969,116	23,206	9,152	14,054	77,856	54,229	23,627	58,651	19,198	39,453
Monghyr ...	1,982,735	974,056	1,008,679	99,537	32,037	60,500	66,837	47,476	19,361	17,745	10,031	7,714
ORISSA	**4,081,654**	**1,989,932**	**2,091,722**	**163,555**	**28,637**	**34,918**	**73,166**	**67,210**	**5,956**	**14,933**	**10,046**	**4,887**
Cuttack	2,029,814	983,803	1,046,011	50,687	22,925	27,762	54,197	50,018	4,179	11,875	8,340	3,535
Balasore	1,041,730	504,308	537,422	30,682	10,953	19,729	19,174	17,166	2,008	1,910	905	1,005
Puri	964,251	485,920	478,331	24,414	7,503	16,911	3,429	3,183	246	1,148	801	347
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU ...	**9,499,627**	**4,694,194**	**4,798,433**	**178,097**	**79,814**	**98,283**	**240,975**	**137,799**	**103,176**	**320,645**	**160,440**	**160,205**
Hazaribagh ...	1,136,078	550,653	585,425	48,424	24,123	24,301	32,303	23,299	9,004	69,629	36,150	33,479
Ranchi ...	1,155,669	560,150	595,519	54,476	25,802	28,674	121,222	68,102	53,120	99,553	49,006	50,547
Palamau ...	580,762	286,304	294,458	21,204	10,397	10,807	2,079	1,170	909	8,927	3,212	5,715
Manbhum ...	1,239,245	615,945	623,300	51,624	21,378	30,246	14,564	8,318	6,246	69,784	30,219	39,565
Singhbhum ...	576,999	283,889	293,110	48,243	22,714	25,529	2,454	1,341	1,113	13,123	7,238	5,885
Santhal Parganas	1,696,212	843,182	853,030	116,923	56,663	60,260	77,842	42,864	35,038	31,243	16,427	14,816
Angul	170,379	86,572	83,807	5,133	1,702	3,431	85	65	20	1,260	527	733
Chota Nagpur Tributary States ...	696,753	422,414	444,339	8,136	4,158	3,978	2,417	1,706	711	13,800	6,739	7,061
Orissa Tributary States ...	1,805,410	903,673	901,737	43,146	14,767	28,379	1,017	606	411	13,326	5,922	7,404

Note 1.—The details in columns 11, 12 and 13 do not work up to the total, as the latter includes 10,999 persons (6,444 males and 4,655 females) enumerated in French Chandernagore and 145,336 persons (106,940 males and 39,396 females) enumerated in other Provinces (as noted below) who were returned as born in Bengal, but whose district of birth is not known, and who are, therefore, left out of account in the figures for individual districts:—

	Total.	Male.	Female.
Burma	77,736	67,290	10,446
Madras	9,069	4,970	4,717
Punjab	7,074	4,363	2,711
United Provinces of Agra and Oudh ...	26,706	13,089	13,617
Assam	6,638	4,788	1,850
Gwalior	1,157	367	790
Central India Agency	5,039	2,301	2,738
Hyderabad	290	213	77
Rajputana	884	508	376

	Total.	Male.	Female.
Cochin	52	42	10
Ajmir	385	250	135
Andamans	2,457	2,220	237
Berar	290	213	77
Bombay	5,402	3,813	1,589
Coorg	18	14	4
Baroda	916	664	252
Kashmir	198	146	52
Mysore	415	289	126

SUBSIDIARY TABLE III—Showing the proportional Migration to, and from, each District.

District and Natural Division.	Number per 10,000 of present population of district who are—						Number of females to 100 males amongst—			
	Immigrants.			Emigrants.			Immigrants.		Emigrants.	
	Total.	From contiguous districts.	From other places.	Total.	To contiguous districts.	To other places.	From contiguous districts.	From other places.	To contiguous districts.	To other places.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	1
BENGAL	*117*	*44*	*73*	*112*	*29*	*83*	*63*	*48*	*121*	*69*
WEST BENGAL	*419*	*166*	*253*	*402*	*169*	*233*	*114*	*34*	*98*	*68*
Burdwan	1,033	706	327	616	339	277	116	46	154	84
Birbhum	671	570	101	525	370	155	142	54	168	66
Bankura	264	231	33	1,312	960	352	179	49	98	88
Midnapore	178	113	65	481	306	175	119	37	91	77
Hooghly	1,331	876	455	1,170	1,064	106	105	29	74	78
Howrah	1,700	582	1,118	275	248	27	92	30	54	90
CENTRAL BENGAL	*983*	*310*	*673*	*297*	*212*	*85*	*68*	*31*	*87*	*68*
24-Parganas	1,084	319	765	572	125	447	65	38	128	80
Calcutta	6,571	1,125	5,446	428	202	226	73	33	101	104
Nadia	353	265	88	742	517	225	126	38	89	47
Murshidabad	533	382	151	590	485	105	136	41	114	69
Jessore	259	214	45	392	285	107	110	36	84	23
NORTH BENGAL	*713*	*251*	*462*	*85*	*52*	*33*	*72*	*52*	*84*	*62*
Rajshahi	541	319	222	161	134	27	83	52	102	78
Dinajpur	842	174	668	109	93	16	96	56	116	60
Jalpaiguri	2,390	612	1,778	221	212	9	98	74	135	55
Darjeeling	4,993	611	4,382	228	166	62	80	74	93	58
Rangpur	507	110	397	251	160	91	88	26	117	81
Bogra	443	202	241	184	173	11	103	48	95	73
Pabna	345	201	144	452	295	157	83	22	71	45
Malda	1,107	759	348	303	279	24	97	46	107	71
Kuch Bihar	790	382	408	574	543	31	136	23	95	77
Sikkim	4,236	323	3,913	371	357	14	87	87	109	95
EAST BENGAL	*148*	*49*	*99*	*155*	*39*	*114*	*61*	*34*	*70*	*31*
Khulna	524	381	143	207	157	50	66	19	104	40
Dacca	322	184	138	485	231	254	84	20	50	25
Mymensingh	293	105	188	205	122	83	55	31	98	53
Faridpur	379	291	88	391	252	139	69	28	47	28
Backergunge	261	154	107	170	132	38	20	13	66	37
Tippera	268	180	88	262	189	73	59	42	78	95
Noakhali	169	100	69	294	243	51	101	54	33	9
Chittagong	83	19	64	784	114	670	63	60	40	21
Chittagong Hill Tracts	550	497	53	149	124	25	6	28	92	5
Hill Tippera	2,532	1,367	1,165	8	6	2	75	79	111	13
NORTH BIHAR	*201*	*93*	*108*	*309*	*125*	*184*	*116*	*98*	*83*	*29*
Saran	234	90	144	1,018	255	791	270	175	82	31
Champaran	596	293	303	201	129	72	103	85	256	30
Muzaffarpur	318	258	60	557	293	264	188	120	209	20
Darbhanga	310	244	66	382	255	127	206	89	170	30
Bhagalpur	514	350	164	595	447	148	108	56	99	57
Purnea	576	273	303	199	171	28	76	42	87	32
SOUTH BIHAR	*208*	*116*	*92*	*676*	*200*	*476*	*143*	*111*	*114*	*58*
Patna	507	438	69	876	397	479	185	53	183	32
Gaya	224	189	35	842	376	466	182	42	160	44
Shahabad	427	187	240	814	118	696	270	176	153	86
Monghyr	416	336	80	690	481	409	102	80	155	47
ORISSA	*167*	*64*	*103*	*365*	*153*	*212*	*258*	*87*	*122*	*14*
Cuttack	159	110	49	566	245	321	313	67	121	13
Balasore	275	228	47	483	286	197	151	44	180	17
Puri	521	234	287	285	240	45	258	104	225	15
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	*364*	*161*	*203*	*750*	*181*	*569*	*93*	*95*	*123*	*88*
Hazaribagh	355	300	55	1,276	413	864	130	89	109	71
Ranchi	289	167	122	2,317	459	1,858	129	50	111	88
Palamau	626	506	120	519	342	177	104	65	105	151
Manbhum	477	324	153	1,045	396	649	87	34	141	94
Singhbhum	596	411	185	1,040	786	254	113	69	113	82
Sonthal Parganas	618	457	159	1,240	646	603	126	75	107	84
Angul	1,121	864	457	337	267	70	155	100	201	127
Chota Nagpur Tributary States.	1,045	587	458	243	81	162	104	79	95	92
Orissa Tributary States	731	537	194	295	221	74	120	100	102	120

Note.—The figures for 'Bengal' and the total of each natural division refer to migration beyond the limits of the province and of the natural division, respectively.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE No. IV.—Showing the migration between (1) Commissioners' and (2) Natural Divisions.

(1) Commissioners' Divisions.

Division in which born.		Division in which enumerated.										
		Burdwan.	Presidency.	Rajshahi.	Dacca.	Chittagong.	Patna.	Bhagalpur.	Orissa.	Chota Nagpur.	Feudatory States.	Total.
1		2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12
TOTAL	1901	345,077	777,551	621,803	209,799	61,220	242,034	271,648	88,835	134,085	349,442	3,101,494
	1891	227,352	674,800	524,228	206,345	60,433	278,774	322,140	60,455	133,661	592,254	2,880,426
Burdwan	1901	.....	192,163	5,853	2,890	1,468	3,771	18,933	11,279	29,645	10,597	276,599
	1891	.....	193,506	6,491	3,943	1,721	5,531	44,891	8,540	22,303	16,909	303,095
Presidency	1901	60,052	.....	60,761	35,346	1,219	4,157	27,361	4,658	2,006	1,131	196,491
	1891	56,298	.....	65,354	38,266	1,992	6,626	31,744	1,228	1,241	1,321	193,290
Rajshahi	1901	807	15,291	.....	24,660	245	384	16,944	735	145	24,461	77,612
	1891	1,117	21,363	.....	37,544	245	1,856	15,783	330	886	29,090	107,301
Dacca	1901	3,783	76,107	38,007	.....	36,215	689	2,001	1,138	302	3,229	161,649
	1891	2,796	87,705	39,101	.....	33,049	643	1,967	222	114	2,294	167,891
Chittagong	1901	515	9,194	846	34,049	.....	234	173	213	70	23,800	69,093
	1891	294	6,273	820	26,834	.....	103	13	264	66	19,662	53,916
Patna	1901	65,086	176,485	78,339	32,465	4,906	.....	136,070	1,341	56,431	13,866	564,979
	1891	36,114	146,113	62,999	31,414	4,415	.....	164,659	988	66,689	10,367	522,738
Bhagalpur	1901	53,545	38,248	129,254	9,547	1,417	58,116	.....	417	13,840	1,711	305,095
	1891	28,946	37,539	96,893	9,543	1,456	67,163	.....	525	19,767	963	245,715
Orissa	1901	21,449	47,698	3,543	1,642	414	158	614	.....	3,035	61,174	139,667
	1891	18,471	42,136	1,493	1,038	306	404	260	.....	4,715	71,097	139,902
Chota Nagpur	1901	51,312	19,905	116,044	892	1,418	10,893	25,078	390	.....	93,180	319,202
	1891	43,386	17,487	98,117	849	1,106	11,238	12,760	295	.....	134,079	259,047
Feudatory States.	1901	1,389	349	34,708	199	121	165	146	32,291	7,681	.....	76,959
	1891	3,024	932	62,705	493	704	2,803	16	21,140	3,007	.....	94,824
Outside Province.	1901	88,139	262,091	154,368	68,299	13,799	164,227	50,429	36,373	10,840	116,293	915,158
	1891	36,976	122,747	170,696	66,739	16,137	192,986	60,813	26,803	12,963	106,539	792,698

(2) Natural Divisions.

Division in which born.		Division in which enumerated.								
		West Bengal.	Central Bengal.	North Bengal.	East Bengal.	North Bihar.	South Bihar.	Orissa.	Chota Nagpur Plateau.	Total.
1		2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10
TOTAL	1901	345,077	761,048	713,886	251,261	278,476	160,809	69,585	358,681	2,938,821
	1891	227,352	656,691	564,595	261,124	340,698	248,661	54,509	405,795	2,759,335
West Bengal	1901	.....	191,235	7,046	5,358	3,548	2,411	11,367	54,734	275,599
	1891	.....	192,617	9,154	6,968	4,921	6,097	8,640	83,031	313,098
Central Bengal	1901	59,689	.....	74,303	61,372	4,548	2,544	4,427	12,842	220,025
	1891	55,883	.....	72,513	75,254	4,946	6,018	1,291	11,743	227,908
North Bengal	1901	1,157	20,446	.....	25,545	7,504	220	950	6,137	62,018
	1891	1,701	28,153	.....	39,243	11,048	462	411	9,044	90,062
East Bengal	1901	4,661	75,269	42,595	.....	831	944	1,553	1,349	127,202
	1891	3,435	82,048	57,486	.....	362	705	459	386	120,911
North Bihar	1901	26,136	66,013	128,731	22,707	.....	75,454	826	30,103	350,571
	1891	13,567	53,826	122,900	30,061	.....	152,988	451	16,130	390,903
South Bihar	1901	60,291	127,104	26,601	18,540	111,641	.....	920	87,888	423,135
	1891	29,413	113,108	22,911	18,229	142,901	.....	736	90,786	418,072
Orissa	1901	21,449	47,302	3,704	2,736	95	127	.....	61,418	136,721
	1891	18,471	41,757	1,695	1,736	253	264	.....	79,288	143,464
Chota Nagpur Plateau.	1901	93,575	52,483	236,895	3,553	16,315	15,596	13,955	.....	418,372
	1891	67,901	94,599	113,513	3,147	13,091	18,303	21,698	.....	262,239
Outside Province	1901	88,139	200,395	194,011	161,360	133,994	63,154	29,917	104,203	915,158
	1891	36,976	121,585	126,401	86,958	162,756	63,854	20,930	113,338	792,698

NOTE.—In this statement a correction has been made on account of the obvious inaccuracy of the birth-place return for 1891 in the Santhal Parganas. The said returns showed amongst the persons enumerated in that district 6,888 persons born in Nadia, 10,880 in Dinajpur, 10,606 in Patna, 18,298 in Gaya, and 15,145 in Saran. In lieu of these figures the following, being those of the present census, have been substituted, viz., Nadia 434, Dinajpur 67, Patna 2,639, Gaya 1,545 and Saran 1,379.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE V—Showing the gain or loss by Migration between Bengal and other Parts of India.

Province or State.	Immigrants to Bengal.			Emigrants from Bengal.			Excess of Immigration over Emigration.	
	1901.	1891.	Variation.	1901.	1891.	Variation.	1901.	1891.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9
TOTAL	*728,715*	*583,195*	*+145,520*	*879,583*	*856,357*	*+ 23,226*	*—139,817*	*—268,949*
Ajmere-Merwara	464	60	+ 404	395	979	— 584	+ 69	— 919
Assam	48,296	53,623	— 5,327	503,876	418,344	+ 85,532	— 455,580	— 364,721
Berar	89	123	— 34	290	419	— 129	— 201	— 296
Bombay and States (Sindh)	6,690	6,474	+ 221	5,402	11,218	— 5,816	+ 1,293	— 4,744
Burma	1,664	2,352	— 688	156,998	112,069	+ 44,929	— 155,334	— 109,717
Central Provinces and States	62,181	90,997	— 28,816	44,380	55,741	— 11,361	+ 17,821	+ 35,256
Coorg	5	152	— 147	18	16	+ 2	— 13	+ 136
Gwalior	...	...	...	1,157	...	+ 1,157	— 1,157	...
Madras and States	27,649	24,544	+ 3,105	9,772	10,934	— 1,162	+ 17,877	+ 13,610
U. P. and States	496,940	365,248	+ 131,692	128,991	206,026	— 77,035	+ 367,949	+ 159,222
Punjab and States	17,442	15,914	+ 1,528	7,074	7,730	— 656	+ 10,368	+ 8,184
Andamans, etc.	158	46	+ 112	2,457	2,865	— 408	— 2,299	— 2,819
Hyderabad	602	620	— 18	290	1,231	— 941	+ 312	— 551
Baroda	134	96	+ 38	916	613	+ 303	— 782	— 517
Mysore	621	165	+ 456	415	552	— 137	+ 206	— 387
Kashmir	335	123	+ 202	198	111	+ 87	+ 137	+ 12
Rajputana	40,572	16,962	+ 23,610	884	4,105	— 3,221	+ 39,688	+ 12,857
Central India	33,116	3,557	+ 19,559	5,039	18,476	— 13,437	+ 18,077	— 14,919
India (unspecified) ...	...	1,070	— 1,070	...	...	...	...	+ 1,070
French Settlements ...	1,012	109	+ 903	10,999	4,913	+ 6,086	— 9,987	+ 4,804
Portuguese Settlements ...	690	...	+ 690	...	...	...	+ 690	...
Shan States	...	...	...	...	15	— 15	...	— 15
Cochin	...	...	...	52	...	+ 52	...	...

Details of Migration between contiguous districts of Bengal and Assam.

Born in	Enumerated in	1901.	1891.	Variation.	Born in	Enumerated in	1901.	1891.	Variation.
Mymensingh ...	Garo Hills ...	2,857	1,814	+ 1,043	Garo Hills ...	Mymensingh ...	511	629	— 118
Ditto ...	Sylhet ...	15,289	12,603	+ 2,686	Sylhet ...	Ditto ...	9,040	11,133	— 2,093
Tippera ...	Do. ...	11,690	10,819	+ 871	Do. ...	Tippera ...	7,929	9,660	— 1,731
Hill Tippera ...	Do. ...	...	878	— 878	Do. ...	Hill Tippera ...	15,546	11,291	+ 4,255
Rangpur ...	Goalpara ...	15,611	22,788	— 7,177	Goalpara ...	Rangpur ...	872	728	+ 144
Kuch Bihar ...	Ditto ...	1,144	1,217	— 73	Ditto ...	Kuch Bihar ...	2,406	3,124	— 718
Jalpaiguri ...	Ditto ...	252	154	+ 98	Ditto ...	Jalpaiguri ...	60	139	— 79
Total born in Bengal but enumerated in contiguous districts of Assam		*46,843*	*50,273*	*—3,430*	Total born in Assam but enumerated in contiguous districts of Bengal.		*36,364*	*36,704*	*—340*

Details of Migration between contiguous districts of Bengal and the United Provinces.

Born in	Enumerated in	1901.	1891.	Variation.	Born in	Enumerated in	1901.	1891.	Variation.
Champaran ...	Gorakhpur ...	1,285	3,977	— 2,692	Gorakhpur ...	Champaran ...	21,407	40,662	— 19,255
Saran ...	Ditto ...	24,038	70,560	— 46,522	Ditto ...	Saran ...	24,936	7,922	+ 17,014
Do. ...	Ballia ...	11,209	13,635	— 2,426	Ballia ...	Do. ...	4,820	4,531	+ 289
Shahabad ...	Do. ...	8,747	14,906	— 6,159	Do. ...	Shahabad ...	13,816	19,530	— 5,714
Ditto ...	Ghazipur ...	15,923	21,700	— 5,777	Ghazipur ...	Ditto ...	13,340	5,115	+ 19,225
Ditto ...	Benares ...	10,221	11,598	— 1,377	Benares ...	Ditto ...	5,003	3,753	+ 1,250
Ditto ...	Mirzapur ...	7,487	6,737	+ 750	Mirzapur ...	Ditto ...	3,677	2,766	+ 911
Palamau ...	Ditto ...	2,151	8,547	— 6,396	Ditto ...	Palamau ...	2,304	1,291	+ 913
Chota Nagpur Tributary States.	Ditto ...	2	...	+ 2	Ditto ...	Chota Nagpur Tributary States.	5,666	6,595	— 929
Total born in Bengal but enumerated in contiguous districts of the United Provinces.		*81,063*	*151,660*	*—70,597*	Total born in the United Provinces but enumerated in contiguous districts of Bengal.		*96,869*	*99,165*	*+4,704*

SUBSIDIARY TABLE No. VI—Showing the variations compared with 1891 in the number of immigrants from certain foreign countries.

	Contiguous Countries.				Distant Countries.																	
	Nepal.		Afghanistan.		British Islands.						Germany.		France.		Other European Countries.		America.		Africa.		Australia.	
					1901.			1891.														
	1901.	1891.	1901.	1891.	Total.	Male.	Female.	Total.	Male.	Female.	1901.	1891.	1901.	1891.	1901.	1891.	1901.	1891.	1901.	1891.	1901.	1891.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15	16	17	18	19	20	21	22	23
BENGAL ...	**161,495**	**173,928**	**4,363**	**3,435**	**11,886**	**9,290**	**2,596**	**9,544**	**7,548**	**1,996**	**339**	**339**	**253**	**298**	**837**	**911**	**370**	**238**	**170**	**161**	**195**	**122**
WEST BENGAL ...	**70**	**48**	**573**	**303**	**1,101**	**839**	**262**	**729**	**489**	**240**	**14**	**55**	**16**	**46**	**33**	**109**	**142**	**99**	**8**	**26**	**20**	**4**
Burdwan ...	15	3	142	70	370	280	90	304	173	131	9	52	11	45	10	67	9	81	1	...	11	3
Birbhum ...	1	13	100	42	21	15	6	23	19	4	...	...	...	...	2	1	1	...	...	2	...	...
Bankura ...	1	7	66	23	9	8	1	4	4	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	4	...	...	...	...	1
Midnapore ...	6	6	62	78	51	35	16	12	9	3	...	...	2	...	...	2	9	13	1	10	...	...
Hooghly ...	4	5	121	65	118	95	23	69	57	12	...	...	...	...	2	4	1	...	2	...	...	...
Howrah ...	45	14	82	27	532	406	126	310	220	90	5	3	3	1	19	35	18	5	4	14	9	...
CENTRAL BENGAL	**181**	**675**	**1,182**	**585**	**7,805**	**6,317**	**1,488**	**6,115**	**4,915**	**1,200**	**172**	**244**	**181**	**227**	**608**	**619**	**197**	**186**	**109**	**69**	**92**	**79**
24-Parganas ...	10	5	156	68	1,921	1,729	192	1,696	1,532	164	3	60	3	...	15	1	26	...	13	2	7	...
Calcutta ...	163	656	323	276	5,796	4,534	1,262	4,325	3,320	1,005	168	173	176	224	561	601	170	180	93	49	85	77
Nadia ...	...	4	370	33	46	27	19	49	34	15	1	...	...	...	21	10	1	...	...	2	...	1
Murshidabad ...	7	5	158	125	34	21	13	23	14	9	...	...	2	3	3	3	...	...	4	16	...	...
Jessore ...	1	5	279	83	8	6	2	22	15	7	...	2	...	...	8	4	...	...	...	...	...	1
NORTH BENGAL	**118,420**	**108,787**	**1,049**	**890**	**591**	**349**	**242**	**793**	**610**	**183**	**31**	**4**	**7**	**1**	**42**	**19**	**29**	**2**	**4**	**2**	**15**	**5**
Rajshahi ...	8	...	169	31	17	10	7	22	14	8	...	...	1	...	2	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Dinajpur ...	32	51	121	31	10	7	3	9	5	4	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Jalpaiguri ...	18,649	20,543	223	253	184	136	28	128	107	21	27	1	6	...	1	...	1	...	1	...	...	...
Darjeeling ...	76,301	88,021	33	435	286	113	173	524	401	123	1	...	...	...	25	5	26	1	1	...	19	...
Rangpur ...	219	43	269	1	59	40	19	32	22	10	...	...	...	...	5	7	1	...	2	...	1	...
Bogra ...	125	5	65	43	1	1	...	6	4	1	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Pabna ...	7	10	111	57	32	23	9	40	32	8	1	...	...	1	1	7	1	1	...	...	3	3
Malda ...	12	1	41	5	2	2	...	9	3	6	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	2	...	...
Kuch Bihar ...	347	113	16	34	20	17	3	24	22	2	3	3	...	...	...	...	1	...	...	...	1	...
Sikkim ...	22,720	...	1	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	4	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
EAST BENGAL ...	**204**	**790**	**699**	**304**	**270**	**190**	**80**	**239**	**170**	**69**	**14**	**...**	**18**	**5**	**38**	**9**	**5**	**4**	**4**	**1**	**22**	**15**
Khulna ...	7	1	156	49	14	9	5	5	4	1	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	1	...
Dacca ...	3	209	76	59	75	52	23	70	49	21	8	...	11	...	23	4	...	1	1	...	1	...
Mymensingh ...	54	75	218	112	11	10	1	15	5	10	...	...	...	...	1	...	...	...	1	...	6	2
Faridpur ...	1	11	113	30	27	19	8	67	55	12	...	...	...	3	3	...	...	1	...	...	2	6
Backergunge ...	2	3	42	12	24	15	9	22	16	6	1	...	1	...	3	2	...	1	...	...	...	2
Tippera ...	5	2	85	25	17	12	5	12	9	3	...	...	...	1	1	1	1	...	...	1	8	2
Noakhali ...	...	...	3	4	3	2	1	4	3	1	...	...	2	...	2	2	...	...	...	...	...	1
Chittagong ...	14	4	23	13	98	70	28	31	25	6	5	...	4	...	5	...	4	...	2	...	5	...
Ditto Hill Tracts ...	70	317	...	...	...	...	...	4	4	...	...	...	...	...	1	...	...	...	1	...	...	...
Hill Tippera ...	48	168	3	...	1	1	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	1	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
NORTH BIHAR ...	**42,145**	**62,409**	**356**	**253**	**418**	**273**	**154**	**376**	**263**	**113**	**23**	**1**	**9**	**8**	**26**	**4**	**25**	**5**	**4**	**21**	**17**	**11**
Saran ...	9	4	11	...	82	57	25	88	60	28	2	...	1	...	1	...	11	2	2	8	...	...
Champaran ...	19,540	34,626	48	41	78	42	36	50	33	17	8	...	1	...	13	...	8	...	...	1	1	1
Muzaffarpur ...	9,133	10,345	36	42	131	85	46	103	68	35	...	...	1	...	2	...	1	3	...	...	1	2
Darbhanga ...	7,592	7,934	98	30	36	22	14	77	59	18	7	...	1	5	3	2	...	2	1	13	13	3
Bhagalpur ...	3,968	3,490	70	15	48	33	15	34	23	11	2	...	5	3	1	...	3	...	1	...	3	2
Purnea ...	1,816	6,012	93	125	43	34	9	26	20	6	4	1	...	...	7	2	2	1	...	...	1	1
SOUTH BIHAR ...	**132**	**303**	**134**	**817**	**1,268**	**1,204**	**244**	**1,219**	**1,040**	**179**	**27**	**...**	**11**	**5**	**34**	**25**	**36**	**8**	**0**	**26**	**16**	**8**
Patna ...	58	211	40	190	878	777	101	952	860	92	22	...	5	2	17	23	10	3	6	...	8	...
Gaya ...	12	25	27	90	69	28	31	18	13	5	...	...	4	...	1	...	11	3	1	18	...	...
Shahabad ...	20	33	37	389	74	50	24	65	46	19	1	...	1	...	4	...	11	...	19	8	2	...
Monghyr ...	42	34	30	29	257	167	88	184	121	63	4	...	1	3	12	3	4	2	4	...	6	6
ORISSA ...	**54**	**97**	**56**	**105**	**114**	**81**	**33**	**89**	**68**	**21**	**2**	**3**	**5**	**6**	**13**	**81**	**16**	**3**	**5**	**3**	**1**	**1**
Cuttack ...	8	71	11	35	59	40	19	55	38	17	...	...	5	1	4	11	1	...	2	1	...	...
Balasore ...	7	26	24	70	37	28	9	26	24	2	2	3	...	5	9	69	13	3	3	2	1	1
Puri ...	39	...	15	...	18	13	5	8	6	2	...	...	...	...	...	1	2	...	...	...	...	...
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU ...	**289**	**119**	**320**	**198**	**319**	**317**	**102**	**248**	**161**	**87**	**76**	**32**	**6**	**...**	**43**	**45**	**20**	**9**	**6**	**8**	**19**	**3**
Hazaribagh ...	3	3	25	47	72	49	23	103	46	57	12	...	...	...	6	...	1	3	1	7	...	...
Ranchi ...	19	55	43	12	39	19	20	48	37	11	43	31	3	...	27	39	6	...	1	...	...	3
Palamau ...	...	...	20	...	7	7	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Manbhum ...	6	6	82	79	76	59	17	14	8	6	8	1	2	...	2	...	1	3	...	...	1	...
Singhbhum ...	4	3	39	9	42	28	14	32	27	5	8	...	1	...	3	13	6	3	...	1	2	...
Santhal Parganas ...	237	47	19	...	72	47	25	50	42	8	3	...	...	...	3	2	6	...	4	...	3	...
Angul ...	...	...	8	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	1	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Chota Nagpur Tributary States ...	12	3	40	44	9	7	2	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	1	...	...	...	...	...	3	...
Orissa Tributary States ...	8	...	63	7	2	1	1	1	1	...	1	...	...	...	1	...	...	...	...	...	3	...

Chapter IV.

RELIGION.

DISTRIBUTION AND VARIATIONS SINCE 1891.

INTRODUCTORY.

267. THE imperial tables dealing with the subject of religion are Table VI, which gives the strength of all the religions returned for each district and state, and Tables XVII and XVIII which contain details of the sects, races, and ages of Christians. The following subsidiary tables, in which the most prominent features of the statistics are illustrated by means of proportional figures, will be found at the end of this chapter.

Subsidiary Table No. I.—Showing the general distribution of the population by religion.

Subsidiary Table No. II.—Showing the strength, etc., of the main religions in each district and natural division at each of the last three censuses.

Subsidiary Table No. III.—Showing the variation in the number of Christians in each district.

Subsidiary Table No. IV.—Showing the distribution of Christians by race and sect.

Subsidiary Table No. V.—Showing the distribution per 1,000 (*a*) of each race of Christians by sect, and (*b*) of each sect by race.

Subsidiary Table No. VI.—Showing the distribution of the population of towns by religion.

268. The general distribution of the people by religion is noted in the margin. It will be seen that nearly two-thirds of the population are Hindus and rather less than one-third are Muhammadans. The only other religions with more than a few thousand representatives are the Animistic, Christian and Buddhist. Apart from the great predominance of the two main religions, the most noticeable features in the figures are the relatively more rapid growth of Muhammadans as compared with Hindus, the stationary condition of the Animistic population, and the great increase in the number of Christians.

RELIGION.	NUMBER IN—	
	1901.	1891.
Hindus	49,687,362	47,821,681
Brahmos	3,171	2,546
Sikhs	340	417
Jains	7,831	7,279
Buddhists	237,893	194,717
Parsis	389	179
Musalmans	25,495,416	23,658,108
Christians	278,360	192,484
Jews	1,946	1,448
Animists	2,786,460	2,753,061
Confucians	178	.....
Others	50	32
Total	78,493,410	74,631,943*

* Excludes 11,307 entered as "not returned."

The distribution of the above religions varies greatly in different parts of the Province, and for this reason, and also in order to ascertain the causes of the changes which have taken place, it is necessary to examine the statistics for individual districts. In this section the discussion will be mainly statistical, and all subjects of a more general nature, which cannot be compressed within fairly narrow limits, will be dealt with in the following separate sections, viz., Sects and Races of Christians, the Muhammadans of Bengal, Hindu sects and Godlings and Traces of Buddhism.

ANIMISTS.

269. It will be convenient to begin with the Animists. Animism is defined by Tiele as "the belief in the existence of souls or spirits, of which only the powerful, those on which man feels himself dependent, and before which he stands in awe, acquire the rank of divine beings, and become objects of worship. These spirits are conceived as moving freely through earth and air, and either of their own accord, or because conjured by some spell, and thus under compulsion, appear to men (*Spiritism*). But they may also take up their abode, either temporarily or permanently, in some object, whether living or lifeless, it matters not; and this object, as endowed with higher power, is then worshipped, or employed to protect individuals and communities (*Fetichism*)."*

* Outline of the History of Ancient Religions, page 9.

The term embraces the various forms of belief of all the aboriginal tribes of India who have not yet come under the influence of Hinduism (including its off-shoots Buddhism and Jainism), Muhammadanism or Christianity. There is no regular creed amongst these vague, unformulated beliefs, but there is none the less a considerable general inter-resemblance. The following extract from my report on the Assam Census of 1891 seems to me to set forth the salient features of the forms of Animism generally met with in this part of India:—

"There is a vague but very general belief in some one omnipotent being, who is well-disposed towards men, and whom, therefore, it is unnecessary to propitiate. Then come a number of evil spirits, who are ill-disposed towards human beings, and to whose malevolent influence are ascribed all the woes which afflict mankind. To them, therefore, sacrifices must be offered. These malevolent spirits are sylvan deities, spirits of the trees, the rocks, and the streams, and sometimes also of the tribal ancestors. There is no regular priesthood, but some persons are supposed to be better endowed with the powers of divination than others. When a calamity occurs, one of these diviners, *shámans* or sooth-sayers, is called on to ascertain the particular demon who is offended and who requires to be pacified by a sacrifice. This is done, either by devil-dancing, when the diviner works himself into a paroxysm of drunkenness and excitement, and then holds converse with the unseen spirits around him, or by the examination of omens—eggs, grains of rice, or the entrails of a fowl. There is a profound belief in omens of all sorts; no journey is undertaken unless it is ascertained that the fates are propitious, while persons who have started on a journey will turn back should adverse omens be met with on the way."

270. The difficulty in obtaining a correct return of the number of Animists is two-fold. In the first place they themselves have no name for their religion, if such it can be called, and all that they can say is that they are not Hindus, Musalmans or Christians, and that they believe in the same things as the rest of their particular tribe. This difficulty was got over by directing that the name of the tribe should be repeated in the column of the schedule in which religion was recorded. The second difficulty was more serious. The dividing line between Hinduism and Animism is uncertain. Hinduism does not, like Christianity and Islam, demand of its votaries the rejection of all other religious beliefs; and it will be seen further on that amongst many of the lower castes of Hindus the real working religion derives its inspiration, not from the Vedas, but from the non-Aryan beliefs of the aborigines. Hinduism is not so much a form of religious belief as a social organisation, and a man's faith does not greatly matter so long as he recognises the supremacy of the Bráhmans and observes the restrictions of the Hindu caste system.

CONVERSIONS TO HINDUISM.

271. The way in which Hinduism is gradually attracting the non-Aryan tribes within its fold has often been discussed, and it is unnecessary to refer to the subject at any length here. It will suffice to say that at the present time two great influences are at work. The first is the contempt shown by the general body of Hindus for their aboriginal neighbours, and their refusal to have any dealings with them. They are spurned as unclean, and gradually come to share the feeling themselves and to take the superior Hindu at his own valuation. The other influence, paradoxical as it may seem, is the cajolery of certain classes of Bráhmans. Degraded members of the priestly caste wander amongst them in search of a livelihood. They commence by reading some religious book, and so gradually acquire an influence which often ends in their obtaining the position of spiritual adviser to the rude inhabitants of the village they have settled upon. In the Orissa States and the Chittagong Hill Tracts, Vaishnava Bairágis, more often than Bráhmans, act as missionaries of a debased form of Hinduism*

In this way the tendency is spreading, amongst even the wilder tribes, to call themselves Hindus. Thus in Singhbhum the Deputy Commissioner reports that some Hos "style themselves Hindus and profess to believe in the Hindu gods and goddesses. Some of them have taken to wearing the Bráhmanical thread." In parts of the Chota Nagpur States, certain Páns call themselves Dás and set up as twice-born Hindus, and in Baramba, many Kandhs and Savars, who were returned as Animists in 1891, claimed that since then they had taken to Hindu forms of worship, and were in consequence allowed to be classed as Hindus. In Mayurbhanj some Santáls have accepted the ministration

* See, for example, Tribes and Castes of Bengal, volume I, page 173.

of Vaishnava preachers and now call themselves Hindus. One of the curious features of the movement inaugurated by the Kharwárs or Santál revivalists was their leaning towards Hinduism. Occasionally, but very rarely, there is a reaction. Mr. Bompas tells me that at the present moment there is a movement of the sort in the Sonthal Parganas, where the women have broken their lac-bangles and taken once more to home-made cloth instead of the imported article.

UNCERTAINTY OF THE RETURN.

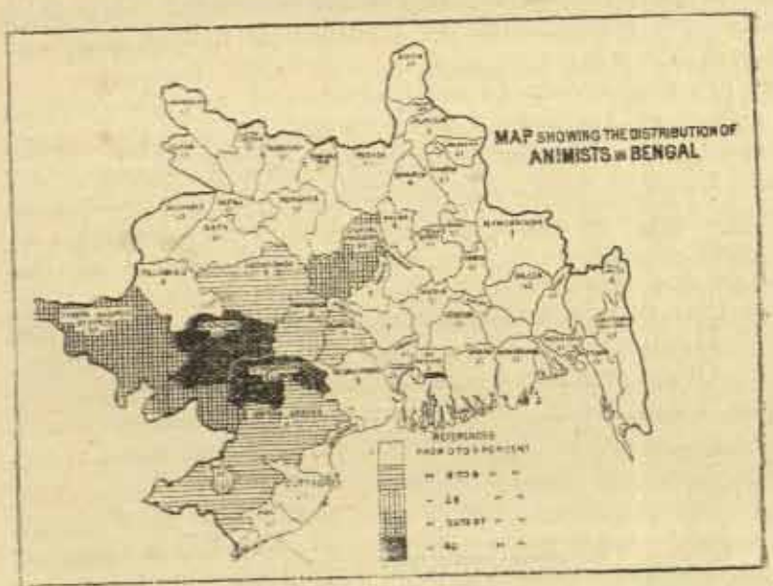
272. The instructions to the enumerators were to the effect that each person's statement as to his religion should be accepted, but in practice this was often overlooked, and the census officers took it upon themselves to decide whether a man was a Hindu or not. Many held to the fiction that a man cannot, become a Hindu unless he is born one, and many others could not reconcile themselves to enter a man as a Hindu, merely because he said he was one, when it was apparent to all that in his customs and mode of life he still preserved much that was repugnant to Hindu ideas of purity and clean living.* Thus in the Sonthal Parganas the Deputy Commissioner writes:—

"In some parts a good many Santáls have been entered as Hindu by religion. This, I am afraid, depended largely on the idiosyncracy of the Charge Superintendent."

The general tendency was to enter the various tribes as Animists in the places where they are chiefly found, and where they and their mode of life are familiar to all, and to show them as Hindus in places at a distance from their tribal head-quarters, where they are not so well known. Thus, in the Sonthal Parganas, barely one-tenth of the Santáls were shown as Hindus, while in Malda two-thirds of them were thus recorded and in Dinajpur rather more than a quarter. More than 99 per cent. of the Oráons in Ranchi were entered as Animists, but barely one per cent. in Jalpaiguri.†

DISTRIBUTION OF ANIMISTS.

273. According to the returns, the Animists are most numerous in Ranchi and Singhbhum, where nearly half the population was returned under this head. In the Sonthal Parganas and the Chota Nagpur States more than one-third of the inhabitants are Animistic and in Angul more than a fifth. In all the other tracts of the Chota Nagpur Plateau the proportion is 8 per cent., except in Palamau, where it is only 4 per cent. In the rest of the Province the proportion of Animists, according to the census figures, is generally only nominal; they are nowhere very numerous, but the real proportion is higher than that indicated by the census, owing to the tendency of census officers, above alluded to, to enter them as Hindus in places where they are not well known. Thus, in Jalpaiguri, where only 2 per cent. of the population has been thus returned, the Mundas, Oráons, and Santáls would alone represent 8 per cent. of the district population, had they been distributed between Animism and Hinduism in the proportion which is found to exist in the districts whence they chiefly come.



* In one of the reports on the working of the census a strong protest was lodged against the rule above referred to, and it was urged that the census staff should be allowed to decide if a man were a Hindu or not. It was said—"A Ho or a Santál can never become a Hindu, just as a Hindu cannot become a Ho or Santál, and by recognising the former as Hindus, just because they may choose to say they are, the returns are rendered incorrect."

† This accounts for the sex discrepancy in the case of Hindu and Animistic Oráons taken separately. Amongst emigrants, males greatly predominated, and almost all were shown as Hindus, while their wives and sisters who remained at home were entered as Animists.

274. The practical concentration of the Animistic religions on the barren uplands of Chota Nagpur is due to the comparative inaccessibility and poverty of this tract. Successive streams of immigrants from the North-West poured down the course of the Ganges and spread over the level country on both sides of that great river, but the hilly tract beyond was left untouched. The original inhabitants of the hills and of the plains were doubtless closely allied, but while those of the hills were left to their own devices, their congeners in the plains were either subjugated, like the Musahars, or peaceably converted to Hinduism, like the Rájbansis, or driven back into the hills, like the Oráons and the main body of the Bhuiyás. It will be seen in the Chapter on Language how the Aryan dialects have supplanted the non-Aryan throughout the plains districts and are now slowly ousting them from their last strongholds in the hills, and the subversion of the earlier creeds has proceeded *pari passu* with the disappearance of the tribal languages. The only noticeable difference between the distribution of Animists and that of the non-Aryan languages, as shown in the map on page 314, is that the latter are found not only in the Chota Nagpur Plateau but also in the north-east and south-east of the Province, where they are mostly spoken, not by Hindus, but by Buddhists, who will be treated of in a subsequent paragraph.

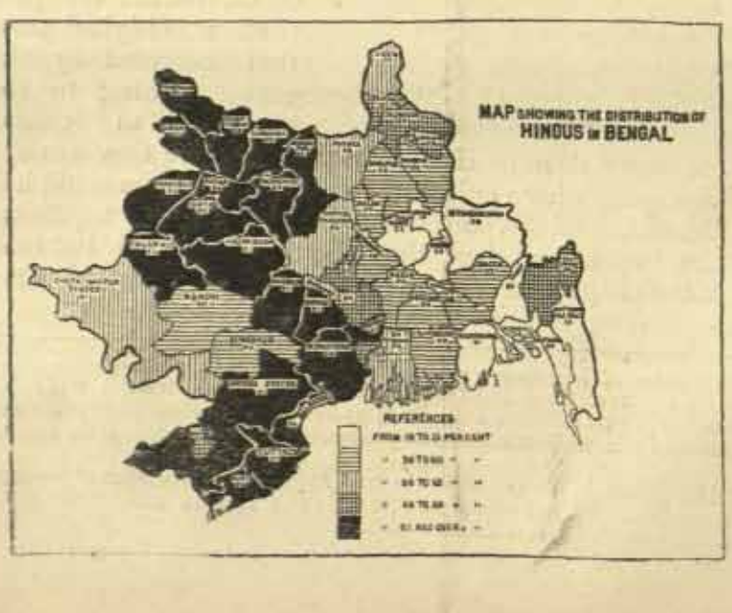
VARIATION SINCE 1891.

275 A comparison of the figures for individual districts discloses some curious variations between the results of successive censuses, especially in the case of Singhbhum in 1881 and Angul in 1891. These marked differences are explained by the difficulties attending a correct differentiation between Hindus and Animists and by the personal equation of the census staff. They show clearly that much reliance cannot be placed on the figures for any particular tract, but when this large Province is being dealt with as a whole, it may perhaps be assumed that individual peculiarities of treatment tend to cancel each other, and to leave the total for the Province practically unaffected. At the present enumeration, for example, the Animistic population has gained by a more correct classification of religions in Angul and has lost by the indiscriminate entry as Hindus of the aboriginal emigrants to Jalpaiguri, Malda, and other districts. We may assume that on the whole, the classification of Animists is neither more nor less accurate than at the previous census.

The aboriginal tribes are well known to be prolific and yet the persons whose creeds have been classed as Animistic have increased by only 1 per cent. since 1891. This is due, partly to a very large amount of emigration of persons belonging to the aboriginal tribes to Assam tea-gardens, and partly to numerous conversions to Hinduism and Christianity. The leaning of these rude tribes to Hinduism has already been discussed. The methods and success of the Christian propaganda will be dealt with further on.

DISTRIBUTION OF HINDUS.

276. We have seen that nearly two-thirds of the whole population are Hindus. They are most numerous in Bihar and Orissa and in a string of districts along the eastern edge of the Chota Nagpur Plateau and the western fringe of Bengal which link these two tracts together. Their predominance is disputed in the Chota Nagpur Plateau by the Animistic forms of belief already described, and in Bengal Proper by the followers of the Prophet. The proportion of Hindus steadily diminishes towards the east, until in Bogra it falls to 18 per cent. In Pabna, Rajshahi, Mymensingh, Noakhali and Chittagong, only about a quarter of the



inhabitants are Hindus, whereas in Bihar, if we exclude Purnea, where Bihar and Bengal meet, at least eight-ninths of the population acknowledge the supremacy of the Bráhmans. In Purnea, west of the Mahánandá, two-thirds of the inhabitants are Hindus while to the east of it two-thirds are Muhammadans. In the north-east and south-east the rivals of the Hindus are neither Muhammadans nor Animists, but Buddhists. The greatest stronghold of Hinduism in this Province is Orissa, where more than 97 per cent. of the population profess this religion.

VARIATIONS SINCE 1891.

277. In the Province, as a whole, the Hindus have increased by nearly 4 per cent. during the decade. The improvement is greatest in the Chota Nagpur Plateau, where they are more numerous by 10 per cent. than they were in 1891. In West and East Bengal and in Orissa the increment is about 7 per cent., and it exceeds 5 per cent. in Central and North Bengal. In North Bihar the Hindu population is stationary, while in South Bihar it has fallen by about $3\frac{1}{2}$ per cent.

The changes in the strength of any religion depend on three causes, viz., the reproductive power of its adherents, migration, and conversion. As an instance of migration we may refer to the movement of natives of Bihar and the United Provinces to Central Bengal, while as regards conversion, we have already seen how the non-Aryan tribes are gradually being enveloped in the folds of Hinduism. There is also a tendency on the part of this religion to grow at the expense of the small Buddhist population still surviving on the north-east and south-east outskirts of the Province. Thanks to the energy of its missionaries, Buddhism gained a much wider range than Hinduism has yet attained, and although it has gradually been supplanted by the latter in India Proper, it is still the religion of many on the borders of this Province. But even here it is gradually being pushed back. In Nepal the Hindu religion, backed up by the ruling dynasty, is steadily gaining ground. In the Chittagong Hill Tracts the contest is more even, but here too the victory will probably rest ultimately with the Bráhmans. The following extract from Mr. Risley's account of the Chákmás is interesting as throwing light on the manner in which Hinduism is still attacking the retreating outposts of its ancient rival:—

"The Chakmás profess to be Buddhists, but during the last generation or so their practice in matters of religion has been noticeably coloured by contact with the gross Hinduism of Eastern Bengal. This tendency was encouraged by the example of Rájá Dharm Baksh Khán and his wife Kálindi Ráni, who observed the Hindu festivals, consulted Hindu astrologers, kept a Chittagong Bráhman to supervise the daily worship of the goddess Káli, and persuaded themselves that they were lineal representatives of the Kshatriya caste. Some years ago, however, a celebrated Phoongyee came over from Arakan, after the Rájá's death, to strengthen the cause of Buddhism and to take the Ráni to task for her leanings towards idolatry. His efforts are said to have met with some success, and the Ráni is believed to have formally proclaimed her adhesion to Buddhism."

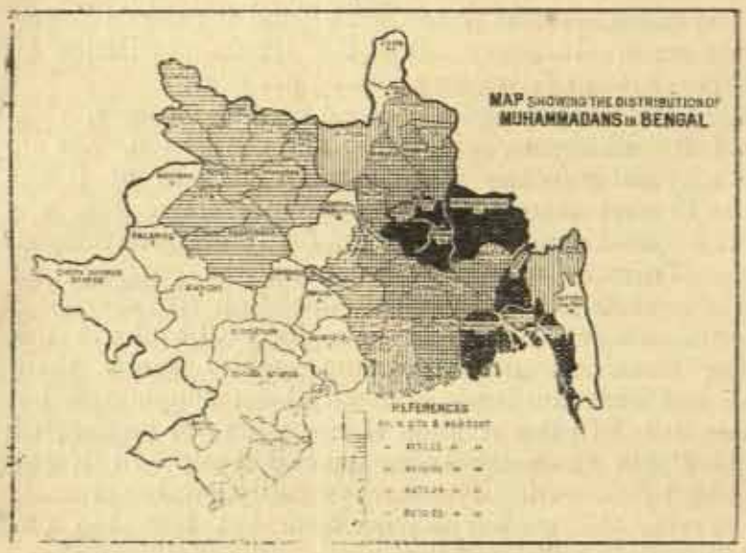
278. It would be interesting if we could form an idea of the extent to which Hinduism has gained during the decade by causes other than natural growth, but the subject is too complicated to enable even an approximate estimate to be arrived at. We know that there are about 130,000 more immigrants from the United Provinces than there were ten years ago, and it is probable that the majority of these are Hindus. The Animistic population of Bengal shows a growth of only 1 per cent., whereas, in the absence of emigration to Assam, and conversion to other religions within the Province, it would probably have grown by at least 12 per cent. The difference between this and the actual growth, or about 313,000, is due to emigration to Assam and conversions to Hinduism and Christianity. The latter religion has taken about 60,000, which leaves 253,000 to be accounted for by emigration and conversion to Hinduism. Unfortunately we have no means of ascertaining the proportion of the emigrants from Bengal to Assam who would have described themselves as Animists before they left their homes. We have also no means of apportioning the emigrants to Burma between Hindus and Muhammadans. It may, however, be assumed roughly that, excluding gains by conversion from amongst the Animists and Buddhists, the increase during the decade would have approximated more nearly to $3\frac{1}{2}$ than to 4 per cent.* On the other hand there

* The enumeration of Sikkim by religion has added 38,000 to the number of Hindus.

has been some loss by conversions to Muhammadanism, and it will be seen further on that the Muhammadans have grown during the decade almost twice as rapidly as have the Hindus. How far this is due to the conversion of Hindus, and how far to the greater fecundity of the Musalman population, will be discussed in paragraph 310.

DISTRIBUTION OF MUHAMMADANS.

279. Prior to the enumeration of 1872 it was thought that Muhammadans were most numerous in Bihar, but it was then clearly established that this is by no means the case, and that the Musalmans of Bihar are greatly out-numbered by those of Bengal Proper. In East Bengal, two-thirds of the inhabitants, and in North Bengal nearly three-fifths, are followers of the Prophet, while in North Bihar less than a sixth, and in South Bihar less than a tenth, of the population acknowledge his authority. The proportion of Muhammadans is smallest in Orissa, where it is less than $2\frac{1}{2}$ per cent. Of individual districts, Bogra, with 82 per cent., has the greatest proportionate Musalman population; then follow Rajshahi with 78, Noakhali with 76, Pabna with 75, and Mymensingh and Chittagong with 71 per cent.* None of these districts contain any of the places famous as the head-quarters of Muhammadan rulers. Dacca was the residence of the Nawábs for about a hundred years, but it contains a smaller proportion of Muhammadans than any of the surrounding districts, except Faridpur. Malda and Murshidábad contain the old capitals, which were the centre of Musalman rule for nearly $4\frac{1}{2}$ centuries, and yet the Muhammadans form a smaller proportion of the population than they do in the adjacent districts of Dinajpur, Rajshahi and Nadia. Bihar, Bhagalpur and Monghyr were important Muhammadan cities, but in spite of this the Muhammadans comprise barely a tenth of the population of the districts in which they lie. This distribution of the Muhammadan population is significant in connection with the source from which it springs, which will form the subject of enquiry further on.



VARIATION SINCE 1891.

280. The Muhammadans have increased by 7·7 per cent. during the last decade. The greatest expansion is in the Chota Nagpur Plateau, where it is 15·0 per cent., then follow East Bengal and Orissa with 12·3 and 11·0 per cent., respectively. In South Bihar there has been a falling off of 3·0 per cent., in sympathy with a general decline in the population of that tract. The actual increment in the number of Muhammadans is about the same as in the case of the Hindus, but the proportional growth is nearly twice as great. This is due in part to the local distribution of the two religions. The Muhammadans are most numerous in the progressive districts of East Bengal, while the districts of Bihar, which are for the most part stationary or decadent, contain the greatest number of Hindus. But this is only a partial explanation.

* The proportion of Muhammadans in some areas is obscured by great local variations within the boundaries of a district. We have already seen how, in Purnea, two-thirds of the inhabitants east of the Mahánandá are Muhammadans and less than one-third in the tract west of that river. Similarly in Rangpur about three quarters of the residents of the Gaibandha subdivision, which adjoins Bogra and Mymensingh, are Musalmans, compared with about three-fifths in the rest of the district. In the Sadar and Ranaghat subdivisions of Nadia, considerably less than half the population is Muhammadan, while in the north-east of the district the proportion rises to 70 per cent. The Narayanganj subdivision of Dacca is three-quarters Muhammadan but in the rest of the district the proportion is less than three-fifths.

The Muhammadans have grown more rapidly than the Hindus in every Natural Division except North Bengal, where the rate is the same for both religions, and Central Bengal, where the Hindus have the advantage. In both these cases the result is due entirely to migration. The immigrant population has grown very largely, and the great bulk of the new settlers are Hindus. In North Bengal, moreover, the enumeration of Sikkim by religion has added 38,000 persons to the Hindu and only 21 to the Muhammadan population. The reason why the latter should grow more rapidly than their Hindu neighbours will be discussed further on.

Natural Division.	Percentage of increase.	
	Hindus.	Musalmans.
West Bengal	+ 7·1	+ 8·5
Central ,, ...	+ 8·5	+ 4·5
North ,, ...	+ 5·3	+ 5·2
East ,, ...	+ 6·9	+ 12·3
North Bihar	+ 0·2	+ 0·5
South ,, ...	− 3·6	− 3·9
Orissa	+ 6·7	+ 11·0
Chota Nagpur Plateau ...	+ 10·1	+ 15·0

281. The Christian community comprises Europeans and other foreigners, Eurasians and native converts. The total number of Christians, who now considerably exceed a quarter of a million, has been growing rapidly during the last 30 years, and there are now three times as many as there were at the first census in 1872. The converts are most numerous in the Ranchi district, where three distinct missions are at work amongst the aboriginal Mundas and Oráons, and there are now 124,958 Christians compared with only 36,263 in 1881. Calcutta comes next with about 38,000, but this number includes about 28,000 Europeans and Eurasians, and the total strength has not grown very greatly during the last 20 years. Then follow the 24-Parganas with about 14,000, Dacca with 11,500, the Sonthal Parganas with 10,000, and Nadia and Palamau with about 8,000 each. The only other districts where the number of Christians exceeds 4,000 are Darjeeling, Faridpur and Backergunge. The distribution by race and sect and the various missions at work will be noticed in the next section.

Christians.

Year.	Number of Christians.
1872	91,063
1881	128,134
1891	192,484
1901	278,386

282. The total number of Buddhists is 237,893, compared with 194,717 at the last census. The increase is due partly to the inclusion of 20,544 Buddhists enumerated in Sikkim, where there was no return of religions in 1891: but there has also been a considerable increase in several districts, the figures for which are given in the margin. The Calcutta Buddhists are chiefly immigrant Chinamen. There is a small Buddhist colony in the Baramba State in Orissa, an interesting survival of the time when Buddhism was the predominant religion in India. The persons in question are Saráks by caste and still inter-marry freely with the so-called Saráki Tántis of the Moghalbandi, who now describe themselves as Hindus. This interesting community will be further dealt with in the chapter on Caste.

Buddhists.

District.	Number of Buddhists in—	
	1901.	1891.
Chittagong Hill Tracts	83,137	74,128
Chittagong	64,973	61,615
Darjeeling	64,044	40,320
Jalpaiguri	6,291	2,509
Backergunge	7,220	6,080
Calcutta	2,903	2,199
Hill Tippera	5,990	4,734

It is well known that at the Council of Jalandhar, held by the Scythian King Kanishka about the end of the first century of our era, a split occurred amongst the Buddhists, some following the purer doctrine preached by Buddha himself, with all the difficulties it placed in the way of attaining salvation, while others extended it to all and, by idealising Buddha and his attributes, gradually added new Buddhas and Bodhisats, who assisted in the work of salvation, and introduced numerous gods and demons as objects of worship. The former, or southern school, contemptuously called by its opponents the Hinayána, or Little Vehicle, is represented by the Buddhism of Ceylon and Burma, while the latter, or Mahâyána, is the basis of Tibetan Lámáism and also of the Buddhism of Nepal. Its gradual debasement in Tibet has been ably described by Colonel Waddell, and it was probably this form of Buddhism which prevailed in Bengal and gradually became more and more tinged with Tántrik developments and corrupt, until at last it was driven out by the Hindu revivalists.

283. The Buddhists enumerated in North Bengal are either natives of the Himalayan State of Sikkim, or immigrants from Bhotan, Tibet and Nepal.

The great majority are Tibetans, Lepchas and Murmis. In Chittagong and the Chittagong Hill Tracts, those who profess this religion are mainly Maghs* and Chákmás, but there is also a fair sprinkling of Tipárás (about 3,000) in the Hill Tracts, who described themselves at the census as Buddhists. In the Tippera State the Tipárás now call themselves Hindus; but this country was formerly a great Buddhist centre, and some sacred shrines there were visited by the Tibetan traveller Buddha Gupta Náth, who travelled in India in the 7th century.†

JAINS.

284. Jainism was formerly supposed to be a comparatively recent off-shoot of Buddhism; but modern research has shown that it is quite as ancient as the latter, and was founded independently by a Kshattriya Prince, named Vardhamána or Mahávira, who was born at Vaisali‡, near Patna, about 599 B.C. He at first became a monk of the order of Pársvanáth, but subsequently left it and founded an order of his own, one of the leading tenets of which was absolute nudity. He became known as a Jina, or spiritual conqueror, from which the term Jain is derived. His followers were most numerous in North and South Bihar, and came chiefly from the ranks of the Kshattriyas and Vaisyas. The artizan classes were but little influenced by his propaganda. He died about 527 B.C. About 200 years later a section of the Jain monks abandoned the habit of nudity, and this led to a schism, the two sects being known, respectively, as "Svetámbara" or clothed in white and "Digambara" or naked (sky-clad). The former made a collection of sacred books about 300 B.C., which is still in existence, and has of late attracted the attention of Professor Bühler and other scholars.§

285. The chief point of difference between Jainism and Buddhism is that the former rejects the doctrine of Nirvána, and believes that when the soul has been delivered from the trammels of successive existences it begins a spiritual life in some indefinable mansion of the blessed. The Jains worship the saints who have attained this spiritual life. Chief amongst these is Pársvanáth, whose order Mahávira originally entered, and who is regarded as the latter's immediate predecessor. His image is found in many Jain temples, and from him the sacred hill of Paresnáth takes its name. Buddhism, says Dr. Hœrnle, was more practical than Jainism, which was comparatively speculative and unenterprising, and having an active missionary spirit developed into popular religions in Ceylon, Burma, Tibet and other lands far beyond the borders of India.

Jainism also differed from Buddhism in that it admitted its lay adherents into communion with the order; devotional services were held for them, they were bound by vows, and rules were framed to regulate their position and conduct. They thus formed an integral part of the community. Buddhism, on the other hand, gave its lay adherents no share in the monastic organisation, and held no services for their benefit. Consequently when the Bráhmanic revival of Sankar Achárjya came, and was followed by Muhammadan persecution and the destruction of monasteries, Buddhism in India simply disappeared. Jainism, on the other hand, still survives as the religion of many of the Baniyá castes, who represent the ancient Vaisyas. Chief amongst these are Agarwáls (Digambari) and Oswáls (Svetámbari), though both castes include also

*The Magha of Chittagong consist of two classes: (*a*) descendants of Arakanese immigrants who came when Arakan was conquered by the Burmese in 1785. These are the most numerous, especially in Cox's Bazaar: and (*b*) descendants of Magh women by Bengali fathers. These are called Rájbansis or Barua Maghs.

†Tippera is mentioned by Táránáth as a place where, in his time, the Tántrik form of Buddhism was popular.

‡For a full review of recent discoveries Dr. Hœrnle's able Presidential Address to the Asiatic Society of Bengal in February 1898 may be referred to (Proceedings, February 1898). The Jains themselves have begun to interest themselves in their ancient history, and a society has been formed with the object of promoting a systematic investigation.

§Dr. Hœrnle points out that neither Buddhism nor Jainism are religions in the strict sense of the word, but are rather monastic organisations of a type very common about the period when they were founded. Their rules and observances, and their tenderness for life and aversion to meat, are largely drawn from those of similar Bráhmanic organisations, but the latter had gradually come to exclude all who were not Bráhmans, and this led to opposition, as a result of which the non-Bráhmanical orders discontinued the reading of the Vedas and were thus forced outside the pale of Bráhmanism. They did not represent a revolt against the tyranny of caste but only against the caste exclusiveness of Bráhman ascetics; caste as such was fully acknowledged by them. Lastly, the Buddhist or Jain priest only acted as the spiritual guide of his followers; for their religious and ceremonial observances Bráhman priests had always to be called in.

many who are Hindus. It may be mentioned here that this religious schism seldom operates as a bar to marriage any more than do differences which are purely sectarian. The Jains themselves do not consider that they are a separate religious community, and at the census many returned their religion as Hindu. The number of Jains shown in our returns is only 7,831 compared with 7,270 in 1891, but the true number is probably greater.

BRÁHMOS.

286. The Bráhmo Somáj, founded by Rájá Rám Mohan Roy, is too well known to need detailed description. It is divided into three sections, the *Adi* or 'original,' the *Nababidhán* or 'New Dispensation' and the *Sádháran* or 'common' Samáj, but all alike believe in the unity of the Godhead, the brotherhood of man, and direct communion with God in spirit without the intervention of any mediator. The differences which exist are ritualistic and social rather than religious. The Ádi Samáj, or oldest section, is also the most conservative. While discarding all idolatrous forms, it follows as closely as possible the rites of Hinduism, and draws its inspiration solely from the religious books of the Hindus, especially the Upanishads, and not from the Bible or Korán. It has only once allowed a non-Bráhman to officiate as its minister. Inter-caste marriages are not allowed, and a considerable agitation was raised when one of its Bráhman members recently married the daughter of the Mahárája of Kuch Bihar. In other respects the restrictions of the caste system sit lightly on the members of the Samáj, but they are particular to style themselves Hindus, and before the census of 1891 they submitted a memorial intimating their desire to be entered as Theistic Hindus and not as Bráhmos. The leader of this section is Maharshi Debendra Náth Tagore.

The Nababidhán Samáj, or Church of the New Dispensation, also known as the Bháratbarshiya Bráhmo Samáj was founded by Keshab Chandra Sen. It is more eclectic and has assimilated what it considers just not only in the Shástras, but also in the religious teachings of Christianity, Buddhism and Islam. The present leader is Babu Pratáp Chandra Mozoomdar who, like Keshab, is a Baidya by caste. Inter-caste marriages, though not greatly disapproved of, are rare.* It is not clear how members of this communion would return themselves at the census. Probably many of them would prefer to call themselves Hindus, unless their caste happened to be a humble one, in which case they might describe themselves as Bráhmos.

287. The Sádháran Bráhmo Samáj is the most advanced of these churches. It relies, like the Nababidhán, on the teachings of all religious systems, but is more uncompromising in its disapproval of ritual and set forms of worship. It rejects altogether the system of caste. It is also strongly opposed to the *parda* system, gives its women a liberal education and allows them an equal voice in all matters of church government. It freely permits inter-caste marriages not only in theory but in practice. Thus, a covenanted civilian who is a Bráhman, has married the daughter of a Káyasth; and the daughter of a well known retired civilian of the Káyasth caste is married to a civilian of the Baidya caste. There are numerous similar cases. The members of the Sádháran Bráhmo Samáj, from being a religious sect, are thus gradually becoming a separate caste, recruited from a variety of different sources, but mainly from the ranks of the Bráhmans, Baidyas and Káyasths. Other castes of similar origin are by no means unknown in Bengal, but the Bráhmos are far more select than their earlier prototypes.

This section is uncompromising in its rejection of all the essentials of what is commonly regarded as Hinduism, and most of its members doubtless described themselves as Bráhmos in the census schedules. It may, I think, be assumed that the majority of the 3,171 persons returned as Bráhmos at the census were members of the Sádháran Bráhmo Samáj. The number is small but growing. In 1891 only 2,546 persons were returned as Bráhmos, and in 1881 only 788. In spite of its numerical insignificance the community is very influential and it numbers amongst its members some of the best known men in the country. Most Indian gentlemen who have received an European education join this community, not so much perhaps on account of religious conviction as

* It is, of course, well known that the founder gave his daughter in marriage to the Mahárájá of Kuch Bihar.

because of the freedom which it allows to them from the irksome trammels of caste and from the necessity of undergoing a ceremony of purification.

CONFUCIANISM.

288. The few persons returned as Confucians are Chinamen living in Calcutta. Confucius, or Kong-fu-tse, was a sage who laid down an elaborate moral code but predicated nothing regarding God. Confucianism is the State religion of China. It has little outward ceremonial, and the study, contemplation and performance of the moral precepts of the ancients constitute the chief duties of its adherents. Many of the most ardent amongst them profess to be Agnostics, but they often render to Confucius and to their ancestors homage very little short of worship.*

Confucianism is thus not a religion in the ordinary meaning of the word, and although most Chinamen revere its founder, they generally, especially in Central and Southern China, subscribe also to the teaching either of Buddha or of Lao-tse. The latter was a contemporary of Confucius. His system, known as Tao-ism, recognises the divinity of the five planets, as representing the five elements of the earth. All the powers of nature are deified and many are symbolised by mysterious dragons. The priests of the cult deal largely in astrology and exorcism. Of the Chinese enumerated in Bengal, none returned themselves as Tao-ists, and the Confucians represent only one-thirteenth of the total number. The rest were all entered as Buddhists. There were no Confucians in the returns of the last census.

RACES AND SECTS OF CHRISTIANS.

GENERAL DISTRIBUTION BY RACE.

289. Of the total number of Christians, 27,489,† or 9·9 per cent., belong to European and allied races; 23,114, or 8·3 per cent., are Eurasians, and 227,763, or 81·8 per cent., are native converts. I have treated as Eurasians all persons who returned themselves as Anglo-Indian; but even so, it is certain that the figures for Europeans include a good many persons of mixed descent. From enquiries made after the census it was found that in one district (Dacca) 14 out of 63 persons, who had described themselves as Europeans, were in reality Eurasians. If this represents the general proportion of Eurasians who were wrongly returned as Europeans, the actual number of the latter would fall to 21,380, while that of the Eurasians would rise to 29,223.‡

According to the birth-place statistics the total number of persons enumerated in Bengal who were born in Europe, America, Africa, and Australia was only 14,070, and if an addition of 50 per cent. were made on account of persons of pure European parentage born in India, the result would agree very closely with the figure obtained by deducting 23 per cent. from the total returned at the census. There is, however, no reason for taking the number of Indian-born Europeans as 50 per cent. of those of foreign birth, and it is probable that the actual number is considerably greater. The total number of Europeans and allied races includes 5,198 children under 15 years of age; most of these must in any case have been born in India, and if so, the allowance of 50 per cent. would give only about 2,000 adult Europeans of Indian birth. However this may be, the return is clearly more accurate than that of the last census, when the Eurasians accounted for only 39 per cent. of the combined population of the two races, compared with 46 per cent. on the present occasion.

The figures for Eurasians include 2,221 Feringis, all of whom were enumerated in Dacca, Backergunge, Chittagong, and Noakhali. These claim to be the descendants of the Portuguese who infested the mouth of the Megna in

* It has been said that the real religion of the Chinese as a nation is ancestor worship. From birth to death the chief aim of every Chinaman is propitiation of the dead. Whatever may be his nominal religion, his first care is to sacrifice to the spirits of his ancestors. There was a time in the history of the Roman Catholic Missions in China when it was seriously debated whether ancestor worship should be permitted to the converts or not. It was urged in support of this strange proposal that the permission would enormously increase the number of converts, and that the Church could gradually be purged of the irregularity after it had assimilated the new material thus induced to accept its teaching.

† Includes 1,081 Armenians.

‡ It is doubtful if the general proportion of misdescription would be as high as it was in the case of Dacca. The return of Eurasian children in schools, for example, would probably be absolutely correct, and so would be that of the poorer classes of this community whose schedules were filled in, not by themselves, but by the enumerators.

the sixteenth and seventeenth centuries.* About half of the Europeans and nearly two-thirds of the Eurasians were enumerated in Calcutta.

NATIONALITY OF EUROPEANS.

290. Amongst Europeans those of British nationality greatly preponderate, and represent 91 per cent. of the total.† The number of no other nationality is large. Germans are most numerous, then French and then Austrians. About half of these non-British Europeans were enumerated in Calcutta, where they are mostly engaged in business. In the rest of the Province many of them are missionaries of the Roman Catholic and Lutheran churches, but the Greeks are usually in business and some of the French are engaged in the silk trade.

AGE AND SEX OF EUROPEANS AND EURASIANS.

No useful purpose would be served by dwelling at any length on the age statistics of Europeans and Eurasians. The principal figures are reproduced in the margin, and further details will be found in Table XVIII. It may be noted that of the European British subjects 72·4 per cent. are between the ages of 15 and 50, and that in the case of other Europeans, Eurasians and Armenians the corresponding percentage is 71·1, 54·4 and 64·7, respectively. A special return of the males of these classes, with details as to the number who are volunteers, has been prepared separately at the instance of the Military Department. Amongst Europeans the males aged 15 and over greatly outnumber the females.

RACE.	AGE.					
	0-15		15-50		50 and over.	
	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.
European British subjects	2,316	2,324	12,273	5,122	1,178	826
Other Europeans ...	182	175	1,189	497	213	113
Eurasians... ...	3,550	3,829	5,820	5,552	998	1,114
Armenians ...	109	91	440	259	128	54
Total ...	6,158	6,449	19,722	11,430	2,517	2,106

Note.—Feringhis are here excluded from the figures for Eurasians.

SECTS OF EUROPEANS AND EURASIANS.

291. More than three-fifths of the Europeans belong to the Anglican communion, and about one fifth are Roman Catholics. According to the returns the Presbyterians number less than one-tenth, but it is believed that the real number is greater and that some of those who described themselves as belonging to the Church of England were brought up as Presbyterians. Of the Eurasians, more than half are Roman Catholics and nearly two fifths belong to the Anglican communion. Less than one-tenth belong to all the other sects combined. The proportion of Roman Catholics is swollen by the inclusion of the 2,221 Feringis, of whom all but 194 belong to this persuasion.

SECTS OF NATIVE CHRISTIANS.

292. The collection of information regarding the sects of Native Christians was a matter of special difficulty, owing to the ignorance of the persons concerned and of the enumerators who recorded the particulars regarding them. Some months before the census, enquiry was made in every district as to the missions at work and the villages in which converts were found. When the required particulars had been collected, the district officers were asked to see that special instructions on the subject were given to the supervisors and enumerators concerned. The heads of the various missions were at the same time requested to instruct their converts as to how they should describe themselves. In spite of this all sorts of strange entries were found. Some of these could easily be classified, with reference to the information collected before the census regarding local names of missions, but others could only be diagnosed after enquiry in the district. As an instance I may mention "Christian Wásté."‡ Wásté seemed at first to be intended for Wesleyan, but enquiry on the spot showed that it was meant for University, and that the persons thus described were converts of the Dublin University Mission. Another difficulty was that many were merely returned

* The chapter on Caste (paragraph 696) contains a fuller description of this community.

† Armenians are here left out of account.

‡ The references to district officers with a view to local enquiry were very numerous, and were not by any means confined to the subject of sect. Doubtful caste entries were referred in great numbers, and also doubtful combinations of age and civil condition, doubtful returns of language, occupation, religion and the like. Special enquiries were also made in the case of certain infirmities returned at the census. We made as many references as we thought that the district staff would be able and willing to cope with, and in some cases the compliance with our numerous requests for information must have constituted a serious addition to the ordinary work of the district officer. But the amount of local investigation that was practical was by no means equal to the amount that was desirable.

as "Christian" or as "Protestant." Enquiries were made in as many cases as possible and the return was corrected in accordance with the replies received from the district officers. But enquiries could not always be made, and in the end about one Native Christian in every sixty had to be entered in the final tables as of sect unspecified.* It is probable that the majority of these belonged to one or other of the various Protestant sects, but the total number is so small that it does not appreciably affect the details.

So far as the returns go, about two-fifths of the Native Christians are members of the Roman Catholic Church; nearly one-third are Lutherans; rather more than a seventh belong to the Anglican communion, and nearly one-eleventh are Baptists. The other denominations combined account for only about one in every 19 Native Christians.

ROMAN CATHOLIC MISSIONS.

293. The total number of Native Roman Catholics is now about 90,000, compared with 78,000 in 1891. There has thus been an increase of 15 per cent. The great centre of Roman Catholic Missionary enterprise in this Province is the district of Ranchi, where its converts exceed 54,000 or about three-fifths of the total number in the Province. In this district and Palamau combined, there has been an increase of about 17 per cent. during the decade. The next most numerous community of Roman Catholic Native Christians is in Dacca, where the number exceeds 10,000; then comes Calcutta with 4,000, the 24-Parganas with 3,000 and Nadia and Champaran with 2,000 each. Although small in point of numbers, the Roman Catholic Mission in Champaran has an interesting history. There are two main centres, at Bettiah and Chuhri. The former was established about 1740 by Father Joseph Mary, an Italian missionary of the Capuchin Order, who was passing near Bettiah on his way to Nepal when he was summoned by Rájá Dhruva Shah of Bettiah to attend his daughter, who was dangerously ill. He succeeded in curing her, and the grateful Raja invited him to stay at Bettiah and gave him a house and about 90 acres of land. The Chuhri Mission owes its origin to some missionaries who left Italy in 1707 for Tibet. Two reached Lhassa and were followed by others. They built a mission-house and chapel; but as soon as the number of their converts began to increase, they incurred the ill-will of the Grand Lámá and were forced to leave. They then settled in Nepal (in 1713) and established missions at Khátmandu, Patan and Bhátgáon. They received grants of land from the Newár kings† and prospered considerably until 1769, when the Newár dynasty was overthrown by the Gorkhas who were instigated by their priests to exterminate the Christians. Being warned in time, the missionaries, with sixteen families of their converts, fled to Bettiah and were given a small land-grant at Chuhri. Many of the present Christians in Chuhri are the descendants of the original fugitives from Nepal and still speak their old language, but they have intermarried to a considerable extent with the Native Christians of Bettiah.

LUTHERAN MISSIONS.

294. The Lutherans have rather more than 69,000 converts compared with only 23,000 in 1891. Of the present number about 57,000 are in Ranchi, 5,000 in the Sonthal Parganas, 3,500 in Singhbhum, nearly 2,000 in Manbhum and 1,000 in the Chota Nagpur States. Elsewhere the number is small and consists probably of emigrants from the places named above. The mission in Ranchi, where most of the converts of this denomination are found, was originally known as Gossner's Mission, and was started by six German missionaries in 1846. Twenty-three years later there was an unfortunate disagreement and the Mission was split up into two sections, the one enrolling itself under the Society for the Propagation of the Gospel and the other retaining the name of Gossner's Mission. The progress made during the decade in the Ranchi District has been phenomenal. Ten years ago the number of converts was less than 19,000, and it is now three times as great. Some years ago the Mundas were greatly agitated by disputes with their landlords; their cause was espoused by the

* The persons thus classed had been entered in the schedules as "Christian." A still smaller number (1 in 312), who had been returned as "Protestant," were, under the orders of the Census Commissoner, classified as members of the Anglican communion.

† Translations of these land-grants, which were inscribed on copper plates, were published by Brian Hodgson in the J. R. A. S. for 1848.

missionaries and it is thought by some that political reasons may have artificially augmented the number of professed Christians. Unlike the Hindus, the Mundas receive apostates from Christianity back into their community, and it is said that cases of backsliding are by no means rare. We must, therefore, wait for the next census before we can pronounce how far the wonderful progress made in the past decade is genuine and permanent.

CHURCH OF ENGLAND CONVERTS.

295. Although barely half as numerous as the Lutherans, the Native Christians of the Anglican communion are much more widely diffused over the Province, and many of them are drawn from classes amongst whom the obstacles, social and otherwise, which stand in the way of an open profession of Christianity are far greater than is the case with the primitive tribes of the Chota Nagpur Plateau. Their largest community is nevertheless in Ranchi, where it represents the seceders from Gossner's Mission, and numbers about 13,000 compared with rather more than 10,000 in 1891. The difference between the progress made by this mission and that attained by the Lutherans is very marked, but it must be remembered that there are 22 Lutheran missionaries compared with only three belonging to the Church of England, and that the former have seven out-stations in different parts of the district, while the latter are congregated at the district head-quarters.

Next to Ranchi the Nadia District, with nearly 6,000, contains the largest number of Native Christians of this denomination. The Nadia mission was founded by the Church Missionary Society in 1831, fifteen years after the inception of the first mission in Burdwan. In 1838, when much relief was being given to sufferers from famine, 600 families, or about 3,000 souls, placed themselves under Christian instruction, and in the following year 900 persons were baptised at the same time. These wholesale admissions to the Church included many who were not true converts, and for many years there was much trouble in consequence. Not only did many apostatize, but great difficulty was experienced in putting down caste distinctions; and even to the present day many of the Native Christians of Nadia preserve the memory of their old social distinctions, and those from a high caste will not willingly associate or eat with others of low origin. The advent of a Roman Catholic mission in the district has not increased the capacity of the missionaries to deal with these difficulties, but in spite of them the number of professed Christians of this persuasion appears to have grown by about 19 per cent. since 1891. Amongst other important missions of the Church of England are those in the 24-Parganas, Calcutta, and the Sonthal Parganas.

BAPTISTS.

296. The Baptists, with a total strength of more than 19,000, have their head-quarters in the swamps of Backergunge and Faridpur, where they have been working amongst the Chandáls or Namasudras since 1824, and where the number of their converts now exceeds 7,000. The first Baptist Mission in this province was established in Jessore in 1802 but the number of Native Christians in this district who were returned as Baptists at the present census is only 276.* Next to Backergunge and Faridpur, Cuttack, with 2,000 Native Christians, is the most important centre of Baptist Missionary enterprise in this province. The mission there was founded in 1823.

PRESBYTERIANS.

297. The only other mission that need be mentioned is that of the Church of Scotland whose missionaries are now at work in various parts of the Darjeeling and Jalpaiguri districts. The work began in 1870, but it is only in recent years that marked progress has been made. No natives of the Darjeeling district were returned as Presbyterians in 1891, and the total number of Native Christians was only 298. At the present census the number returned as Presbyterians is 1,775, and there are also 243 Protestants unspecified, who have been added to the Anglican communion in accordance with the general scheme of classification, and 73 Native Christians whose sect was not returned. Most of these also were probably Presbyterians. If they be added the total comes to 2,091. According to the Church returns kept by the mission the number of converts

* In Khulna, which was till recently part of Jessore, there are about 1,000 Native Christians of the Baptist denomination. The Baptist Mission in Backergunge now has a rival in the Oxford Mission, which was started there in 1895 and has gained about 600 converts, chiefly in the Barisal and Gaurnadi thanas.

is considerably in excess of these figures, but the difference was brought to my notice at a very late stage when it was no longer possible to make proper enquiries into the cause of the discrepancy.*

ORIGIN OF NATIVE CHRISTIANS.

298. The classes most receptive of Christianity are those who are outside the Hindu system, or whom Hinduism regards as degraded, and it is for this reason that the missions in the Chota Nagpur Plateau have so much greater apparent success than those in the plains, while of the latter, the most flourishing are those whose work lies amongst depressed communities such as the Namasudras of Backergunge and Faridpur. Amongst the higher Hindu castes, there are serious obstacles in the way of conversion, of which family influence and the caste system are the greatest. By accepting Christianity a man at once cuts himself off from all his old associations and is regarded, even by his own family, as an outcaste. Moreover, the prospect of such an occurrence is viewed with the greatest dread, and when any one is suspected of an intention to become a Christian, the greatest possible pressure is put on him by all his relations and friends, in order to make him change his mind. The inducements to conversion in such a case must be exceptionally strong, and the catechumen's character must be one of unusual independence, before he will take the final step and allow himself to be baptised.

The influence of Christian teaching is no doubt far reaching, and there are many whose acts and opinions have been greatly modified thereby, but amongst the higher castes the number who at the present time are moved to make a public profession of their faith in Christ is very small. At one time there seemed a prospect of numerous converts being gained from the ranks of the educated Hindus, but the efforts of Keshab Chandra Sen and other eloquent Bráhmo preachers turned their thoughts and aspirations into another channel.

299. The Christian Missions, or at least those of the Protestant faith, do not recognise caste, and in most parts Native Christians were simply entered as such without any reference to their origin. But amongst converts who had never been under the caste system, *i.e.*, who belonged to tribes, not castes, there is no more objection to the retention of the old tribal name than there is to an Englishman distinguishing himself from a native of France. Amongst converts of this class, therefore, the tribe of origin was usually entered in the caste column. When this was done, the information was tabulated and the result has been noted, for the tribes concerned, in the column of remarks in Table XIII. The figures for some districts are very complete and here they fully confirm what has been said above regarding the classes who are most readily brought under the influence of Christianity. In Ranchi, for example, of 125,000 Native Christians, all but a few hundred belong to one or other of the aboriginal tribes, Oráon, Munda and Khariá. The persons returned as of Lohár origin, are doubtless recruits from the aboriginal blacksmiths, more correctly known as Kol Lohara, and the Ahirs are probably cattle-keepers of non-Aryan descent. The converts from the ranks of Hinduism are very few in number, and even these do not usually come from the higher strata of Hindu society. The figures for Singhbhum and the Chota Nagpur States, though less complete than those for Ranchi, point clearly to the same conclusion. In Mymensingh four-fifths of the Native Christians were returned as Gáros,

Caste or Tribe.	No. of persons.	Caste or Tribe.	No. of persons.
Ranchi.		***Darjeeling.***	
Oráon	60,888	Lepcha	1,333
Munda	51,505	Khambu	198
Khariá	10,307	Kámi	135
Bhuiyá	533	Murmi	133
Lohár	501	Gurung	86
Chik	198	Mangar	84
Pán	132	Limbu	77
Turi	118	Newár	67
Ahir	234	Oráon	50
Kurmi	29	Sikkim, Bhotia ...	43
Asur	23	Damai	33
Santál	16	Munda	14
Rajput	13	Gharti	12
Chamár	8	Khas	11
Unspecified	352	Sarki	9
Singhbhum.		Tibetan	9
		Yákha	6
Munda	4,174	Sharpa, Bhotia ...	4
Ho	991	Nepali	212
Oráon	198	Unspecified ...	312
Unspecified	1,335		
Chota Nagpur States.		***Mymensingh.***	
Munda	644	Gáro	989
Oráon	346	Unspecified ...	247
Unspecified	662		

NOTE.—The information for Palamau and the Santhal Parganas was too incomplete to be recorded. It may be mentioned however, that in Palamau, although "Native Christian" was the usual entry in the caste column, the language of 7,214 out of 7,897 was Oraon, so that most of the converts may be held to have been recruited from this tribe.

* The Mission returns show 2,678 Native Christians in Darjeeling, 200 in Sikkim and 366 in the Duars of Jalpaiguri.

and it is probable that of the remaining fifth, who did not state their origin, many belonged to the same race. In Darjeeling, the greatest success is met with amongst the Lepchas, who constitute nearly half the total number of Native Christians in the district. Then follow the Khambus, another non-Hindu tribe, and then the Kámis, or blacksmiths of Nepal. The last mentioned are Hindus, but their social position is a very degraded one.

As regards the inducements to conversion, Colonel Dalton writes as follows regarding the Oráons :—

"If we analyse the views of most of the Oráon converts to Christianity, we shall I think be able to discern the influence of their pagan doctrines and superstitions in the motives that first led them to become catechumens. The Supreme Being, who does not protect them from the spite of malevolent spirits, has, they are assured, the Christians under his special care. They consider that, in consequence of this guardianship, the witches and bhuts have no power over Christians ; and it is, therefore, good for them to join that body. They are taught that, for the salvation of Christians, one great sacrifice has been made, and they see that those who are baptised do not in fact reduce their live stock to propitiate the evil spirits. They grasp at this notion ; and long afterwards, when they understand it better, the mystical washing away of sin by the blood of Christ is the doctrine on which their simple minds most dwell."

THE MUHAMMADANS OF BENGAL.

ORIGIN OF THE MUHAMMADANS OF BENGAL.

300. A Muhammadan gentleman has recently published a book in which he attempts to controvert the statement made by Mr. Beverley in the Census Report for 1872 that "the existence of Muhammadans in Bengal is due, not so much to the introduction of Moghal blood into the country, as to the conversion of the former inhabitants, for whom a rigid system of caste discipline rendered Hinduism intolerable," and to prove that they are mainly of foreign extraction.* His argument may be summarised as follows:—

Bengal was under Muhammadan rule for more than five and-a-half centuries, from Bakhtyár Khilji's invasion in 1203 A.D. until the English acquired the Diwáni in 1765. The Musalman rulers attracted their co-religionists from other countries. They appointed Saiads, Moghals and Afgháns as their officers of State, and granted rent-free lands to men of learning and piety. In spite of numerous resumptions numbers of such grants are still extant, chiefly in the Rárh country, and many parganas and villages still have Persian names, showing that they once formed part of estates owned by Musalmans.† Their armies were also composed of foreigners who likewise settled in the country. Bengal was, moreover, a great asylum for Muhammadan refugees from Upper India, especially during the time of the independent kings (1338 to 1576). At the downfall of the Ghori dynasty and during the reign of Muhammad Tughlak, numerous families sought shelter in Bengal. In Akbar's reign, many religious teachers were deported to this province. Large numbers again were attracted by the wealth and fertility of the country. Those who came remained as permanent settlers, and it is from them that the present Muhammadan population is chiefly descended. The Musalmans are far more prolific than the Hindus, and it is, therefore, not surprising that their descendants should now outnumber the indigenous population.

301. It was never intended by Mr. Beverley to deny that many of the leading Muhammadan families can trace their origin to foreign sources. This is admitted by all. The Nawáb Báhádur of Murshidabad, for instance, is a Hasan-ul-Husaini Saiad, and there are in most districts several well known families of foreign descent who have preserved the purity of their blood by refraining from intermarriage with families of more dubious ancestry.‡ It is also beyond doubt that owing to the Muhammadan law of inheritance and other causes, many families of foreign origin have gradually sunk and become merged in the general mass of the population, and that the numerous soldiers of fortune

* "The Origin of the Muhammadans of Bengal" by Khondkar Fuzli Rubbee ; Messrs. Thacker, Spink & Co., Calcutta, 1895.

† Ghiyas-ud-din (1214-27) Nasir-ud-din (1426-57) and Husain Sháh (1498-1521) are specially mentioned as having encouraged the settlement of noble or pious Muhammadans.

‡ Most families of this category are either Pathán or Saiads. Very few call themselves Shekhs.

and their followers who once found a livelihood in Bengal must have left children behind them whose descendants are still alive. This, however, does not in any way account for the fact that there are more than 25 millions of Muhammadans in Bengal, or explain their local distribution. In Bihar, which first came under Muslim rule, the proportion of Muhammadans is far smaller than it is in Bengal Proper, and although in the latter tract, Muhammadans are numerous in the neighbourhood of the old capitals at Gaur, Panduah, Rajmahal and Murshidabad, near which most of the land grants are found, they are far less so than in Eastern and Northern Bengal, whither the stream of immigration must have been comparatively thin and attenuated. Even near the old capitals the Muhammadan settlers always sought the higher levels, and they would never willingly have taken up their residence in the rice swamps of Noakhali, Bogra and Backergunge. The number of old Muhammadan families is very small in East and North Bengal, and yet it is there that the Muhammadans as a class are more numerous, not only than in any other part of Bengal, but than in any other part of India. Again, the early invaders were chiefly Patháns, not Arabs, and yet the Muhammadans of Bengal who call themselves Shekh outnumber those who profess to be Patháns* in the ratio of 50 to 1. The number of Moghals in this Province is quite insignificant, but that of *soi-disant* Shekhs, is more than twenty times as great as the estimated population of Arabia.† Many of these 'Shekhs,' moreover, have only recently begun to claim this appellation. They were formerly known as Atraf in South and as Nasya in North Bengal; the latter word is still commonly used by outsiders, though the people concerned now prefer to describe themselves by a more pretentious name.

Locality.	Number of Muhammadans.	Proportion per 10,000 population.
Punjab ...	14,141,128	5,261
United Provinces ...	4,507,236	1,796
Bombay (with Sind.) ...	1,835,037	1,389
Madras ...	2,477,610	641
BENGAL ...	***25,495,416***	***5,248***
North Bihar* ...	2,321,942	1,621
South ...	744,508	905
West Bengal ...	1,084,829	1,317
Central Bengal ...	3,773,321	4,875
North Bengal ...	5,576,408	5,873
East Bengal ...	11,220,427	6,617

* Excludes Kishanganj, subdivision of Purnea which lies East of Mahánandá.

The small extent to which Muhammadans bulk in the population when their numbers are not added to from outside is shown by the fact that in Orissa, the last stronghold of the Afgháns in this Province, whither they fled after Akbar defeated them in Bengal, and where they were granted extensive jágirs, the proportion of Muhammadans to the total population is only 2½ per cent.

302. Mr. Abu A. Ghaznavi, a leading Muhammadan gentleman of Mymensingh, who has prepared an excellent account of the Muhammadans of that district, and who is a strong supporter of the theory of the foreign origin of the Muhammadans, admits that local converts bulk largely in the total. His conclusion is that "roughly speaking 20 per cent. of the present Muhammadans are lineal descendants of foreign settlers, 50 per cent. of them have an admixture of foreign blood and the remaining 30 per cent are probably descended from Hindu and other converts." In another part of his essay, Mr. Ghaznavi makes some observations which seem to point to a larger proportion of local converts than the above estimate would indicate. He says :—

"Besides the few families of unquestionable foreign extraction there are other families in considerable numbers who have an admixture of foreign blood in their veins. There are 22 distinct villages where most of their families reside."

There are more than 2¾ million Muhammadans in Mymensingh, and nearly 10,000 villages. The writer seems to be referring only to the Tangail subdivision of the district, but even so the Muhammadans residing in twenty-two villages can form but a microscopic proportion of the total Muhammadan population.

* The persons returned as Patháns and Moghals are less than 424,000 and 19,000 respectively.

The fact that the speech of the Muhammadans differs slightly from that of the Hindus is sometimes brought forward as a proof of their foreign origin, but this is really no test. All Muhammadans look on Arabic as their sacred language and they interlard their conversation with any Persian or Arabic words they can pick up from their Mullahs or from their religious books. The grammar remains Bengali and it is only some of the vocables which are changed. The better educated converts often deliberately abandon their native language. The Garpeda Bhuiyás of Balasore furnish an illustration of this. They are descended from a Bráhman and the females are still so far imbued with Hindu prejudices that they abstain from beef. But they have completely given up the use of Oriyá and now speak Hindustani even in the family circle.

† According to the Statesman's Year Book for 1901, page 1127, the population of Arabia is estimated to be 1,050,000.

Mr. Ghaznavi's essay was one of a series which I collected from all the districts in the Province. The almost unanimous conclusion of all other reporters in Eastern and Northern Bengal was that the great bulk of the Muhammadan population is there descended from local converts. Another writer from Mymensingh (also a Muhammadan) expresses the opinion that the local Muhammadans "are chiefly descendants of local converts," and in the report from Bogra it is stated that:—

"I have on many occasions seen Muhammadans whose features are identical with those of members of the Koch caste with a decided Mongolian expression."

The survival of Hindu names and Hindu superstitions is constantly dwelt on in these reports but this subject will be adverted to in more detail further on.*

303. The above reports refer to the general character of the Musalman population in most parts of East and North Bengal. There are occasional exceptions, *e.g.* in Chittagong, where there was an old Arab settlement of traders and adventurers.† Mr. Allen notices this in his Settlement Report where he says that:—

"The high cheek bones, hook noses and narrow faces of many of the inhabitants of Chittagong proclaim their Arab origin. Again the muscular, bull-necked, strong-featured and thick bearded dweller on the *chars* is a very different creature from the fleshless, featureless, hairless inhabitant of the interior of the district. These differences are racial, the former being descendants of soldiers of the Moghal armies while the latter are probably of mixed origin."

And even in places where the general appearance of the Muhammadans most closely resembles that of their Hindu neighbours, there are often cases of atavism, where the full eye, Semitic nose, high stature and strong beard show unmistakeable traces of foreign blood. It is not contended that even in Bengal Proper the ordinary Muhammadans are all of purely Indian descent, but it is certain that, of the total number, those who are wholly Indian or in which the Indian element greatly preponderates, form by far the largest proportion.

OPINION OF EARLY OBSERVERS.

304. In this connection it is important to notice the opinion of that able and close observer, Brian Hodgson. Speaking of the Koch tribe he says‡:—

"In a word Visva Singh with all the people of condition apostatised to Hinduism; the country was re-named Bihar; the people Rájbansi; so that none but the low and mean of this race could longer tolerate the very name of Koch, and most of them being refused a decent status under the Hindu régime, yet infected like their betters, with the disposition to change, very wisely adopted Islám in preference to helot Hinduism. Thus the mass of the Koch people became Muhammadans."

Buchanan Hamilton, an equally capable judge, was of the same opinion:—

"Although the followers of the Korán form the largest proportion of the inhabitants of this district (Rangpur), there is little reason to suppose that many of them are intruders. They seem in general, from their countenances, to be descendants of the original inhabitants."§ They seem in general, from their countenances, to be descendants of the original inhabitants.

The above extracts refer to the origin of the Muhammadans of North Bengal. Dr. Wise has dealt with the subject for Dacca and the neighbouring districts, and his remarks are so complete that I may perhaps be pardoned for giving a somewhat lengthy extract from them.‖

"The enthusiastic soldiers, who, in the thirteenth and fourteenth centuries, spread the faith of Islám among the timid races of Bengal, made forcible conversions by the sword, and, penetrating the dense forests of the Eastern frontier, planted the crescent in the villages of Sylhet. Tradition still preserves the names of Ádam Sháhid, Sháh Jalál Mujarrad, and Kárfármá Sáhib, as three of the most successful of these enthusiasts.

As early as A.D. 1338 a Muhammadan King ruled over the Eastern districts from Sunnárgaon, and for a century and a half that city was the provisional residence of the rulers

* It is sometimes denied that the prevalence of Hindu superstitions is a proof of the Hindu origin of the people who believe in them, and it is urged that this may equally well be due to the religious torpor amongst the Muhammadans which prevailed at the beginning of British rule. This might possibly explain the facts in places where Muhammadans are in the minority, but it could never do so where they form the bulk of the population. The two religions would doubtless affect each other to some extent, but a strong monotheistic religion like that of Islám would never give way before a tolerant, amorphous and polytheistic creed like that of the Hindus. Moreover, it is the women, who in this country are always the most conservative in religious matters, who are chiefly influenced by Hindu ideas.

† J.A.S.B., 1873, Pt. I, page 287.

‡ Essays on Indian Subjects, Vol. 1, page, 108.

§ Statistical Account of Rangpur, page 221.

‖ The Muhammadans of Eastern Bengal, communicated by Mr. Risley from Dr. Wise's papers to the Journal of the Asiatic Society of Bengal, 1894, Pt. III, page 28.

of Bengal. Although situated on the borders of the Empire, and surrounded by brave and aggressive races, Sunnárgaon attracted crowds of holy men, whose mouldering tombs still mark the site of the ancient city. From it was summoned the preceptor, who trained Jaláluddín in the doctrines of his intolerant creed, and to its families of Khwánd-kárs, Eastern Bengal looked for its supply of Muhammadan instructors. During the five centuries and a half of Muhammadan rule in Eastern Bengal, we only hear of one wholesale persecution of the subject Hindus, and that was waged by Jaláluddín, from A.D. 1414 to 1430. The only conditions he offered were the Korán, or death; and it is said that rather than submit to such terms, many Hindus fled to Kámrup and the jungles of Assam and Kachhar, but it is nevertheless probable that more Muhammadans were added to Islám during these seventeen years than in the next three hundred.

In Muhammadan histories no mention is made of any large Muhammadan immigration from Upper India; and we know that in the reign of Akbar the climate of Bengal was considered so uncongenial to the Moghal invaders, that an order to proceed there was regarded as a sentence of banishment. The Viceroys and nobles governing Bengal amassed wealth rapidly, and returned to spend it in the luxurious places of Delhi and Agra, while only a few officers and private soldiers, having married into native families, remained and settled in their new homes. While, therefore, each seat of Government, and each Military Station, was in early times more or less a centre of missionary agitation, we find another agency from across the seas working towards the same ends, uninfluenced by the policy of the Delhi Court. On the South-Eastern frontier of Bengal, a hardy and enterprising class of Muhammadans have been settled from the earliest historical times; and long before the first European landed at Chittagong, Arab merchants carried on an extensive and lucrative trade with its inhabitants, and disseminated their religious ideas among the people. How or when the dwellers on the coast became Musalman is unknown, but when Barbosa visited Bengal at the beginning of the sixteenth century, he found the inhabitants of the interior, Gentiles, subject to the King of Bengal, who was a Moor; while the seaports were inhabited by Moors and Gentiles. He also met with many foreigners, both Arabs, Persians, Abyssinians and Indians, and adds, "Every day many Gentiles turn Moors to obtain the favour of the King and Governors." Cæsar Frederick and Vincent Le Blanc, who were in Bengal about 1570, also inform us that the island of Sandip was then inhabited by Moors. In the sixteenth century, therefore, Chittagong was a centre from which an unceasing propagandism was carried on.

Wherever Muhammadan rule existed, slavery was developed, and during the centuries of misrule and oppression, through which Bengal passed, slavery was accepted by the Hindus as a refuge for their troubles. Bengal has for its encouragement of slavery always possessed an unenviable notoriety, and the Delhi Court obtained, not only its slaves, but also its eunuchs, from the villages of Eastern Bengal. The incursions of Assamese and Maghs, the famines, pestilences and civil wars impoverished and hardened the people and drove them in sheer desperation to sell their children as Musalman slaves. The treatment of these slaves was humane, and their position comparatively a good one, as they were allowed to marry, and their families, supported by the master, added to the number of Islám.

Stories of forcible conversion, such as the following, are however narrated by the Muhammadans themselves, without any feelings of shame or astonishment. While the Muhammadan population was still scattered, it was customary for each householder to hang an earthen water-pot (badaná) from his thatched roof, as a sign of his religious belief. One day a Maulavi, after some years' absence, went to visit a disciple, who lived in the centre of a Hindu village, but could not find the "badaná." On enquiry he was told that the Musalman villager had renounced his faith and joined an outcast tribe. On his return to the city, the circumstances being reported to the Nawáb, a detachment of troops was ordered out, the village surrounded, and every person in it compelled to become Muhammadan.

Another class of Hindus voluntarily turned Muhammadans, as the only means of escaping punishment for murder or adultery, as this step was considered full atonement for either crime.*

In later times this compulsory system was still further extended. The tyrannical Murshíd Kulí Khán enforced a law that any Amal, or zamíndár, failing to pay the revenue that was due, or being unable to make good the loss, should, with his wife and children, be compelled to become Muhammadans. Furthermore, it was the common law that any Hindu forfeiting his caste by a breach of regulations could only be reinstated by the Muhammadan Government, and if it refused to interfere, the delinquent remained an outcast, ultimately taking shelter in the ranks of the Faithful."

ANTHROPOMETRICAL CONCLUSIONS.

305. But the most convincing testimony is that afforded by the exact measurements carried out by Mr. Risley. The average Cephalic index (proportion of breadth of head to length) of 185 Muhammadans of East Bengal is almost identical with that of 67 Chandáls. The nasal index (proportion of breadth of nose to height) of the Muhammadans was greater than that of the Chandáls but not very different from that of the Chandáls' half-brothers, the Pods, and in any case a broad nose is characteristic of the Dravidian

* "Bernier" Vol. I, 144. "Voyages de Le Goowz," p. 157.

rather than of the Aryan and Semitic types. These measurements show clearly that the foreign element amongst the Muhammadans of East Bengal is very small. The author of the book already referred to has protested strongly against the manner in which the subjects for measurement were chosen, *i.e.*, against the selection of ordinary cultivators and the exclusion of all Muhammadans of birth, but his protest seems to be based on a misunderstanding. The object of the measurements was to ascertain the affinities of the low class Muhammadans of East Bengal who form the great bulk of the Muhammadan population of that part of the Province. There is no question as to the foreign origin of many of those of the better class; the difference between the coarse features and dark complexion of the ordinary villagers and the fair skin, and fine features of some of the gentry is apparent to all, and it was precisely for this reason that instructions were given to exclude the latter from the operations of the Anthropometric survey.* There have been no measurements of the Muhammadans of North Bengal, but there seems no reason to doubt that, if they could be taken, they would fully confirm the popular view that they are for the most part very closely allied to the Rájbansis amongst whom they live and whom they closely resemble in feature.

ESTIMATE OF PROPORTION OF FOREIGN BLOOD AMONGST THE MUHAMMADANS OF BENGAL.

306. It seems to me that there can be no doubt as to the local origin of most of the Muhammadans of East and North Bengal. In other parts of the Province also the general opinion is that the lower classes of Muhammadans are recruited mainly from local converts. It is impossible to form an exact estimate of the relative strength of the two elements, the Indian and the foreign, but it may be said generally that almost the whole of the functional groups, such as Joláhá and Dhuniá, throughout the Province, the great majority, probably nine-tenths, of the Shekhs in Bengal Proper, and a large proportion of them, possibly half, in Bihar are of Indian origin. The foreign element must be looked for chiefly in the ranks of the Saiads, Patháns and Moghals. Even here there are many who are descended from Hindus, and it will be seen in the chapter on Caste that high caste converts are often allowed to assume these titles and, in some cases, to intermarry with those who are really of foreign descent. Their number, however, is possibly only a small proportion of the total and may be neglected. If the above estimates be taken as a basis, it would appear that the strength of the foreign element amongst the Muhammadans of Bengal cannot, at the most, exceed four millions, or say, one-sixth of the total number of persons who profess the faith of Islam.

RACE.	NUMBER.
Saiad ...	236,468
Pathán ...	423,740
Moghal ...	18,678
One-tenth of Shekhs in Bengal Proper.	1,952,722
Half of ditto in rest of Bengal.	1,092,976
Total	3,724,584

CLASSES FROM WHICH CONVERTS CHIEFLY COME.

307. It has already been noted that the affinities of the Muhammadans of East Bengal seem to be with the Pods and Chandáls and those of North Bengal with the Rájbansis and Koches. The conclusion is based, not only on their striking physical resemblance to their neighbours, but also on the fact that the proportion of Hindus of other castes in these parts of the country is, and always has been, very small.† The main castes are the Rájbansis (including Koches) in North Bengal and the Chandáls and other castes of non-Aryan origin in East Bengal, so that even if the different groups yielded converts in equal proportions, the absolute number of converts from such castes would be much greater than from others. But, except in the case of forcible conversion, it is not likely that the proportions were at all equal. The Musalman religion, with its doctrine that all men are equal in the sight of God, must necessarily have presented far greater attractions to the Chandáls and Koches, who were regarded as outcastes by the Hindus, than to the Bráhmans, Baidyas,

* It would be most interesting if a second series of measurements could be taken for the better classes of Muhammadans. Nothing would more clearly bring out the difference between their origin and that of their co-religionists of lower rank.

† The Koches are generally supposed to have spread in any numbers only as far westwards as the Mahánandá which runs through the Purnea district East of that river, where the bulk of the population is Koch, no less than two-thirds of the population are Muhammadans, while to the west of it where the Koch element is weak, less than one-third of the population was returned under this religion. This too in spite of the fact that the old Muhammadan capital in Purnea lay in the centre of the latter tract.

and Káyasths, who in the Hindu caste system enjoy a position far above their fellows. The convert to Islám could not of course expect to rank with the higher classes of Muhammadans, but he would escape from the degradation which Hinduism imposes on him; he would no longer be scorned as a social leper; the mosque would be open to him; the Mullah would perform his religious ceremonies, and, when he died, he would be accorded a decent burial. The experience of the Christian missionaries in Bengal at the present day points to the same conclusion. Converts from the higher Hindu castes are rare, and it is amongst the non-Aryan tribes of the Chota Nagpur Plateau and North Bengal, and amongst the Chandáls of Backergunge, that the greatest success is met with.

It is not contended that the higher castes did not contribute their quota, but it was undoubtedly a comparatively small one,* and obtained usually by force or accident, rather than by a voluntary adhesion to the tenets of the Korán. This seems clearly indicated by the history of Muhammadan families of known Hindu origin. The Pirális, for example, became Muhammadans because they were outcasted on account of having been forced to taste (or smell) forbidden food cooked by a Muhammadan, and they still retain many Hindu beliefs and customs.† The Rájás of Kharagpur were originally Khetauris, and only became Muhammadans because, after being defeated by one of Akbar's generals, the acceptance of Islám was made a condition of being allowed to retain the family estates.‡ The present Rájá of Parsouni in Darbhanga is descended from Rájá Purdil Singh, who rebelled against the Emperor and became a Muhammadan by way of expiation.§ The family of Asad Ali Khán, of Baranthan in Chittagong, is by origin a branch of the Srijukta family of Naopara. Their ancestor, Syám Rái Cháudhuri, was deprived of his caste by being forced to smell beef and was fain to become a Muhammadan. Jadu, the son of Rájá Káns, the only Hindu king of Bengal, embraced the Muhammadan religion in order to be allowed to succeed his father. In Backergunge many Hindus became Musalmans after the Maghs had passed through their houses and so caused them to be outcasted.‖

308. This leads to the question how far the conversion of Hindus generally was voluntary and how far it was due to force. The Moghals were as a rule, tolerant in religious matters, but the Afgháns who preceded them were often very fanatical. It does not appear, however, that the Afghán rulers of Bengal often used force to propagate their faith, and the only organised persecution of the Hindus is that of Jaláluddín, mentioned by Dr. Wise, who is said to have offered the Korán or death, and who must have effected wholesale conversions.¶ But although there was no general attack on the Hindu religion, there are numerous traditions of conversions on a large scale by enthusiastic freelances, such as the renowned Sháh Jalál of Sylhet. In Mandaran thana in the Arambagh subdivision of Hooghly, where the Muhammadan population preponderates over the Hindu, there is a tradition that Muhammad Ismail Shah Gházi defeated the local Rájá and forcibly converted the people to Islám. These traditions are not confirmed by history, but history tells us very little of what went on in Bengal during the reigns of the independent kings, and, when even the names of some of them are known to us only from the inscriptionsion their coins, while there is no record whatever of many of the local satraps, it is not to be expected

METHODS OF CONVERSION.

* It will be seen, moreover, further on, that the converts from the higher castes do not usually assume the designation of Shekh.

† Some only of the Pirális are Muhammadans. Others have succeeded to a certain extent in recovering their original caste and have remained Hindus. They are named after Pir Ali the dewan of Khán Jahán Ali or Khanja Ali who ruled in the south of Jessore about four centuries ago. Pir Ali, whose proper name was Muhammad Táhir, was a Bráhman apostate, and, like all renegades, he probably proved a worse persecutor of his original faith than others who were Muhammadans by birth. Very little is known of Pir Ali, but a good deal of information regarding his master will be found in Sir James Westland's 'Jessore,' pages 11 to 22.

‡ Statistical Account of Monghyr, page 179.

§ It would be interesting to carry this enquiry further and to trace the cause of conversion in other families of known Hindu origin, such as the Dewán families of Pargana Sarail in Tippera, and of Haibatnagar and Jangalbari in Mymensingh, who were formerly Bráhmans, the Patháns of Majhouli in Darbhanga, who sprang from the family of the Rájá of Narhan, etc. Amongst early Bráhman converts may be mentioned Murshid Kuli Khán and the dreaded iconoclast, Kálá Pahár.

‖ Beveridge's History of Backergunge, page 340.

¶ Dr. Wise, as we have seen, conjectures that there were more converts to Islám during the seventeen years of this crusade than in the next three hundred.

that, even if forcible conversions were common, there would be any written account of them. There must doubtless, here and there, have been ruthless fanatics like the notorious Tippu Sáhib of more recent times, who forcibly circumcised many of his Hindu subjects and perpetrated many acts of the grossest oppression, and the fact that Muhammadan mosques were often constructed of stones taken from Hindu temples, clearly shows that, at some times and in some places, the Hindus were subjected to persecution at the hands of their Musalman conquerors. Several cases in which persons belonging to the higher castes were forced to become Muhammadans have been quoted above, and these are doubtless typical of many others. We read, for instance, in the accounts of Chaitanya's life, that two of his leading disciples were Bráhmans who had been compelled to embrace the faith of Islám.

In spite, however, of the fact that cases of forcible conversion were by no means rare, it seems probable that very many of the ancestors of the Bengal Muhammadans voluntarily gave in their adhesion to Islám. The advantages which that religion offered to persons held in low esteem by the Hindus, have already been pointed out, and under Muslim rule there was no lack of pious Pirs and Fakirs who devoted their lives to gaining converts to the faith. There were special reasons which, during the early years of the Muhammadan supremacy, made conversion comparatively easy. Although the days when Buddhism was a glowing faith had long since passed, the people of Bengal were still to a great extent Buddhistic, and when Bakhtyár Khilji conquered Bihar and massacred the Buddhist monks assembled at Odontapuri, the common people, who were already lukewarm, deprived of their priests and teachers, were easily attracted from their old form of belief, some to Hinduism and others to the creed of Muhammad.* The higher castes probably found their way back to Hinduism, while the non-Aryan tribes who had, in all probability, never been Hindus, preferred the greater attractions of Islám.

309. The dislike which educated Muhammadans have for the theory that most of the local converts in Eastern and Northern Bengal are of Chandál and Koch origin seems to be due to the influence of Hindu ideas regarding social status, according to which these tribes occupy a very degraded position. This, however, is merely due to the fact that they are of known non-Aryan origin. If, instead of the British, the Hindus had succeeded the Moghals as the paramount power in India, and the Muhammadan faith had gradually grown weak and its votaries had attorned to Hinduism, the Moghals and Patháns would have been given much the same rank as that now accorded to the Chandáls and Koches. These tribes were formerly dominant, and it is only because they have lost their political supremacy and have fallen under the yoke of the Bráhmans, that they have sunk to their present low position.† In the days of their supremacy they were accorded Kshattriya rank, and it is certain that, if they had maintained their independence, they would no more have been regarded as low castes to-day, than are the descendants of the Moghal conquerors of Delhi. They are in fact allied by race to the Moghals, but while they entered India from the north-east, the latter did so from the north-west, and came earlier under the influence of the greatest proselytising religion, next to Buddhism, that Asia has yet seen. The Moghals are converts, just as much as are the Chandáls. It is only a question of time and place. The Christian religion prides itself as much on converts from one race as on those from another, and except for the influence of Hindu ideas it is not clear why the Muhammadans should not do so too.

* As noted elsewhere, the Pods and Chandáls were probably the dominant tribes in the kingdom of Paundra, Vardhana and to this day traces of the Buddhist faith can still be found in the working religion of the Pods. Amongst the Koches also, traces of Buddhist influence still survived when Ralph Fitch visited the country in the 16th century (J. A. S. B. 1873, part I, page 240).

† The present depressed condition of these castes is due to political reasons. There is nothing inherently low in them, and at one time they enjoyed a considerable amount of civilisation. Speaking of the Bhars, who once ruled on the north bank of the Ganges from Monghyr to Oudh, and whose skill is evidenced by the remains of numerous embankments, tanks and forts, Sherring points out that they were not by any means a barbarous race. He adds:—The more I investigate the matter, the stronger do my convictions become that the Hindus have learnt much from the aboriginal races, but that, in the course of ages, these races have been so completely subdued, and treated with such extreme rigour and scorn, that in the present condition of abject debasement in which we find them, we have no adequate means of judging of their originalgenius and power. "[Hindu Tribes and Castes," Vol. I, page 363.] The Bhars have for the most part disappeared owing to absorption into other social groups (*e.g.* the Pási?). Those still known by the old tribal name occupy a very degraded position and are frequently swineherds like the Káoras.

EXPLANATION OF RELATIVELY RAPID GROWTH OF MUHAMMADAN POPULATION.

310. We have already seen that the Muhammadans are increasing more rapidly than the Hindus, and the question arises as to the reasons why this should be so. I have made particular enquiries as to the number of conversions at the present day and the general opinion is that it is not very great.* Occasionally an eloquent Mullah obtains a few genuine converts but, as a rule, the persons who cross over from the one religion to the other do so for material, and not for religious, reasons, *e.g.*, a Muhammadan takes a Hindu widow as his second wife, or a Hindu widow is detected in an intrigue with a Muhammadan and, being outcasted, is fain to seek an asylum in the ranks of Islám, or a Hindu falls in love with a Muhammadan girl and has to adopt her religion before he can marry her. There are no doubt occasional instances of a genuine change of faith, but these form only a small minority. I have endeavoured to collect information regarding recent cases of conversion and the causes which are assigned for them, and the result is given in Appendix II. The most noticeable feature disclosed by the various reports is the very small number of such cases which have come to notice and, unless the information received is very defective, it is clear that the main explanation of the relatively more rapid growth of the Muhammadan population must be its greater fecundity. One great reason for this is that the Muhammadan widow re-marries more readily than her Hindu sister. The higher Hindu castes throughout the Province, and in Bengal Proper most of the other castes also, forbid their widows to marry a second time. The statistics of age and civil condition show that of every 100 Hindu women between the ages of 15 and 40, more than 16 are widows, whereas amongst the Musalmans the number is only 12.† There is also less inequality in the ages of husband and wife than is often the case amongst Hindus. The Muhammadan again has a more nutritious dietary than the Hindu and his fecundity is proportionately increased. Moreover, in Eastern Bengal at least, he is usually better off. The Hindu has scruples about leaving his home, and will rather stay on there and suffer some privation, owing to his holding being too small to meet the needs of a growing family, rather than move elsewhere. The Muhammadan has no such prejudices and it is he who occupies the *chars* of the great rivers of East Bengal and extracts bounteous crops from the fertile alluvial soil. Even in India, the growth of the population is regulated to a great extent by the material condition of the people, and there can be no doubt that the comparatively rapid increase of the Muhammadans is in part attributable to their being as a class in better circumstances than their Hindu neighbours.

RANK AND DESIGNATION OF CONVERTED HINDUS.

311. In Bihar a converted Hindu of the Bráhman or Káyasth castes is usually allowed to call himself Shekh and to associate and intermarry with genuine Shekhs. A Bábhan or Rájput in the same circumstances, becomes a Pathán, but the lower castes have to content themselves with the title Nau-Muslim and it is only after the lapse of some years that they are gradually recognised as Shekh. In Mymensingh high caste converts are given the title of Khán and call themselves Patháns.

Amongst the earlier converts, and especially in the functional groups, Hindu names and titles are still very common. Names such as Káli Shekh, Kálachánd Shekh, Braja Shekh or Gopál Mandal are constantly met with. When a Mullah effects a conversion at the present day, he usually gives the neophyte a new name, but it is often chosen in such a way as to give some indication of the old one; Rajani for example becomes Riáz-uddín. This reminds one of the way in which a Muhammadan of low social position gradually assumes a more high sounding designation as he rises in life, which has given rise to the saying—

"Age thâke Ulla Tulla Sheshe hay Uddin,
Taler Mámud upare jay Kapál phere Jaddin."

* There are a few exceptions. The reporters from Midnapore, Champaran and Monghyr are of opinion that considerable progress is being made.

† It is not only that the actual proportion of widows is greater amongst the Hindus, but also that when a widow has an intrigue and becomes pregnant, if a Hindu, she generally commits abortion; whereas if she is a Muhammadan, she welcomes the prospect of a child as an inducement to her paramour to take her into his zenana.

The saying can best be illustrated by the successive changes of name of a hypothetical Meher Ullah, who becomes first Meheruddin, then Meheruddin Muhammad and then Muhammad Meheruddin. He will probably at this stage prefix Munshi, then add Ahmad, and finally blossom into Maulavi Muhammad Meheruddin Ahmad. In North Bengal a well-to-do Nasya calls himself Sarkár, and if he continues to prosper, he becomes in turn Paramánik, Chaudhuri and Munshi, and eventually, if his circumstances are sufficiently good, he assumes the title of Maulavi.

MUHAMMADAN SECTS.

312. The two main sects of Muhammadans are of course the Sunnis and the Shiahs. The former accept the authority of all the successors of Muhammad, whereas the Shiahs look upon the first three, Abu Bakr, Omar, and Osmán, as interlopers, and regard Ali, Muhammad's son-in-law, as the first true Khalífa. They also greatly reverence his martyred sons, Hasan and Husain. Sect was not returned at the Census, but it is known that, with the exception of those of Moghal origin, the great majority of Bengal Muhammadans consider themselves Sunnis, although at the same time they exalt Hasan and Husain and observe the *Ramzán* as strictly as the Shiahs. The religious writings of the Sunnis consist not only of the Korán, but also of the Hadís or traditional sayings of Muhammad not embodied in the Korán. These are in themselves hard to understand, but there are four recognized glossographers, and the followers of their commentaries are called after them, being known respectively as Hánafi, Sháfái, Máliki and Hambali. The difference between these sects is very slight, but the main characteristic of the Hánafis, which is practically the only one known in Bengal, is that the traditions are freely interpreted in the light of analogical reasoning, whereas the others take their stand against any modification of the actual words of Muhammad. Some, who interpret the traditions for themselves, without following any particular Imám, call themselves Ahli Hadís, 'people of the tradition,' or Ghair Mukallid, 'those who do not wear the collar' (of any Imám).

THE WÁHÁBBI MOVEMENT—SHARIAT ULLAH AND DUDHU MIYAN.

313. In the 17th century a new sect of Muhammadan purists arose in Arabia who rejected the glosses of the Imáms and denied the authority of the Sultan, made comparatively light of the authority of Muhammad, forbade the offering of prayers to any prophet or saint, and insisted on the necessity for waging war against all infidels. They were called Wáhábbis after their founder, Muhammad Wáháb of Nejd. Their doctrines were introduced into India by Saiad Ahmad Sháh of Rai Bareilli, who proclaimed a *jihád* or holy war against the Sikhs in 1826, and founded the colony of fanatics on the North-West frontier. Saiad Ahmad and his disciple, Maulavi Muhammad Ismail, gained many converts who, in this Province, made Patna their head-quarters, whence they sent out emissaries to propagate their doctrines all over Bengal and Bihar.

Before noticing them, however, we may refer to a movement, similar but independent, in East Bengal which was originated by Háji Shariat Ullah, the son of a Joláhá of Faridpur, who returned about 1820A. D. from Mecca, where he had been a disciple of the Wáhábbis, and disseminated the teachings of that sect in Faridpur and Dacca.* Amongst other things he prohibited the performance of Hindu rites and the joining in Hindu religious ceremonies, the preparation of *Tazias* (models of the tomb of Hasan and Husain) and the praying to *pirs* (saints) and prophets. He also held that India was *Dáru-l-harb* (the mansion of war), where the observance of the Friday prayers is unlawful and the waging of war against infidels is a religious necessity.† He gained many followers, chiefly amongst the lowest classes. His son Dudhu Miyán, who succeeded him, was even more successful and acquired a

* This note, so far as it refers to religious movements in East Bengal, is based mainly on Dr. Wise's posthumous paper on "The Muhammadans of Eastern Bengal," contributed by Mr. Risley to the J. A. S. B. for 1894. The few modifications that I have made are the outcome of further enquiries made on the basis of what Dr. Wise wrote. Isolated efforts of Muhammadan Maulavis to combat Hindu superstitions are constantly coming to notice. They may meet with success for a time, but the leanings to Hindu superstitions and symbolism are so deeprooted in the hearts of low caste converts from Hinduism that, when the movement has spent itself, they frequently relapse and revive their old idolatrous practices.

† The modern followers of this sect deny that they hold India to be Dáru-l-harb, but it is impossible to say if this is really the case.

paramount influence amongst the Muhammadan cultivators and craftsmen of Dacca, Backergunge, Faridpur, Noakhali and Pabna. He partitioned the country into circles and appointed an agent to each to keep his sect together. He endeavoured to force all Muhammadans to join him, and made a determined stand against the levy of illegal cesses by landlords, and especially against contributions to the idol of *Durgá*. He made himself notorious for his high-handed proceedings, was repeatedly charged with criminal offences and, on one occasion at least, was convicted. He died in 1860.

KARÁMAT ÁLI.

314. Concurrently with this movement other reformers were spreading the doctrines of the Patna School, the most successful of whom was Maulánd Karámat Ali of Jaunpur. He made two important modifications in the tenets of his leaders. In the first place he did not altogether reject the glosses on the Hadís. He recognised that there were imperfections and contradictions, but he held that they were not sufficient to justify the formation of a new sect. Consequently he and his followers are generally regarded as belonging to the Hánafi sect. Secondly, in his later years at least, he declared that India under English rule was not *Dáru-l-harb*, and consequently that infidels are not here a legitimate object of attack and the Friday prayers are lawful. He strongly denounced the various Hindu superstitions common amongst the people, and especially the offering of *Shirnis* or cakes to the spirits of ancestors on the *Shab-i-barát*. He also prohibited the use of music and the preparation of *Tázias*. On the other hand, he held that holy *pirs* possessed a limited power of intercession with God and encouraged the making of offerings at their tombs. Karámat Ali died in 1874. His mission was ably carried on by his son Hafiz Ahmad, who preached all over East and North Bengal and died only about three years ago. There are numerous other preachers of the same doctrines, of whom Shán Abu Bakr, of Furfura in the Hooghly district, is one of the most famous. The Hazrat of Banaudhia in Murshidabad is also well known; but he owes his influence less to his intellectual qualifications than to his reputation as a saint endowed with miraculous powers.

SECT NOMENCLATURE.

315. These two reformed sects are collectively known as Farazi,* 'followers of the law,' Namáz Háfiz, 'one who remembers his prayers,' Hidáyati, 'guides to salvation,' or Shára, 'followers of the precepts of Muhammad' as distinguished from the Sábiki, 'old,' Berabi 'without a guide,' Bedaiyati or Beshára, by which terms the unreformed Muhammadans are generally known. The distinctive name of the followers of Karámat Ali and his successors is Ta'aiyuni, 'those who appoint,' from their practice of appointing from their number a leader who decides religious questions and takes the place of a Kázi, thereby making the observance of the Friday prayers lawful. The followers of Dudhu Miyán are called Wáhábbis by the Ta'aiyunis, but the name is held in bad odour, and they themselves prefer the appellations of Muhammadi, Ahli-hadís or Rafi-yadain, the last name being given with reference to their practice of raising their hands to their ears when praying, whereas the ordinary Sunnis fold their arms in front and the Shiahs allow them to hang down.† They are also sometimes called Amini, because they pronounce Amen in a loud voice like the Sháfái sect, and not in an undertone like the followers of Abu Hánifa. La-Mazhabi, 'no doctrine,' is another designation given them, because they reject all doctrines except those contained in the Korán.

PRESENT SUPREMACY OF KARÁMAT ÁLI'S SECT.

316. Since Dudhu Miyán's death his sect has been gradually dwindling in numbers, and at the present time the followers of Karámat Ali greatly outnumber them all over Eastern Bengal. In Khulna it is estimated that only 1 per cent of the Muhammadans are of the Rafi-yadain persuasion, and it is only in Faridpur and Bogra that this sect still holds its own. Dudhu Miyán's son, Saijuddin Khán Bahadur, still has great influence in Faridpur, especially amongst the cultivators and Jolahás in the south of the district. In Bogra the number of this sect is said to be small, but growing. It is reported from that

* This term is sometimes said to be applicable more particularly to Dudhu Miyán's party.

† The sects, other than that of Dudhu Miyán, are sometimes known collectively as the 'Adam rafa,' or those who do not raise their hands.

district that they are not very well affected towards Government, and that every family sets aside a handful of rice daily for religious objects. This is collected by the local head of the community, and it is suspected that the proceeds are used for promoting a *Jihád*.

Reformers in Bihar.

317. Owing, it may be, to the Wáhábbi trials, the reformers in Bihar have not hitherto gained the success achieved in Bengal, but at the present time considerable activity is being shown by the leaders of the Ahl-i-Hadís, as the modern representatives of the Wáhábbis prefer to style themselves. Patna seems to be still the head-quarters of the sect, but unfortunately I am without information regarding that district. In the other districts of South Bihar the number of its adherents is still very small. In Gaya it is reported that the only Wáhábbis are police-men from Patna. The movement in North Bihar was inaugurated by Maulavi Nazir Husain, a native of Monghyr now resident in Delhi, and others. The tenets of the sect appear to be intermediate between those of the two branches of the reformed church in Bengal Proper. As regards the question whether India is *Dáru-l-harb* or *Dáru-l-Islám* opinion appears to be divided, but Friday prayers are enjoined. The hands are raised in prayer, and the 'Amen' is pronounced in a loud voice. The use of music, the celebration of the *Muharram* festival, the offering of the *shirní* to the manes of ancestors, and the veneration of *pirs* are strictly forbidden.* In Muzaffarpur the movement at first gained ground rapidly but at present it is making slow progress. In Darbhanga and Champaran it is still spreading, but in the latter district it is estimated that the total number of its adherents is still less than a thousand. In Saran the amount of success hitherto achieved is very small. In the Sonthal Parganas the reformed doctrines are being energetically propagated amongst the local Muhammadans and with a considerable amount of success. In all cases, it is the Ajláf or lower class of Muhammadans who are most attracted by the preaching of the reformers; the better classes generally hold aloof.

Disputes between rival sects.

318. The propagation of these new doctrines frequently leads to much ill-feeling between the adherents of the different sects, and there is often danger of a breach of the peace. It is reported from Champaran that the disputes between the Mukallids and Ghair Mukallids would more than once have ended in bloodshed but for fear of the law, while in Faridpur it was thought necessary a few years ago to direct a preacher of Karámat Ali's persuasion to leave the neighbourhood of Sibchar, the head-quarters of the Dudhu Miyán sect, in order to prevent a breach of the peace between the two parties. In the Nilphamari Sub-division a Maulavi from Peshawar was sentenced to imprisonment a few years ago for abetting a riot with the object of preventing the carrying of *Tazias* in the celebration of the Moharram. As an illustration of the way in which these religious discussions are carried on I give below an extract from a report received from the Magistrate of Bogra:—

> A sort of Báhás (religious controversy) took place recently at Jamalganj between the Hánafis and the Rafi-yadains which ended with the use of most filthy language by both parties. Since then each party is trying to outbid the other. Two Madrasas have been started in the locality, one by the Hánafis and the other by the Rafi-yadains. In November last a Muhammadan reformer, Munshi Meherulla of Jessore, was invited by the Hánafis to deliver lectures on the superiority of the Muhammadan religion in general, and more especially on that of the Hánafi doctrine. The feeling of the two sections had by that time grown so bitter that they both applied to me for protection. The Munshi, however, delivered excellent lectures on the necessity for reform of the Musalman community and gave offence to none. Now and then he threw a word at the Hindus telling them that the Muhammadan religion does not inculcate the duty of making war for the spread of religion or of killing the Kaffir if he would not accept "the true faith." I mention this as it indicates that the present reformers of the community are actuated by a conciliatory spirit.

Unreformed Muhammadans.

319. The unreformed Muhammadans of the lower and uneducated classes are deeply infected with Hindu superstitions, and their knowledge of the faith they profess seldom extends beyond the three cardinal doctrines of the Unity of God, the Mission of Muhammad, and the truth of the Korán, and they have a very faint idea of

* The veneration of Pirs and also of Muhammad himself is denounced as *shirk*, *i.e.*, as ascribing to them a partnership with the Deity, or powers which belong to God alone.

the differences between their religion and that of the Hindus. Sometimes they believe that they are descended from Abel (Hábil) while the Hindus owe their origin to Cain (Kábil). Kábil they say killed Hábil and dug a grave for him with a crow's beak.*

HINDU SUPERSTITIONS.

320. Before the recent crusade against idolatry it was the regular practice of low class Muhammadans to join in the Durgá Pujá and other Hindu religious festivals, and although they have been purged of many superstitions, many still remain. In particular they are very careful about omens and auspicious days. Dates for weddings are often fixed after consulting a Hindu astrologer; bamboos are not cut, nor the building of new houses commenced, on certain days of the week, and journeys are often undertaken only after referring to the Hindu Almanac to see if the proposed day is auspicious. When disease is prevalent Sitalá and Rakshyá Káli are worshipped. Dharmaráj, Manasá and Bishahari are also venerated by many ignorant Muhammadans.† Sasthi is worshipped when a child is born. Even now in some parts of Bengal they observe the Durgá Pujá and buy new clothes for the festival like the Hindus. In Bihar they join in the worship of the Sun, and when a child is born they light a fire and place cactus and a sword at the door to prevent the demon Jawán from entering and killing the infant. At marriage the bridegroom often follows the Hindu practice of smearing the bride's forehead with vermilion.‡ In the Sonthal Parganas Muhammadans are often seen to carry sacred water to the shrine of Baidyanáth and, as they may not enter the shrine, pour it as a libation on the outside verandah. Offerings are made to the Grámya devatá before sowing or transplanting rice seedlings, and exorcism is resorted to in case of sickness. Ghosts are propitiated by offerings of black fowls and pigeons before a figure drawn in vermilion on a plantain leaf. These practices are gradually disappearing, but they die hard, and amulets containing a text from the Korán are commonly worn, even by the Mullahs who inveigh against these survivals of Hindu beliefs.

ADORATION OF PIRS.

321. Apart from Hindu superstitions there are certain forms of worship common amongst Muhammadans which are not based on the Korán. The most common of these is the adoration of departed Pirs. It should be explained that the priesthood of Islám is two-fold. The law and the dogmas are expounded by the Mullah or learned teacher; the spiritual submission to, and communion with, the deity is inculcated by the Pir or spiritual guide. There are four famous Pirs who are universally revered throughout the Muslim world, and all subsequent Pirs have belonged to one or other of their spiritual systems.§ They trace back their line of spiritual guides in an unbroken series to the Prophet, who is styled the fountain head of all Pirs. With the exception of the Ahl-i-Hadís or Wáhábbis, almost all Muhammadans of the Sunni sect go through the ceremony of initiation by a Pir. The disciple or Murid‖ places his hands in the hands of the spiritual guide and declares his belief in the Muhammadan creed, the unity of God, the mission of the Prophet, the truth of the Korán, the existence of angels and the day of resurrection; he then promises to live a virtuous life and to abstain from sin; he calls on the guide and his spiritual predecessors up to the Prophet to witness his declaration,

(1) ABDUL KADIR JILANI.
(2) ABU ISHAK SHAMI OF CHISHT.
(3) MOHIUDIN NAKSH-BAND.
(4) ABDUL KADIR SOHAR-WARDI.

* There are some verses which give expression to this belief, but I have been able to obtain only the first two lines:—

Hábiler pharjjan járá.
Islám haila tárá.

It may be interesting to mention here that some of the Bunás of Nadia and Jessore believe that Balarám and Álláh are identical.

They say: *Mukh Makkah, Dil Korán.*
Hárer upar Chám
Táite beleche Balarám.

† Goats are often made over to Hindus who perform the sacrifice on their behalf.

‡ Sometimes sandalwood paste is used instead of vermilion.

§ As with the Bishops of the Christian Church there is a regular system of ordination, and every Pir traces his spiritual descent from the Prophet himself through one or other of the four great Pirs mentioned above. There seems to be but little difference in the cults originating with these Pirs, except the followers of Abu Ishak of Chisht make use of music and singing and keep the image of their spiritual guide before the mind's eye. These practices are forbidden by the others.

‖ The reformed sects object to the words Pir and Murid, and replace them by Ustád and Shagird which do not connote the same degree of submission on the part of the disciple.

and concludes by affirming that he has become a member of the particular spiritual communion to which his Pir belongs. The disciple must thenceforth think of his Pir and of the vows he has made at least once daily, and he is visited at intervals by the latter who comes to rekindle his zeal.

Sometimes Pirs of exceptional sanctity are credited with supernatural powers. Asgar Ali Shah in Muzaffarpur has this reputation, and many persons, Hindus as well as Muhammadans, the educated as well as the ignorant, when afflicted with illness or other calamities, wait upon him for relief. His suppliants offer him money and food, but he seldom accepts their presents. He spends most of his time in a state of abstraction.

When a holy Pir departs from this life, he is popularly believed to be still present in spirit and to offer his daily prayers at Mecca or Medina, and his *dargah* or tomb becomes a place of pilgrimage to which persons resort for the cure of disease, or the exorcism of evil spirits, or to obtain the fulfilment of some cherished wish, such as the birth of a child, or success in pending litigation.* The educated stoutly deny that Pirs are worshipped, and say that they are merely asked to intercede with God, but amongst the lower classes it is very doubtful if this distinction is clearly recognised, even if it actually exists.

NOTES ON SOME FAMOUS PIRS.

322. Of Indian Pirs the greatest is perhaps Hazrat Moinuddin Chisti, who was born in Persia in 1140 A.D. and came to India under the orders of the Prophet, who appeared to him and told him to spread the faith in this country. He died at Ajmir in 1234 and his *dargah* there is visited by pilgrims from all parts of India. According to Ferishta, Akbar himself often visited this shrine on foot. The late Rájá of Tikari, Ran Bahadur Singh (a Hindu), paid it annual visits and made valuable offerings. He firmly believed that the Tikari Ráj was a gift to his family from this Pir, and that it was by his favour that he won his law-suits, a faith which was once severely shaken when the decision in an important case was given against him. In Bengal, almost every district has its *dargah*, where vows are registered and offerings made, by Hindus as well as Muhammadans, in the hope of gaining some material benefit, or of being cured from disease. The offerings usually consist of sweetmeats, but sometimes clay figures of horses are given and, on special occasions, goats and fowls are sacrificed.† These offerings are usually the perquisite of the *Mujáwir*, or custodian of the tomb, who is generally a fakir. A few of the more famous of these Pirs are noted below:

(1) Machandáli Sáif. Tomb near Ganga Sagar in the 24-Parganas. There is a story that one day a barber was shaving this saint when he suddenly disappeared. He returned shortly afterwards dripping with perspiration, and on being questioned explained that a ship had run aground, and as the crew had appealed to him, he had gone to pull it into deep water. The barber laughed incredulously, whereupon he and all his family died forthwith.

(2) Khán Jahán Ali. *Dargah* at Rambijoypur in the Bagirhat subdivision of Khulna. Miraculous cures are said to be effected at his tomb, and there is a special yearly festival when people come to make offerings. Khán Jahán is mentioned in Sir James Westland's Account of Jessore as a great local magnate, but the account there given of him does not indicate that during his lifetime he possessed any specially large stock of sanctity. According to tradition he became pious in his old age and entered his tomb, while still alive, to escape from a punitive force sent against him by Jahangir.

(3) Sháh Sultán. *Dargah* at Mahásthan in Bogra. The story goes that a fakir appeared before Parasurám, the last Hindu king of Mahásthan, riding upon a fish. He prayed for a piece of land large enough for him to spread a mat, on which to sit and pray. The king granted his request, whereupon the

* Á propos of this adoration of Pirs and the wonderful acts attributed to them, there is a Persian proverb, "The Pirs don't fly; their disciples make them fly."

† Mr. O'Malley writing of the Gaya *dargahs* says:—

The tombs of these Pirs are visited in great numbers by the pious; sweetmeats are offered, passages of the Korán recited and some offering, such as a sheet for the tomb, is made. Sometimes to the sound of music *halkal* takes place, i.e., one of the audience becomes suddenly inspired and professes to have been transported to the presence of God or of the Pir. He becomes ecstatic and loudly cries "Hakk hai." Shaking his body and head he rises to his feet and dances fantastically. The whole assembly rises in his honour, the fanatic repeats his cry, and when exhausted sits down. The audience sits down with him and waits till the divine afflatus inspires someone else.

mat began to grow miraculously, and gradually spread over the greater part of the kingdom. He eventually dethroned Parasurám and established a Muhammadan kingdom. Parasurám's daughter drowned herself in the Karátoyá to escape being married to the fakir, who was now known as Sháh Sultán, and the place where she did so is still called Siladebi's *Ghát* in remembrance of her. A fair is held at the *Dargah* every year and is attended by large numbers both of Hindus and of Muhammadans. To the Hindus, however, a dip in the sacred river at Siladebi's *Ghát* seems to be the chief attraction.

(4) Pir Badar of Chittagong is the guardian saint of sailors. He is invoked by the boating classes, Hindu as well as Muhammadan, when they start on a journey by sea or river as follows:—

Ámará áchhi polápán.
Gáji achhé nikhámán.
Shiré Gangá dariyá. Pánch Pir
Badar Badar Badar.

Which may be translated thus:—

"We are but children, the Gházi is our protector, the Ganges river is on our head. Oh Five Saints, Oh Badar, Badar, Badar." This Pir, who is said to have arrived at Chittagong floating upon a stone slab, is mentioned by Dr. Wise, according to whom he is no other than one Badruddin, who was for many years a resident of Chittagong, died in 1440, and was buried in the *Chhota Dargah* of Bihar. The local story of his arrival is that Chittagong was at the time the abode of fairies and hobgoblins, and that no one could live there. The saint begged a space for his lamp. This was granted and when he lit it, its magic power was so great that the spirits were frightened away. An old Portuguese resident of Chittagong who died recently used to aver that the saint was a Portuguese sailor, the only survivor from a shipwreck, who floated ashore on a raft and became a Muhammadan. There is a hillock in front of the Commissioner's house which is reputed to be the place where Pir Badar lit his lamp, and here candles are burnt nightly, the cost being met by contributions from Hindus, and even Feringis, as well as from Muhammadans.*

(5) Shah Ahmad Gaisu Daraz. *Dargah* at Kharampur near Akhaura in Tippera. He fought on the side of Sháh Jalál (whose shrine is in Sylhet town) against Gaur Gobind, the Hindu king of Sylhet, and was killed in the battle. His severed head and one of his wooden shoes were found by a Kaibartta, who was fishing in the river and, to the latter's great astonishment, the head began to speak. The Kaibartta embraced the Muhammadan faith and erected a tomb to the saint, of which his descendants are still the *Khádims* or custodians. A former Mahárájá of Hill Tippera (a Hindu) made a grant of rent-free land for the maintenance of the shrine, and offerings of cattle, money and sweetmeats are constantly made there by all classes of people. Many miraculous cures are said to have resulted from the appeals made to this holy man.

(6) Khwája Mirza Halim. Shrine at Mehsi in Champaran. Many miraculous feats are attributed to this saint, such as drawing enough milk from a cow, which had never been in calf, to satisfy the thirst of his many followers. There is a date-palm near the *Dargah*, and it is said that when a Kalwár once attempted to tap it, in order to obtain the juice for the manufacture of intoxicating drink (which is forbidden to Muhammadans), blood flowed from the tree.

There is a tradition that there was formerly an inscribed stone at the gate of the tomb with the magic aid of which thieves could be unerringly detected and the stolen property recovered. Jung Bahadur, says the legend, removed this stone to Nepal, and when the saint remonstrated, he promised to erect a cenotaph in his memory. The original *Dargah* is a great place of pilgrimage and an annual fair is held there at which some thousands attend. It is visited by persons for all sorts of purposes, but mainly by those who desire to be blessed with children or who are suffering from some lingering disease.

(7) One of the most modern saints is Patuki Sáin who lived near the Court House at Motihari and died only 30 or 40 years ago. He was illiterate and in his lifetime had no great reputation. It was only after his death

* Mr. R. C. Hamilton, C.S., is disposed to identify Pir Badar with Khwája Khizr. Badar in Chittagong is a religious exclamation used to invoke a blessing. This identification, he says, explains why the name of Khwája Khizr is not locally known.

that he achieved the reputation of holiness; a striking illustration of the proverb—

Barhá to Mir
Ghátá to Fakír
Mará to Pir.

"If he grew rich, he became a chief, if poor, a beggar, and if he died, he blossomed into a saint."

The tomb of this Pir was erected by a Hindu money-lender of the Kalwár caste, and his reputation is already so great that about half the residents of the town believe in his miraculous powers and pray for his assistance. His aid is especially invoked by litigants in the Courts, and their offerings form a considerable addition to the income of the custodian, an orderly peon of the District Magistrate's establishment. The Márwáris make an annual offering to this saint and his aid is also sought by the women of the town, who visit his tomb in a body with a band playing various musical instruments.

Space forbids a further enumeration of the numerous local Pirs, but there are many others of considerable renown, such as Hazrat Makhdum Sharifuddin of Bihar town, the author of 'Maktubat Sadi,' and Hazrat Makhdum Sháh Abul Fateh of Tangaul in Hajipur who, amongst other feats, threw his nephew into a river, while in a fit of abstraction, and recovered him unhurt six years later, when he came to his senses and was told what he had done. On another occasion he made a river change its course for several miles in order to obtain a drink of water.

MYTHICAL PERSONS. KHWÁJA KHIZR.

323. Closely allied to the adoration of Pirs is the homage paid to certain mythical persons, amongst whom Khwája Khizr stands pre-eminent. This personage appears to have been a pre-Islámic hero of the Arabs* and is said by many to be the 'servant of God' mentioned in the Korán, whom Moses found by following in the track of a fried fish which miraculously came to life, and who rebuked Moses on several occasions for his undue curiosity.† However this may be, Khwája Khizr is believed at the present day to reside in the seas and rivers of India, and to protect mariners from shipwreck.‡ He is invoked by them, and is also propitiated by the more ignorant Muhammadans, at marriages and during the rainy season, by the launching in rivers and tanks of *beras* or small paper boats, decorated with flowers and lit up with candles. Food is also distributed to the destitute in his name, or left on the bank to be picked up by the first beggar who passes.

GHÁZI MIYÁN AND ZINDAH GHÁZI.

324. Gházi Miyán is generally said to be the nephew of Mahmud of Ghazni and to have died, fighting against the infidel, after performing prodigies of valour. He is called the Prince of Martyrs and his tomb at Bahraich is visited by crowds of pilgrims. Large numbers of the Dafáli, Kunjra and similar low Muhammadan castes of Bihar go to visit this tomb. As usual, there are comparatively few of his worshippers who can give an account of him and some of the stories received are very vague. According to one reporter he perished in a fire on the eve of his wedding.

Zindah Gházi, from Zindik-i-Gházi 'conqueror of infidels,' rides on a tiger in the Sundarbans,§ and is the patron saint of wood-cutters whom he is supposed to protect from tigers, and crocodiles. He is sometimes identified with Gházi Miyán and sometimes with Gházi Madar. One Muhammadan gentleman

* Some say he was a prophet or Paighambar born a thousand years before Muhammad.

† Sura Kalif. Chapter XVIII. The Hindus of Upper India call Khwája Khizr, Rájá Kidar, which clearly connects him with Alkhedr who, according to Sale, is also identified with the same 'servant of God.' He is often confounded with Phineas, Elias and St. George, and his soul is supposed to have passed through them all by metempsychosis. He is supposed to have become immortal by finding out, and drinking of, the water of life. The name Khizr or 'ever green' was given him because every spot he sat on became covered with green grass. Part of these fictions were taken from the Jews who fancy that Phineas was Elias. (Sale's Koran, Vol. II, page 121.) According to Dr. Wise, Alkhedr is no other than Alexander the Great, but this seems incorrect. There is a legend that Alexander the Great wanted to drink the water of everlasting life and was conducted to the spring by Khwája Khizr, but finding it surrounded by a crowd of decrepit old men, who, though still alive, could not stir, he was disgusted at the sight and returned to the upper world without tasting the water.

‡ His special connection with water is due to his having wandered all over the waters of the world in search of the water of everlasting life.

§ In Nadia there is a Pir Sher Ali who is reputed to ride on tigers.

tells me he is Badiruddin Sháh Madar who died in A. H. 840 fighting against infidels.* Songs are sung in his honour and offerings are made after a safe return from a journey. Hindu women often make vows to have songs sung to him if their children reach a certain age. His shrine is believed to be on a mountain called Madaria in the Himalayas.

SATYA PIR.

325. Satya Pir or Satya Náráyan, as he is often called by Hindus, is an indefinite entity whose origin it is most difficult to trace. He is worshipped both by Hindus and Muhammadans and is supposed to have the special power of conferring happiness. According to one tradition he was an inhabitant of Bagdad of the name of Mansar Hallak. He uttered the words "I am the truth," whereupon he was killed for blasphemy, but his blood then repeated the words. His body was burnt but his ashes continued to cry "I am the truth."

SHEKH SADU.

326. According to Dr. Wise, Shekh Sadu was Maulavi of a Mosque at Amroha in Rohilkand. Mr. O'Malley tells me that in Gaya he is supposed to have been a student at Ganj Moradabad. The story runs that he found a lamp with four wicks and, on lighting them, four genii appeared and announced that they were the slaves of the lamp, and at his service. He used them for the purpose of debauchery, but was eventually killed through the intervention of another genius and was buried at Amroha. The spirit of the Shekh is worshipped all over Bihar, especially in Gaya. People, chiefly women, are often possessed by him, and when this happens, they shout out extracts from the Korán or, if illiterate, a string of gibberish which passes muster for Arabic amongst their equally ignorant neighbours. When this happens, sacrifices of goats and fowls are offered to the Shekh to appease him. People liable to be possessed are supposed to have supernatural powers and are often summoned in cases of illness or trouble to find out the cure. The usual answer is that a sacrifice of a goat or cock must be offered to Shekh Sadu.

SULTÁN SHAHID.

327. The last of these mythical persons deserving of mention is Sultán Shahid who is reported only from Gaya. He is worshipped all over the district by low class Muhammadans and also by Hindus of the lower castes. He is variously said to be the body-guard and paramour of Debi, and in any case, he seems to be very closely connected with that goddess. A "pindi" or small altar is invariably erected to him near the temples of Debi, and cocks are offered to him before her worship is commenced.

THE PÁNCH PIR.

328. This discussion of some of the less orthodox aspects of Muhammadanism would not be complete without a reference to the elusive "Pánch Pir." The place of worship is usually a small tomb with five domes, or a simple mound at the foot of a Pipal (*ficus religiosa*) or banyan tree (*ficus Indica.*) Offerings of goats, cocks, sweetmeats, etc., are made in order to obtain children, or get rid of some incurable disease, or to ensure success in business, etc. In the minds of the ignorant the expression is usually associated with some of the best known Pirs and mythical personages, such as Gházi Miyán, Pir Badar, Zindah Gházi, Shekh Farid, Khwája Khizr, and even Shekh Sadu. The actual persons vary from place to place, but the veneration for the Pánch Pir is universal, not only amongst the Muhammadans but also, as we shall presently see,† amongst Kalwárs, Halwáis, Telis, Bhuiyás and many other castes of Hindus in Bihar.

Amongst the educated the term is sometimes taken as referring to the "Panjtani pák," or five holy persons, who, according to the Shiahs, are Muhammad, Ali, Fatima, Hasan and Husain, while many Sunnis interpret the same expression as meaning Muhammad and the first four Khalífas, whom they call the Chár yár, or four friends of the Prophet. It seems very probable that the idea of the Pánch Pir may have arisen from a misunderstanding of the words "Panj tani pák" Dr. Wise conjectured that the word 'five' is used vaguely as indicating an indefinite number, in the same way as 'half-a-dozen' is sometimes used in English, but if so, it is not clear why there should be a collective tomb for these Pirs in addition to their individual shrines, nor why there should invariably be a representation of exactly five separate tombs.

* Other legends are given by Dr. Wise in the Essay already mentioned. | † Paragraph 338.

According to Mr. Ghaznavi the words are more a mode of expression than indicative of any real cult, and are applied to a man who does not know his own mind and is constantly following new doctrines. This, however, seems at variance with the fact that the Pánch Pir are specifically worshipped.

HINDU SECTS AND GODLINGS.

SECTS OF HINDUS.

329. There was no return of sect at the census. In Bihar the distinctions in question are ill-defined and the more ignorant classes would find it difficult to say to which of the conventional divisions of Hinduism they belong. But in Bengal and Orissa, owing to the great Vaishnava movement inaugurated by Chaitanya, the case is otherwise and there would be but little difficulty in obtaining a fairly accurate record of the sectarian distribution of the population. The two great sects are the Sákta and the Vaishnava. The latter is predominant throughout Orissa, the Orissa States and the south of Midnapore, where the great object of adoration is the quondam Buddhist idol of Jagannáth at Puri, who is worshipped as a representation of Krishna. In Bengal Proper the Vaishnavas are in the majority in Central Bengal, but in the east, north, and perhaps the west, the Sáktas are still the more numerous. The great majority of the race castes are Vaishnavas, especially the Kaibarttas and Chandáls and the Rájbansis properly so-called, but the Tipárás in the extreme east and the Koches and Meches in the north* are Sáktas. The Subarnabaniks and many of the Nabasákha group of castes are for the most part Vaishnavas and so also are the majority of the Baidyas of the Srikhanda Samáj. Other Baidyas and all classes of Bráhmans and Káyasths, on the other hand, are usually of the Sákta persuasion.

In Bihar, as has already been stated, the dividing line between Sáktas and Vaishnavas is less clearly defined, and, except in the case of certain ascetics, the worship of one God is not necessarily exclusive of that of another, as it is in Bengal Proper, where a strict Vaishnava will not even name Káli and Durgá, or the leaves of the Bel tree, which are largely used in connection with the religious ceremonies of the Sáktas. The reason seems to be that Bihar was never so deeply infected as Bengal with the worst forms of Sákta worship, and that the Vaishnava revival of Chaitanya which represented a revulsion from Sáktism never spread thither. On the other hand, there are a variety of sects, many of which are based on an attempt to reconcile the differences between Hinduism and the creed of Muhammad, such as the Nának Sháhi, Kabirpanthi and Pánchpiriyá. Others again are Sauras or sun worshippers, and others pay special reverence to Goreiya, Sokhá and other minor deities, or godlings as Mr. Ibbetson has aptly called them, unknown to orthodox Hinduism.

SÁKTISM.

330. Sáktism is based on the worship of the active producing principle (Prákriti) as manifested in one or other of the goddess wives of Siva (Durgá, Káli, Párvati), the female energy or Sakti of the primordial male, Purusha or Siva. In this cult the various forces of nature are deified under separate personalities, which are known as the divine mothers or Mátrigan. The ritual to be observed, the sacrifices to be offered, and the *mantras*, or magic texts, to be uttered, in order to secure the efficacy of the worship and to procure the fulfilment of the worshipper's desire, are laid down in a series of religious writings known as Tantras. The cult is supposed to have originated in East Bengal or Assam about the fifth century.† Káli is said to be the same as Durgá but she

* For the probable distinction between Koch and Rájbansi the Chapter on "Caste" should be referred to (paragraph 617).

† For an account of the evolution of Tántrik worship and the addition of female counterparts to the male gods previously worshipped, and of the influence which it had both on Hinduism and Buddhism, the reader is referred to a paper in the Asiatic Quarterly Review for 1894 (page 139) by Colonel Waddell, I.M.S. The genesis of Durgá and Káli is given in the Márkandeya Purán, which is said by a well known Hindu writer to be the "holiest of the holy works of the Hindus" and to be recited in almost every household as a charm. Durgá is there described as having her origin in the energy which issued from the mouths of Vishnu, Siva and Brahmá, and from the bodies of the other gods when hard pressed by Mah shásur, and his army of Asuras or non-Hindus. This energy amalgamated and became a female. Káli in her turn issued from Durgá's head. The two, however, are merely different forms of the same person. The head-quarters of Tántrik worship was probably Kámákshya in Assam. The character in which the original Tantras were written was Bengali, not Devanágri, and there are clear indications that they were introduced into Tibet, Nepal, and Gujarat, from Bengal. Moreover, in the Mahánirvána Tantra the three kinds of fish mentioned as fit for sacrificial use are the Sál, Bol, and Rui, all characteristic of Bengal diet. The Yogini Tantra, by its innumerable local references, was clearly composed in Assam.

can assume any number of forms at the same time. The characteristic of Durgá is beneficence, while Káli is terrific and bloodthirsty. In the Káliká Purán the immolation of human beings is recommended * and numerous animals are enumerated as suitable for sacrifice. At the present time pigeons, goats and, more rarely, buffaloes, are the usual victims at the shrine of the goddess. The ceremony commences with the adoration of the sacrificial axe; various *mantras* are recited and the animal is then decapitated at one stroke. As soon as the head falls to the ground, the votaries rush forward and smear their foreheads with the blood of the victim. The great occasion for these sacrifices is during the three days of the Durgá Pujá.† The opposition between Sáktism and Vedic Hinduism is expressly stated in the Mahánirvána Tantra where it is said that the *mantras* contained in the Vedas are now devoid of all energy and resemble snakes deprived of their venom. In the Satya and other ages they were effective but in the Kali Yuga they are, as it were, dead.

331. Modern Vaishnavism, as preached by Chaitanya, represents a revulsion against the gross and debasing religion of the Tantras. Chaitanya was a Baidik Bráhman and was born in Nabadvip in 1484. He preached mainly in Central Bengal and Orissa, and his doctrines found ready acceptance amongst large numbers of the people, especially amongst those who were still, or had only recently been, Buddhists. This was due mainly to the fact that he ignored caste and drew his followers from all sources, so much so that even Muhammadans followed him. He preached vehemently against the immolation of animals in sacrifice and the use of animal food and stimulants, and taught that the true road to salvation lay in Bhakti, or fervent devotion to God. He recommended Rádhá worship and taught that the love felt by her for Krishna was the best form of devotion. The acceptable offerings were flowers, money, and the like, but the great form of worship was that of the Sankirtan or procession of worshippers playing and singing. A peculiarity of Chaitanya's cult is that the post of spiritual guide or Gosáin is not confined to Bráhmans, and several of those best known belong to the Baidya caste. They are all of them descended from the leading men of Chaitanya's immediate entourage. The holy places of the cult are Nabadvip, Chaitanya's birth-place, and in a still greater degree, Brindaban, the scene of Krishna's sports with the milk-maids, which Chaitanya and his disciples reclaimed from jungle, and where he personally identified the various sacred spots, on which great shrines have now been erected. At Nabadvip the most important shrines are in the keeping of Bráhmans who are themselves staunch Sáktas.

VAISHNAVISM.

332. In course of time the followers of Chaitanya split into two bodies, those who retained, and those who rejected caste. The latter, who are also known as Ját Baishtams or Bairági, consist of recruits from all castes, who profess to intermarry freely amongst themselves,‡ and, except for the fact that outsiders are still admitted, they form a community very similar to the ordinary Hindu caste. Its reputation at the present day is tarnished by the fact that most of its new recruits have joined owing to love intrigues, or because they have been turned out of their own caste, or for some other sordid motive. Those who have retained their caste and are merely Vaishnavas by sect are, of course, in no way connected with the Ját Baishtams just described, and their religion is on the whole a far purer one than that of the Sáktas. The stricter Vaishnavas will have nothing to do with Sáktism and are vegetarians, but amongst the Bágdis and other low classes, many of the professed followers

* It is said that by such a sacrifice Debi (Káli) is pleased for a thousand years. The frequent occurrence of human sacrifices in ancient Assam was discussed by me in a paper contributed to the J. A. S. B. in 1898 (Part III, page 66).

† Great stress is laid on the exact performance of the prescribed ritual and the correct utterance of the *mantras*, failing which the sacrifice loses its efficacy. There are three main subdivisions of the Sáktas. The Dakshinácháris or right-handed, who are comparatively free from sensuality, and do not offer wine or flesh to the deity, the Bámácháris from whose school the majority of the Tantras have emanated, and the Kaulas or extremists. It is unnecessary here to describe the details, but it may be mentioned that the five essentials of worship amongst the extreme school are fish, flesh, wine, mystical gestures with the fingers, and sexual intercourse. During the orgies, miscalled worship, unlawful food becomes lawful, and all distinctions of caste are for the time being ignored. For further details the account given by the late Jogendra Náth Bhattáchárya in his book on "Hindu Castes and Sects," and a series of papers on the Tantras by the Rev. K. S. Macdonald may be referred to.

‡ Caste distinctions are not entirely obliterated, and the recruits from the higher, hold aloof from those from the lower, castes.

of the sect will freely eat animal food and follow in the Durgá procession, though they will not on any account be present when the sacrifices are offered up.

There are numerous Vaishnava sects, some of which, like those of Rámánuja and Rámávat, are independent of Chaitanya, while others are debased off-shoots of the great movement inaugurated by him. I shall not attempt a general account of these or other sects but shall merely refer to one or two which came specially to notice in the course of the census operations, and regarding which a certain amount of fresh information was obtained.*

333. Amongst the latter day offshoots of Chaitanya's teaching, one of the most curious is that of the Kartábhajás, the worshippers of the Kartá or headman, or as they prefer to call themselves Bhábájanas or as Bhagawánis, the men of God.† They call their creed the Satya Dharma, or true faith, while outsiders are known as Aihika or children of the world. The founder of the sect was a Sadgop named Rám Smaran Pál, more generally known as Kartá Bábá, who was born about two hundred years ago, near Chakdaha in Nadia. His birth as an incarnation of the Almighty is said to have been foretold by a religious mendicant (apparently a Muhammadan) known as the Fakir Thákur *alias* Aul Chánd, to whom numerous miracles are attributed, and who appears to have presided over the youth's up-bringing and to have been largely instrumental in obtaining recognition for him as the incarnation of the Divinity. Next to Fakir Thákur his chief disciples were twenty-two mendicants known as the Báish Fakir, who were endowed with miraculous powers and obtained many converts in all the districts of the Presidency Division. Kartá Bábá died at Ghoshpara near Chakdaha, at the age of 84, and was succeeded by his son Rám Dulál *alias* Dulál Chánd, who is popularly believed to be a re-birth of Fakir Thákur. He organized the sect and laid down its precepts in a series of songs supposed to have been uttered by him in his sleep.‡ He was very successful in propagating the new faith and obtained converts in all parts of Bengal, and even in Orissa and the United Provinces. Rám Dulál was succeeded by two of his sons in turn. Then followed a quarrel between his grandsons, and now there is no longer a single spiritual head. The disciples can select, each for himself, any male member of the family whom he may choose as the object of his homage and adoration. Each has his own *gadi* or seat where the offerings of his votaries are deposited. It is needless to say that under these conditions the popularity of the sect is declining.

THE KARTÁBHAJÁS.

334. The main doctrines inculcated appear to be:—

(1) There is only one God, who is incarnate in the Kartá.

(2) The Maháshay or spiritual guide must be all in all to his Baráti or disciple. A man may question a Maháshay's fitness before becoming his disciple but never afterwards. A Baráti can obtain salvation only through his Maháshay.§

(3) The *mantra* or religious formula of the sects must be repeated five times a day as a means of salvation and of obtaining material prosperity.‖

(4) Meat and wine must be abstained from.

(5) Friday must be held sacred and should be spent in religious meditation and discussion.

(6) There is no distinction in the cult between high caste and low, or between Hindus and Mahammadans or Christians. Any

* Further information regarding Hindu sects will be found in H. H. Wilson's "Religious Sects of the Hindus," Mr. Risley's "Tribes and Castes of Bengal," and in the late Jogendra Nath Bhattacharya's "Hindu Castes and Sects."

† The term Bhagawáni does not seem to be wholly confined to the Kartábhajá sect, and it is often used as a synonym for Bhagwat, a name applied to Muhammadans who are under a vow to abstain from meat and fish and may be seen wearing the characteristic necklace of the Bairági. The number of such Muhammadans is small but they are occasionally to be met with both in Bengal and in Bihar.

‡ These have been collected and printed. They are known as the Bháber Git.

§ The Maháshay is usually the member of the sect to whom the convert owes his conversion. A Maháshay is expected to be thoroughly well acquainted with the Bháber Git, to attend the religious festivals at Ghoshpara where he must present his own and his disciples' contributions, and to be able to promote the spiritual, and still more the material welfare of his own disciples, *e.g.* by healing their diseases.

‖ The Mantra is as follows:—The great lord Aulia (Aul Chánd) is lord of all I move according to your pleasure. I do not live apart from you but am always with you, Oh great Lord!

one, whatever his caste or race or creed, can not only become a member of the sect, but can also obtain high rank in it. It has happened more than once that a Muhammadan or a low caste Hindu has become the spiritual guide or Mahásháy of a Bráhman. No outward sign of adherence to the sect is required. A Bráhman may keep his sacred thread and a Muhammadan is not required to shave his beard. It is only in their intercourse with each other at religious meetings that social and racial distinctions are ignored.* In their dealings with the people of the outside world or Aihika the Kartábhajás observe the ordinary social restrictions. And even with other Kartábhajás the usual rules in respect of marriage are not relaxed; a Hindu of one caste would never give his daughter to anyone but a member of his own caste.

335. It is said that the Muhammadan Kartábhajás do not circumcise their male children, nor enter the mosque, nor listen to the preaching of the Maulavis; they do not even believe in the Korán, and the only point in respect of which they still follow Muhammadan practice is that they bury their dead, and do not cremate them. According to a Hindu writer† the exhibition of fervid love is the only form of religious exercise practised by the Kartábhajás. At their secret nocturnal meetings they sing some songs regarding Ául Chánd, Krishna or Gauránga as a cloak for familiarities that cannot be described.

There are four annual festivals when the votaries assemble at Ghoshpara in large numbers. The chief is the Dol Játrá when from fifteen to twenty thousand persons collect together. The principal spots visited by them are the Samájghar where the first Kartá's wife lies buried, the Dalimtalá or spot where the second Kartá's body was placed on the way to the burning *ghát*, where a fine pomegranate tree immediately sprang up, and the Him Ságar or tank consecrated to Rám Dulál by a former Mahárájá of Burdwan. This tank is said to possess wonderful properties and immersion in it is supposed to cure various diseases and deformities. At the Samájghar and Dalimtalá also, valuable hints are communicated in some occult fashion to persons suffering from incurable diseases or seeking the fulfilment of their desires. With this object offerings called *mánasik* (chiefly money) are made by the devotees. The Kartá for the time being is also supposed to work miraculous cures.

The census yields no information as to the number of persons following this sect. The great majority entered their religion as Hindu or Muhammadan as the case might be. In the Jessore district only a few persons, as noted in the margin, returned their religion as Kartábhajá or Bhagawáni. Having regard to the entries in the caste column, these have been classed in the census tables as Muhammadans, and it is reported that they are still generally regarded as belonging to this religion. In point of fact this is not the case, but there was no object in showing separately the few who described themselves as Kartábhajá, when the great majority of the persons belonging to the sect were otherwise returned.

Religion.	Caste.	Number.
Kartábhajá Bhagawáni ...	Shekh ...	44
	Jolábá ...	6
Kartábhajá ...	Bhagawáni ...	
Ditto ...	Bhagawáni ...	24
Ditto ...	Shekh ...	18
Ditto ...	Jolábá ...	108
Bhagawáni ...	Shekh ...	8
	Total ...	208

336. The sects founded by Kabir and Nának are too well known to need detailed description. Kabir was one of the twelve disciples of Rámánand, and preached about the end of the fourteenth century. He was a weaver by caste or, as some say, the son of a Bráhman widow who was brought up by weavers. He endeavoured to build up a religion that would embrace Hindu and Muhammadan alike. The foundation stone of his creed was that there is only one God, that the God of the Hindus is God also of the Muhammadans and that he may be invoked either as Áli or as Rám. On his death both Hindus and Muhammadans claimed his body, the Hindus in order to burn and the Muhammadans to bury, it.

KABIRPANTHIS AND NÁNAKSHÁHIS.

* They have secret signs by which they can recognise each other.
† Jogendra Náth Bháttacharya.

(3) Garáia and Káláia (said to be Kártika and Ganesh).
(4) Sángramá, the deity presiding over the Himalayas.
(5) Lámprá or Khabli, the god who rules the sky and ocean.
(6) Burásá, the forest deity. He is old and carries a mace; his home is in the woods.
(7) Burásá's son, the god of death (Yama).
(8) Báni Ráo and Thunai Rao.
(9) Maimungma* the goddess of paddy and wife of Thunai (said to be Lakshmi).
(10) Khulungma,* the goddess of cotton.
(11) Burhirak, seven goddesses, six of whom are married to Báni; the seventh is a virgin. They preside over witchcraft.

Of the above, numbers (6), (7), and (11) are malignant; the others are all benevolent. Lámprá is worshipped with offerings of sun-dried (*Atap*) rice. To Matáikatar and Sángramá goats are sacrificed, and to the others offerings are made of fowls, ducks, pigeons, swine and spirits. The family gods of the Tipárá kings are known as the Chauddha Debatá—the fourteen Gods. They include Tuima, Lámprá and Burásá; the rest are ordinary Hindu deities. The worship is conducted not by Bráhmans but by the tribal Ocháis. The head priest of the shrine is called the Chantái; and his assistants are Náráyans and Gálims. Goats and buffaloes are sacrificed at the shrine. In former times human beings also were immolated and several veritable holocausts are recorded in the Rájmálá or chronicles of the Tipárá kings.†

The chief festivals are five in number. At the beginning of the Hindu year Garáia and Káláia are adored. Tuimá is worshipped in Agraháyan; a white cotton thread is stretched from the nearest river *ghát* to her shrine in the village, and this no one may cross. After the harvest has been gathered, two young girls are dressed up to personate the goddesses of paddy and cotton. They are richly clad and decorated with flowers and ornaments, and after they have been given a princely repast, a pig is sacrificed before them. Lastly, in Ashár there are two festivals in honour of the fourteen gods at intervals of a fortnight. On both occasions numerous goats are immolated, and work of all kind is strictly tabooed.

POPULAR FORMS OF BELIEF.

341. In the introduction to his book on the Popular Religion and Folklore of Northern India, Mr. Crooke writes:—

"The general term for the great gods of Hinduism, the Supreme triad—Brahma, Vishnu and Siva—and other deities of the higher class which collectively constitute the Hindu official Pantheon is Deva or 'the Shining ones.' They are the deities of the richer or higher classes, and to the ordinary peasant of Northern India these great gods are little more than a name. He will, it is true, occasionally bow at their shrines; he will pour some water or lay some flowers on the image or fetish stones which are the special resting places of these divinities or represent the productive powers of Nature. But from time immemorial, when Brahmanism had not as yet succeeded in occupying the land, his allegiance was bestowed on a class of deities of a much lower and more primitive kind. Their inferiority in rank to the greater gods is marked in their title. They are called 'devata' or 'godlings,' not 'gods.'"

Taking Mr. Crooke's book as my model I have instituted enquiries on the same lines in Bengal. I began by drawing up a brief note on the subject based on such information as was already available in Mr. Risley's book on the "Tribes and Castes of Bengal," and elsewhere and circulated this as a basis for further research. I have received an excellent series of reports from the gentlemen who undertook the enquiry in different parts of the province, but want of time prevents me from dealing with them at any length here, and it must suffice to indicate very briefly the different forms of popular religion common amongst the masses of the people in different parts of the province. So far as I have been able to digest the material collected, the minor deities, or godlings, may be grouped under the following heads:—

(1) Godlings of nature.
(2) Godlings of disease.
(3) Snake godlings.

* *Mai* means paddy, and *khul* cotton.
† An account of this interesting Vansávali was given by the Rev. J. Long in the J.A.S.B. Vol. XIX, page 533.

(4) Deified heroes or the sainted dead.
(5) Malevolent spirits and ghosts
(6) Aboriginal deities now identified with Káli or other members of the orthodox Pantheon.
(7) Other aboriginal objects of worship.
(8) The Grámya devatá and spirits of the sacred grove.

Godlings of Nature.

342. Amongst the godlings of Nature the Sun, Surjya or Graharáj (king of the planets), takes the first place. The Sun god was one of the great deities in Vedic times, but he has now fallen to the rank of a godling. At the same time he is still widely worshipped, especially in Bihar and amongst some of the Dravidian tribes of Chota Nagpur. There are temples in his honour at various places, notably at Kanárk near Puri and at Gaya.* Amongst his smaller temples may be mentioned one at Amarkund near Berhampore in the Murshidabad district where he is worshipped as Gangáditya and is represented by an equestrian image made of stone. In Cuttack the visible representation is a circle painted red. In Mymensingh he is represented as a being with two hands of a dark red colour mounted in a chariot drawn by seven horses. The higher castes worship him daily while bathing and a libation of water (*arghya*) is made in his honour before other gods and goddesses are worshipped. The *Gáyatri* or sacred verse, which each Bráhman must recite daily, is dedicated to him. Sunday is sacred to him, and on that day many abstain from eating fish or flesh; in some districts salt also is abstained from. The Sundays in the month of Kártik are specially set aside for his worship in Bihar and parts of Bengal. The great festival in his honour, known as the *Chhat Pujá*, is held on the 6th day of the light half of Kártik when the people gather at a river or pool and offer libations to the setting sun, and repeat the ceremony on the following morning. They also make offerings of white flowers, sandal paste, betel-nut, rice, milk, plantains, &c. Bráhman priests are not employed, but an elderly member of the family, usually a female, conducts the worship. Even Muhammadans join in the *Chhat Pujá*. In Eastern Bengal the Sundays of Baisákh (occasionally Mágh) are held sacred, and low caste women spend the whole day wandering about in the sun carrying on the head a basket containing plantains, sugar and their offerings. On the last Sunday of Baisákh the *pujá* is performed, and a Bráhman priest officiates. In Noakhali widows stand on one leg facing the sun the whole day. In Mymensingh unmarried girls worship the Sun in Magh, in the hopes of obtaining a good husband and, so it is said, a satisfactory mother-in-law. In Puri, Hindu women desirous of obtaining male offspring worship him on the second day after the new moon in Ásin. The Sun is often credited with healing powers in all sorts of disease, such as asthma, consumption, skin diseases, white leprosy and severe headaches.

THE SUN.

343. The Sun is a male deity, but in Rajshahi he has a female counterpart called Chhatmátá, who is worshipped, chiefly by females, on the sixth day of Kártik and Chaitra. On the previous day the devotee takes only rice or wheat cooked in milk without salt, and on the day of the ceremony she fasts till evening, when she goes to a tank with plantains and cakes, and bathes facing the setting sun. She then returns home, keeps vigil throughout the night and repeats the ceremony in the morning. The offerings are then eaten by the worshipper and her friends.

In Chota Nagpur the sun holds a very high place in the primitive beliefs of the aboriginal tribes. The Oráons identify him with Dharmesh, the supreme lord of all, and worship him twice a year, and also at weddings. He holds an equally exalted position under the name Singbonga amongst the Mundas, Bhumijs and Hos, who worship him with offerings of fowls and country liquor, and amongst whom the most binding oath commences with the statement "the Sun God is in the sky." The Háris in Birbhum sacrifice a goat to the Sun on the Sunday following the new moon in Fálgun.

* The most celebrated temple is at Ajodhya in the United Provinces.

344. The earth is venerated as the mother of all living things and the giver of all food, and is regarded as a benignant female deity. She has various names such as Bhudebí (the earth goddess), Basundhara (the wealth bearer), Dhartí Mái (mother earth), Ambubáchí and Basumatí Thákuráni. She is held in great reverence by all, and pious Hindus chant her *mantras* (*Ásan suddhi*) before commencing the worship of any great god, and do reverence to her when they rise in the morning. The dying man is frequently laid on the ground, and so is the mother at the time of parturition. Newly married couples must sleep on the earth for the first three nights. When a calf is born the Goálás allow the first stream of milk from the cow to fall to the ground in her honour. The earth is often worshipped before entering a newly-built house and on the birth of a child. In Orissa she is worshipped in the course of the marriage ceremony. Before sowing is commenced she is propitiated with offerings of flowers and milk, while the Lepchas and the tribes of the Chota Nagpur Plateau offer sacrifices of goats and fowls. The great festival in connection with the worship of the earth is in Áshár. On the first day of that month she is supposed to menstruate, and there is an entire cessation of all ploughing, sowing and other agricultural operations, and widows refrain from eating cooked rice. On the 4th day the bathing ceremony is performed, in accordance with the Hindu idea that a woman who menstruates is unclean until she bathes on the 4th day. A stone, taken to represent the goddess, is placed erect on the ground and the top of it is painted with vermilion. The housewife bathes it with turmeric water and a betel-nut is placed on a piece of wood close by. The stone is then bedecked with flowers and offerings of milk, plantains, etc., are made. The Chandáls worship the earth on the Paus Sankránti day; and in the spring, when the *Sál* tree blossoms, the Oráons celebrate her nuptials with the Sun with all the ceremonies of a real marriage. The Musahars, Bhuiyás and other low castes offer sacrifices of goats and fowls. In former times the Kandhs immolated human beings to fertilise the earth and procure good crops.

THE EARTH.

345. The moon is held to be as a male deity of a very mild disposition. He is depicted as a handsome man with a wheat coloured complexion. He is often regarded as the deity who presides over crops, while elsewhere he takes charge of the education of children, and is credited with the power to heal wounds and certain diseases, especially those of the eye. The date for his worship varies and in many places it is performed only by women. There is a very general superstition that, if any one but a worshipper should happen to see the moon on the day fixed for his worship, they will suffer a loss of reputation. To prevent worse from happening, a person who unluckily sees the moon on such an occasion takes up five stones and, after touching his forehead with them, throws them on his neighbour's roof. If the latter then abuses him, it is believed that atonement has been made, and that no further evil will result. Sometimes a special ceremony called *Chandráyan brat* is performed to avert evils arising from an ill-omened conjunction of stars shown in a child's horoscope. The moon is also worshipped by some of the non-Aryan tribes, *e.g.*, the Binjhiás who know it as Nind-Bonga.

THE MOON.

346. Besides the earth and the moon, the other planets are also worshipped on certain occasions, but with less ceremony. The most important are Sani (Saturn) and Ráhu, the demon who causes eclipses of the sun.* Sani is regarded as the son of Surjya, and is supposed to be very malevolent and to have great influence over the destiny of men. He is much dreaded and is carefully propitiated, either on Saturdays or on particular occasions when astrological calculations indicate that a visitation from him is to be specially feared. He has no image but is represented by an earthen pot filled with water. A seat is placed in front of it and on it are laid five fruits and five flowers. A Bráhman priest officiates at the ceremony, and the *prasád* or offering, which consists of a sort of pudding made of flour, plantains, sugar and milk, must be eaten on the spot by the devotees, who must wash their mouths carefully

OTHER PLANETS.

* Eclipses of the moon are said to be caused by another demon, Ketu.

before leaving. If any casual visitor should arrive while the ceremony is in progress, he must wait till it is concluded and eat a share of the *prasád*; otherwise he will incur the godling's displeasure. Ráhu is generally considered to be a Rákshasa and is the patron godling of the Dosádhs who claim to be his descendants. They worship him on a Tuesday in Baisákh or Jaishta, without the intervention of a Bráhman, with the aid of a caste priest or Bhagta who, under the imagined influence of the divine afflatus, walks barefoot over fire, stands on the sharp edge of a sword, and does other wonderful feats.

347. Numerous rivers are sacred, but the greatest of all is the personified Ganges who is said to have sprung from the feet of Vishnu. She is a benignant deity, said by some to be the wife of Siva, and worshipped daily, and also on the occasion of certain ceremonies. Low caste Hindus throw offerings of fruits and sweets into the river when bathing, and its water is believed to be so sacred that to touch it will purify any one. It has special virtue on the occurrence of certain *yogas* or auspicious conjunctions of the planets, when large crowds assemble on its banks in order to wash and be clean. Goats are sacrificed on these occasions, and in some parts they are thrown alive into the river, whence they are taken and eaten by the Mallâhs. Other offerings are the perquisite of a special class of degraded Bráhmans known as Gangáputra. Sometimes the goddess is represented by a simple earthen jug filled with water and surmounted by a mango twig, and sometimes as a female figure with four hands, riding on a *makar*, or fabulous marine monster like a shark. In this form she is worshipped by the fishing castes of Bengal Proper who sacrifice white goats to her before starting on a fishing expedition, and also on some special occasion, the date of which varies.* Pilgrims at Gaya offer their first *pinda* (rice cake) to her in the name of their deceased ancestors. In the Sonthal Parganas a woman worships her on the 6th and 12th days after giving birth to a child. She goes to a river or pond and pours oil on a slab of stone, on which she then draws five perpendicular lines and prays for entire restoration to health. Certain ascetics perform a special penance in her honour called *jalsáin*, which consists in spending every night in the month of Mágh seated stark naked on a small platform erected over the river, engaged in such prayer and meditation as their sufferings from the cold will allow. The town of Tribeni in Hooghly is held to be specially holy, because the three sacred streams—the Ganges, Jamuna and Saraswati—which meet at Allahabad here once more separate from each other.

Rivers.

348. The Brahmaputra is sacred only on the Ashokáshtamì day in Chaitra when large numbers of pilgrims resort to its banks to bathe. The Baitarani in Cuttack is held in great reverence by all Hindus on account of its bearing the same name as the Indian Styx, which all must cross after death before they can reach heaven. Pilgrims to Jagannáth worship on its banks and make offerings of cows, etc., to Bráhmans, so that they may safely cross the river after death. In Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga the Kamalá is worshipped as the younger sister of the Ganges, and receives similar offerings of goats, which are thrown alive into the river and are then taken by the Mallâhs. Women pray to this river goddess for issue, and she is worshipped when new tanks or wells are excavated. Children are taken to its banks when their heads are first shaved. Various other rivers are sacred, *e.g.*, the Karátoyá, the Dámodar, the Falgu, the Barali, &c. There are also several water godlings who are worshipped without reference to any special river. Of these two of the best known, Khwája Khir and Pir Badr, are Muhammadans and have already been mentioned. The Chandâls of Central Bengal worship a river god called Bansura who is supposed to protect fish from injury by evil spirits. Koilá Mátá of Bihar is usually supposed to be a goddess, but it is sometimes held to be a male called Koilá Bábá and identified with Varuna. When wells are excavated, a male idol is made of wood and a ceremony of marriage between it and the goddess is performed. In the form of Koilá Bábá this is the favourite deity of the Gonrhis who regard him as an old, gray-bearded person and make him offerings of grain and molasses before casting a new net or starting on a commercial venture. Pigs are also sacrificed to him. The Koches

* In Dacca this festival takes place in Magh and in Backergunge on the 10th day of the new moon in Jaishta.

and Rájbansis venerate Hudum Deo who is identified with Indra and is represented as riding on a white elephant called Airábat. In Dinajpur this godling seems to be androgynous and is represented by two figures, male and female, made of clay or cowdung. When drought is feared the women make offerings of curds, parched rice and molasses and dance round the images at night, performing many obscene rites and abusing Indra in the foulest language, in the hope of compelling him to send the much needed rain. Jalkumári Debi is a goddess who is believed in Murshidabad to preside over rivers and tanks, and is worshipped by the fishing and other low castes to secure immunity from drowning and from the attacks of crocodiles. A stick is placed in a bowl of water and offerings are made of fruits, sweetmeats and goats, which are divided between the worshippers and the priest, who is frequently a Barna Bráhman. Mineral springs (*Dawáipáni*) are adored by the Lepchas. The hot springs at Rájgir are also supposed to possess religious efficacy and pilgrims from far and near go to bathe in them.

MOUNTAINS.

349. The worship of mountains is most common amongst the original tribes. The Mundas, Santáls, Mahilis and other tribes of Chota Nagpur revere a mountain god called Marang Buru or Bar Pahár to whom they sacrifice buffaloes, etc., with the aid of the tribal priest (*páhn or baiga*).

The chief visible habitation of this god is a bluff near Lodhma where they assemble and offer sacrifices. The Lepchas and the Nepal tribes worship mountains, mountain tops and the saddles between ridges. The worship of mountains plays a smaller part in the religion of the plains people but it is not altogether absent. The mighty chain of the Himalayas is held sacred by all Hindus and is worshipped by the higher castes on certain occasions, with the aid of Bráhman priests. It is personified as the father of Párvati, the wife of Siva; it contains the elysium of Uttara Kuru and is celebrated as the abode of many a sage and ascetic. Sacrifices are offered to the bluff near Lodhma referred to above by Hindus of all castes and even by Muhammadans. The rock called Dharmasilá at Gaya, which is supposed to have been placed there by Bráhma to hold down Gayásur, the local demon, is also regarded as sacred.

TREES.

350. The most sacred of all trees is the Pipal (*ficus religiosa*). It is said that the trunk is the habitation of Brahma, the twigs of Siva and the leaves of the other gods. It is known as Basudeva and water is poured at its foot after the morning bath, especially in the month of Baisákh and when people are in difficulties. It is considered very meritorious to plant these trees by the way side and to consecrate them* (*Pratisthá*). The *Bel* (*aegle marmelos*) is the sacred tree of Siva; its leaves are indispensable in performing the worship of Siva and Sakti, and for this reason pious Hindus of the Vaishnava sect will not so much as mention its name. When the tree dies, none but Bráhmans may use the wood as fuel. It is believed to be a favourite tree with certain spirits who take up their abode in it. The *Tulsi*, or holy basil plant, is to the Vaishnava what the *Bel* is to the Sákta, and the plant is to be seen in the courtyard of all members of this sect. It is watered after the daily bath, and in Baisákh a pot filled with water, which drips though a hole in the bottom, is suspended over the plant. In the evening a lamp is lit at its foot. Hari is believed to be always present in it. Its leaves are essential for the proper worship of Vishnu. They are believed to have a certain medicinal effect in the case of malarial affections and are much used by native practitioners. The *Karam* tree (*neuclea parvifolia*) is considered sacred in Chota Nagpur, and its festival is held by the Oráons with great rejoicings at the time of the harvest home. A branch of the tree is fetched from the forest by the young men and women of the village, to the accompaniment of singing, dancing and the beating of *tom toms*. It is stuck in the ground at some place inside the village and decorated with lights and flowers. The people join in a general feast and, when they have eaten and drunk, they spend the night in merriment and in dancing round the branch. Next morning at dawn it is thrown into the nearest river, and the spirit of evil is believed to be removed with it.† The aboriginal immigrants to Bogra from Chota Nagpur pay similar veneration to the plantain tree after reaping the *áus* crop. Goats

* In many parts the planting of mango trees is regarded as an act of religious merit, and the planter of such a tree is believed to be assured of a home in heaven so long as rain drips from its leaves.

† A fuller account of a similar observance by the Kharwárs of Mirzapur is given by Mr. Crooke.

and pigs are sacrificed to it. The bamboo is worshipped before weddings, and after the ceremony, the bridal garland is thrown into a bamboo clump.

Godlings of Disease.

351. Various godlings such as Surjya, Dharmaráj, &c., are credited with the power to cure disease, but under this head I shall refer only to those whose connection with disease is specially intimate. Of these the best known and most widely worshipped is Sitalá who is also known as Basanta Burhí (the old lady of spring) or Basanta Chandí. She is popularly regarded as one of seven sisters who are variously said to be the seven forms of Ádi Sakti, the primordial energy, or the seven principal Yoginís or followers of Párvati. However this may be, she and her six associates, Bádi Mátá, Phul Mátá, Pánsáhi Mátá, Gulsuliá Mátá, Kankar Mátá, and Malhál are the presiding deities over the poxes and especially small-pox. Kankar is the most feared, but her attacks are rare; Phulmátá and Pánsáhi Mátá attack children under 7; Bádi Mátá attacks them between the ages of 7 and 15, and Gulsuliá Mátá, at any age. In many places a shed is erected outside the village for the seven sisters, who are represented by seven balls of clay placed in a line. Sweetmeats, flowers, etc., are offered, and goats and pigeons are sacrificed by the better, and pigs by the lower, castes. In the event of a severe epidemic, even the high castes offer pigs to the seven sisters, but they employ Dosádhs or other people of low caste to perform the actual ceremony. It is generally conducted by females. Chamárs worship the seven sisters, not for protection against epidemics, but to obtain the spread of cattle disease.

Sitala and the seven Sisters.

352. But although the seven sisters are thus collectively worshipped, they are, at the present day, overshadowed by the special veneration paid to Sitalá in particular. She is generally regarded as the goddess of small-pox, and her name, 'she who cools', is given because, if properly propitiated, she can allay the burning sensations which accompany that disease. She is generally represented as a naked female, painted red and sitting upon an ass, with a bundle of broomsticks (symbolical of the sweeping away of the epidemic) in her hand, an earthen pot under her left arm, and a winnowing fan upon her head. In Burdwan she is said to be a four-armed figure riding on a lion. Sometimes the image is a piece of wood or stone with a human face carved on it, besmeared with oil and vermilion and studded with spots or nails of gold, silver or brass in imitation of the pustules of the disease. In Jessore and Noakhali she takes the form assigned to her in the *Puráns* of a white figure in a state of perfect nudity, while in Orissa and Champaran she is represented by an earthen pot. In Khulna she is regarded by the Pods, not merely as the goddess of small-pox, but as their main deity, and if a person is carried off by a tiger, or his crops are destroyed by wild animals, it is thought that it is because he has incurred the displeasure of the goddess. Elsewhere she is worshipped only when epidemics of small-pox or measles (and sometimes cholera) break out or when children are inoculated or vaccinated. Sometimes the image remains in a special temple, and sometimes it is kept by Muchis, Doms and Háris, who serve as its priests and carry it about begging, or by Áchárji Bráhmans, or by Kumhárs whose ancestors were inoculators. When the higher castes worship Sitalá, they do so with the aid of a Bráhman priest.

353. The offerings consist of milk, flowers, fruits, sweets, rice, betel-nuts, vermilion, *bel* leaves, etc., and sometimes a goat. The priest usually takes the offerings, except when it is a goat, in which case he gets only the head. When an offering is made in order to procure the restoration of a particular person to health, it is often thrown away and not eaten. The general method of worship, in which Muhammadans often join, is the same as that of Olái Chandí which will be described below, but in the case of the lower castes, such as Doms, Háris, Bágdis and Muchis, one of the devotees sits before the idol, wagging his head, until he is inspired to say what is the cause of the outbreak and how the deity is to be propitiated and persuaded to stamp it out. The Áchárji Bráhmans profess to treat cases of small-pox, but they do little beyond reciting *mantras* and touching the patient with a twig of the *nim* (*azidirachta indica*) which is Sitala's favourite tree. In Patna a small piece of ground near the patient's bed in smeared with cow-dung and a fire is lit there, on which

ghí is poured and incense burnt. A Máli is called in who sings songs in honour of Sitalá, while the patient is given sweetmeats and fanned with a twig of the *nim* tree.

Low class Hindus and Muhammadans are often afraid to have their children vaccinated lest they should incur the wrath of this godling. In parts of Northern and Eastern Bengal the Basantí or Basantárí pujá is celebrated with some pomp. On the advent of spring, parties of women go from door to door singing songs of Sitalá and begging for money to perform the ceremony. They then assemble at the appointed place with offerings of grain, wild flowers and the like. The worship is performed by the women alone, and they subsequently partake of the food in common, regardless of caste restrictions.

354. Ghantákarna is the husband of Sitalá. He was a great hero and a devoted follower of Siva by whom he was vested with the power to cure cutaneous diseases. He is worshipped in the early morning of the last day of Fálgun, when a representation is made of him with cowdung on the outside of a blackened earthen pot. A few cowris, and a piece of cloth stained yellow with turmeric, are placed on this and everything is then ready for the pujá which takes place on the road in front of the house, and is conducted by the housewife, who covers the image with *ghetu* flowers which she arranges with her left hand. The offerings consist of rice and *dál*. After the ceremony the village urchins break the pot to pieces. This godling has been reported only from Bengal Proper and Orissa, but he is probably known in Bihar also. He is mentioned by Mr. Crooke as a gate-keeper in many of the Garhwál temples.

GHANTÁKARNA.

355. The goddess of cholera in Bengal Proper is known as Olá Bibi or Oláí Chandí. She is claimed as their own by Muhammadans as well as Hindus. The latter often regard her as a form of Chandí, who again is merely a form of Káli. She is malevolent. Sometimes she is represented as wearing a gown and riding on a horse, but usually the emblem consists of an earthen pitcher placed under a *nim* tree. The priest is generally a Muhammadan or a low caste Hindu, but in Hooghly he is often a Goálá's Bráhman. The *pujá* is usually made on a Tuesday or Saturday during the bright fortnight of the moon; the offerings are various, but a goat appears to be the favourite one.

OLÁ BIBI.

356. In Bengal Proper several forms of Kálí are credited with special powers over epidemics. The chief of these is Rakshya Kálí. She has the usual form of Kálí, and when an epidemic breaks out, she is worshipped at midnight by all castes of Hindus, usually at a place where three roads meet. Sometimes she is worshipped at a burning *ghát* and is then known as Shashan Kálí. In the latter form she is sometimes adored at a thanksgiving service after the harvest when the crops have been unusually good. Another form of Kálí as a disease godling is Marak, who is worshipped in Bogra on the bank of a river. Bráhmans officiate as priests, and the ceremony is conducted with the most scrupulous care; any deviation from the prescribed rites is believed to cause great offence to the goddess. On the night following the ceremony the image is thrown into water. The offerings consist of buffaloes, goats, sheep, rice, flowers, fruit, *bel* leaves, sweetmeats, etc. They are afterwards divided between the priest and the worshippers. Poor people who cannot afford the regular ceremony lay their offerings at the foot of a pipal or banyan tree,* preferably on the last day of Paus or the first day of Baisákh. In former times human beings were frequently sacrificed to Kálí.†

RAKSHYA KÁLÍ.

357. A local godling named Achal Ráy is reported from Hooghly where he is reputed to effect miraculous cures in cases of phthisis and ophthalmia. His shrine is near

ACHAL RÁY.

* These trees are known as Káli gáchh.

† In this connection a curious practice called *Khappar* may be mentioned, which exists in parts of Bihar. When an epidemic of cholera or small-pox breaks out, the local exorcists march out in the direction of Káli's shrine in Calcutta, followed by the villagers carrying four or five new earthen pots in which incense is kept burning. As they go, they keep on shouting 'Káli mái ki jai' and invoking the goddess by her various names. A sheep, dedicated to the goddess, often accompanies the procession. They beg grain from the villagers whose houses they pass and leave this and the other articles in some adjoining village, the people of which carry them on in their turn. Few if any, of the original procession reach Calcutta. The sheep, it is said, is killed and eaten by some of the lower classes.

Dhaniakháli where a fair is held in his honour on the full moon day of Baisákh. His image is a block of stone some three feet in length. The priest is a fisherman, and through him all castes, even Bráhmans, make their offerings.

JWARA NÁRÁYAN.

358. Jwara Náráyan, also known as Jwara Bhairab and Jwarásur, is the fever godling of Jessore and the surrounding districts. He is said to have been specially created by Siva to fight on the side of Bán Rájá, when appealed to by that monarch, for help against Krishna's invading army. His image is of a sky-blue colour, with three heads, three feet, six hands, and nine eyes. He is worshipped mainly by the lower castes, with the aid of a Bráhman priest, when malarial fever is prevalent or when a member of the family recovers from a dangerous illness. Goats are sacrificed, and offerings are made of rice, fruit, milk and sweets. The worship is performed on a Tuesday or Saturday at some place outside the village and the idol is left there afterwards.

JOGINI.

359. The cholera godling of Orissa is called Joginí; but she acts, not on her own account, but under the control of her mistress Bimalá. Consequently when cholera breaks out, it is Bimalá and not Joginí who is ostensibly propitiated with offerings of fruit, sweetmeats and other comestibles. But Joginí is not altogether neglected, and a portion of the *prasád* is carried with beat of drum to a retired spot near the village, where it is left in front of a long bamboo post, driven into the ground and crowned with garlands of flowers, which is supposed to represent her. A Bráhman officiates as priest.

DIDI THÁKRUN.

360. There is another cholera godling, also a female, named Didi Thákrun, whose worship seems to be confined to Burdwan. It is said that once, during a cholera epidemic in the village of Ramchandrapur, a woman of the Muchi caste found a glittering white stone in a tank and took it home. That night an old woman appeared to her in a dream, and taught her how to worship the stone and so dispel the disease. She proceeded to carry out her instructions with the desired result, and since then, the worship has been continued. The full moon day of Baisákh is the most suitable day for the ceremony. The priest is a Muchi, but all castes of Hindus, and even Muhammadans, make offerings. The Hindus offer goats, sweetmeats, &c., and the Muhammadans, ducks and cocks.

OTHER DISEASE GODLINGS.

361. There are other disease godlings, but space forbids their complete enumeration. Chaitan Thákuráni is worshipped by Rájbansi women in cases of illness or barrenness. Her picture is painted in black on a pith frame which is hung on a split bamboo inside the house. A plantain leaf with a bunch of plantains is placed below and smeared with oil and vermilion. Flowers, parched-rice, plantains and molasses are offered, and the night is spent fasting in vigil and prayers. Next morning the image is thrown into the water and the offerings are eaten by the family. Háchrá is an old female deity said to preside over contagious diseases in Rajshahi. She is worshipped at the foot of a large tree on the last day in Fálgun, and is offered ashes, cast away rags, hair and other impure articles. A broom is sometimes suspended at the door to avert her evil influence. Chámdá is the chief god of the Málpaháriás, but he is worshipped mainly with the object of averting disease. When an epidemic breaks out, vows are made to worship him, and lots are then cast to decide in whose house, and at whose cost the *pujá*, which is an expensive one, shall take place. Decorated bamboos are set up as his emblem, and pigs, goats and fowls are sacrificed and subsequently eaten. Men only take part in ceremony, and women are not allowed to be present.

362. Kánáiyá, a male godling of a benignant character, is worshipped in times of disease by the Meches.* A *deoshi* officiates as priest, and prays that the sickness may be stayed; goats and pigeons are sacrificed. Masná a son of Burhi, is a malignant godling of the Koches and Rájbansis and most diseases, and even lunacy and drowning, are ascribed to his malign influence. His image, which is made of pith or clay, is that of a hideous black dwarf, and he is believed to reside in water. His *pujá* is conducted at

* Query—Is this the same as Káláia of the Tipárás ?

dead of night and even Muhammadans join in it. Red flowers, vermilion, rice, plantains, fruit and fried fish are offered and then thrown into water. Small coins are also given. Pigeons are sacrificed by Hindus, and fowls by Muhammadans; these are the perquisite of the Háris, who beat the drum during the ceremony. When it is over, the image is carried to three crossroads and left there with the idea that the evil spirit will then move on to another village. Rám-du is the small-pox godling of the Lepchas, and in Patna Amasam Bibi, who is believed to be a deified lady doctor, is invoked to assist in the recovery of convalescents. Kási Bábá, who will be described more fully further on, is the malevolent spirit which, in some parts, is supposed to send disease amongst cattle. He is sometimes identified with Gosáwán. In Rajshahi the corresponding godling is a female named Bhogeswari. Abgay Bonga is the Santál deity who dwells in the cowshed and is worshipped when cattle disease breaks out. A Naiya acts as priest and sacrifices a hen or a goat, taking the head as his share while the body goes to the worshipper.

Snake godlings.

MANASÁ.

363. Of all the snake godlings, Manasá, in Bengal Proper at least, holds the foremost place. She is said to be the mother of Ástik Muni, the sister of the snake king Vásuki and the wife of Jarat Káru Muni, but some say she is the non-Aryan mortal Manasá who has found her way into the Hindu pantheon. She is also known as Bishahari* and is worshipped by Hindus of all castes in order to secure immunity from snake bite. She is benignant, if properly propitiated, but if neglected, or if the ceremony in her honour is not performed with strict observance of rule, it is said that some one in the family is certain to die of snake bite. She is worshipped in various forms. Sometimes a simple earthen pot is marked with vermilion and placed under a tree, where clay snakes are arranged round it and a trident is driven into the ground; sometimes the plant called after her is taken as her emblem, and sometimes an image of a small four-armed female of yellow colour, her feet resting on a goose, a cobra in each hand and a tiara of snakes upon her head. Sometimes she is believed to take up her abode in the pipal tree. In places where snakes abound, most families have a shrine dedicated to her in their homes, and sometimes a separate room is set apart for her. On the *Dasahará* day a twig of the *Manasá* plant (*Euphorbia ligularia*) is planted in the courtyard and worshipped on the fifth day of the moon, the *Nágpanchami* day. It is thrown into the water when the image of Durgá is immersed at the Durgá Pujá. Manasá is also worshipped on the last day of the solar monthsof Srában and Bhádra. Songs about the goddess are sung, especially those recounting her dealings with Chánd Sadágar, a merchant of Gandhabanik caste,† which are said to be based on a legend found in the *Padma Purán*. Amongst the higher castes the worship is performed by Bráhmans, but the Háris, Báuris and Doms perform the ceremony themselves. In Birbhum a Bágdi or Dom priest, called Dharam pandit, sometimes professes to be inspired by the goddess, and foretells future events and prescribes medicines to those who consult him. In Dinajpur Mális and Ojhás of the Koch tribe act as priests. It is a common practice to draw a line round the house with cowdung to represent a snake, the idea being other snakes will thus be prevented from entering.

OTHER SNAKE GODLINGS.

364. Manasá has a sister named Jagat Gauri who, in West Bengal, is also credited with power over cobras and other snakes. She is shown as seated on a throne, with a child on her lap. At her shrine at Narikeldanga a Barna Bráhman officiates in her worship, except in the case of Doms and Háris who sacrifice pigs to her. From the fact that the Hindus do not object to this practice so long as the animal is slaughtered behind the altar, and not in front of it, it may be surmised that the control of the shrine has only recently been usurped by its present priest. A fair is held in her honour on the fifth day of the

* In the Padma Puran this is said to be the case, but the two are not always thought to be identical.

† Mahámahopádhyáya Hara Prasad Sastri has shown that Manasá worship was very prevalent in the time of Chaitanya, and has brought to light a Bengali poem on the subject, written by one Bipra Dás, in 1495 A. D.

moon in the month of Jaishta. Nág is credited in Bihar with much the same powers as Manasá is believed to posses in Bengal Proper, but he occupies a less prominent position and his worship is a simpler scale. On the *Nág-panchami* day some milk and parched rice are placed near the door of the kitchen which is closed for a few hours. A line is then drawn round the house with cowdung, and the offerings are given to the children to eat.

Ananta Deb is regarded in Bengal Proper as a benignant deity who confers various temporal benefits, but in Orissa he is looked on as the king of snakes and is worshipped on the 14th day of Bhádra for 14 years in succession.* If a man dies before he has completed the fourteenth year of the worship, his son is obliged to continue it on his behalf. He is represented by a figure of a snake made of silver or copper with fourteen knots along the body. In Rajshahi, he is figured as a man seated on an elephant with an umbrella over his head.

The snake god of the Lepchas is named Ami. He is a benignant deity and is believed to watch over the fields and to afflict paddy thieves with aches and swellings.

Deified Heroes.

365. Goreiyá or Dilligoria is a male hero of Dosádh origin. He is said by some to have been a bandit chief. In the songs sung in his honour, he is spoken of as a great warrior who came with a few followers from Delhi, many hundred years ago, and died fighting at Mehnawan near Sherpur, in the Patna district, where his chief shrine still is. He has another great shrine at Goreiyá village in Saran. He is worshipped throughout Bihar by all Hindus, especially by the Dosádh, Dom, Gonrhi, Kahár, Sunri, and similar castes, but even the highest castes often reckon him as one of their *dii penates*. Numerous representations of him, consisting of stones or little mounds of earth daubed with vermilion, may be seen in most Bihar villages. These are usually placed near the entrance of the house or in the kitchen to ward off diseases and evil spirits.

GOREIYÁ.

When a man returns home from a distant place his first care is to pay his respects to this godling, and to offer him sherbet and food. His favourite sacrificial offering is the pig. It is sometimes sacrificed by a Dosádh or Gorait *i.e.*, priest of Goreiyá, and sometimes it is thrown into a fire whence it escapes, to be immediately caught, killed and eaten by the Dosádhs.

In Rajshahi there are said to be two Goreiyás, one of Delhi and the other of Besarh, and they are held to be of the female sex. But here, as in Bihar, the priest is a Dosádh, and the pig is the most acceptable sacrifice. In Manbhum the priests are usually Kharwárs. In Hazaribagh this godling is represented by a peg driven into the ground near the cowshed, and is believed to preserve cattle from disease.

366. Sailesh, another deified hero of the Dosádhs, is represented by a clay figure of a man, mounted on an elephant, attended by two horsemen, one on each side, and by a flower-girl standing in front. The horsemen are said to be Matirám, his younger brother, and Chuhármál a Dosádh bandit. The images are changed every year in Ásárh and the cost is met by contributions from the whole Dosádh community. On this occasion various offerings are made, including betel-nuts, hemp and tobacco, and a pig is sacrificed to Sailesh and a sheep to Chuhármál. The blood of the sheep, mixed with milk, is drunk by the tribal priest or Bhagatiá who forthwith becomes possessed and endowed with second sight. Large quantities of spirits are consumed by the worshippers, and the attendant musicians sing, as loudly as they can, songs in honour of the hero.

SAILESH.

367. Kárikh, like so many other godlings of this class, was a Dosádh. His father, Yotitáb Pangiai, lived in Nepal. Although very pious he incurred the displeasure of the Sun-god, and was afflicted with leprosy, so retired to a forest where he died. When his son Kárikh grew up, he went in search of him and found the skeleton and, by propitiating the Sun-god, secured his restoration to life. He himself became a staunch Hindu, led a very pious life and was endowed with

KÁRIKH.

* Ananta was Vishnu's favourite snake, which formed his couch (Ananta Shajyá).

miraculous powers. On his death he was deified and a shrine was erected to him at Pandaul. His followers are mostly Goálás and Dosádhs, but there are others also, including Káyasths and Telis. He is worshipped at various festivals, and also when children are first shaved and when disease is prevalent. Milk, sweetmeats, cloths, ornaments, etc., are offered and a goat is sometimes sacrificed. His votaries abstain from alcoholic drinks and never eat flesh on Saturdays or salt on Sundays.

368. Lárik was a Goálá of Bhagalpur who deserted his wife and went off with the daughter of the local chief. He performed prodigies of valour in his encounters with various rájás. After an absence of twelve years he returned to his forsaken wife, but installed his mistress in the neighbourhood.* He is particularly worshipped by people of his own caste but he also occupies a high place in the veneration of all the low castes in the district, who make him offerings of rice and milk in the hopes of recovering lost cattle with his aid. He has a temple at Hardi in the Madhipura subdivision.

Musalman Heroes.

369. It is not necessary that a man should be a Hindu to be worshipped by Hindus after his death, and several of the best known deified heroes are Muhammadans. Alman Sáhib of Hooghly was a Musalman saint whose spirit is now worshipped by Hindus and Muhammadans alike. The dust from his shrine near Boinchi, if rubbed on the body, is said to remove all kinds of rheumatic pains. The present priest of this shrine is a Musalman Fakir, but the post was formerly held by a low caste Hindu. Another godling of this category is Mírá of Darbhanga. His father was a powerful prince whose favourite slave Nujá rebelled against him, and with the aid of Durgá, eventually defeated and imprisoned him. Mírá at the time was still unborn, but when he grew up he marched against Nujá, defeated him and released his father. He offended the great god Dharmaráj by killing a cow in his temple but made timely submission and was forgiven. He is worshipped mainly by the Sunris who offer him *shirnis* through the intervention of a Musalman Fakir. There is one female godling of this class, Aminá Satí, who is generally supposed to have been a Musalman in her lifetime. She is the sister of the *Páuch Pir*. Some of her worshippers endeavour to identify these personages with the five Pandavas and say that Aminá was their wife, but the fact remains that her priest is usually a Muhammadan Dafáli. The Ahirs, Kahárs, Lohárs and other castes of similar rank sacrifice cocks to Aminá, while the better classes offer rice cooked in milk and wheat cakes made with *ghi*.

Other Deified Heroes.

370. Amar Singh was a Rájput who lived near Barh in a village when all the other inhabitants were Mallábs. He was killed by them out of envy, and from that time he haunted them and caused them annoyance in various ways until they promised to worship him. He is now revered throughout Bihar, especially by Gonrhis and Surábiyá's. A goat is sacrificed under a pipal tree, and the head is thrown into some river.

Gobind Raut was a cowherd who valiantly killed many tigers and at his death was deified by the Ahirs. He is invoked when disease attacks the cattle, and milk is offered in his honour. Stone images of him are carried from village to village and his deeds are recited in song, chiefly in the month of Ásvin. Baranda is an Oráon godling who in Palamau is believed to be a female formerly resident in Nagpur, while in Ranchi he is regarded as a malevolent male living in the hills, and always endeavouring to enter a house in order to bring misfortune upon it. Tasteless food is offered in order to drive it away in disgust. In Palamau it is worshipped once in three years after the harvest home. Each family performs its own ceremony at which an aboriginal priest or *baiga* officiates. A she goat is sacrificed after being induced to eat rice from the hand of the priest. It is then cooked and its flesh partaken of by all present, the priest receiving a double share.

There is a good deal of uncertainty about the origin of Kási Bábá and the reasons for his deification. According to some, he was a Bind, while others pretend that he was a Goálá. Some say he was killed by a tiger while hunting in the forest, others that he died in consequence of a Bráhman's curse; and others again, that he committed suicide at his zamindar's door because of the oppression to which he had been subjected. He is now worshipped by Ahirs, Binds,

* The story of Lárik is told at length in a paper by Rásh Bihári Bose, [J.A.S.B., 1871 page 141].

Gareris and Nunias. He is sometimes regarded as a disease godling of cattle, and has already been mentioned in this connection. He is worshipped in Srában or Kártik, in an open field, where milk, wheat, flour and rice are offered to him, and then consumed by the worshippers. The Ahirs make a figure of *Kusa* grass to represent him, while the Binds use a flag flying from the top of a bamboo.

Hálká Debí is believed to have been a Rákshasí, who vexed the early Aryan invaders. They at last succeeded in killing her, and to prevent her from returning to life, they burnt a huge fire over her corpse. In parts of Bihar the occurrence is celebrated yearly on the last day of Fálgun. Fuel is collected from all the houses in the village, and piled up in a place outside the village, where it is set alight and, while it is burning, flowers are thrown into it and the young men go round it singing obscene songs. It is said by some that the celebration marks the departure of the old, and the advent of the new, year; but, if so, it might be expected to take place on the last day of the year, which is not the case. Ráni Dás and Noná Chámáin are revered by the Chamárs,* Dánu Bír by the Kahárs; Jadu Bír by the Barhis, and Shyám Singh by the Doms.

Ghosts and Evil Spirits.

371. There is a general belief—especially amongst the lower castes—that the spirit of a person who dies a painful or violent death, or of a suicide, remains on earth near its old home, and causes all kinds of evil to persons in the neighbourhood who may be unfortunate enough to fall foul of it. The general name for such evil spirits is *Bhut* in the case of males, and *Pretiní* in the case of females. Whenever a person suffers from an illness presenting any unusual features, it is attributed to possession, and a remedy is sought, not in medicine, but in exorcism. The exorcist, or *Ojhá* is believed to have in his power a *bhut* of greater power, and by means of *mantras*, or incantations, he forces his own familiar spirit to drive away the one which is causing the trouble. Sometimes also he resorts to physical force, such as blows with a shoe or a broomstick, applying red pepper and turmeric smoke to the nostrils, etc. In the south of Gaya, a *bhut*, when under proper control, is a valuable possession and a marketable commodity—the usual price being about Rs. 20. When the sale of a *bhut* has been arranged, the *Ojhá* hands over a corked bamboo cylinder which is supposed to contain him. This is taken to the place, usually a tree, where it is intended that he should in future reside; a small ceremony is performed, liquor being poured on the ground, or *pindis* (small mounds) erected in his honour, and the cork is then taken out, whereupon the *bhut* is supposed to take up his abode in the place chosen for him. His function is to watch the crops and guard them from thieves, and if any one should be hardy enough to steal from a field thus guarded, he is certain to be stricken by the *bhut*, and in a few days will sicken and die.

GENERAL CHARACTER OF SPIRITS.

372. Of all male *bhuts* the most dreaded is the Bárhám, or Brahma Daitya, the spirit of a Bráhman who has died a violent death. Such spirits are specially powerful and malicious. Sometimes they are represented as a headless trunk, with the eyes looking from the breast. They are believed to inhabit large trees by the side of a river or in some lonely place, whence they throw stones at travellers and lead them astray on dark nights, and woe betide the unfortunate who should give one of them cause for offence, *e.g.*, by unwittingly felling the tree in which he has taken up his abode, or who was in any way responsible for his death. He can only escape the evil consequences by making the Bárhám his family deity and worshipping him regularly. In Bihar he often becomes the tutelary deity or *Dihwár* of the whole village. The worship is usually performed under the tree, usually a banyan, which he is supposed to frequent. The trunk is painted vermilion and a mound of earth is erected, on which are placed clay figures of horses or elephants, and offerings are made of flowers, betel-nuts and the like. The worship is conducted by a special priest called the Bhaktá, who is not necessarily a Bráhman, and occasionally he

BÁRHÁM.

* A full account of Noná is given in Mr. Crooke's Book on the Popular Religion and Folklore of Northern India.

is inspired by the spirit and utters prophecies, which are implicitly believed in by the devotees. Some Bárhámş are more famous than others, one of the best known being Jaydeb Dube also known as Bhay Haran (fear dispeller) whose shrine is at Dadri Asthan in Monghyr. It is said that some four hundred years ago he cured a Khetauri Rájá, who lived at Dadri, and was in consequence given a grant of land there. This was subsequently resumed by force, whereupon Jaydeb committed suicide, and his spirit at once began to afflict the Rájá. He is now worshipped by Hindus of all classes when suffering from disease, or desirous of male offspring, usually on a Monday; offerings are made of goats, cloth, sweets, milk, fruit, etc., which are taken by the priest, a Bráhman. Another well known Bárhám, Harsa Pandit, hails from the Rajshahi district. He was the priest of a certain Rájá of Chainpur. His house was pulled down by order of the Rání, and the priest in revenge starved himself to death, heaping curses on the Rájá and his family all the while. His spirit has now a seat reserved for him in the palace, where he is daily worshipped, and people go to his shrine from far and near. In Motihari town, Bischha Bárhám has a famous temple, where even Muhammadans make offerings, through the Bráhman priest who presides there. Mahil, who is worshipped as the family deity of the Sukarwar Rájputs, may perhaps be mentioned here, though he is not strictly a Bárhám. A Rájput of this clan, having no offspring, consulted his priest, a Sakaldvipi Bráhman, named Mahil. The latter told him to stand next morning at a certain cross road and to behead the first person whom he might meet. To his horror and surprise Mahil himself appeared. He would have drawn back, but the Bráhman told him not to hesitate to carry out his advice, and merely stipulated that he should be installed as his family god. The Rájput then killed him, and he has ever since been worshipped by the clan.

Other Bhuts.

373. Of other classes of *bhuts*, one of the best known is the Bágháut or spirit of a person killed by a tiger, who assumes the form of a tiger with a human face. Some take the form of a cow and are known as *Gobhut*. A miser is often believed to return to earth to watch over his money and is called *Jak* or *Sur*. The *bhut* of a Muhammadan is called a *Mámdo*. In Jalpaiguri the spirit of a person who has lived a very infamous life, or who has died by decapitation, becomes a particularly malevolent *bhut* known as *Kandhakátá* (cut off at the shoulder) and, being headless, he has no ears to hear the charming of the *ojhá* who is therefore powerless against him. He haunts marshy and lonely places, like the Bárhám, and leads travellers astray. Sudden deaths, for which no reason can be assigned, are attributed to his evil influence.

Churel.

374. But the most malevolent of all spirits is the Churel or Kichin, the spirit of a woman who dies in child-birth. Her feet are turned backwards, she has no mouth, and she haunts filthy places. She is specially feared by women, whom she attacks during the menstrual period or at the time of parturition. Sometimes she falls in love with young men, before whom she appears in the form of a beautiful girl neatly dressed and decked with ornaments, and whom she eventually kills by a slow process of emaciation. Like other similar spirits she can only be ejected by exorcism. The fear of the Churel is by no mean confined to Hindus. It is even more dreaded by the aboriginal tribes, and amongst the Bhuiyás of Keonjhar, if a woman should die before delivery, the embryo is extracted from the corpse and the bodies are burnt on the opposite banks of a hill stream. As no spirit can cross water, and the mother cannot become a witch unless united to her child, this precaution is believed to avert all risk of evil to the villagers.

The Grámya Devatá.

375. Almost every village has its special tutelary deities (one or more) which preside over the welfare of the community. These are called the Grámya Devatá and are worshipped on the occasion of every religious ceremony and also on special occasions, *e.g.*, when disease breaks out or a newly built house is occupied for the first time. The landlord of the village celebrates the *pujá*, usually under a pipal or banyan tree, while each ryot performs

his own ceremony at home.* Sometimes a Bráhman officiates but frequently the people conduct the worship themselves. Sometimes there is no visible representation of the godling, but in Bihar a mound or stone is erected under a tree and smeared with vermilion. In Hooghly an earthen pot is filled with water and a mango twig is placed on the top, which is then covered with a piece of new cloth. Various offerings are made, usually of food cooked or uncooked, and goats are sometimes sacrificed; the offerings are generally taken by the family but in Hooghly they are the perquisite of the Bhuinmáli. The Koches and their congeners worship the Grámya Devatá at a curious ceremony, called *gambhira*, when the young people of the village disguise themselves, personating the deities, and dance. The festival, which takes place in Chait or Baisákh, lasts for several days.

Some village deities are less local than others and have obtained a wider vogue. These usually have a sylvan home, *e.g.*, Dholái Chandí, who inhabits a tree or grove which is held sacred by all. Pieces of brick and rags are tied to the branches, as an offering to procure the welfare of children, and people make obeisance whenever they pass her abode. Bana Durgá is a sylvan deity of Mymensingh, who is also worshipped on behalf of children, and to whom sacrifices are made pigeons and goats, which are subsequently taken by people of low caste.

376. The worship of the Grámya devatá seems to be connected with the animistic idea, which sees spirits everywhere, and in all manifestations of nature, and it is carried out with the greatest zest amongst the aboriginal tribes of the Chota Nagpur Plateau where the *jáhirá*, *sarna*, or sacred grove, the small patch of virgin forest preserved from the axe as a refuge for the sylvan deities, who would otherwise have no local habitation, is peopled not by one or two, but by quite a number of godlings. Marang Buru is the chief Grámya devatá of the Santáls. He is known also to the Mundas and Hos, but these tribes believe that he resides on the summit of high hills; the latter look on him as a disease godling. All these tribes worship him in the same way. A handful of rice is deposited in three places in the sacred grove, and the animal chosen for the sacrifice, usually a goat, is made to eat it, after which the head is severed at one blow. The head is taken by the *Naiya*, or priest, and the body by the members of the family. The fame of this godling has spread to Malda where he is known as Marang Deva and is worshipped to secure immunity from fever. A circle is drawn on the ground with powdered rice and a goat is sacrificed inside it. Another notable denizen of the sacred grove in Singhbhum is Desauli Bonga or Kárá Sarna who, though malignant protects those who duly propitiate him from disease and other calamities. His festivals take place in the month of Magh, in Chait when the *Sál* tree flowers and again in Ásárh. He is also worshipped in time of drought and when illness attacks a family. Amongst the other godlings of this class may be mentioned Thánpati of the Savars, Juángs, Báuris and Bágdis, Sarna Burhí of the Oráons and Duár Páhár or Dura of the Cheros.

General Remarks.

377. The above notes merely indicate some of the main forms which the popular religion of the people takes, and they are admittedly very incomplete. Not only is the notice of the godlings dealt with very brief, but many, and indeed whole classes, have been left undiscussed. I have not mentioned the various aboriginal deities, such as the androgynous Burhá Burhí, Báthu, and Grajja, who have still been only partially admitted to the Hindu pantheon, nor others, such as Sankar, Bánskáli, Mangalchandi and Kankini who have been adopted as forms of Káli, nor the godlings of special castes, such as Gandhesvari of the Gandhabaniks, Ganesh Janani of the Mayrás, Gaurináth of the Kándus, Kulain of the Yákhás, Kángálimá or Satimá of the Baruis, Magadhesvari of the Maghs, &c. It would be impossible to deal fully with the matter in a Census Report, but before leaving the subject I will refer very briefly to the worship of Dharmaráj or Dharma Thákur whose recent identification with Buddha will be discussed in the next section.

Incompleteness of discussion.

* In Orissa the village godlings are feminine and are called Grám Deotí or Thákuráni. Each village has its own godling, whose position was recognised in the first regular settlement of Orissa when a piece of land was left unassessed (*máfi grám deotí*) for her worship.

By some Dharmaráj is regarded as Yama and by others as the Sun. Some again consider him to be the God of snakes, and some a form of Siva or of Vishnu. He is usually worshipped by a low caste priest, a Pod, a Jugi, a Dom or a Bágdi. In a few places he has temples, but, as a rule, he is represented by a shapeless stone daubed with vermilion and placed under a tree. In a village in the Arambagh subdivision he is worshipped in the form of a tortoise. His shrines are common all over West Bengal and also in Dinajpur, Murshidabad and the 24-Parganas. He is frequently believed to possess certain curative powers and his priests administer medicines as specifics for various diseases. Hogs, fowls and ducks are sacrificed before him, and offerings are made of rice, flowers, milk and *pachwai*, but never of cooked food. The worship takes place in the months of Baisákh, Jaishta and Ásárh, on the day of the full moon, and in some places on the last day of Bhádra. All castes, even Bráhmans, make offerings through the medium of the officiating priest.

DHARMARÁJ.

378. It may be pointed out in conclusion that while the earth, sun and moon, and certain large rivers, are worshipped throughout the province, many of the other objects of adoration are revered only in certain localities. The veneration of deified heroes is more or less confined to Bihar, while snake worship prevails mainly in West, and parts of North, Bengal. The tribes of the Chota Nagpur Plateau and some of the Himalayan tribes give the spirits of the mountains a high place in their pantheon while in the greater part of Bengal Proper the old aboriginal godlings have, as a rule, been taken over by the Bráhmans as forms of Káli and other orthodox deities, and have thus lost their identity. It is only in the extreme north and east that deities who are admittedly non-Hindu, still command the worship of men, while in the West, Buddhism still ekes out an obscure and precarious existence.

FORMS OF WORSHIP OFTEN LOCAL.

TRACES OF BUDDHISM IN BENGAL.

379. When the East India Company gained a foothold in India Buddhism seemed to have disappeared from the land, and although its doctrines were mentioned, in order to be refuted, in the philosophical works of the Hindus, the word was little more than a name to the Pandits, and was absolutely unknown to the common people. The philosophic side of Buddhism, as ascertained from Hindu sources, was first investigated by Colebrooke,* but it is to the indefatigable researches of Brian Hodgson that we owe the discovery of Buddhism as a living religion in Nepal. While resident at Khatmandu he investigated the subject closely and the results are embodied in a most interesting paper in the second volume of the transactions of the Royal Asiatic Society.† He showed how the philosophic agnosticism of Buddha gave way to the theory that the Ádi Buddha, by his union with the primordial female energy called Prajná, gave birth to five Buddhas, who each produced from himself by *dhyána* (meditation) another being called his Bodhi-satwa or son. The chief of these latter was Avalokita who, with his Sakti Tárá, eventually became the keystone of northern Buddhism. There arose also numerous other Buddhas, demons and deities, all of which were objects of worship, and then came the introduction of the Tántrik mysticism, based on the pantheistic idea of *yoga*, or the ecstatic union of the soul with the supreme spirit. At this stage, as in Tántrik Hinduism, the Saktis, or female counterparts of the Bodhi-satwas, occupied the most prominent position, and the esoteric cult of these female deities became every whit as obscene as that practised by the Kaula or extreme sect of Sákta Hindus. Since Hodgson's time, numerous students have attacked the subject and the early history of Buddhism and its modern developments in other countries are now well known.‡

DISCOVERIES OF COLEBROOKE AND HODGSON.

* J. R. A. S., Volume 1, pages 549—579.

† This and subsequent papers on the same subject have been reprinted in the "Languages, Literature and Religion of Nepal and Tibet" Trübner and Co., London, 1874.

‡ One of the best of recent works on the subject is, "The Buddhism of Tibet, or Lamaism" by Col., Waddell, I.M.S.

IDENTIFICATION OF DHARMARÁJ WITH BUDDHA.

380. All this time it was assumed that, except in Burma and on the borders of Burma, Nepal and Tibet, Buddhism had disappeared from India. This, however, has been proved to be a mistake by the researches of Mahámahopádhyáya Hara Prasád Sástri who has shown that a corrupt form of Buddhism still survives in the shape of Dharma worship which is current amongst the Pods, Doms and other castes of low rank, and which has already been described in the notes on Popular Hinduism. Dharma or Dharmaráj, it would seem, is none other than Buddha himself. The discovery was announced in an article in the Journal of the Asiatic Society for 1895 and the result of this and further researches were embodied in a pamphlet published in 1897 called the "Discovery of Living Buddhism in Bengal." I circulated, as a basis for further enquiry, a note giving a brief outline of the facts and arguments adduced in this pamphlet, but without much result beyond the collection of further information regarding the extent to which Dharma worship prevails. The reports thus received were shown to the Pandit, who has favoured me with a résumé of the main points in his argument, which is reproduced verbatim in the following four paragraphs:—

381. "We learn from the Si-u-ki that during the first half of the seventh century Buddhism was the prevailing religion in Bengal. The author, the celebrated Chinese traveller Hiuen Sang, mentions indeed the heretics; but it is not known who these heretics were. Some of them undoubtedly were Bráhmanists.

TRACES OF BUDDHISM UP TO SIXTEENTH CENTURY.

"During the three or four centuries which followed the composition of the Si-u-ki, the Bráhmans came from Kanauj with their ever faithful adherents, the Káyasthas, and a silent religious and social revolution was accomplished, in which the Bráhmans had everything to gain, and the Buddhists everything to lose. Traces of the existence of Buddhism as a living religion can be found even up to the sixteenth century, and then it is completely lost in the populous plains of Bengal, Bihar and Orissa. In the outlying districts, however, in hill tracts, and in neglected nooks and corners, it is still professed by a few thousands of men. Thus in Chittagong there are the Baruás who profess the Buddhist faith and belong to the southern school of Buddhism. They think that they obtained their Buddhism from Burma and Ceylon, and that within the last two or three centuries. The Chittagong Hill Tracts is a professedly Buddhist district, and the inhabitants seem to have adhered to their Buddhism from very ancient times. Their Buddhism is not altogether of the southern school, because they have their temples of gods and goddesses. In the Sub-Himalayan regions bordering on Bengal, the Bhotias and some other hill tribes profess Buddhism greatly mixed up with the superstitious observances of degenerate later times known as Mantra-yána, Vajra-yána, Kála-chakra-yána, Lámáism and Devil-worship. The Newárs of Nepal profess what they call Hinduism, but in their estimation it has two *Márgas* or ways—the *Siva-Márga* and the *Buddha-Márga*. Half the Newárs are Buddhists. Though they profess to be Mahá-yánists, they have mixed up their faith with much that belongs really to the subsequent *Yánas* of Buddhism. But they still adhere to Indian Buddhism, and have not borrowed anything from Lámáism. In the Orissa Tributary Mahals there is a State known as Baud, the Chief of which derives the name from Buddha, and says that Buddhism is still professed by a considerable portion of his subjects. The Savaras on the borders of Orissa are said to be still Buddhists. The Savaras who cook in the great temple of Jagannáth are supposed to belong to the same religion. There is a small, industrious, but very turbulent, community in Barisal, known as the *Maghas* community, who profess Buddhism. They seem to have settled in that maritime district since the sixteenth century, when the Arakanese, known to the Musalman rulers of Bengal as *Maghs*, were the terror of Lower Bengal and the Bay.

"These are the only people who still profess Buddhism on a soil in which that religion was first preached, where it flourished for thousands of years, but alas! where it is completely forgotten.

"The traces of Buddhism up to the sixteenth century, mentioned above, consist of many references in books, colophons of manuscripts and inscriptions.

Thus we know from Tibetan sources that the great monk, Dípankara Shrí Jnána, known in Tibet as Atisa, was invited from Vikrama Shila in Magadha to Tibet in the eleventh century to reform the Buddhist faith prevailing there. There is a copy of Bodhicharyávatara-tíká by Prajná Kaza Shrijnána copied in the same century. The copyist speaks of the author as *tálapáddánám*, showing that he was a pupil of the author. A copy of the Astásahásriká prajnápáramitá made at Nálanda is to be found in the Asiatic Society's collection, bearing the date of the sixth year of Mahípáladeva, who reigned in the same century. In the twelfth century, the great Naiyáika Gangesopádhyáya, a scholar of Mithila, whose date is universally accepted amongst pandits as 750 years before this time, wrote his work with the avowed object of dispelling the darkness of Pásandas, *i.e.*, Buddhism. In the same century Súlapáni, the great writer on Hindu law and ritual, mentions the Buddhists as a naked people whose very sight is to be avoided. In the Ballála Charita we find Byá-dom-pa fighting with Ballála to avenge an insult offered to the Buddhist priest of Mahásthán. In the thirteenth century there is an inscription at Sravasti dedicating a Buddhist temple for the purposes of Buddhist worship, and in the same century a Buddhist priest from Tamluk went to Lower Burma and instituted a reformation along with other Buddhist priests of the place. His deeds are recorded in the *Kalyáni* inscriptions. In the fourteenth century a Bengali Bráhman became a convert to Buddhism and proceeded to Ceylon, where the reigning king Parákrama Váhu made him the sole supervisor of Buddhist religious establishments in the kingdom. In the fifteenth century Buddhist manuscripts were still copied in Bengal, and a manuscript copied about the middle of the century is now in the Cambridge collection of Nepalese Buddhist manuscripts.

382. "In the sixteenth century Chaitanya is said to have met Buddhists in Southern India and Nityánanda in the Himalayan regions. Chúdámani Dása, one of the biographers of Chaitanya mentions the Buddhists as rejoicing at his birth. In the seventeenth century Buddha Guptanátha wandered in various parts of India and found Buddhism flourishing in many places. Then it is lost altogether. For two or three centuries Buddhism was absolutely unknown in India. The revival of Sanskrit learning fostered by European Orientalists brought Buddhism again to the notice of the Indian public, and it became a problem how to account for the complete disappearance of Buddhism. Brian Hodgson thought that Náthism was the bridge which joined the corrupt Buddhism of later days with the Tántrik-Hinduism of modern times. There were Náthas or Lords who boasted of having attained miraculous powers and who had numerous followers. They were all Buddhists. But their Buddhism was not of the strictest kind. The Saivas claim some of them as their *Gurus*. But the rest were undoubtedly Buddhists. These belonged to the lowest classes of people—Háris, Doms and Chandáls. This Náthism appears also to have been the bridge which united Lámáism on the one hand, and the Gurus or spiritual guides of the Hindus, on the other. Both these proceeded from the same sort of man-worship which is the essence of Náthism."*

MANNER IN WHICH BUDDHISM DISAPPEARED.

383. Brian Hodgson's explanation solves only one or two points of the great problem connected with the disappearance of Buddhism. A few more points are solved by the fact that the writers of Tántrik compilations among the Hindus incorporated as many of the Tántrik Buddhist divinities as they could possibly do without jeopardizing their reputation for orthodoxy. For instance, they incorporated *Manjushrí*, *Kshetrapála*, *Tára*, without even changing their names or their functions. But still there were divinities to whom, even with their wonderful power of adaptation, they could not venture to give a place in their Pantheon, and one of these is *Dharma*. *Dharma* is the second personage in the Buddhist Trinity. In the *Mahávána* school he is changed into *Prajná*, an abstract idea in the feminine, meaning supreme knowledge, and in the *Mantra-yána* the feminine idea became *Tárá*, a female divinity with five manifestations. The

MODERN SURVIVALS.

* This adoration of the Guru is one of the most characteristic features of the Vaishnava revival in Bengal. The Vaishnavas say:—"When Hari is angry the Guru is our protector, but when the Guru is angry we have no one to protect us. This service veneration of the Guru is called Gurupádásraya. [Sketch of the Religious sects of the Hindus, page 103].

processes of spiritualisation proceeded further and the Buddhists conceived of an Ádi Buddha and an Ádi Tárá probably *Kálikd*.

"The word Dharma, thus slipping from the second personage of the Buddhist Trinity, became confined to the *Stúpa* worship, the visible emblem of Buddhism, to the ignorant multitude. Dharma-worship remained confined to the lowest classes of the people—the dirtiest, meanest and most illiterate classes. All sorts of animal sacrifices are offered before Dharma, and the drinking of wine is one of the chief features of his worship. All the lowest forms of worship rejected by the Bráhmans gradually rallied round Dharma, and his priests throughout Bengal enjoy a certain consideration which often excites the envy of their highly placed rivals, the Bráhmans, who, though hating them with a genuine hatred, yet covet their earnings wherever these are considerable, and there are instances in which the worship of Dharma has passed into Bráhman hands and has been, by them, transformed either into a manifestation of Siva or of Visnu.

384. "Doubt has been expressed in many quarters regarding the identification of Dharma worship as a survival of Buddhism, and it is, therefore, desirable to recapitulate the facts and arguments by which this has been established. Dharma is meditated upon as *Shúnya Múrti* or void. The great goal of Buddhism is *Súnyatá*. "As the lamp is extinguished, so is the soul extinguished." This is the original idea of annihilation preached by Buddha. In later times, in the hands of the schools, this idea came to be termed *Súnyatá*, concerning which neither existence, nor non-existence, nor a combination of the two, can be predicated. It is void, zero. In Hindu systems of philosophy we find the Buddhists credited with the theory of the evolution of entity from non-entity, and that very non-entity is the essence of Dharma, and in that form his votaries are required to meditate upon him. This is an undoubted Buddhist idea. The ceremonies and fasts in honour of Dharma all take place on the full moon day of *Baishákh*, the birthday of Buddha. The ignorant worshippers, all of them, are aware that Dharma is very much respected in Ceylon. And what religion has a greater vogue in that island than Buddhism? The Dharma worshippers are fully aware that Dharma is not an inferior deity; he is higher than Vishnu, higher than Siva, higher than Brahmá, and even higher than Párvatí. His position is indeed as exalted as that of Brahmá in Hindu philosophy. In fact, one of the books in honour of Dharma gives an obscure hint that the work has been written with the object of establishing the Brahmáhood of Dharma. The representation of Dharma in many places is a tortoise. Now a tortoise is a miniature representation of a stúpa with five nitches for five Dhyáni Buddhas. At Salda in Bankura an image of Buddha in meditative posture is still actually worshipped as Dharma.

REASONS FOR TAKING DHARMA TO BE BUDDHA.

"The worshippers of Dharma are unconscious of the fact that they are the survivors of a mighty race of men and that they have inherited their religion from a glorious past. Political and social revolutions of centuries have brought them to the lowest point of degradation. But if they ever become conscious of the fact that they are the survivors of the Indian Buddhists, the civilizers of Asia, they are likely to be better men and more useful members of society. Dharma-worship prevails in the whole of Western Bengal, and in almost every village there is a temple of Dharma. There are also many places consecrated to Dharma, where annual and other festivals take place in his honour."

385. The only fresh light thrown on this interesting subject by the census is the fact that Buddhism is still professed by the Saráks of Tigaria and Baramba and the adjoining part of Cuttack. The Saráks of Chota Nagpur are believed to have been formerly Jains, but those here mentioned are still professed Buddhists. Their religion is gradually being merged in Hinduism, but it still possesses many distinct features and they possess religious books of their own, one of the most important of which I have had transcribed, and have given the copy to the Mahámahopádhyáya who informs me that it is of considerable value. An account of these Saráks will be found in the Chapter on Caste.*

THE SARÁKS OF BARAMBA STILL BUDDHISTS.

* Paragraphs 778 to 780.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE I—SHOWING THE GENERAL DISTRIBUTION OF THE POPULATION BY RELIGION.

RELIGION.	1901.		1891.		1881.		Percentage of variation, increase (+) or decrease (−)		Net variation.
	Number.	Proportion per 10,000 of the population.	Number.	Proportion per 10,000 of the population.	Number.	Proportion per 10,000 of the population.	1891-1901.	1881-1891.	1881—1901.
1	2	3	4		6	7	8	9	10
HINDUS.									
PROVINCE	***49,687,362***	***6,330***	***47,821,681***	***6,407***	***45,451,969***	***6,536***	+ ***3·9***	+ ***5·2***	+ ***9·3***
West Bengal	6,855,164	8,319	6,400,340	8,323	6,207,409	8,395	+ 7·1	+ 3·1	+ 10·4
Central ,, ...	3,883,367	5,018	3,678,792	5,000	3,564,584	4,998	+ 5·5	+ 3·2	+ 8·9
North ,, ...	3,938,586	3,997	3,739,802	3,974	3,623,644	4,009	+ 5·3	+ 3·2	+ 8·6
East ,, ...	5,514,025	3,251	5,156,984	3,360	4,673,715	3,475	+ 6·9	+ 10·3	+ 17·9
North Bihar	11,579,533	8,372	11,555,405	8,364	10,933,137	8,379	+ ·2	+ 5·6	+ 5·9
South ,, ...	6,963,580	9,024	7,230,974	9,029	7,010,150	8,987	− 3·6	+ 3·1	− ·6
Orissa	4,034,657	9,719	3,778,688	9,746	3,533,788	9,738	+ 6·7	+ 6·9	+ 14·1
Chota Nagpur Plateau	6,918,510	7,023	6,280,636	6,977	5,905,542	7,342	+ 10·1	+ 6·3	+ 17·1
MUSALMANS.									
PROVINCE	***25,495,416***	***3,248***	***23,658,108***	***3,170***	***21,705,641***	***3,122***	+ ***7·7***	+ ***8·9***	+ ***17·4***
West Bengal	1,084,880	1,317	999,191	1,300	958,429	1,296	+ 8·5	+ 4·2	+ 13·1
Central ,, ...	3,773,321	4,875	3,610,166	4,907	3,512,893	4,926	+ 4·5	+ 2·7	+ 7·4
North ,, ...	5,876,468	5,973	5,579,455	5,929	5,383,389	5,956	+ 5·3	+ 3·6	+ 9·1
East ,, ...	11,220,427	6,617	9,985,781	6,505	8,541,406	6,350	+ 12·3	+ 16·9	+ 31·3
North Bihar	2,241,942	1,621	2,230,730	1,615	2,093,874	1,605	+ ·5	+ 6·5	+ 7·0
South ,, ...	744,508	965	768,029	959	779,284	999	− 3·0	− 1·4	− 4·4
Orissa	102,881	248	93,742	239	85,336	235	+ 11·0	+ 8·6	+ 20·6
Chota Nagpur Plateau	451,009	458	392,023	429	331,030	437	+ 15·0	+ 11·6	+ 28·4
CHRISTIANS.									
PROVINCE	***278,366***	***36***	***192,484***	***26***	***128,134***	***18***	+ ***44·5***	+ ***50·2***	+ ***117·2***
West Bengal	9,463	12	6,312	8	4,460	6	+ 49·9	+ 41·5	+ 112·1
Central ,, ...	61,141	79	50,656	69	47,700	67	+ 20·6	+ 5·9	+ 27·8
North ,, ...	8,194	9	3,358	3	1,880	2	+ 173·7	+ 78·6	+ 388·9
East ,, ...	26,994	16	22,015	14	18,159	13	+ 22·3	+ 21·2	+ 48·3
North Bihar	5,374	4	4,052	2	3,890	3	+ 32·6	+ 6·0	+ 40·6
South ,, ...	4,623	6	4,608	6	4,051	5	+ ·3	+ 13·7	+ 14·1
Orissa	5,404	12	4,638	12	3,976	11	+ 7·8	+ 16·6	+ 25·8
Chota Nagpur Plateau	156,634	139	96,847	106	43,908	55	+ 61·7	+ 120·1	+ 256·0
ANIMISTS.									
PROVINCE	***2,780,468***	***354***	***2,753,061***	***368***	***2,035,408***	***296***	+ ***·9***	+ ***33·9***	+ ***35·2***
West Bengal	290,134	351	282,671	368	219,614	297	+ 2·6	+ 28·7	+ 32·1
Central ,, ...	12,450	16	9,729	13	837	1	+ 27·8	+ 1,061·2	+ 1,383·9
North ,, ...	107,293	107	41,769	44	7,468	8	+ 156·8	+ 459·3	+ 1,338·6
East ,, ...	33,750	19	30,660	29	84,756	63	+ 6·8	− 63·8	− 61·3
North Bihar	3,375	2	24,742	18	16,569	13	− 86·3	+ 49·3	− 79·6
South ,, ...	2,693	4	3,706	5	7,183	9	− 27·3	− 48·4	− 62·5
Orissa	8,303	21	.....	.....	4,361	12	.....	.....	+ 114·3
Chota Nagpur Plateau	2,323,413	2,358	2,359,738	2,384	1,714,030	2,132	− 1·5	+ 37·6	+ 35·5
BUDDHISTS.									
PROVINCE	***257,893***	***30·3***	***194,717***	***26***	***155,809***	***22·3***	+ ***29·2***	+ ***24·9***	+ ***32·7***
West Bengal	88	.....	71	.....	363	.....	+ 23·9	− 80·4	− 75·8
Central ,, ...	3,923	4	2,281	3	1,937	2	+ 31·6	+ 17·7	+ 52·3
North ,, ...	70,945	71	43,128	46	19,379	21	+ 64·5	+ 112·2	+ 266·0
East ,, ...	163,014	96	148,165	96	133,427	99	+ 10·02	+ 11·05	+ 22·2
North Bihar	52	.....	31	.....	.....	.....	+ 67·7	.....	.....
South ,, ...	22	.....	44	.....	.....	.....	− 50·0	.....	.....
Orissa	4	.....	129	.....	7	.....	− 96·9	+ 1,742·8	+ 42·9
Chota Nagpur Plateau	765	1	868	1	696	1	− 11·9	+ 24·7	+ 9·9
OTHERS.									
PROVINCE	***13,903***	***1·7***	***23,289***	***3***	***39,979***	***5·7***	− ***40·3***	− ***41·7***	− ***65·2***
West Bengal	417	1	604	1	3,679	6	− 31·0	− 83·6	− 88·7
Central ,, ...	6,723	8	5,869	8	3,997	6	+ 14·7	+ 46·8	+ 68·2
North ,, ...	2,815	3	3,617	4	3,402	4	− 22·2	+ 6·3	− 17·1
East ,, ...	937	1	6,803	5	233	.....	− 87·9	+ 2,847·6	+ 302·1
North Bihar	844	1	1,678	1	23	.....	− 49·7	+ 7,195·6	+ 3,569·6
South ,, ...	992	1	989	1	60	.....	+ 0·3	+ 1,548·3	+ 1,553·3
Orissa	290	.....	1,147	3	1,469	4	− 82·6	− 21·9	− 80·4
Chota Nagpur Plateau	977	1	2,537	3	27,116	33	− 61·5	− 90·7	− 96·4

SUBSIDIARY TABLE II—Showing the Proportional strength of the main religions in each district and natural division at each of the last three Censuses.

Natural division and district.	Hindus. Proportion per 10,000 of the population.			Musalmans. Proportion per 10,000 of the population.			Animists. Proportion per 10,000 of the population.			Others. Proportion per 10,000 of the population.		
	1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13
PROVINCE	***6,330***	***6,407***	***6,536***	***3,248***	***3,170***	***3,122***	***354***	***368***	***296***	***68***	***55***	***46***
WEST BENGAL	***8,319***	***8,323***	***8,395***	***1,317***	***1,300***	***1,296***	***351***	***368***	***297***	***13***	***9***	***12***
Burdwan	7,968	8,030	8,049	1,876	1,921	1,896	137	39	46	19	10	7
Birbhum	7,289	7,436	7,764	2,235	2,127	2,053	464	429	182	10	8	1
Bankura	8,740	8,604	8,743	558	424	444	709	970	812	3	2	1
Midnapore	8,845	8,922	8,878	664	651	682	484	381	433	7	6	17
Hooghly	8,207	8,142	8,953	1,760	1,832	1,937	26	19	.....	8	7	10
Howrah	7,968	7,925	8,009	2,029	2,041	1,966	1	3	4	32	29	31
CENTRAL BENGAL	***5,018***	***5,000***	***4,998***	***4,875***	***4,907***	***4,926***	***16***	***13***	***1***	***91***	***80***	***75***
24-Parganas	6,304	6,277	6,205	3,624	3,631	3,733	5	2	.....	67	70	62
Calcutta	6,595	6,317	6,360	2,948	2,981	3,178	.....	.....	.....	547	502	462
Nadia	4,056	4,192	4,388	5,895	5,762	5,573	.....	.....	.....	49	46	39
Murshidabad	4,527	4,958	5,174	5,377	4,946	4,809	85	74	7	11	22	19
Jessore	3,871	3,905	3,962	6,124	6,089	6,036	.....	1	.....	5	5	3
NORTH BENGAL	***3,937***	***3,974***	***4,009***	***5,873***	***5,929***	***5,956***	***107***	***44***	***8***	***83***	***53***	***27***
Rajshahi	2,223	2,221	2,239	7,763	7,774	7,760	11	2	.....	3	2	1
Dinajpur	4,636	4,814	4,787	4,957	5,101	5,200	401	72	10	6	13	3
Jalpaiguri	6,790	6,598	6,329	2,902	3,265	3,591	194	98	55	114	44	34
Darjeeling	7,542	7,665	8,171	370	448	527	138	.....	40	1,950	1,887	1,902
Rangpur	3,605	3,720	3,892	6,387	6,271	6,099	20	2	.....	8	7	2
Bogra	1,804	1,833	1,886	8,182	8,140	8,119	13	26	.....	1	1	1
Pabna	2,614	2,659	2,753	7,483	7,337	7,244	.....	.....	.....	3	4	3
Malda	4,982	5,021	5,343	4,807	4,720	4,632	209	258	25	2	1	.....
Kuch Bihar	7,019	7,023	7,094	2,967	2,950	2,896	4	17	7	10	10	3
Sikkim	6,491	.....	.....	4	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	3,505	.....	.....
EAST BENGAL	***3,251***	***3,360***	***3,475***	***6,617***	***6,503***	***6,350***	***19***	***20***	***63***	***113***	***115***	***112***
Khulna	4,941	4,863	4,849	5,046	5,129	5,144	3	.....	.....	10	3	7
Dacca	3,729	3,939	4,090	6,226	6,054	5,867	.....	1	.....	45	46	43
Mymensingh	2,781	3,011	3,233	7,141	6,902	6,682	74	85	85	4	2	.....
Faridpur	3,786	3,935	3,957	6,190	6,145	6,026	.....	.....	.....	24	23	17
Backergunge	3,115	3,159	3,256	6,829	6,791	6,669	.....	.....	.....	56	50	45
Tippera	2,939	3,125	3,361	7,054	6,867	6,635	.....	.....	.....	7	8	3
Noakhali	2,404	2,458	2,577	7,587	7,533	7,413	.....	.....	.....	9	9	8
Chittagong	2,332	2,344	2,439	7,153	7,168	7,082	5	1	.....	490	487	468
Chittagong Hill Tracts	2,913	2,405	1,997	398	453	718	3	46	.....	6,684	7,096	7,285
Hill Tippera	6,577	6,669	1,022	2,615	2,698	2,818	154	.....	6,148	334	653	12
NORTH BIHAR	***8,372***	***8,364***	***8,379***	***1,621***	***1,615***	***1,605***	***2***	***18***	***13***	***5***	***3***	***3***
Saran	8,818	8,818	8,826	1,181	1,181	1,173	.....	.....	.....	1	1	
Champaran	8,511	8,551	8,579	1,475	1,438	1,410	.....	.....	.....	14	11	11
Muzaffarpur	8,771	8,771	8,774	1,226	1,227	1,224	.....	.....	.....	3	2	2
Darbhanga	8,786	8,787	8,825	1,211	1,209	1,174	.....	.....	.....	3	4	1
Bhagalpur	8,977	8,911	8,973	1,002	902	944	15	122	80	6	5	3
Purnea	5,761	5,836	5,834	4,233	4,141	4,170	2	.....	4	4	3	2
SOUTH BIHAR	***9,024***	***9,029***	***8,987***	***965***	***959***	***999***	***4***	***5***	***9***	***7***	***7***	***5***
Patna	8,835	8,848	8,772	1,147	1,134	1,213	.....	.....	.....	18	18	15
Gaya	8,935	8,936	8,902	1,064	1,060	1,097	.....	.....	.....	1	2	1
Shahabad	9,271	9,276	9,263	725	720	747	.....	.....	.....	4	4	1
Monghyr	9,029	9,033	9,006	951	942	932	13	18	36	7	7	6
ORISSA	***9,719***	***9,746***	***9,738***	***248***	***239***	***235***	***21***	.....	***12***	***12***	***15***	***15***
Cuttack	9,708	9,712	9,717	275	273	264	.....	.....	.....	14	15	19
Balasore	9,645	9,744	9,688	264	244	251	79	.....	46	13	12	15
Puri	9,819	9,815	9,833	170	165	156	.....	.....	.....	11	20	9
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	***7,025***	***6,877***	***7,342***	***458***	***429***	***437***	***2,358***	***2,584***	***2,159***	***161***	***110***	***82***
Hazaribagh	8,100	8,347	8,371	1,016	986	961	867	754	663	17	13	5
Ranchi	3,905	3,941	3,989	353	320	297	4,600	5,068	5,471	1,084	671	543
Palamau	8,616	8,319	8,209	845	845	834	421	724	861	129	112	6
Manbhum	8,703	8,180	8,942	483	446	430	792	1,391	468	22	13	250
Singhbhum	4,321	4,235	9,969	88	59	51	4,578	5,017	14	113	69	66
Santhal Parganas	5,613	5,134	5,403	340	691	696	3,403	4,141	3,862	54	35	39
Tributary States, Chota Nagpur	6,146	6,488	9,599	86	76	66	3,749	3,422	33	19	6	2
Ditto, Orissa	9,173	9,028	7,639	40	37	41	818	915	2,312	9	20	7
Angul	7,753	9,957	7,693	19	13	17	2,226	20	2,320	2	1	60

SUBSIDIARY TABLE III—Showing the variations in the number of Christians in each district.

District.	Number of Christians in—			Variation.		
	1901.	1891.	1881.	1891—1901.	1881—1891.	1881—1901.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7
PROVINCE	***278,366***	***192,484***	***128,134***	+ ***85,882***	+ ***64,350***	+ ***150,232***
WEST BENGAL	***9,463***	***6,312***	***4,460***	+ ***3,151***	+ ***1,852***	+ ***5,003***
Burdwan	2,960	1,408	910	+ 1,552	+ 498	+ 2,050
Birbhum	819	522	48	+ 297	+ 474	+ 771
Bankura	363	132	56	+ 231	+ 76	+ 307
Midnapore	1,974	1,545	740	+ 429	+ 805	+ 1,234
Hooghly	759	635	655	+ 124	− 22	+ 104
Howrah	2,588	2,072	2,051	+ 516	+ 21	+ 537
CENTRAL BENGAL	***61,141***	***50,656***	***47,790***	+ ***10,485***	+ ***2,866***	+ ***13,351***
24-Parganas	13,822	12,982	10,192	+ 840	+ 2,790	+ 3,630
Calcutta	37,925	28,997	30,214	+ 8,928	− 1,217	+ 7,711
Nadia	8,091	7,297	6,422	+ 794	+ 875	+ 1,669
Murshidabad	291	540	470	− 149	+ 70	− 79
Jessore	912	840	492	+ 72	+ 348	+ 420
NORTH BENGAL	***9,193***	***3,358***	***1,880***	+ ***5,835***	+ ***1,478***	+ ***7,313***
Rajshahi	331	195	121	+ 246	− 16	+ 230
Dinajpur	779	511	457	+ 268	+ 54	+ 322
Jalpaiguri	2,486	357	159	+ 2,129	+ 198	+ 2,327
Darjeeling	4,467	1,502	842	+ 2,965	+ 660	+ 3,625
Rangpur	453	343	86	+ 110	+ 257	+ 367
Bogra	40	15	27	+ 25	− 12	+ 13
Pabna	166	169	114	+ 4	+ 48	+ 52
Malda	173	72	26	+ 101	+ 46	+ 147
Kuch Bihar	143	291	48	− 148	+ 243	+ 95
Sikkim	135	.....	.....	+ 135	.....	+ 135
EAST BENGAL	***26,934***	***22,013***	***18,159***	+ ***4,921***	+ ***3,854***	+ ***8,775***
Khulna	1,275	963	747	+ 312	+ 216	+ 528
Dacca	11,556	10,476	8,797	+ 1,080	+ 1,679	+ 2,759
Mymensingh	1,291	211	151	+ 1,080	+ 60	+ 1,140
Faridpur	4,641	3,539	2,743	+ 1,102	+ 796	+ 1,898
Backergunge	5,591	4,659	3,717	+ 932	+ 942	+ 1,874
Tippera	293	182	199	+ 110	− 17	+ 93
Noakhali	662	641	588	+ 21	+ 53	+ 74
Chittagong	1,237	1,191	1,055	+ 46	+ 136	+ 182
Chittagong Hill Tracts ...	282	18	49	+ 264	− 31	+ 233
Hill Tippera	157	133	113	+ 4	+ 20	+ 24
NORTH BIHAR	***3,374***	***4,052***	***3,820***	+ ***1,322***	+ ***932***	+ ***1,554***
Saran	314	278	282	+ 36	− 4	+ 32
Champaran	2,417	2,100	1,936	+ 317	+ 164	+ 481
Muzaffarpur	719	371	372	+ 348	− 1	+ 347
Darbhanga	710	380	325	+ 330	+ 55	+ 385
Bhagalpur	775	536	578	+ 239	− 42	+ 197
Purnea	439	387	327	+ 52	+ 60	+ 112
SOUTH BIHAR	***4,623***	***4,608***	***4,051***	+ ***15***	+ ***557***	+ ***572***
Patna	2,502	2,833	2,588	− 271	+ 245	− 26
Gaya	253	174	96	+ 79	+ 78	+ 157
Shahabad	375	277	276	+ 98	+ 1	+ 99
Monghyr	1,493	1,324	1,091	+ 169	+ 233	+ 402
ORISSA	***5,004***	***4,638***	***3,976***	+ ***366***	+ ***662***	+ ***1,028***
Cuttack	2,652	2,723	2,342	− 71	+ 381	+ 310
Balasore	1,274	1,075	815	+ 199	+ 260	+ 459
Puri	1,078	840	819	+ 238	+ 21	+ 259
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU ...	***156,634***	***96,847***	***43,998***	+ ***59,787***	+ ***52,849***	+ ***112,636***
Hazaribagh	1,163	889	552	+ 274	+ 337	+ 611
Ranchi	124,958	75,693	36,263	+ 49,265	+ 39,430	+ 88,695
Palamau	7,908	6,676	18	+ 1,232	+ 6,658	+ 7,890
Manbhum	2,910	1,532	593	+ 1,378	+ 980	+ 2,358
Singhbhum	6,961	4,864	2,988	+ 2,097	+ 1,876	+ 3 973
Santhal Parganas	9,875	5,943	3,056	+ 3,932	+ 2,887	+ 6,819
Tributary States, Chota Nagpur	1,876	928	105	+ 1,348	+ 823	+ 1,771
Ditto, Orissa ...	950	703	457	+ 247	+ 246	+ 493
Angul	38	19	7	+ 14	+ 12	+ 26

SUBSIDIARY TABLE IV.—Showing the distribution of Christians by race and sect (Actual Numbers.)

Sect.	European.		Eurasian.		Native.		Total.		Variation + or −
	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	1901.	1891.	
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10
Anglican Communion ...	10,862	5,260	4,402	4,241	18,054	17,365	61,024	48,950	+ 12,074
Armenian	334	200	19	15	3	3	574	435	+ 139
Baptist	314	282	355	326	10,392	9,015	21,621	14,747	+ 6,874
Congregationalist ...	65	47	11	10	947	971	2,051	1,254	+ 797
Greek	99	28	22	2	8	8	167	192	− 25
Indefinite belief	6	.....	1	.....	1	.....	8	13	− 5
Lutheran and allied denominations.	198	81	5	1	34,727	34,567	69,580	23,475	+ 46,105
Methodist	431	291	282	338	1,200	1,276	3,858	917	+ 2,941
Minor denominations ...	57	28	23	14	217	129	528	439	+ 89
Presbyterian	1,815	585	287	243	1,714	1,949	6,691	4,737	+ 1,954
Roman Catholic	3,710	1,911	6,067	6,207	44,459	45,870	108,194	90,117	+ 18,077
Sect not returned ...	140	79	36	107	1,740	1,948	4,070	7,208	− 3,138
Total ...	*18,029*	*9,460*	*11,480*	*11,654*	*113,562*	*114,201*	*278,366*	*192,484*	*+85,882*

SUBSIDIARY TABLE V.—Showing the distribution per 1,000 (*a*) of each race of Christians by sect, and (*b*) of each sect by race.

Sect.	Races distributed by sect.				Sects distributed by race.			
	European.	Eurasian.	Native.	Total.	European.	Eurasian.	Native.	Total.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9
Anglican Communion	610	374	156	219	275	142	583	1,000
Armenian	20	1	.....	2	950	59	11	1,000
Baptist	22	31	89	78	28	33	939	1,000
Congregationalist	4	1	9	7	55	10	935	1,000
Greek	5	1	.....	1	709	144	96	1,000
Lutheran and allied denominations.	10	.....	304	250	4	.....	996	1,000
Methodist	26	25	11	14	187	148	665	1,000
Minor denominations	3	2	2	2	161	70	769	1,000
Presbyterian	87	27	16	24	358	94	548	1,000
Roman Catholic	205	531	397	389	52	113	835	1,000
Sect not returned	8	7	16	14	54	40	906	1,000
Total ...	*1,000*	*1,000*	*1,000*	*1,000*	*99*	*83*	*818*	*1,000*

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VI.—Comparing the distribution by religion of the Urban and Rural population.

Natural Divisions.	Number per 10,000 of Urban population who are.—					Number per 10,000 of Rural population who are.—				
	Hindu.	Muhammadan.	Christian.	Animist.	Others.	Hindu.	Muhammadan.	Christian.	Animist.	Others.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11
TOTAL ...	*6,959*	*2,794*	*174*	*19*	*54*	*6,297*	*3,272*	*28*	*372*	*31*
West Bengal	8,158	1,747	85	7	3	8,231	1,286	6	377	.....
Central ,, ...	6,717	2,915	361	1	66	4,629	5,323	28	20	.....
North ,, ...	5,370	4,210	113	4	301	3,986	5,908	7	110	89
East ,, ...	5,285	4,561	68	1	85	3,201	6,667	15	20	97
North Bihar	7,292	2,628	70	1	9	8,406	1,589	2	3	.....
South ,, ...	7,334	2,593	59	.....	14	9,155	839	2	4	.....
Orissa	8,541	1,290	162	.....	7	9,769	204	6	21	.....
Chota Nagpur Plateau ...	7,561	1,699	374	404	22	7,015	436	155	2,39[illegible]	2

Chapter V.

AGE.

386. The statistics regarding the age-distribution of the total population, and of the adherents of each religion in the Province as a whole, and in each district, will be found in Imperial Table VII. Similar information for a number of selected castes is given in Table XIV, but the age periods selected for these tables are somewhat less elaborate than those for Table VII. The following subsidiary tables at the end of this chapter illustrate the more important points in the statistics by means of proportional figures:—

REFERENCE TO STATISTICS.

Subsidiary Table I.—Unadjusted age return of 100,000 of each sex.

Subsidiary Table II.—Age distribution of 100,000 of each sex, at each of the last of these Censuses, for the Province as a whole, and for each Natural Division.

Subsidiary Table III.—Age distribution of 100,000 of each sex by religion.

Subsidiary Table IV.—Age distribution of 1,000 of each sex in certain castes.

Subsidiary Table V.—Proportion of children under 10 years of age, and of persons over 60, to persons aged 20 to 40, and also of married females to total females of certain ages.

Subsidiary Table VI.—Proportion of female children under 12 to married females, and of married, to total, females in certain castes.

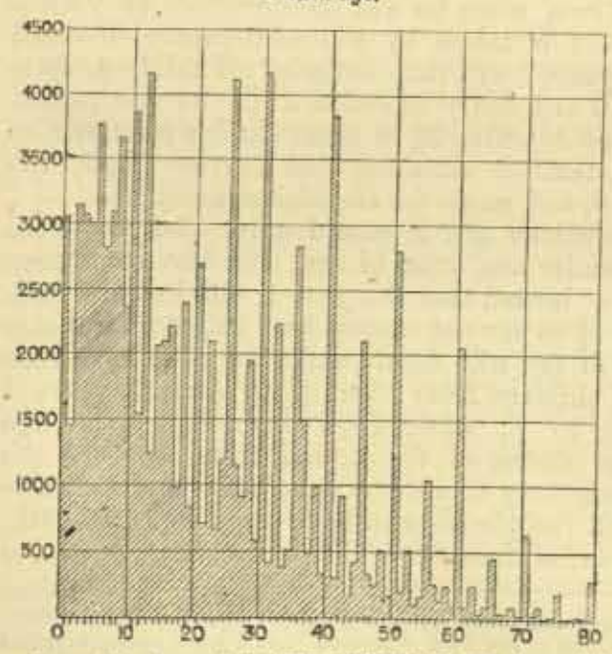
Subsidiary Table VII.—Showing the reported death-rate at certain ages in 1897 and 1900.

387. There is no question but that the return of age is the least reliable of all the statistics collected at the Census. Even in England it was stated in the Census Report for 1891 that "not improbably the greater number of adults do not know their precise age and can only state it approximately." Amongst adults, says a leading statistician, "there is a great tendency to return ages at some exact multiple of 10" while in the case of children under 5 years of age, "the vagueness with which parents use the terms 'one year old' 'two years old' etc., when the children are only in their first or second year respectively, is a cause of considerable error."* There is also a wilful mis-statement of age on the part of women, while there is a marked tendency for old persons to overstate their ages.

INACCURACY OF AGE RETURN.

If the age return is thus inaccurate in England it is infinitely more so in India. Nothing is more, common when a witness is asked his age in court, than for him to reply *bis challis* 'twenty to forty,' or to say that he has not the faintest idea on the subject. The Enumerators were almost as ignorant on this subject as the enumerated, and it must be confessed that the entries made in the schedules were often little better than very wild guesses. The tendency to select certain round numbers is far greater than it is in England, and the inaccuracy of the entries for children under 5 years of age is still more marked. It will be seen from the diagram in the margin, which has been prepared from the unadjusted return for males (Subsidiary Table I), that the children shown as 5 years of age are more than twice as numerous as those of 1 year, but that they are considerably exceeded

Diagram showing the actual number of males returned at each age.



NOTE:—The figures at the bottom indicate age and those at the side the number of persons returned at it.

* Dr. Newsholme, in the third edition of his book on Vital Statistics, page 2.

by the number of males returned at the ages of 10, 12, 25 and 30. In a progressive or stationary population, however, the greatest number should be at the age "under 1 year" and it should steadily decrease from year to year. That it does not do so is due mainly to the tendency, already alluded to as existing even in Europe, to fix on certain favourite numbers. If the vagueness in respect of age, of which this is an indication, were the only error in the returns, and if there were no general tendency either to overstate or to understate ages, it would be possible by an elaborate system of adjustment or smoothing, to eliminate the defect, and to deduce a fairly accurate estimate of the actual ages of the population. It will be desirable, therefore, to consider the figures in some little detail.

388. The instructions which were given to the enumerators were:—

Enter the number of years which each person has completed. For infants less than one year old enter the word 'infant.'

RETURN OF CHILDREN UNDER 5 YEARS.

The figures for children under 5 years of age show remarkable fluctuations. The number returned as between 1 and 2 years of age is barely half the number under 1 year, and the latter again is smaller than the number aged 2 years and still smaller than the number aged 3 years. Finally, the total number of children under 5 years of age is less than the number over 5 but under 10. The main features of these variations are not new, nor are they confined to this Province; they are common to all Provinces both at the present and all previous enumerations.

The very small number returned as 1 year of age appears to be due in part to the rule that children under 1 year of age should be entered as 'infants.' The object of this provision was to avoid the confusion between months and years, which would arise if the ages of such children were stated in months. This source of error was probably obviated, but, on the other hand, many children over 1 year of age who were still unweaned and were, therefore, popularly regarded as infants, were shown as such in the Census schedules and were accordingly classed as "under 1 year of age" in the course of tabulation.* But the main reason appears to be that it is the usual practice to count the current year as part of a person's age. This has been proved to be the case in the Punjab, and the enquiries I have made indicate that it is usually so in Bengal also.† In the earlier years of life, however, the tendency is checked to some extent by the use of the terms *derh*, "one and a half," and *árhái* "two and a half." As soon as a child ceases to be classed as an infant he is described as "derh baras," or one and a half years of age, and the Enumerator would enter him as 1. When he has completed 18 months or so, he will be called two years old, until he passes the age of two, when he will be described as "árhái baras," or two and a half, which will be taken by the enumerator to mean 2 years. The age return for "two years" will thus include all children from $1\frac{1}{2}$ to $2\frac{1}{2}$. After $2\frac{1}{2}$ years a child will ordinarily be called 3 till he has passed his third birthday. There is no word denoting $3\frac{1}{2}$ or other similar fractions, so that according to the general system of counting the current year, the tendency would then be to call him 4, and so on for the higher ages.

389. So far as these considerations go, it would seem that the word "infant" will include all children under one year of age, and also some over that age who are still at the mother's breast, that the year 1 will include such children between the ages of 1 and $1\frac{1}{2}$ as are not classed as "infants," and also possibly some children under 1 year of age who should under the rules have been entered as "infant;" the year 2, all children from about $1\frac{1}{2}$ to about $2\frac{1}{2}$ years of age, and the year 3 those from $2\frac{1}{2}$ to 3; while from 4 onwards, the age actually returned will be a year in excess of the actual facts, so that the return for the years 0—5‡ will include only those who have not completed their 4th year; while that for 5—10 will include all who have completed their 4th, but have not completed the 10th year of their age. There are, however, other

* The birth returns show a considerably larger number of births in 1899 than in either 1900 or 1898.

† The same tendency is noticed in England, and it has been suggested that a more accurate return would be obtained if the instructions were modified accordingly. (Journal of the Institute of Actuaries for 1900, page 368.) The practice in this respect is not uniform throughout Bengal and there are places where there is said to be no special tendency to return either the cardinal or the ordinal year of one's age.

‡ By "0-5 is meant all children under 5. Similarly '5—10' refers to those who have passed their 5th, but have not yet reached their 10th, birthday.

complications. It was distinctly laid down in the instructions that only the number of completed years should be counted, and where the enumerators were well drilled and supervised this must have affected the return to some extent. As a general rule, however, I doubt if special attention was given to the detailed explanation of this rule. The tendency of the people to count the current year of age was not specially pointed out before the census, and apart from this, the general feeling amongst the higher officers was that the age return must, in any case, be so very unreliable, that there was nothing to be gained by laying much stress on the subject, especially when there were so many other matters where the time devoted to instruction would be more likely to produce good results. No doubt obvious mistakes in the age column would be corrected, when they came to notice in the course of testing the schedules, but in other respects I doubt if any special effort was generally made to secure accuracy in a return where accuracy cannot be expected.*

390. According to the general explanation, the number of children entered as 3 years of age should be below the actual number of children of this age, but this does not seem to be the case. The reason is that "3" is a favourite number, and that its losses in the one direction are counterbalanced by a tendency to describe as 3 years of age, children who are no longer infants, but are not yet old enough to be shown as 5, the next number to which natives are specially partial. Another source of error is the omission of a certain number of infants from the returns. It is believed that the proportion of persons who escaped enumeration was exceedingly small, but it is probable that of those who were left out of account, the great majority were children of tender age. The Census refers to the state of the population on the 1st March 1901, but the preliminary record was prepared about six weeks before this date. At the final enumeration there was no alteration of the ages of persons still living, but those who had died in the interval were struck out, while infants since born should have been added.† It is, however, not unlikely that some of the births, which occurred after the date of the preliminary record, escaped notice when the Enumerators made their rounds, on the night of the actual Census, to bring the preliminary record up to date. According to the Census the total number of infants, *i.e.*, of children under one year of age, was 2,264,527. The vital statistics of the Province show that in the twelve months preceding the 1st March 1901, the total number of births was 2,698,379, to which should be added about 146,000 for areas where birth registration is not in force, making a total of about 2,844,000 altogether. According to the life statistics of the proclaimed clans in the United Provinces, to which reference will again be made further on, about 29 per cent. of infants die during the first year of life. If it be assumed that the births and deaths are distributed equally over each month,‡ the number of births reported would indicate a total of about 2,432,000 infants in existence at one time. So that even if the return of births includes all which take place, which is certainly not the case, the Census figures for infants under one year of age would seem to be incomplete. It is, however, impossible to say how far this is due to omissions and how far to the neglect of the rule that children under one year of age should be entered as infants. Occasionally the number of months may have been entered and mistaken for years in the course of tabulation, while some may have been entered as 1 year of age.

* The variations between the returns for neighbouring tracts were often remarkable. Thus in Tippera two charges not far apart disclosed the following figures for the local Muhammadans :—

Charge.	0		1		2		3		4		Total 0—5		Total 5—10	
	M.	F.	M.	F.	M.	F.	M.	F.	M.	F.	M.	F.	M.	F.
V.	736	786	448	470	1,054	1,021	924	944	1,023	953	4,185	4,173	4,564	4,091
XVIII.	947	917	89	114	926	969	702	796	546	873	3,409	3,669	4,138	4,066

The results were noticed and specially tested by the Deputy Superintendent, Mr. Howard, who brought them to my notice.

† It may be pointed out incidentally that the result of this arrangement was to make this population seem slightly younger that it really is. People dying during the six weeks were struck out and replaced by newly born infants.

‡ This is not the case. Births are most numerous in the latter part of the year, while the mortality is probably greatest in the first few months after birth. The two irregularities, however, have opposite effects and may be taken as cancelling each other.

OTHER AGES.

391. The other ages may be dealt with more briefly. Amongst men, and especially amongst widowers, there is a general desire to be considered young, and it is not uncommon for men of 40 to describe themselves as 25 years of age, and a comparison of the age-return for the present census with that of 1891 shows that the number of persons now entered under the age-period 25—30 exceeds by nearly 15 per cent. the number returned under the age-period 15—20, ten years ago. With females the tendency to misdescription comes earlier. It is considered a disgrace for a girl to attain puberty while still unmarried, and when this happens, her father will either not mention her existence to the Census Enumerator or, if he does so, he will understate her age. It is for this reason that while females aged 0—5 invariably outnumber the males, at the age-period 10—15 they are in great defect. Once a woman is married, her age is often exaggerated while she is still very young, but the estimate then remains unchanged so long as she is capable of child-bearing, and until this period of life has passed, she is often shown as much younger then she really is. Amongst old people of both sexes, but especially in the case of females, exaggeration in the matter of age is very common. These are the main causes of error, so far as I can trace them, but the mistakes which are made are by no means confined to them and they are often due to pure ignorance.

LIFE TABLE.

392. The age statistics of the censuses of 1881 and 1891 for the larger provinces of India, including Bengal, were subjected to a close analysis by Mr. Hardy, F.I.A., F.S.S., whose ater pronouncement on the subject will be found in the Imperial Census Report of 1891, Vol. II, pages 143 to 185. The general results, so far as this province is concerned, are noted briefly below.

Mr. Hardy noticed three main sources of error in the figures, viz:—

(1) a fondness for certain special numbers;
(2) a heaping up of the figures about the age 25—30 "at the expense of the preceding and following ages," and
(3) a tendency to exaggerate the ages after about age 65.

These errors were eliminated by an elaborate process of smoothing, and the ages during the early years of life were further adjusted according to the rates of mortality, shown by the statistics maintained under the special law for preventing infanticide; amongst certain proclaimed clans in the United Provinces, which are believed to be specially accurate.* The corrected age distribution in 1881 was then compared with that in 1891 and the observed rate of increase in the population,† and it was calculated how many persons living at each age x in 1881 were surviving at the age $x+10$ in 1891. From these results the mortality tables for the province were worked out. The general conclusion to which Mr. Hardy came was that the birth-rate in Bengal, during the decade 1881—1891, was 51·8 per 1,000 (males 52·9 and females 50·8), and the death-rate 44·8 (males 45·9 and females 43·8). The estimated annual rate of increase was taken at 7 per 1,000, which corresponded with the actual rate disclosed by the census of 1891. We have seen, however, that, of the increase brought out by the census of 1891, about half a million was due to better enumeration. No allowance was made for this in Mr. Hardy's calculation, and it would seem, therefore, that his birth rate, at least, must have been pitched somewhat too high. Moreover, when adjusting the ages, except for the two extremes of life, it was apparently assumed that the excess population returned at certain favourite numbers should be assigned half to ages below, and half to ages above, the number in question, whereas, in some cases at least, the under-statement of age is very much more frequent than the error in the other direction. It seems probable that the mean age of the population as a whole is greater, and the death-rate smaller, than would appear even from the corrected age return. However that may be, the subject is much too complicated for it to be possible for any one who is not a trained actuary to deal with it, and as Mr. Hardy himself is, I understand, again to undertake the examination of the age statistics, any

* It was assumed that the mortality amongst these clans is a fair index to the mortality amongst children throughout India; but if the general rate of mortality varies, as it undoubtedly does, it seems very uncertain how far the mortality under the age of 10 years, which forms a very large proportion of the total, is really uniform.

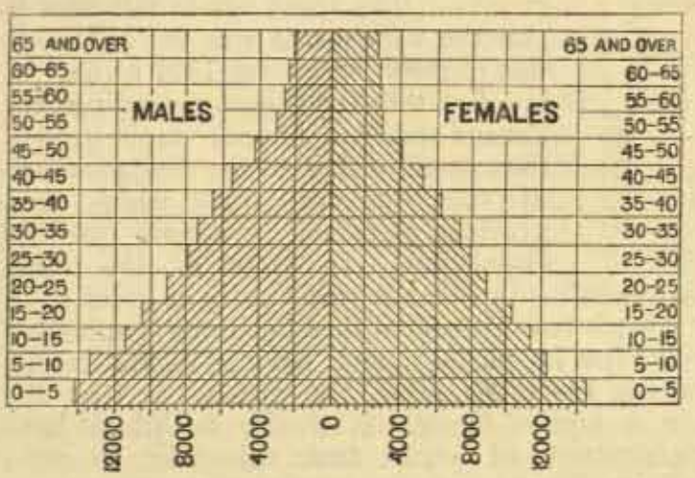
† In some Provinces migration was allowed for, but in Bengal it was thought that the net result of the movements of the people, to and from the Province, was so small that it might safely be left out of account.

attempt on my part to forestall his conclusions would be not only supererogatory but presumptuous.

MEAN AGE.

393. At the same time there are certain comparative results which can be deduced without any elaborate calculations, and I propose briefly to draw attention to these. And first comes the question of the relative longevity of the people of different religions and localities, and at different times. The mean age of the people in each Natural Division, and at each of the last three censuses, has been shown in Subsidiary Table II and corresponding figures for the main religions have been given in Subsidiary Table III. The method by which these figures have been arrived at is as follows. In the first place the irregularities in the numbers returned at each age period (0—5, 5—10, etc.), have been eliminated by an arithmetical process of smoothing known as "Bloxam's method," and the mean age has then been calculated from the number shown as living at each age period in the manner described in the report on the census of France in 1891,* *i.e.*, the totals showing the number of persons living at the end of each quinquennial period have been multiplied by 5 and raised by $2\frac{1}{2}$ times the total number of persons dealt with, and the sum thus obtained has then been divided by the number of persons. The method employed in adjusting the irregularities in the age return is a very rough one, and it is based on the assumption, which I have already shown to be erroneous, that the heaping up of ages at certain favourite numbers is due in equal proportions to over and under statements of the true ages. The diagram in the margin shows the distribution of the total population by age according to the method of smoothing adopted, but it will be seen from the figures for the higher ages, especially those for females, that although the irregularities in the original return have been got rid of, the result cannot be accepted as showing the actual age distribution. The number of females living at the age "60 to 65" must necessarily be much smaller than the number at the age "50—55" but in the diagram the figures for the two age periods are very nearly identical. It should, therefore, be clearly understood that I make no pretence to absolute accuracy in my estimates of the mean age. But the errors involved in the calculation, and in the figures on which it is based, may be assumed to be constant, and if so, the results can be relied on for comparison between different censuses, localities, and religions.

Diagram showing the distribution of corrected age periods of 100,000 persons of each sex.



But before dealing with the results from this point of view, it should be explained that the expression 'mean age' refers to the mean age of the living, *i.e.*, of the persons enumerated, and does not correspond to the mean expectation of life at birth, save in the exceptional case where the population has been stationary for at least a generation.† Where the population is growing, *i.e.*, where the births exceed the deaths, there will be an excess of young persons and the mean age of the living will be reduced accordingly.‡ Variations in the mean age as calculated in Subsidiary Tables II and III may, therefore, be due to a change either in the proportion of births or in the rate of mortality.

VARIATIONS IN MEAN AGE.

394. In discussing variations in the mean age it seems desirable to consider only the figures for males, as it is believed that there is less inaccuracy in the return of their ages than is the case with females. In the Province as a whole the mean age of males

* Resultats Statistiques du Dénombrement de 1891, Paris 1894, pages 223, 324 and 414.

† For a discussion of this subject see Bertillon's *Cours Élémentaire de Statistique*, page 503 and Newsholme's *Vital Statistics*, page 92.

‡ Thus in France during the period 1840—49, when the population was growing rapidly, the mean expectation of life was 40·05 years, whereas the mean age of the living was only 30·92.

fell slightly during the decade 1881—1891, and rose again during that preceding the present Census. The earlier decade was uniformly prosperous, and there were no serious epidemics. The population had been growing more rapidly than usual, and the mean age accordingly fell. Since 1891 the growth of the population has been less rapid, and the proportion of children is smaller. There has, consequently, been a rise in the mean age of the living.*

The figures for Natural Divisions show that the mean age is highest in Central Bengal, where the proportion of immigrants, who are usually adults, is greatest. The mean age in this tract is now the same as it was in 1881. It was slightly lower in 1891 owing to the fact that the decade preceding that Census was one of more rapid growth than usual, owing to the disappearance of the Burdwan fever which had previously caused a serious loss of population. In spite of the large number of emigrants the mean age in South Bihar is very nearly as great as in Central Bengal. This is only what is to be expected in a declining population where births are comparatively few in number, and having regard to the decrease in the population which has taken place, the wonder is that the average age has not risen to a higher figure. It would doubtless have done so but for the great emigration of adults from this tract to other parts of the Province. In West Bengal, which stands next, the mean age is very slightly less than in South Bihar, but its position is due, not so much to a small birth-rate, as to immigration. The mean age in North Bihar is exactly the same as in 1881. The population has been stationary since 1891, and the absence of any variation as compared with the Census in that year is, therefore, easily explicable, but it is not so clear why there should have been no change during the previous ten years when the population grew by nearly 6 per cent. The average age of the population is the same in Orissa as in North Bihar. It has been steadily increasing since 1881, when there had been an exceptionally rapid growth of population after the famine of 1866 and the proportion of young people was much above the normal. The mean age is comparatively low in North and East Bengal. In the former tract it is due in part to the unhealthiness near the foot of the hills which reduces the average longevity of the people, while in the latter it is attributable to the rapid rate at which the population is growing, *i.e.*, to the high birth-rate which raises the proportion of children. Compared with the previous decade, when several districts were recovering from the disastrous effects of a cyclone and storm-wave, the rate of growth in East Bengal has fallen slightly, and this has resulted in a small advance in the mean age. The fecundity of the inhabitants of the Chota Nagpur Plateau is even greater than that of those of East Bengal, while the number who attain old age is smaller. The mean age, therefore, is lower there than in any other part of the Province.

Natural Division.	Mean age of males in years.		
	1901.	1891.	1881.
PROVINCE	*24·3*	*24·0*	*24·2*
West Bengal	24·8	24·7	24·8
Central ,, ...	25·1	24·9	25·1
North ,, ...	23·8	24·1	24·3
East ,, ...	23·3	22·5	23·8
North Bihar	24·4	24·4	24·4
South ,, ...	25·0	24·7	24·9
Orissa	24·4	24·1	23·7
Chota Nagpur Plateau ...	22·6	22·4	22·6

There is no need to linger long over the average age of the population according to religion. The Animists are, on the whole, the youngest community, then follow the Muhammadans, and then the Hindus. In the case of Animists the low average age is due to greater fecundity and a shorter span of life. The Muhammadans have a lower mean age than the Hindus because they

Religion.	Mean age of males.
Hindu	24·6
Musalman	23·1
Animist	21·9

* If the calculation of mean age were correct, an average age of 24·3 in a stationary population would indicate a death-rate per 1,000 of $\frac{1,000}{24·3}$ or about 41. As the population is not stationary but growing the death-rate calculated on this basis would be somewhat less than 41. The average yearly increase in the population is 4·9 per 1,000, and a death-rate of 41 per 1,000 would, therefore, give a birth-rate of about 46 per 1,000. The death-rate estimated by Mr Hardy for Bengal, as a whole, in 1891, was, as already stated, 44·8, and the birth-rate 51·8. M. Bertillon divides the countries of Europe into three classes with reference to the fecundity of these people. Calculating the number of births per 1,000 women of child-bearing age (which he places at from 15 to 60) the first class consists of those with a high birth-rate, *i.e.*, exceeding 150 per 1,000; then come those with a moderate one, *i.e.*, exceeding 130 per 1,000; then those with a low birth-rate, *i.e.*, 120 per 1,000 or less. Class I includes the Slav and Teutonic races; Class II England Scotland, Belgium, Spain, Portugal, Roumania, Ireland, Norway and Denmark; and Class III Sweden, Greece, Switzerland; then, a long way behind, Ireland and, last of all, France. In Bengal the extreme child-bearing age is probably 40; but even if we take it at 45, a birth-rate of 46 per 1,000 of the total population would give 195 births per 1,000 married women of child-bearing age.

are more prolific: there is no reason to suppose that there is any marked difference in their relative longevity.

AGE DISTRIBUTION OF DIFFERENT CASTES.

395. The proportional age-distribution of some of the main castes will be found in Subsidiary Table IV. It would be tedious to discuss the figures at length, but, taking males only, a few interesting results may be briefly noticed. Excluding Baishnabs, where the proportion is disturbed by new accretions of adults from outside, the castes which have the largest number of persons over 40 per 1,000 are those which rank highest in the Hindu social system,* viz., Bráhmans (225), Káyasths (224), Rájputs (220) and Bábhans (217). Conversely the communities with the smallest proportion of persons of this age are the aboriginal tribes of Chota Nagpur, such as Ho (156), Oráon (159), Santál (171), Pán (174), Bhuiyá (175,) Bhumij (180) and Munda (183). These proportions are determined, as already explained, not only by the relative longevity of the various groups but also by their fecundity.† Where the proportion of children is large that of adults must necessarily be smaller, and the average age of the community will be less even if the actual duration of life be the same. Amongst the high castes the proportion of children is much smaller than it is amongst the aboriginal tribes.

Caste or Tribe.	Number of male children under 5 per 1,000 of population.
Brahman	119
Káyasth	126
Rájput	115
Bábhan	112
Ho	141
Oráon	145
Santál	145
Pán	156
Bhuiyá	147
Bhumij	128
Munda	153

It is interesting to notice the very close resemblance which the age distribution of the Chandál of East Bengal bears to that of the Rájbansi, and it would seem that the likeness must be due to something more than mere accident.‡ It is possible that a more extended study of the age statistics of the various castes would throw a good deal of light on their racial affinities. The low proportion of old men amongst the Gauras of the Orissa States, for example, points clearly to the non-Aryan sources from which the caste is there mainly recruited, while the corresponding figure for the Bábhans of Hazaribagh suggests either that they have there intermixed with lower races, or else that, in compiling the figures, there has been some confusion between Bhuinhár used as a synonym for Bábhan and the same word employed as a title of Mundas and Oráons, or as referring to the tribe commonly known as Bhuiyá. The Telis and Lohárs of the Chota Nagpur Plateau present in their age distribution the characteristics of the aborigines around them, while the same castes in Bengal Proper resemble in this respect the higher rather than the lower classes of the community.

Age.	Proportion per 1,000.	
	Rájbansi.	Chandál.
0—5	133	131
5—12	199	200
12—20	160	158
20—40	301	303
40 and over.	207	208

GENERAL DECLINE IN THE BIRTH-RATE.

396. Another point to be noticed is that there appears to have been a general and progressive decline in the birth-rate since 1881. The actual number of male children under 5 (excluding Sikkim and Hill Tippera and the Chittagong Hill Tracts) shows a small increase, as compared with 1891, while that of females has declined by nearly 5 per cent. With the exception of Darbhanga, where the number of children under 5 has increased by about 4 per cent., and of Muzaffarpur, where there has been practically no change, all the districts in the Patna Division contain a smaller number of such children than they did ten years ago. Five years, however, is too short a period from which to draw any general conclusions. In the Province, as a whole, the number of children under 10 years of age shows an increase since 1891 of nearly 2 per cent. for males, and of rather less than 3 per cent. for females, *i.e.*, the children of this age have increased less than half as rapidly as the general population. In the Patna Division, however, the decrease amongst children aged 5 to 10 is even greater than that at the earlier age-period, being about 8 per cent. compared with about 4 per cent.

* There are exceptions, *e.g.*, the Sunri (224) and the Goálá of Bengal Proper (224).

† The difference in the degree of education must also be remembered. The age-return of Bráhmans and Káyasths must be much more accurate than that of Santáls and Oráons.

‡ The affinities of the Rájbansis will be further discussed in the Chapter on Caste (paragraph 617).

It will be easier to consider the question if we take the proportional figures. These are given in the margin, by Natural Divisions, for the last three Censuses. A more detailed comparison of the figures for the last two enumerations will be found in Subsidiary Table V at the end of the chapter. It must be borne in mind that the proportions are affected by migration, and that the constantly increasing number of emigrants (mostly adults) from Bihar and the United Provinces to Bengal Proper has caused an artificial reduction in the proportion borne by children to the total population in the latter tract, and a corresponding increase in Bihar. It must also be remembered that variations in the proportion borne by children to the total population depend not only on the changes in the birth-rate, but also on the deaths which occur. If, owing to the prevalence of epidemics or general unhealthiness, the mortality amongst adults is high, the proportion of children will be greater even though the number of births remains the same as before. On the other hand a general increase in the longevity of the people due to an improvement in their material condition would tend to reduce the proportion which children bear to the total population. Similarly, if there are any causes of mortality specially affecting the life of children, the proportion of the latter will be reduced accordingly.

Natural Division.	Number of children under 10 per 1,000 of the population.					
	Male.			Female.		
	1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.
PROVINCE ...	***145***	***147***	***149***	***146***	***149***	***148***
West Bengal ..	130	132	130	131	132	126
Central Bengal ...	133	135	140	130	139	136
North Bengal ...	154	154	153	156	155	151
East Bengal ...	155	161	156	159	158	157
North Bihar ...	142	142	145	137	147	147
South Bihar ...	130	137	143	128	141	145
Orissa ...	128	131	148	131	134	146
Chota Nagpur Plateau	152	162	167	153	166	169

397. It is very difficult to ascertain how far the proportions have been affected in different parts of the Province by considerations such as these; but taking the figures as they stand it may be observed that, as compared with 1881, there has been a slight increase in the proportion of children in East, West and North Bengal, but that the gain in these directions has been more than counterbalanced by a decline in all other parts of the Province, especially in Orissa, South Bihar and the Chota Nagpur Plateau. The increase in West Bengal would have been more marked but for the growth of the immigrant population. The greater number of immigrants is also mainly responsible for the smaller proportion of children now recorded in Central Bengal. The decline in Orissa may be ascribed to the fact that, in 1881, this tract was recovering from the great famine of 1866, *i.e.*, its population was growing at a specially rapid rate and the proportion of children was, therefore, exceptionally high.* The population has now regained its normal condition, and the proportion of children has fallen accordingly. The decrease in Bihar admits of no such satisfactory explanation and the actual falling off is greater than would appear from the census figures, which do not allow for the growing volume of emigration of adults to Bengal Proper.

Of all the Bihar districts Darbhanga alone shows a slight increase, while the decline is most marked in the districts south of the Ganges and in Champaran. It is somewhat greater in the case of children between the ages of 5 and 10 than in that of those between 0 and 5. There must, therefore, have been either a lower birth-rate between 1891 and 1896 than between 1881 and 1886, or the mortality amongst children of this age must have been greater in the present decade than in the previous one. The possible causes of mortality amongst children which were present in the decade 1891—1901 and absent in the previous one are plague and famine. It does not appear that plague has any special tendency to attack children; while if the famine were the cause, it would follow that the diminution would be greatest in the districts which suffered most from that calamity. This, however, is not the case, and the worst famine district, Darbhanga, is the only one which has maintained its position. It would seem, therefore, that the real cause must be a fall in the birth-rate.

* A rapid rise in the birth-rate after such catastrophes is a well known phenomenon. M. Bertillon says "la natalité s'abaisse, à la suite de lanuptialité, lorsque la population subit quelque désastre (guerre, disette, chômage, etc.). La période de crise une fois passée, la natalité devient plus forte qu'elle n'était avant la crise, comme si la population éprouvait le besoin de réparer le temps perdu. (Cours Elémentaire de Statistique Administrative, p. 477.)

CAUSES OF FALL IN THE BIRTH-RATE.

398. A fall in the birth-rate is a phenomenon with which European Statisticians are well acquainted. In France it has diminished to such an extent that in 1899 the deaths exceeded the births in half the departments, and the birth-rate, which in 1851 was only 26 per mille, has declined since then by 15 per cent. In England also the birth-rate has been steadily falling. The causes usually assigned for these results in Europe are—first, a postponement of marriage and a larger degree of celibacy and, secondly, the deliberate and voluntary avoidance of child-bearing on the part of a steadily increasing number of married people. To the above, it would be thought, might be added for India the gradual spread of the prejudice against the remarriage of widows, but as a matter of fact, in Bengal at least, widows remarry more freely now than they did even ten years ago. The prejudice against this practice is spreading amongst a few castes or sub-castes which are endeavouring to obtain a higher social position: but their number is small compared with that of the Muhammadan community, which is not only increasing more rapidly than the total population of the Province, but is also, in response to the preaching of the Maulavis, gradually divesting itself of the prejudices against widow marriage which it had imbibed from the Hindus. In the Province, as a whole, the proportion of widows to 1000 females aged 15 to 40 has fallen from 165 in 1881 and 154 in 1891 to 149 at the present Census. On the other hand, although the proportion of married women is no smaller than it was ten years ago, there has been a slight tendency to postpone the age of marriage. The proportion of married females under 10 is the same as before, but there has been a slight decline in the proportion of females who are married between the ages of 10 and 20. Between the ages 20 and 40 the proportion has remained unaltered, while that at the higher ages has risen. In Bihar the results are different from those in the rest of the Province. The general proportion of married women is the same as in 1891, but while infant marriage has become more common, there has been a diminution in the proportion of married women at the child-bearing ages. The falling-off is very marked in Saran and Champaran, especially in the former district.

399. The postponement of the age of marriage, however, can not wholly account for the diminished rate of reproduction. The deliberate avoidance of child-bearing must also be partly responsible. It has more than once been pointed out by Settlement Officers that the size of a landless labourer's family is smaller than that of a cultivator,* and there seems to be no reason why this should be the case unless preventive checks of some sort were employed. Mal-nutrition would account for the diminished fecundity of the labouring classes in years of famine or great scarcity, but this by itself would, as a rule, merely postpone conception. A low birth-rate immediately after a famine is usually followed by a period in which the number of births is exceptionally great, and there is no reason to suppose that in ordinary years the conditions under which the labouring classes live are unfavourable to child-bearing. Moreover, the phenomenon is not confined to the labourers. Mr. Stevenson-Moore finds that amongst cultivators also the size of the family varies with the size of the holding.† It is a matter of common belief that amongst the tea-garden coolies of Assam means are frequently taken to prevent conception, or to procure abortion; and if so, it is not by any means improbable that the poorer classes in Bihar should adopt similar measures to avoid the embarrassment of a large family. Regarding the actual means by which the number of children is kept down I have no information, but it may be noted that in the districts where there has been a falling off in the proportion of children, the decrease in the number of females is somewhat greater than that in the number of males.

RELATIVE FECUNDITY IN DIFFERENT NATURAL DIVISIONS.

400. The proportion of children to the number of married females aged 15 to 40 is highest in Chota Nagpur and next highest in East and North Bengal; then follows Central Bengal, then West Bengal and North Bihar, then Orissa, and, last of all, South Bihar. In North Bengal the population is not growing very rapidly, and the large proportion of children seems, therefore, to

* Muzaffarpur Settlement Report, page 364, and Report on Material Condition of small Agriculturists and Labourers in the Gaya District, page 17.

† *Op Cit.*, page 23.

be due to a great extent to the comparatively short duration of life enjoyed by the people in that part of the Province. Many of the North Bengal districts are very unhealthy and the mortality is high. In one tract, as we have already seen, the average death-rate during the last decade was 59·8 per mille, while in one year it reached the appalling figure of 71 per 1,000.* In Orissa, on the other hand, in spite of the low proportion of children, the population has grown by more than the provincial average, and it may, therefore, be concluded that the people in that Division enjoy a longer span of life than those in many other parts of the Province.

RELATIVE FECUNDITY OF DIFFERENT RELIGIONS.

401. Turning to the proportion of children amongst the different religions, we notice that it is highest amongst the Animistic tribes and lowest amongst the Hindus, while the Muhammadans occupy a middle place approaching more nearly to the Animists than to the Hindus. There is probably no marked difference in the relative longevity of Hindus and Musalmans, and the excess of children amongst the latter is due, doubtless, to a higher birth-rate. The aboriginal tribes are believed to be comparatively short-lived and, although they are very prolific, the greater number of their children, as compared with the Muhammadans, may also be due in part to the fact that there are fewer old people amongst them. The true growth of the Animistic population is obscured by emigration to Assam and conversions to Hinduism, but so far as can be gathered from the analysis given in Chapter II of the variations in the population of the districts where they form the bulk of the population, they are increasing even more rapidly than the Muhammadans and, if so, it would seem that their greater fecundity is the main factor in producing the high proportion of children.

RELIGION.	PROPORTION OF CHILDREN UNDER 10 PER 10,000.	
	Male.	Female.
Hindu	2,685	2,742
Musalman ...	3,112	3,211
Animist	3,332	3,345

The greater apparent prolificness of the Muhammadans, as compared with Hindus, is due partly to the fact that they live mainly in the part of the Province where the conditions are favourable to a rapid increase of the population, but this is by no means the only reason. Even in East Bengal the proportion of children under 10 is far greater than amongst Hindus, and in every Natural Division Muhammadan children are relatively far more numerous than those of Hindu parents. The main reason for this result, which fully accords with the observed variations in the rate of growth of the two communities, appears to be that among the Musalmans there are fewer unmarried women at the productive ages. The proportion of the married to the total number of females is about the same in both cases, but amongst Hindus girls of tender age bulk more largely in the former category. The distribution of 1,000 women of each religion by age and civil condition shows that there are 343 married women amongst the Musalmans between the ages of 15 and 40 compared with only 325 amongst the Hindus. The Muhammadan girls marry at a later age than do the Hindus, and when they become widows, they more frequently espouse a second husband. Apart from this it would seem that the Muhammadan population as a whole is more fecund than the Hindu The circmstances which seem to account for this result have already been discussed in the last Chapter (paragraph 310)

NATURAL DIVISION.	PROPORTION OF MALE CHILDREN UNDER 10 PER 10,000.	
	Hindu.	Musalman.
West Bengal ...	2,502	2,725
Central ,, ...	2,433	2,853
North ,, ...	2,835	3,292
East ,, ...	2,755	3,229
North Bihar ...	2,777	2,911
South ,, ...	2,577	2,679
Orissa ...	2,581	2,771
Chota Nagpur ...	3,026	3,166

FECUNDITY OF DIFFERENT CASTES.

402. I have already referred incidentally to the varying fecundity of different castes and tribes in connection with their longevity. A high proportion of children may be due either to greater productiveness or to a lower average span of life. In Subsidiary Table VI the comparison is made between the number of female children under 12 and the number of married females of child-bearing age, *i.e.*, from 15 to 40. The variations in the longevity of different classes probably affect the figures after the age of 40 in a far greater degree than those at the lower ages. The elimination of the presons living at the higher ages, however, does not materially affect the result, and it still appears, as before, that the

* *Ante* page 62, paragraph 129.

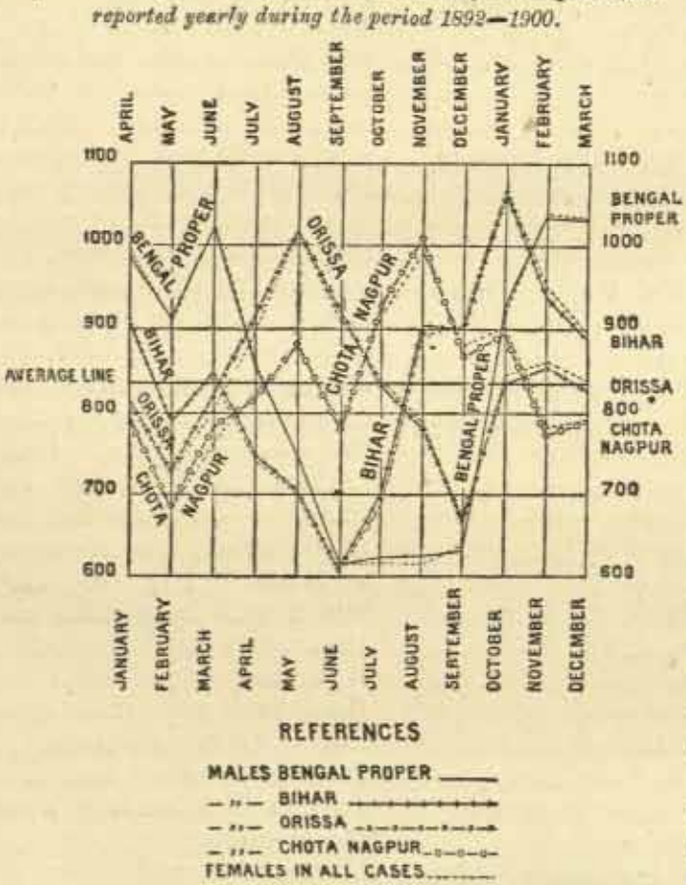
fecundity of the aboriginal tribes is far greater than that of the Hindus. If the inferior prolificness of the Hindus were confined to or were chiefly found amongst the higher castes, the result might be explained by the inactive and secluded life which their women live in their zenanas, but it is not so. With the exception of a few race castes, such as the Chandáls and Rájbansis, the variations in the different ranks of the Hindu community are not very great, and if fewer children are born to high caste parents the loss is made good by the greater care which they receive and the consequently lower rate of mortality amongst them. Whatever the causes may be, it would seem that they must be such as are generally applicable to the whole Hindu community, such as infant marriage, greater inequality in the age of husband and wife, the treatment which a Hindu woman has to submit to at child-birth and when ceremonially unclean, and, lastly, the more extensive resort to preventive checks.

The figures for the Muhammadan functional groups differ but little from those for Hindu castes. It is the cultivating Musalmans, who do not belong to any functional group, who form the most prolific section of the Muhammadan community. Amongst the Buddhists the proportion of children is high in the case of the Maghs and Chákmás of South-East Bengal, and very low amongst the Sikkim Bhotias and Lepchas of the sub-Himalayan region.*

MONTHLY DISTRIBUTION OF BIRTHS.

403. There are some curious variations between different parts of the province in respect of the time when births are most numerous. The average monthly number per 10,000 births yearly, calculated on the returns for the period 1892—1900, is shown in the diagram in the margin.

Diagram showing the average monthly number of births per 10,000 reported yearly during the period 1892—1900.



NOTE.—The month in which the births were reported is shown at the bottom and the probable month of conception at the top of the diagram.

The months noted at the bottom refer to the date of birth and those at the top to the probable time of conception, *i.e.*, nine months earlier. In Bengal Proper the months most favourable to conception are February, March, April and June. From June to September (*i.e.*, during the course of the monsoon) the extent to which conception takes place shows a steady decline; from September to December, *i.e.*, from the cessation of the rains until well on in the cold weather, the fecundity of the people remains at a minimum, and it then again rises rapidly as the cold weather advances and the spring draws near.

In Bihar the reproductive forces come chiefly into play between November and April, and reach their zenith in January. There is a rapid fall in May

* The figures for Lepchas seemed so small that I caused them to be worked out a second time, but the result was the same. The general impression is that the Lepchas have large families. It may be that the Census of Sikkim, where the proportion of children is lowest, is still not as accurate as that of the rest of the Province, and that of the omissions most refer to children. At the same time the result accords very closely with the opinion of Brian Hodgson, who possessed an unrivalled knowledge of the Himalayan country. Speaking of the Bodo and Dhimál of the sub-Himalaya he says: "though healthy races, they are not long-lived nor prolific. Gray hairs are less common than in the hills or in the plains; sixty is deemed a great age; a family of 8 or 9 living children is scarcely known; 5 or 6 alive is nearly the maximum, and 3 to 4 the mean." The Dhimáls and Lepchas resemble each other very closely in many respects.

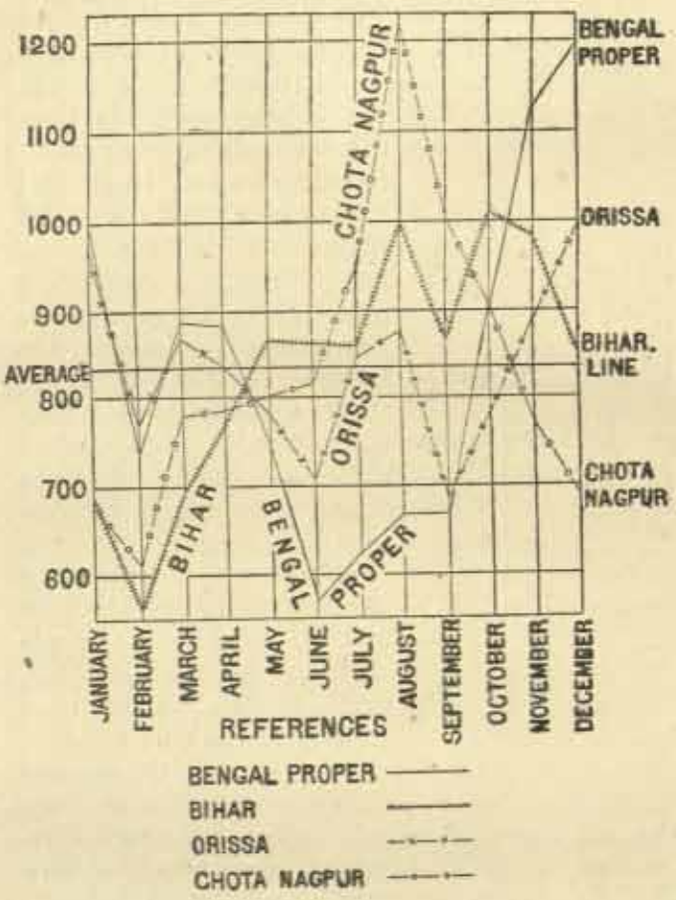
and a slight recovery in June. Then, as in Bengal Proper, the curve falls steadily until September, but, unlike the Bengal line, it again rises immediately, so that in November the amount of conception is once more well above the average.

The fluctuations in Orissa follow an entirely different direction, and the monsoon months are the time when the reproductive principle is most active. During the spring it is about normal, and it is at a minimum in the cold weather. The fall during the month of May is the only feature which is common to Orissa and the other Sub-Provinces. The curve for Chota Nagpur is noticeable mainly for the relatively narrow limits within which it oscillates. Conception takes place most freely in August, and again in the cold weather months; and least so between February and July, the minimum being reached in the month of May.

MONTHLY DISTRIBUTION OF DEATHS.

404. The diagram in the margin shows for each Sub-Province the number per 10,000 deaths yearly which occur in each month of the year. In Bengal Proper the death rate is lowest in June. It rises slowly as the monsoon progresses, and rapidly when the monsoon fades away and the cold weather begins. The greatest number of deaths occur in December. In February the mortality suddenly diminishes, and after a slight rise in March and April it again falls until, as already stated, it reaches its minimum in June. In Bihar the fluctuations are smaller. The lowest death-rate is in February, and it rises steadily until May, when it slightly exceeds the yearly average. The mortality then remains fairly constant for the rest of the year, except in August, October and November, when it is relatively high. In January it falls considerably, and is lower then than in any month except February.

Diagram showing the average monthly number of deaths per 10,000 reported during the period 1892-1900.



In Orissa the mortality is about the average in April and July, below it in February, May, June, September and October, and above it during the other months, being highest in December and January. In Chota Nagpur, as in Bihar, the mortality is lowest in February, from which month it rises continuously until August, when it is nearly 50 per cent. above the mean, and then again falls. From November to June it is below and from July to October it is above the average.

There seems to be no correlation between the rate of mortality and the effective strength of the reproductive principle. In Bengal Proper June is the month, alike of the smallest number of deaths and the largest amount of conception, but next to June and July, August and September are the months of least mortality, while conception takes place most extensively in February, March and April. The reason seems to be partly that death is often due to illnesses contracted some months previous to death, and partly that the mortality generally is greatest amongst the very young and very old, who are unable to bear the cold of winter, which does no harm to those in the prime of life, who are responsible for the birth-rate. It is unnecessary, in these circumstances to compare the statistics for the other Sub-Provinces.

BIRTH-RATE IN TOWNS.

405. It is often said that the reporting of births in towns is very defective; but the low figures for urban areas are due to a great extent to the fact that the crude birth-rate is taken, *i.e.*, the number of births per 1,000 of the total population. The number of births, however, depends on the number of married women of child-bearing age, and the proportion of such women in towns is usually much smaller than in rural areas. The only accurate way of testing the completeness of reporting in towns is by comparing the number of births with the number of married women aged 15 to 40. In Appendix III, I have shown the extent to which the proportion of such women in each town differs from the provincial average. It will be seen that the deficiency is often very considerable. In Nasirabad, for example, there are barely three-fifths as many married women of these ages as there are in the general population. It is, therefore, obvious that the crude birth-rate must also be greatly in defect.*

* Even if the birth-rate be calculated on the number of married women aged 15 to 40 there will still be some deficiency in all towns with a large immigrant population, partly owing to the practice, already adverted to, of women going to their parents' houses for their first confinement, and partly to the fact that many of the immigrants from places in the neighbourhood have two establishments—a temporary house in the town and a permanent one a few miles away. In such cases their wives would usually go to the permanent home in the country when the time of their confinement came near.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE I—UNADJUSTED AGE RETURN OF 100,000 OF EACH SEX.

AGE.	MALE.			FEMALE.		
	Hindu.	Muhammadan.	Average.	Hindu.	Muhammadan.	Average.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7
Total	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*
0	2,908	3,231	3,056	3,045	2,855	2,954
1	1,404	1,504	1,450	1,710	1,593	1,654
2	2,885	3,470	3,156	3,298	3,294	3,296
3	2,830	3,346	3,074	3,239	3,496	3,393
4	2,717	3,329	3,000	2,845	3,196	3,012
5	3,415	4,181	3,770	3,574	3,880	3,720
6	2,385	3,336	2,828	2,447	3,118	2,767
7	2,937	3,276	3,094	3,074	3,296	3,179
8	3,081	4,341	3,665	2,636	3,482	3,038
9	2,247	2,506	2,367	2,268	2,110	2,161
10	3,348	4,470	3,867	2,666	3,267	2,952
11	1,521	1,563	1,540	1,452	1,478	1,465
12	3,917	4,445	4,161	2,747	2,980	2,858
13	1,259	1,215	1,239	1,178	1,064	1,122
14	1,923	2,229	2,065	1,808	1,819	1,813
15	2,169	2,008	2,095	1,996	1,857	1,929
16	2,072	2,389	2,219	2,249	2,573	2,405
17	1,116	819	975	1,124	873	1,005
18	2,398	2,414	2,405	2,843	2,950	2,894
19	946	701	833	1,081	923	1,006
20	2,804	2,569	2,695	3,519	3,839	3,671
21	838	559	701	781	821	800
22	2,300	1,866	2,099	2,420	2,461	2,439
23	785	516	660	791	631	716
24	1,252	1,092	1,178	1,338	1,302	1,321
25	4,498	3,752	4,115	4,334	4,667	4,492
26	1,215	1,051	1,139	1,109	1,030	1,071
27	1,007	805	914	910	741	830
28	2,033	1,854	1,950	1,853	1,791	1,813
29	653	486	576	536	533	535
30	4,463	3,833	4,171	4,394	4,421	4,407
31	444	385	417	442	426	434
32	2,359	2,104	2,241	2,044	1,897	1,974
33	443	308	380	335	280	309
34	565	441	508	522	431	479
35	3,073	2,553	2,833	2,760	2,578	2,673
36	1,507	1,476	1,492	1,243	1,295	1,269
37	573	377	482	424	292	361
38	1,127	830	989	926	748	841
39	379	267	327	341	361	350
40	4,054	3,611	3,849	4,131	3,984	4,061
41	327	269	300	291	320	305
42	1,043	792	927	856	745	803
43	179	152	162	181	133	158
44	457	363	414	422	374	399
45	2,180	2,026	2,108	2,169	1,914	2,048
46	370	277	327	303	229	268
47	286	183	239	235	183	210
48	587	420	509	679	432	561
49	177	157	168	219	197	208
50	2,807	2,689	2,801	3,110	3,023	3,068
51	190	202	195	173	181	177
52	540	465	505	519	429	476
53	115	77	98	103	79	92
54	178	144	162	155	110	134
55	1,110	964	1,042	1,160	962	1,061
56	274	225	253	283	234	260
57	159	90	132	142	108	126
58	305	177	246	236	178	209
59	73	126	97	78	97	87
60	2,069	2,037	2,054	2,716	2,429	2,580
61	97	69	84	113	121	117
62	278	191	238	316	245	282
63	40	32	36	41	26	34
64	99	75	88	91	75	83
65	454	466	459	573	433	504
66	45	40	43	74	112	92
67	51	37	45	56	55	56
68	91	87	89	110	71	91
69	35	20	28	31	28	30
70	589	680	631	898	786	845
71	33	28	30	32	38	35
72	94	99	96	125	96	111
73	12	7	10	19	12	15
74	20	21	20	13	13	12
75	186	196	191	235	206	221
76	15	16	16	25	16	21
77	17	12	15	14	16	15
78	27	18	22	27	29	28
79	11	13	12	13	10	12
80	273	314	291	469	401	432
81	13	11	12	10	21	15
82	18	25	21	25	23	29
83	4	1	2	3	8	5
84	13	11	12	9	9	9
85	47	45	46	72	44	59
86	10	4	7	4	1	3
87	6	3	5	3	1	2
88	14	4	10	9	6	8
89	1	1	1	3	4	3
90	52	77	64	81	60	71
91	2	3	3	5	5	5
92	6	9	8	5	3	4
93	7	1	4	.....	2	1
94	3	.....	1	.....	2	1
95	11	11	11	22	17	20
96	5	2	3	5	2	4
97	3	1	2	1	4	2
98	10	3	7	3	2	3
99	4	2	3	5	4	5
100 and over	24	23	23	19	15	17

Note.—This return was prepared from a few units taken at random in different parts of the Province. It is merely designed to illustrate the tendency of the people to pitch on certain numbers and not to show the general age distribution of the population.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE II.—AGE DISTRIBUTION OF 100,000 OF EACH SEX.

(1) WHOLE OF BENGAL.

AGE.	1901.		1891.		1881.	
	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7
Total ...	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*
0 ...	2,855	2,915	3,168	3,333	2,315	2,333
1 ...	1,376	1,505	1,416	1,516	2,348	2,495
2 ...	2,971	3,277	2,929	3,252	2,934	3,219
3 ...	3,142	3,507	3,347	3,733	3,512	3,837
4 ...	2,932	3,060	3,071	3,182	3,198	3,395
5—10 ...	15,308	14,897	15,564	14,744	15,538	14,440
10—15 ...	12,474	10,151	12,194	9,740	11,388	9,010
15—20 ...	8,561	8,960	8,178	8,375	7,564	7,646
20—25 ...	7,325	8,844	7,022	8,268	7,110	8,421
25—30 ...	8,975	9,046	8,402	8,941	8,830	9,343
30—35 ...	7,952	7,782	8,077	8,193	8,595	8,557
35—40 ...	6,348	5,514	6,446	5,661	6,292	5,506
40—45 ...	5,981	5,841	6,270	6,088	6,323	6,330
45—50 ...	3,719	3,295	3,649	3,175	3,527	3,157
50—55 ...	3,916	4,055	3,942	4,096	4,087	4,406
55—60 ...	1,679	1,677	1,667	1,677	1,631	1,655
60 and over	4,486	5,674	4,658	6,046	4,779	6,385
Unspecified	.....	.....	.....	.....	49	55
MEAN AGE ...	*24·3*	*24·5*	*24·0*	*24·8*	*24·2*	*25·2*

(2) WEST BENGAL.

Total ...	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*
0— 5 ...	11,962	12,567	12,532	13,132	12,930	12,756
5—10 ...	13,974	13,563	14,241	13,063	13,659	11,930
10—15 ...	12,215	9,660	11,804	8,841	11,118	8,501
15—20 ...	9,209	9,264	8,814	9,071	8,983	8,916
20—25 ...	7,995	8,828	7,553	8,691	8,096	9,302
25—30 ...	9,048	8,986	8,976	9,009	9,346	10,160
30—35 ...	7,743	7,611	8,242	8,410	8,653	8,895
35—40 ...	6,646	5,868	6,960	6,188	6,713	5,932
40—45 ...	6,568	6,382	6,648	6,546	6,491	6,706
45—50 ...	4,046	3,754	3,940	3,625	3,581	3,417
50—55 ...	4,007	4,438	3,823	4,257	3,916	4,736
55—60 ...	2,130	2,247	2,069	2,307	1,936	2,116
60 and over	4,476	6,192	4,392	6,220	4,558	6,577
Unspecified	.....	.....	.....	.....	50	56
MEAN AGE ...	*24·8*	*25·8*	*24·7*	*2.61*	*24·8*	*26·6*

(3) CENTRAL BENGAL.

Total ...	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*
0— 5 ...	12,072	13,869	13,510	15,413	13,228	14,126
5—10 ...	13,284	13,397	13,261	12,455	14,341	13,465
10—15 ...	11,589	9,569	11,229	8,713	10,738	8,603
15—20 ...	8,635	9,094	8,381	8,938	7,901	7,910
20—25 ...	8,243	8,762	7,547	8,534	7,583	8,573
25—30 ...	9,794	9,240	8,968	9,210	9,511	9,543
30—35 ...	8,469	7,845	8,568	8,444	8,913	8,593
35—40 ...	6,632	5,610	6,980	5,752	6,555	5,333
40—45 ...	6,511	6,230	6,710	6,364	6,723	6,679
45—50 ...	4,012	3,628	3,887	3,157	3,681	3,312
50—55 ...	3,921	4,438	3,796	4,253	4,045	4,753
55—60 ...	2,049	2,262	2,075	2,204	1,842	1,960
60 and over	4,788	6,056	4,852	6,563	5,188	7,031
Unspecified	.....	.....	.....	.....	52	59
MEAN AGE ...	*25·1*	*25·5*	*24·9*	*25·7*	*25·1*	*26·2*

(4) NORTH BENGAL.

Total ...	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*
0— 5 ...	13,597	15,645	14,485	16,450	13,967	15,272
5—10 ...	16,337	16,631	15,736	15,163	16,186	15,316
10—15 ...	11,273	9,050	10,686	8,530	11,002	8,610
15—20 ...	7,792	9,333	7,664	8,948	7,155	8,141
20—25 ...	7,043	9,198	6,819	8,813	6,646	8,494
25—30 ...	9,088	9,915	9,203	9,868	8,943	9,533
30—35 ...	8,386	7,724	8,693	8,192	8,629	8,569
35—40 ...	7,039	5,191	7,142	5,292	6,832	5,168
40—45 ...	6,184	5,219	6,473	5,722	6,753	6,313
45—50 ...	3,570	2,746	3,517	2,726	3,480	2,771
50—55 ...	3,638	3,621	3,835	3,854	4,126	4,349
55—60 ...	1,307	1,247	1,323	1,234	1,308	1,262
60 and over	4,155	4,590	4,462	5,278	4,936	6,145
Unspecified	.....	.....	.....	.....	49	58
MEAN AGE ...	*23·8*	*25·1*	*24·1*	*23·8*	*24·3*	*24·7*

(5) EAST BENGAL.

Total ...	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*
0— 5 ...	14,548	15,837	15,408	16,787	15,412	16,300
5—10 ...	16,032	16,429	15,915	15,839	15,736	15,179
10—15 ...	12,835	10,866	12,354	10,023	11,677	9,417
15—20 ...	8,586	10,033	8,272	9,557	7,988	8,600
20—25 ...	7,222	9,168	6,835	8,736	6,914	8,591
25—30 ...	8,806	8,943	8,412	8,764	8,610	8,929
30—35 ...	7,444	6,809	7,092	7,256	7,887	7,729
35—40 ...	6,023	4,698	6,233	4,773	6,185	4,912
40—45 ...	6,293	4,926	5,478	5,169	5,678	5,945
45—50 ...	3,463	2,678	3,402	2,434	3,553	2,903
50—55 ...	3,569	3,553	3,698	3,756	3,917	4,154
55—60 ...	1,486	1,198	1,544	1,303	1,586	1,393
60 and over	4,563	4,832	4,847	5,438	5,118	6,149
Unspecified	.....	.....	.....	.....	39	49
MEAN AGE ...	*23·3*	*22·8*	*22·5*	*23·4*	*23·8*	*24·2*

(6) NORTH BIHAR.

AGE.	1901.		1891.		1881.	
	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7
Total ...	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*
0— 5 ...	12,741	13,091	12,984	13,736	13,747	14,492
5—10 ...	15,627	14,533	16,162	14,886	15,729	14,569
10—15 ...	12,611	9,873	12,144	9,571	11,444	8,922
15—20 ...	8,238	7,487	7,639	6,801	7,160	6,445
20—25 ...	6,966	8,234	6,599	7,601	6,609	7,805
25—30 ...	8,620	9,059	8,226	9,083	8,808	9,560
30—35 ...	8,152	8,227	8,321	8,809	9,081	9,055
35—40 ...	6,336	6,386	6,464	6,470	6,341	6,251
40—45 ...	5,979	6,122	6,435	6,429	6,601	6,549
45—50 ...	4,070	3,956	4,048	3,877	3,864	3,697
50—55 ...	4,035	4,118	4,208	4,246	4,241	4,331
55—60 ...	1,811	1,995	1,747	1,871	1,729	1,871
60 and over	4,814	6,619	4,933	6,629	4,596	6,381
Unspecified	.....	.....	.....	.....	50	52
MEAN AGE ...	*24·4*	*25·7*	*24·4*	*25·7*	*24·4*	*25·5*

(7) SOUTH BIHAR.

Total ...	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*
0— 5 ...	12,596	12,925	13,068	13,632	14,464	15,049
5—10 ...	13,728	12,809	15,249	13,859	14,734	13,297
10—15 ...	12,176	9,753	12,625	9,996	12,269	8,868
15—20 ...	8,354	7,594	7,691	6,884	6,964	6,238
20—25 ...	8,011	9,103	7,218	8,043	7,097	8,041
25—30 ...	8,953	9,184	8,118	8,879	8,524	9,137
30—35 ...	8,427	8,619	8,160	8,841	8,841	8,913
35—40 ...	6,170	6,336	6,021	6,236	5,876	6,066
40—45 ...	6,289	6,596	6,563	6,744	6,846	6,814
45—50 ...	4,040	3,901	3,892	3,746	3,781	3,623
50—55 ...	4,294	4,506	4,465	4,638	4,588	4,725
55—60 ...	1,849	1,954	1,806	1,860	1,829	1,888
60 and over	5,113	7,021	5,184	7,942	5,348	7,283
Unspecified	.....	.....	.....	.....	58	62
MEAN AGE ...	*25·0*	*26·5*	*24·7*	*26·1*	*24·9*	*26·3*

(8) ORISSA.

Total ...	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*
0— 5 ...	13,959	13,053	12,461	12,683	14,472	14,629
5—10 ...	13,188	12,464	14,385	13,480	15,513	14,158
10—15 ...	12,728	10,827	13,698	11,642	11,479	9,774
15—20 ...	9,522	9,410	10,200	9,474	8,049	7,191
20—25 ...	9,316	9,264	8,430	8,146	8,956	8,271
25—30 ...	8,596	8,151	6,901	7,172	8,420	8,327
30—35 ...	7,543	8,017	7,561	8,255	8,498	8,740
35—40 ...	5,019	4,899	5,740	5,266	5,378	4,773
40—45 ...	6,275	7,272	6,853	7,568	6,004	7,181
45—50 ...	3,613	3,177	3,377	2,854	2,845	2,468
50—55 ...	5,026	5,414	4,419	5,086	4,447	5,270
55—60 ...	1,749	1,608	1,487	1,578	1,521	1,384
60 and over	4,366	6,444	4,488	6,996	4,371	7,240
Unspecified	.....	.....	.....	.....	77	63
MEAN AGE ...	*24·4*	*25·9*	*24·1*	*25·8*	*23·7*	*25·7*

(9) CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU.

Total ...	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*
0— 5 ...	14,153	15,238	14,942	16,045	15,680	17,179
5—10 ...	16,801	16,201	17,696	16,861	17,797	16,540
10—15 ...	13,823	11,441	13,730	11,259	12,158	9,508
15—20 ...	8,940	8,807	8,234	8,139	7,545	7,584
20—25 ...	7,229	8,514	6,542	7,648	6,602	8,324
25—30 ...	8,440	8,532	7,661	8,294	8,417	9,161
30—35 ...	7,661	7,563	7,603	7,989	8,422	8,296
35—40 ...	5,591	5,286	5,824	5,480	5,964	5,115
40—45 ...	5,688	5,436	5,965	5,603	5,779	5,582
45—50 ...	3,124	2,880	3,075	2,687	2,876	2,587
50—55 ...	3,787	3,690	3,508	3,492	3,629	3,698
55—60 ...	1,393	1,372	1,397	1,460	1,323	1,356
60 and over	3,570	4,699	3,823	5,043	3,799	5,018
Unspecified	...	.....	.....	.....	29	52
MEAN AGE ...	*22·6*	*23·1*	*22·4*	*23·1*	*22·6*	*23·0*

(10) CITIES (1901 ONLY).

Total ...	*100,000*	*100,000*	.....	.....	.....	.....
0— 5 ...	7,453	11,084	.....	.....	.....	.....
5—10 ...	7,301	10,347	.....	.....	.....	.....
10—15 ...	8,720	8,874	.....	.....	.....	.....
15—20 ...	8,812	8,021	.....	.....	.....	.....
20—25 ...	11,893	9,552	.....	.....	.....	.....
25—30 ...	12,447	9,117	.....	.....	.....	.....
30—35 ...	12,032	9,351	.....	.....	.....	.....
35—40 ...	7,443	5,876	.....	.....	.....	.....
40—45 ...	8,893	8,141	.....	.....	.....	.....
45—50 ...	4,075	3,739	.....	.....	.....	.....
50—55 ...	4,867	5,786	.....	.....	.....	.....
55—60 ...	1,945	2,026	.....	.....	.....	.....
60 and over	4,519	7,076	.....	.....	.....	.....
MEAN AGE ...	*28·3*	*27·9*	.....	.....	.....	.....

SUBSIDIARY TABLE III—AGE DISTRIBUTION OF 100,000 OF EACH SEX BY RELIGION.

(1) HINDU.

AGE.	1901.		1891.		1881.	
	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7
Total	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*
0	2,706	2,818	3,036	3,165	2,906	2,219
1	1,269	1,383	1,246	1,325	2,303	2,441
2	2,801	3,075	2,673	2,972	2,756	3,037
3	2,967	3,301	3,140	3,533	3,358	3,678
4	2,725	2,929	2,874	2,967	3,041	3,036
5—10	14,328	14,094	14,925	14,183	14,040	13,867
10—15	12,181	9,936	12,022	9,603	11,181	8,907
15—20	8,715	8,711	8,305	8,093	7,707	7,417
20—25	7,868	8,778	7,312	8,147	7,390	8,370
25—30	9,102	9,025	8,521	8,986	8,998	9,419
30—35	8,150	8,015	8,266	8,386	8,784	8,728
35—40	6,328	5,849	6,557	6,033	6,354	5,819
40—45	6,258	6,210	6,567	6,426	6,494	6,560
45—50	3,934	3,619	3,850	3,496	3,643	3,379
50—55	4,129	4,324	4,131	4,317	4,282	4,551
55—60	1,928	1,904	1,786	1,849	1,737	1,814
60 and over	4,651	6,219	4,782	6,310	4,843	6,704
Unspecified	.....	.....	.....	.....	51	55
Mean Age	*24·6*	*25·5*	*24·6*	*25·6*	*24·6*	*25·8*

(2) MUHAMMADAN.

Total	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*
0	3,072	3,156	3,475	3,730	2,553	2,591
1	1,510	1,673	1,664	1,815	2,402	2,558
2	3,254	3,631	3,300	3,737	3,232	3,534
3	3,300	3,823	3,629	4,019	3,727	4,035
4	3,271	3,449	3,383	3,524	3,461	3,474
5—10	16,666	16,376	16,454	15,538	16,477	15,335
10—15	12,830	10,323	12,298	9,622	11,707	9,123
15—20	8,230	9,422	7,909	8,914	7,287	8,124
20—25	6,932	9,031	6,515	8,613	6,610	8,569
25—30	8,849	9,195	8,315	9,120	8,547	9,250
30—35	7,967	7,396	7,848	7,801	8,265	8,263
35—40	6,204	4,913	6,400	4,963	6,202	4,912
40—45	5,520	5,213	5,780	5,531	6,050	5,967
45—50	3,422	2,737	3,339	2,596	3,306	2,759
50—55	3,540	3,626	3,647	3,779	3,880	4,208
55—60	1,431	1,268	1,455	1,387	1,443	1,346
60 and over	4,254	4,769	4,490	5,272	4,747	5,886
Unspecified	.....	.....	.....	.....	44	54
Mean Age	*23·1*	*23·0*	*23·2*	*23·5*	*23·6*	*24·3*

(3) CHRISTIAN.

Total	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*
0	2,540	2,750	2,863	3,197	2,842	2,925
1	1,919	2,149	2,161	2,810	2,243	2,705
2	3,085	2,445	3,091	3,315	2,732	3,159
3	3,265	3,789	3,675	4,162	3,283	3,963
4	3,047	3,327	3,292	3,754	3,025	3,538
5—10	14,781	15,847	15,108	15,785	13,604	15,019
10—15	13,023	12,473	13,127	12,227	10,984	10,927
15—20	8,668	9,121	8,837	8,759	8,080	9,124
20—25	8,414	8,856	8,261	8,941	10,633	9,050
25—30	9,590	8,556	8,550	8,204	10,327	9,081
30—35	7,710	7,263	7,856	7,585	8,208	7,715
35—40	6,032	5,348	6,115	5,416	6,965	5,304
40—45	5,301	4,964	5,572	5,088	5,563	4,737
45—50	3,256	3,056	3,223	2,864	3,563	2,935
50—55	3,496	3,209	3,681	2,969	3,065	3,205
55—60	1,681	1,615	1,589	1,022	1,509	1,497
60 and over	3,602	4,352	3,619	4,392	3,784	5,005
Unspecified	.....	.....	.....	.....	120	124
Mean Age	*23·1*	*22·7*	*22·8*	*22·5*	*23·6*	*23·3*

(4) ANIMIST.

Total	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	*100,000*	
0	2,477	2,494	2,828	2,904	
1	1,965	2,030	2,131	2,223	
2	3,385	3,646	3,255	3,528	
3	3,860	4,314	4,250	4,751	
4	3,477	3,607	3,771	3,948	
5—10	18,159	17,332	18,992	17,674	
10—15	14,323	12,145	14,153	11,980	
15—20	8,804	9,141	8,183	8,588	
20—25	6,714	8,280	6,188	7,454	Not available.
25—30	7,847	8,125	7,039	7,715	
30—35	7,021	7,102	6,702	7,223	
35—40	5,333	5,108	5,380	5,178	
40—45	5,422	5,664	5,407	5,631	
45—50	2,693	2,603	2,878	2,587	
50—55	3,522	3,948	3,274	3,036	
55—60	1,305	1,543	1,442	1,583	
60 and over	3,605	4,388	4,031	4,717	
Mean Age	*21·9*	*22·2*	*21·5*	*22·2*	

SUBSIDIARY TABLE IV.—AGE DISTRIBUTION OF 1,000 OF EACH SEX IN CERTAIN CASTES.

CASTE.	NUMBER PER 1,000 MALE AGED.					NUMBER PER 1,000 FEMALE AGED.				
	0—5	5—12	12—20	20—40	40 & over.	0—5	5—12	12—20	20—40	40 & over.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11
AHIR AND GOALA	***125***	***196***	***165***	***308***	***208***	***133***	***189***	***140***	***325***	***220***
Bengal Proper	112	164	164	336	224	125	167	168	308	235
Bihar	125	201	156	306	212	134	182	131	331	222
Chota Nagpur	144	205	200	282	169	137	200	170	301	192
AJLAF (Musalman)	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....
Bengal Proper	139	213	166	289	197	155	187	180	306	172
BABHAN	***119***	***184***	***167***	***320***	***217***	***111***	***165***	***115***	***331***	***278***
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	113	190	170	310	217	110	174	114	326	276
Other Bihar Districts	111	181	163	325	218	110	162	114	333	281
Hazaribagh	126	201	169	307	207	133	188	142	328	209
BAGDI	***126***	***192***	***161***	***311***	***210***	***133***	***171***	***157***	***314***	***225***
West Bengal	122	192	162	313	211	126	170	158	317	229
Central Bengal	137	192	158	303	210	154	173	155	307	211
BAISHNAB	***119***	***175***	***164***	***303***	***239***	***105***	***143***	***144***	***324***	***284***
Bengal Proper	120	176	164	301	239	103	139	143	327	288
Orissa and Manbhum	116	170	163	314	238	121	173	147	300	259
BARHI	***135***	***205***	***165***	***285***	***210***	***141***	***183***	***141***	***310***	***225***
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	147	232	166	260	195	151	194	136	300	219
Other Bihar Districts	136	202	160	286	216	138	177	131	320	234
Hazaribagh, Cuttack and Puri	125	195	173	298	209	138	185	165	298	214
BARHI (Musalman)	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....
Champaran	134	238	174	233	201	131	179	171	312	207
BAURI	***139***	***198***	***180***	***291***	***192***	***149***	***187***	***170***	***297***	***197***
West Bengal	141	203	175	288	190	154	190	156	308	192
Manbhum	145	217	197	284	157	153	193	196	269	187
Southal Parganas	140	229	171	294	166	155	202	173	287	183
Orissa	133	178	177	297	215	136	177	178	295	214
BHUIYA	***147***	***222***	***166***	***290***	***175***	***151***	***198***	***175***	***300***	***178***
Midnapore	138	263	190	291	178	143	193	170	283	211
Gaya and Bhagalpur	146	214	141	301	198	162	194	179	296	169
Chota Nagpur Plateau	147	225	174	286	168	148	209	171	301	180
BHUMIJ	***128***	***222***	***189***	***281***	***180***	***136***	***200***	***189***	***284***	***191***
West Bengal	128	210	195	279	188	150	213	173	276	188
Chota Nagpur Plateau	129	224	188	282	177	132	197	192	286	193
BRAHMAN	***119***	***179***	***166***	***311***	***225***	***125***	***166***	***140***	***310***	***261***
Bengal Proper	120	176	167	309	228	125	170	161	292	252
Bihar	119	185	165	315	216	122	166	113	328	271
Orissa	121	173	167	304	235	119	157	150	308	266
Chota Nagpur	117	169	180	320	214	134	179	154	307	226
CHAMAR	***140***	***219***	***166***	***285***	***190***	***156***	***191***	***142***	***323***	***208***
Bengal Proper	140	193	161	307	199	153	190	156	310	191
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	130	219	168	277	197	125	191	142	318	224
Other Bihar Districts	138	217	164	287	194	134	188	137	322	209
Cuttack	142	202	188	279	189	134	166	172	301	227
Chota Nagpur Plateau	150	245	173	275	157	156	210	162	294	178
CHASA	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....
Orissa	132	188	167	308	205	140	183	152	301	224
DHANUK	***130***	***212***	***150***	***303***	***205***	***132***	***184***	***133***	***320***	***231***
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	126	230	143	301	201	131	196	129	308	236
Other Bihar Districts	132	203	155	304	206	132	178	136	326	228
DHOBA	***131***	***198***	***167***	***301***	***203***	***135***	***185***	***160***	***304***	***216***
Bengal Proper	130	195	163	306	216	130	187	168	306	209
Bihar	137	201	162	297	203	132	182	147	309	230
Orissa	136	196	171	304	193	139	179	164	296	220
Chota Nagpur	142	210	195	279	174	151	204	160	301	184
DHOBI (Musalman)	***142***	***219***	***171***	***272***	***196***	***132***	***194***	***152***	***329***	***213***
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	131	219	155	281	214	125	201	129	333	235
Other Bihar Districts	145	219	176	279	190	134	191	133	332	210
DHUNIA (Musalman)	***155***	***227***	***146***	***274***	***198***	***141***	***195***	***136***	***299***	***229***
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	143	245	143	269	200	140	184	133	308	235
Other Bihar Districts, including Malda	161	218	147	282	192	142	201	138	294	225
DOM	***132***	***197***	***166***	***304***	***201***	***146***	***180***	***174***	***291***	***209***
West Bengal	127	185	164	313	211	135	172	169	310	214
Monghyr and Southal Parganas	142	223	196	287	183	165	190	180	280	205
Manbhum	139	212	186	283	180	153	203	189	279	185

SUBSIDIARY TABLE IV.—Age distribution of 1,000 of each sex in certain castes.

Caste.	Number per 1,000 Male aged.					Number per 1,000 Female aged.				
	0—5	5—12	12—20	20—40	40 & over.	0—5	5—12	12—20	20—40	40 & over.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11
DOSADH	***127***	***201***	***160***	***304***	***208***	***128***	***183***	***138***	***330***	***221***
Muzaffarpur	130	210	154	291	215	123	185	128	332	242
Other Bihar Districts	124	195	161	310	210	129	181	139	333	218
Chota Nagpur	141	234	179	277	169	132	206	164	318	183
EURASIAN (Christian)	***118***	***164***	***166***	***387***	***165***	***130***	***201***	***190***	***334***	***145***
FAKIR (Musalman)	***143***	***233***	***146***	***278***	***200***	***131***	***199***	***120***	***312***	***238***
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	156	237	137	285	205	146	194	109	309	242
Other Bihar Districts	140	233	150	273	198	126	209	125	313	236
FIRINGI (Christian)	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....
East Bengal	127	185	149	337	202	140	214	185	279	182
GAUR	***134***	***193***	***180***	***300***	***193***	***135***	***180***	***155***	***305***	***225***
Orissa Districts	134	187	181	297	201	130	166	132	309	244
Orissa States	134	206	178	306	176	146	202	161	304	187
HAJJAM AND NAPIT	***127***	***198***	***168***	***300***	***207***	***135***	***184***	***155***	***309***	***217***
Bengal Proper	123	197	167	308	215	132	178	156	303	223
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	130	208	169	286	216	130	192	141	317	211
Other Bihar Districts	137	207	164	294	198	135	186	140	319	220
Chota Nagpur	127	216	197	282	178	146	202	165	292	188
HAJJAM (Musalman)	***133***	***220***	***168***	***272***	***207***	***157***	***185***	***134***	***317***	***227***
Bengal Proper	123	193	159	282	193	137	164	165	331	203
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	141	215	154	263	228	157	167	114	305	257
Other Bihar Districts	131	238	175	264	202	129	195	136	320	220
HO	***141***	***234***	***196***	***273***	***156***	***121***	***223***	***190***	***308***	***159***
Singhbhum	141	230	206	272	151	100	217	197	314	163
Tributary States	140	244	174	279	163	149	231	176	295	149
JOLAHA	***147***	***212***	***159***	***282***	***200***	***143***	***189***	***149***	***310***	***209***
Bengal Proper	140	199	166	297	198	152	191	165	303	189
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	146	229	141	254	230	125	168	143	338	232
Other Bihar Districts	159	209	151	277	213	129	178	131	321	241
Chota Nagpur Plateau	156	232	167	279	166	162	223	150	287	172
JUGI	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....
Bengal Proper	125	190	159	302	224	133	180	164	308	206
KAHAR	***137***	***190***	***157***	***307***	***209***	***133***	***161***	***135***	***326***	***245***
Bihar	137	188	154	310	211	130	158	134	329	249
Chota Nagpur	135	200	185	292	189	156	185	142	300	217
KAIBARTTA (Unspecified)	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....
Bengal Proper	104	162	164	345	225	117	161	166	326	230
KAIBARTTA (Chasi)	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....
Bengal Proper	131	183	176	300	200	132	171	161	319	217
KAMAR AND LOHAR	***132***	***202***	***169***	***294***	***203***	***140***	***189***	***152***	***307***	***212***
Bengal Proper	122	181	175	307	215	134	176	169	302	219
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	134	210	152	279	218	131	192	125	315	237
Other Bihar Districts	131	212	150	296	212	138	185	139	317	221
Orissa	138	186	174	306	206	129	171	162	304	234
Chota Nagpur Plateau	151	225	172	276	176	161	219	150	297	173
KANDU	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....
Bihar	136	208	160	294	202	129	178	123	330	240
KAYASTHA	***126***	***182***	***166***	***302***	***224***	***124***	***168***	***144***	***306***	***258***
Bengal Proper	129	185	167	296	223	126	169	150	302	253
Bihar	116	175	162	318	229	117	165	128	317	273
Orissa	118	157	160	344	221	115	149	142	305	289
KHANDAIT	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....
Orissa	131	189	182	297	201	132	173	153	302	241
KOIRI	***132***	***194***	***150***	***311***	***213***	***137***	***177***	***130***	***328***	***228***
Bihar	131	192	149	311	217	135	175	128	330	232
Chota Nagpur	132	218	147	300	163	152	201	153	312	182
KUMHAR	***52***	***197***	***167***	***297***	***207***	***14***	***183***	***164***	***302***	***207***
Bengal Proper	127	182	171	303	217	141	175	171	302	211
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	131	223	159	276	212	155	188	170	290	230
Other Bihar Districts	126	199	150	306	219	135	182	150	316	217
Orissa	126	174	162	324	219	136	166	170	304	224
Chota Nagpur Plateau	144	214	177	282	183	151	199	177	296	177

SUBSIDIARY TABLE IV.—Age distribution of 1,000 of each sex in certain castes.

Caste.	Number per 1,000 Male aged					Number per 1,000 Female aged				
	0—5	5—12	12—20	20—40	40 & over.	0—5	5—12	12—20	20—40	40 & over.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11
KURMI	***129***	***193***	***172***	***305***	***201***	***130***	***186***	***145***	***313***	***226***
West Bengal	126	212	192	305	165	132	204	175	306	180
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	132	209	160	283	214	125	179	138	318	250
Other Bihar Districts	118	169	153	327	233	120	164	123	332	261
Chota Nagpur Plateau	144	215	192	284	165	141	210	179	292	187
MUCHI	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....
Bengal Proper	137	197	156	310	200	151	184	162	305	198
MUNDA	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....
Chota Nagpur	153	247	174	243	183	152	224	155	273	196
MUNDA (Christian)	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....
Ranchi	154	236	195	253	162	160	224	168	279	169
MUSAHAR	***134***	***218***	***141***	***302***	***205***	***158***	***195***	***148***	***313***	***186***
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	138	254	140	275	193	156	217	151	300	196
Other Bihar Districts	133	210	142	307	208	159	190	151	315	185
NAMASUDRA (Chandal)	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....
Bengal Proper	131	200	158	303	208	140	181	162	311	206
NUNIYA	***132***	***259***	***157***	***261***	***191***	***131***	***185***	***142***	***317***	***225***
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	131	220	155	293	201	126	182	139	314	239
Other Bihar Districts	132	274	157	249	188	133	187	143	319	218
ORAON	***145***	***167***	***140***	***389***	***159***	***166***	***163***	***168***	***358***	***145***
Jalpaiguri	138	147	134	420	161	162	146	175	376	141
Chota Nagpur	171	258	167	250	154	177	229	136	286	172
ORAON (Christian)	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....
Ranchi	175	247	179	238	161	180	238	147	266	169
PAN	***156***	***210***	***170***	***290***	***174***	***158***	***204***	***157***	***303***	***178***
Orissa	144	194	174	300	188	150	185	162	303	200
Chota Nagpur Plateau	164	221	168	283	164	163	217	154	303	163
POD	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....
Bengal Proper	155	214	164	282	185	165	191	167	299	178
RAJBANSI (Koch)	***133***	***199***	***160***	***301***	***207***	***159***	***202***	***142***	***318***	***179***
North Bengal	132	199	160	302	207	158	203	140	319	180
Dacca and Mymensingh	142	194	164	297	203	160	178	189	296	177
RAJPUT	***115***	***193***	***156***	***316***	***220***	***118***	***169***	***109***	***329***	***275***
West Bengal	125	172	180	302	221	121	186	158	318	217
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	108	196	154	311	231	116	178	100	306	300
Other Bihar Districts	117	193	154	317	219	116	165	107	338	274
Chota Nagpur	115	185	170	321	209	139	178	143	311	229
SADGOP	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....
Bengal Proper	109	169	168	326	228	116	160	158	301	265
SANTAL	***145***	***223***	***193***	***268***	***171***	***160***	***219***	***176***	***276***	***169***
West Bengal and Malda	133	209	190	282	188	150	209	180	293	168
Bihar	155	219	157	302	167	168	224	160	283	165
Sonthal Parganas	158	221	202	252	167	172	219	175	264	170
Chota Nagpur Plateau	136	237	186	276	165	159	226	177	277	170
SUNRI (Shaha)	***124***	***185***	***165***	***302***	***224***	***124***	***171***	***158***	***314***	***233***
Bengal Proper	122	182	165	301	230	123	167	160	313	237
Bihar	125	183	153	318	211	122	179	161	321	227
Hazaribagh	147	219	207	254	173	146	209	151	312	182
TANTI AND TATWA	***126***	***186***	***165***	***308***	***213***	***131***	***175***	***152***	***310***	***232***
Bengal Proper	113	167	163	328	225	122	164	163	314	237
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	129	210	161	293	207	128	181	126	313	252
Other Bihar Districts	137	204	149	299	211	137	183	139	313	228
Orissa	129	173	169	309	220	135	162	165	307	233
Chota Nagpur Plateau	132	206	182	285	195	128	204	160	297	201
TELI	***131***	***197***	***165***	***305***	***204***	***133***	***178***	***143***	***320***	***226***
Bengal Proper	113	177	170	329	218	130	163	164	318	225
Muzaffarpur	135	216	148	289	212	131	180	127	319	237
Other Bihar Districts	138	203	156	306	203	135	178	128	335	224
Orissa	153	183	163	309	206	125	161	160	308	246
Chota Nagpur Plateau	142	208	176	293	181	151	205	149	305	190

SUBSIDIARY TABLE V.—Showing the proportion of children under 10 years of age and of married females to females of certain ages; also of persons over 60 to those aged 20—40.

Districts.	Proportion of children (both sexes combined) under 10 to 100.						Proportion of married females to 100 of all civil conditions aged										Proportion of persons over 60 to 100 persons aged 20—40.			
	Persons aged 20—40.		Married Females all ages.		Married Females aged 15—40.		All ages.		0—10.		10—15.		15—20.		20—40.		1901.		1891.	
	1901.	1891.	1901.	1891.	1901.	1891.	1901.	1891.	1901.	1891.	1901.	1891.	1901.	1891.	1901.	1891.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15	16	17	18	19	20	21
BENGAL	**93**	**98**	**114**	**122**	**174**	**180**	**48**	**47**	**9**	**9**	**57**	**60**	**86**	**88**	**80**	**80**	**14**	**18**	**15**	**19**
WEST BENGAL	**83**	**82**	**110**	**114**	**163**	**167**	**47**	**45**	**9**	**11**	**72**	**75**	**88**	**88**	**73**	**70**	**14**	**20**	**14**	**19**
Burdwan	77	74	102	106	157	156	47	45	12	12	73	77	89	88	73	69	14	21	13	19
Birbhum	91	89	114	108	172	169	48	47	10	11	69	67	87	86	78	74	15	20	14	19
Bankura	97	94	118	121	182	180	47	46	10	11	69	67	87	86	78	74	15	21	13	17
Midnapore	83	83	112	117	161	167	47	45	8	10	72	70	87	87	73	70	13	17	13	17
Hooghly	70	74	101	109	148	164	45	44	8	12	76	83	86	89	68	66	14	20	14	20
Howrah	79	86	112	124	156	183	46	45	6	8	76	81	88	89	73	70	13	20	15	21
CENTRAL BENGAL	**81**	**85**	**117**	**124**	**174**	**181**	**46**	**45**	**9**	**9**	**73**	**77**	**89**	**89**	**74**	**72**	**14**	**19**	**15**	**20**
24-Parganas	86	89	117	126	178	189	49	47	9	10	76	79	89	89	76	74	17	14	15	18
Calcutta	32	32	91	91	130	129	46	45	5	3	53	53	80	79	70	67	8	19	8	17
Nadia	95	100	122	129	183	189	45	44	7	7	75	79	91	90	75	73	16	21	18	23
Murshidabad	100	96	127	127	191	187	45	44	8	9	75	79	91	90	75	71	15	22	16	23
Jessore	81	91	112	122	165	176	47	45	9	9	73	77	89	90	74	72	14	16	17	19
NORTH BENGAL	**96**	**96**	**139**	**138**	**190**	**192**	**46**	**45**	**6**	**7**	**63**	**68**	**90**	**90**	**79**	**77**	**13**	**14**	**14**	**16**
Rajshahi	95	94	113	131	183	178	47	46	8	7	72	78	93	95	79	73	11	14	12	15
Dinajpur	98	99	143	139	191	186	46	47	5	6	59	61	91	89	85	81	11	11	13	12
Jalpaiguri	96	89	146	144	185	190	45	44	3	3	41	40	80	83	80	81	13	12	13	14
Darjeeling	74	70	125	126	168	166	44	45	1	1	14	13	47	53	83	85	10	13	10	12
Rangpur	94	90	139	132	192	186	46	46	5	9	70	76	93	91	77	75	12	13	13	15
Bogra	106	105	140	139	191	191	48	48	5	8	70	76	94	95	84	83	13	13	14	15
Pabna	104	107	140	144	193	198	44	45	4	4	60	72	90	93	80	80	15	18	17	22
Malda	101	107	139	146	195	205	44	43	6	6	60	65	87	89	74	74	13	18	15	21
Kuch Bihar	93	94	151	147	212	210	42	42	8	9	71	71	87	87	67	68	14	12	17	16
Sikkim	81	...	144	...	157	...	51	...	1	...	15	...	60	...	89	...	21	20	...	...
EAST BENGAL	**106**	**109**	**140**	**142**	**190**	**196**	**45**	**45**	**4**	**5**	**52**	**60**	**90**	**92**	**82**	**81**	**15**	**16**	**16**	**18**
Khulna	94	97	125	132	184	193	48	47	8	9	74	77	90	92	76	73	15	16	16	18
Dacca	107	112	139	144	189	199	44	44	3	4	50	58	91	92	81	80	16	18	17	20
Mymensingh	107	107	150	148	199	204	44	45	3	4	54	66	91	93	81	80	13	15	14	18
Faridpur	97	106	123	132	181	192	47	46	5	7	67	72	93	93	78	77	16	19	18	21
Backergunge	97	101	123	131	175	184	48	48	6	7	69	64	94	94	82	82	16	15	16	16
Tippera	109	106	149	146	196	193	44	44	2	2	42	47	89	92	84	84	14	13	15	16
Noakhali	125	129	152	152	201	203	44	45	2	2	41	45	90	94	85	87	10	14	19	16
Chittagong	121	125	152	153	194	200	40	41	1	1	28	37	84	87	81	81	11	13	17	21
Chittagong Hill Tracts	98	...	154	...	203	...	43	...	...	...	1	...	53	...	92	...	10	10	...	...
Hill Tippera	99	...	153	...	196	...	44	...	1	...	30	...	79	...	86	...	12	13	...	...
NORTH BIHAR	**90**	**93**	**99**	**105**	**162**	**167**	**54**	**54**	**19**	**17**	**61**	**64**	**87**	**88**	**83**	**86**	**16**	**21**	**16**	**20**
Saran	99	97	105	106	153	161	47	50	4	6	37	48	80	86	80	87	19	22	20	23
Champaran	82	88	104	108	157	165	59	62	9	8	46	53	80	86	84	88	15	19	17	20
Muzaffarpur	87	95	91	95	153	164	56	56	20	19	65	67	88	90	85	87	18	24	19	23
Darbhanga	93	92	87	90	162	160	63	62	38	32	80	80	92	96	86	88	16	20	16	19
Bhagalpur	91	95	96	103	165	174	59	57	28	24	78	78	90	92	84	85	13	18	13	19
Purnea	91	92	129	131	187	168	46	46	11	10	52	55	85	83	77	80	12	15	13	17
SOUTH BIHAR	**80**	**91**	**93**	**101**	**147**	**162**	**53**	**53**	**13**	**12**	**64**	**64**	**87**	**90**	**83**	**85**	**16**	**21**	**17**	**22**
Patna	71	82	85	93	132	150	50	53	10	11	60	62	88	89	84	85	19	24	19	24
Gaya	88	91	96	104	150	168	53	52	10	10	61	61	87	89	82	84	16	19	17	21
Shahabad	79	99	101	105	149	162	49	51	8	9	57	60	84	91	80	84	13	20	15	23
Monghyr	86	99	90	101	154	170	58	55	20	16	75	72	90	92	85	87	16	21	17	21
ORISSA	**85**	**87**	**112**	**109**	**151**	**151**	**45**	**44**	**1**	**1**	**32**	**34**	**82**	**84**	**84**	**85**	**14**	**21**	**15**	**24**
Cuttack	88	96	113	117	153	162	44	44	1	1	28	32	81	84	84	85	15	23	17	26
Balasore	84	89	116	110	148	154	44	43	3	3	43	42	86	85	82	80	12	19	13	21
Puri	81	88	109	92	148	136	45	45	1	1	29	30	81	84	86	84	14	20	14	21
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	**106**	**114**	**135**	**144**	**195**	**210**	**43**	**44**	**5**	**5**	**38**	**37**	**73**	**74**	**83**	**84**	**12**	**15**	**12**	**17**
Hazaribagh	98	112	113	125	174	199	51	50	13	13	59	60	84	85	83	84	11	15	12	15
Ranchi	120	122	153	155	218	224	41	43	2	4	29	36	71	77	85	84	13	16	13	16
Palamau	103	...	132	...	191	...	47	...	6	...	48	...	83	...	84	...	9	12	...	...
Manbhum	101	113	129	136	179	201	43	47	8	7	53	59	86	85	82	83	13	17	12	19
Singhbhum	104	112	102	173	218	242	37	36	2	2	16	14	49	45	74	74	10	13	14	15
Santhal Parganas	116	124	139	144	210	217	46	46	7	6	45	43	76	76	84	86	15	19	17	20
Angul	93	100	134	141	165	195	44	43	3	2	30	29	64	63	85	86	10	14	12	15
Chota Nagpur Tributary States	113	117	154	162	216	219	43	43	3	1	27	22	69	70	85	87	11	13	11	14
Orissa Tributary States	95	109	121	140	177	189	43	42	2	2	25	29	68	70	84	85	10	15	11	16

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VI.—Showing the proportion of female children under 12 and of married females in certain castes.

Castes.	Locality.	Percentage of female children under 12 on the number of—		Percentage of married on total amongst females aged—				
		Females of all ages.	Married females aged 15—40.	All ages.	0—12.	12—15.	15—30.	20—40.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9
AGARIA (Hindu) ...	Chota Nagpur States ...	25	82	43	13	20	65	71
AGARWALA (Hindu)...	Gaya	27	88	43	5	67	90	71
AHIR AND GOALA (Hindu)	Province	22	92	56	24	75	87	84
	Bengal Proper	29	99	46	21	83	85	87
	Bihar	32	89	58	26	76	89	87
	Chota Nagpur	34	106	40	17	61	77	80
AJLAF (ATRAF) (Musalman)	Bengal Proper	34	96	52	15	92	95	83
ATITH (Hindu) ...	Saran	30	101	43	6	54	81	74
BABHAN (Hindu) ...	Province	28	88	47	10	58	85	79
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	28	92	44	9	53	82	77
	Other Bihar districts ...	27	85	47	10	59	85	78
	Hazaribagh	32	99	53	28	83	86	76
BAGDI (Hindu) ...	Province	30	97	46	16	85	88	71
	West Bengal	30	95	46	17	84	85	70
	Central Bengal	33	104	45	13	86	88	72
BAISHNAB (Hindu) ...	Province	25	88	42	16	77	85	63
	Bengal Proper	24	87	41	16	80	85	61
	Orissa and Manbhum ...	29	93	45	10	56	84	80
BARHI (Hindu) ...	Province	32	94	56	23	69	80	88
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	35	103	60	45	78	90	87
	Other Bihar Districts ...	31	91	55	19	73	88	87
	Hazaribagh, Cuttack and Puri	32	94	51	12	54	87	87
BARHI (Musalman) ...	Champaran	31	102	46	9	44	62	78
BARNAWAR (Hindu)...	Saran	27	87	46	7	68	83	74
BARUI (Hindu) ...	Province	32	98	53	23	76	89	79
	Bengal Proper	33	105	48	13	80	89	71
	Saran, Champaran and Monghyr	30	92	54	21	69	84	83
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	32	95	64	43	83	93	85
BAURI (Hindu) ...	Province	34	98	48	6	51	86	85
	West Bengal	34	99	40	6	69	90	84
	Manbhum	35	107	46	7	52	91	80
	Santhal Parganas	36	104	51	10	76	90	85
	Orissa	31	92	45	1	18	75	88
BEDEA (Hindu) ...	Hazaribagh	39	131	43	10	41	74	84
BEDIYA (Musalman) ...	Bengal Proper and Manbhum.	31	90	52	15	68	88	82
BEHARA (Musalman)...	Bengal Proper	33	91	54	23	92	95	97
BHANDARI (Hindu) ...	Orissa	31	87	48	5	52	88	85
BHAT (Musalman) ...	Bihar	31	93	40	12	57	85	82
BHOGTA (Hindu) ...	Chota Nagpur	31	98	45	8	41	78	83
BHOTIA (Buddhist) ...	Jalpaiguri and Darjeeling ...	27	79	46	4	6	41	85
BHUINMALI (Hindu)	Bengal Proper	32	104	42	9	65	86	71
BHUIYA (Hindu) ...	Province	35	108	47	7	53	79	83
	Midnapore	34	110	45	9	64	84	75
	Gaya and Bhagalpur ...	36	111	52	11	78	85	87
	Chota Nagpur Plateau ...	35	107	45	6	43	78	83
BHUIYA (Animist) ...	Chota Nagpur Plateau ...	37	131	30	3	20	63	80
BHUMIJ (Hindu) ...	Province	34	108	42	4	35	74	81
	West Bengal	36	121	40	5	36	81	78
	Chota Nagpur Plateau ...	33	105	42	3	32	73	81

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VI.—Showing the proportion of female children under 12 and of married females in certain castes—*continued.*

Castes.	Locality.	Percentage of Female Children under 12 on the number of—		Percentage of Married on Total amongst females aged—				
		Females of all ages.	Married females aged 15—40.	All ages.	0—12.	12—15.	15—20.	20—40.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9
BHUMIJ (Animist) ...	Chota Nagpur Plateau ...	35	132	37	2	12	41	79
BIND (Hindu) ...	Bihar	32	93	53	17	63	88	85
BRAHMAN (Hindu) ...	Province	29	95	45	12	75	88	74
	Bengal Proper	30	96	44	11	56	89	71
	Bihar	29	95	45	11	62	84	75
	Orissa	28	87	48	12	56	90	75
	Chota Nagpur	31	101	50	21	80	85	74
CHAKMA (Buddhist) ...	East Bengal	39	114	45	·2	10	64	93
CHAMAR (Hindu) ...	Province	33	94	56	22	66	87	86
	Bengal Proper	34	107	46	11	82	90	76
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	32	90	64	41	82	92	86
	Other Bihar Districts ...	32	92	54	18	63	86	86
	Cuttack	30	88	45	4	35	82	83
	Chota Nagpur Plateau ...	37	112	52	17	63	84	86
CHASA (Hindu) ...	Orissa	32	95	41	4	30	80	85
CHERO (Hindu) ...	Palamau	39	121	45	6	51	82	84
CHIK (Baraik) Hindu	Ranchi	38	126	41	2	26	70	86
CHURIHAR (Musalman)	Bihar	32	94	51	10	51	80	87
DAFALI (Musalman) ...	Bihar	38	115	49	12	61	81	91
DAI (Musalman) ...	Bengal Proper	33	96	54	16	76	92	82
DARZI (Musalman) ...	Province	33	104	48	9	45	84	81
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	36	144	43	10	31	83	73
	Other Bihar Districts ...	31	88	51	8	58	85	85
DHANUK (Hindu) ...	Province	32	92	61	36	81	89	83
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	31	96	66	50	88	93	87
	Other Bihar Districts ...	31	89	58	29	80	90	84
DHAWA (Musalman) ...	West and Central Bengal ...	39	83	54	18	78	91	81
DHOBA (Hindu) ...	Province	32	96	49	13	61	86	81
	Bengal Proper	32	100	45	11	70	88	72
	Bihar	31	92	56	23	69	84	86
	Orissa	32	92	46	4	40	84	87
	Chota Nagpur	36	108	50	17	69	88	82
DHOBI (Musalman) ...	Province	33	94	54	18	69	86	86
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	33	94	60	30	82	92	86
	Other Bihar Districts ...	32	94	52	14	65	84	85
DHUNIA (Musalman) ...	Province	34	103	53	19	74	88	85
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	32	94	58	25	80	91	88
	Other Bihar Districts (including Malda)...	34	109	50	17	68	87	83
DOM (Hindu) ...	Province	33	96	52	17	81	91	83
	West Bengal	31	88	52	18	85	92	80
	Monghyr and Santhal Parganas	35	112	53	15	77	87	83
	Manbhum	36	101	53	13	75	90	87
DOSADH (Hindu) ...	Province	31	88	58	25	71	87	86
	Muzaffarpur	31	89	60	31	80	91	86
	Other Bihar Districts ...	31	87	58	24	70	88	86
	Chota Nagpur	34	95	54	18	67	84	85
EURASIAN (Christian)	Province	33	129	32	·3	·6	24	66
FAKIR (Musalman) ...	Province	33	103	49	11	58	83	85
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	34	106	51	15	69	86	85
	Other Bihar Districts ...	33	100	49	9	55	82	85
FIRINGI (Christian)	East Bengal	35	122	33	·3	29	61	76
GARO (Hindu) ...	Mymensingh	44	127	46	4	43	80	92
GARO (Animist) ...	Mymensingh	41	114	48	6	54	84	90
GAUR (Hindu) ...	Province	31	93	46	6	48	84	85
	Orissa Districts	30	88	45	4	44	87	83
	Orissa States	33	103	47	9	54	80	86

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VI.—Showing the proportion of female children under 12 and of married females in certain castes—*continued.*

Castes.	Locality.	Percentage of Female Children under 12 on the number of—		Percentage of married on Total amongst females aged—				
		Females of all ages.	Married females aged 15—40.	All ages.	0—12.	12—15.	15—20.	20—40.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9
GHASI (Hindu) ...	Ranchi and Palamau ...	39	131	41	3	39	72	84
GOND (Hindu) ...	Chota Nagpur States ...	35	119	44	7	45	77	76
GONR (Hindu) ...	Saran	32	91	40	5	48	61	86
GURUNG (Hindu) ...	Darjeeling and Sikkim ...	31	97	46	1	13	45	86
HAJJAM and Napit (Hindu)	Province	32	99	50	29	77	87	77
	Bengal Proper	31	103	44	14	80	87	69
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	33	97	62	38	78	89	85
	Other Bihar Districts ...	32	93	55	21	74	88	86
	Chota Nagpur	35	104	53	20	72	87	84
HAJJAM (Musalman) ...	Province	32	95	50	10	63	84	86
	Bengal Proper	30	83	51	16	87	91	81
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	32	104	48	12	58	77	84
	Other Bihar Districts ...	32	94	51	9	61	85	87
HARI (Hindu) ...	Province	33	94	49	13	64	85	83
	Bengal Proper	32	91	50	16	74	89	81
	Orissa States	37	110	43	3	15	62	89
HO (Hindu)	Orissa States	37	130	37	1	10	42	80
HO (Animistic) ...	Province	34	143	32	·7	9	29	67
	Singhbhum	33	142	31	·5	10	28	63
	Tributary States	38	145	35	1	7	33	79
JOLAHA (Musalman) ...	Province	33	95	54	17	75	91	87
	Bengal Proper	34	97	51	15	83	94	84
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	29	77	60	24	71	91	88
	Other Bihar Districts ...	31	89	54	15	67	87	87
	Chota Nagpur Plateau ...	38	114	56	20	79	92	89
JUGI (Hindu) ...	Bengal Proper	32	102	44	11	75	88	72
KAHAR (Hindu) ...	Province	29	83	53	15	75	91	85
	Bihar	29	81	54	15	75	91	85
	Chota Nagpur	34	105	48	12	68	85	83
KAIBARTTA (Unspecified) (Hindu)	Bengal Proper	25	91	43	15	82	86	65
KAIBARTTA (Chasi) (Hindu)	Bengal Proper	30	96	45	14	83	87	71
KAIBARTTA (Jaliya) (Hindu)	Bengal Proper	33	103	46	11	71	90	73
KALAL (Musalman) ...	Province	30	92	53	19	79	88	81
	Bihar	27	81	54	18	79	88	81
	Chota Nagpur	36	123	52	21	80	87	82
KALU (Hindu) ...	Bengal Proper and Manbhum	29	96	45	23	86	85	69
KALWAR (Hindu) ...	Bihar	30	90	52	16	68	88	84
KAMAR AND LOHAR (Hindu)	Province	33	102	49	15	66	84	80
	Bengal Proper	31	102	46	16	81	87	71
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	33	96	60	33	77	87	87
	Other Bihar Districts ...	32	96	51	15	60	94	84
	Orissa	30	86	47	6	50	87	83
	Chota Nagpur Plateau ...	38	119	46	7	46	79	85
KANDH (Hindu) ...	Orissa States and Angul ...	33	106	40	1	14	51	82
KANDH (Animist) ...	Orissa States and Angul ...	33	123	34	·5	2	26	77
KANDU (Hindu) ...	Bihar	31	89	54	16	70	88	86
KARAN (Hindu) ...	Orissa	27	91	39	1	11	63	80
KASARWANI (Hindu)	South Bihar	30	89	49	11	72	88	89

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VI.—Showing the proportion of female children under 12 and of married females in certain castes—*continued.*

Caste.	Locality.	Percentage of Female Children under 12 on the number of—		Percentage of married on total amongst females aged—				
		Females of all ages.	Married females aged 15—40.	All ages.	0—12.	12—15.	15—20.	20—40.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9
KAYASTHA (Hindu) ...	Province	29	97	42	6	66	88	72
	Bengal Proper	29	99	41	7	72	89	70
	Bihar	28	93	43	5	46	84	77
	Orissa	26	86	40	4	60	89	73
KEWAT (Hindu) ...	Orissa	32	93	45	3	38	84	97
KHAMBU (Hindu) ...	Darjeeling and Sikkim ...	32	100	43	·3	6	34	95
KHANDAIT (Hindu) ...	Orissa	30	95	42	3	29	77	82
KHARIA (Hindu) ...	Ranchi	40	135	39	·9	21	61	84
KHARIA (Christian) ...	Ranchi	41	139	40	2	28	62	86
KHARIA (Animist) ...	Ranchi and Manbhum ...	39	140	37	1	21	52	81
KHARWAR (Hindu) ...	Ranchi and Palamau ...	38	119	44	5	45	79	84
KHAS (Hindu) ...	Darjeeling and Sikkim ...	33	85	49	3	22	72	91
KHATWE (Hindu) ...	Darbhanga	36	111	70	57	80	93	89
KOIRI (Hindu) ...	Province	31	91	56	23	70	88	86
	Bihar	31	90	55	21	68	88	85
	Chota Nagpur	35	105	54	22	78	89	83
KORWA (Animist) ...	Palamau	39	117	45	2	34	60	90
KUKI (Hindu) ...	Hill Tippera	40	129	41	·3	25	55	89
KUKI (Animist) ...	Hill Tippera	36	105	41	2	24	62	79
KULU (Musalman) ...	Bengal Proper	34	98	50	14	73	90	83
KUMHAR (Hindu) ...	Province	33	99	52	20	71	87	81
	Bengal Proper	32	105	45	15	78	85	69
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	34	104	66	47	80	92	88
	Other Bihar Districts ...	32	89	57	22	73	89	87
	Orissa	30	84	49	5	44	87	88
	Chota Nagpur Plateau ...	35	102	52	15	65	87	85
KUNJRA (Musalman)...	Province	33	96	57	27	75	90	86
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	35	101	62	37	77	92	88
	Other Bihar Districts (including Malda)	32	93	55	21	74	88	85
KURMI (Hindu) ...	Province	32	94	53	18	71	89	83
	West Bengal	34	94	53	18	76	91	84
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	30	88	60	33	83	91	84
	Other Bihar Districts ...	28	83	51	17	70	83	80
	Chota Nagpur Plateau ...	35	104	51	13	67	91	86
KURMI (Animist) ...	Orissa States	30	119	47	10	51	85	88
LAHERI (Musalman) ...	Province	36	104	53	13	64	89	89
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	37	110	55	13	60	91	90
	Saran	33	93	51	9	61	86	88
	Champaran	36	105	52	18	57	76	88
LEPCHA (Christian) ...	Darjeeling	33	84	59	.....	.....	7	67
LEPCHA (Buddhist) ...	Darjeeling and Sikkim ...	24	74	53	2	12	42	85
LIMBU (Hindu) ...	Darjeeling and Sikkim ...	30	94	46	·9	12	43	90
MAGH (Buddhist) ...	East Bengal	33	112	40	1	20	63	81
MAHURI (Hindu) ...	Patna and Gaya	29	91	45	5	67	84	76
MALAKAR (Mali) (Hindu)	Muzaffarpur	33	110	57	30	82	86	85
MALI (Musalman) ...	Saran	29	88	50	6	47	74	83
MALLAH (Hindu) ...	Patna, Shahabad and Saran	28	85	51	12	59	81	83
MALLIK (Musalman) ...	West Bengal	30	87	49	10	78	92	79

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VI.—Showing the proportion of female children under 12 and of married females in certain castes—*continued.*

Castes.	Locality.	Percentage of female children under 12 on the number of—		Percentage of married on total amongst females aged				
		Females of all ages.	Married females aged 15—40.	All ages.	0—12.	12—15.	15—20.	20—40.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9
MALPAHARIA (Hindu) ...	Santhal Parganas	35	102	49	3	41	86	87
MANGAR (Hindu) ...	North Bengal	35	105	46	3	11	53	80
MUCHI (Hindu) ...	Bengal Proper	33	97	52	18	87	92	92
MUKERI (Musalman)...	Bihar	34	104	51	10	61	74	90
MUNDA (Hindu) ...	Chota Nagpur	34	116	41	2	39	64	82
MUNDA (Christian) ...	Ranchi	38	137	39	·5	9	46	86
MUNDA (Animist) ...	Chota Nagpur	38	139	38	2	21	56	83
MURMI (Buddhist) ...	Darjeeling and Sikkim ...	33	103	43	·3	6	37	86
MUSAHAR (Hindu) ...	Province	35	101	55	19	64	88	89
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	37	108	61	30	78	91	90
	Other Bihar Districts ...	35	99	54	15	69	88	86
NAGARCHI (Musalman)	Jessore	32	95	51	22	95	96	78
NALIYA (Nalua) (Musalman)	Nadia and Jessore	33	99	49	13	92	92	84
NAMASUDRA (Chandal) (Hindu)	Bengal Proper	33	105	44	12	75	89	70
NATIVE (Christian) ...	Province	37	113	40	·7	22	70	81
	Bengal Proper	37	108	42	·7	31	83	83
	Bihar	33	131	35	1	8	52	75
	Orissa	31	116	36	·3	4	41	76
	Chota Nagpur	40	142	37	·7	20	58	80
NIKARI (Musalman) ...	Bengal Proper	33	98	50	17	84	92	89
NUNIYA (Hindu) ...	Province	31	94	53	19	58	85	85
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	31	87	63	39	80	91	88
	Other Bihar Districts ...	32	96	49	19	49	92	83
ORAON (Hindu) ...	Province	33	92	48	4	38	61	84
	Jalpaiguri	31	83	49	3	28	58	83
	Chota Nagpur	41	133	41	4	35	72	87
ORAON (Animist) ...	Chota Nagpur	41	140	41	2	42	74	83
ORAON (Christian) ...	Ranchi	42	140	39	2	26	65	86
PAN (Hindu) ...	Province	36	108	43	2	18	72	77
	Orissa	34	98	43	2	19	79	87
	Chota Nagpur Plateau ...	38	115	42	2	17	67	86
PAN (Animist) ...	Province	37	113	44	2	36	58	87
	Angul	36	130	53	2	3	31	75
	Chota Nagpur Tributary States	37	117	45	2	38	63	88
PASI (Hindu) ...	Province	32	92	57	22	73	90	88
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	33	98	56	21	75	88	89
	Other Bihar Districts ...	32	91	57	22	73	90	87
PAWARIA (Musalman)	Shahabad and Saran ...	32	91	53	10	61	84	91
POD (Hindu)	Bengal Proper	36	113	49	20	91	89	74
RAJBANSI (Koch) (Hindu)	Province	35	114	63	9	70	88	74
	North Bengal	36	115	44	8	71	88	74
	Dacca and Mymensingh ...	34	107	43	6	51	81	76
RAJPUT (Hindu) ...	Province	29	95	44	6	55	82	76
	West Bengal	31	96	46	12	73	89	72
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	29	107	42	8	55	82	73
	Other Bihar Districts ...	28	91	44	7	53	81	77
	Chota Nagpur	32	104	45	14	60	82	75
RAJWAR (Hindu) ...	Gaya	34	93	56	16	79	88	87
RANGREZ (Musalman)	Bihar	40	119	50	8	58	91	84

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VI.—Showing the proportion of female children under 12 and of married females in certain castes—*concluded.*

Castes.	Locality.	Percentage of female children under 12 on the number of—		Percentage of married on total amongst females aged				
		Females of all ages.	Married females aged 15—40.	All ages.	0—12.	12—15.	15—20.	20—40.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9
RAUNIAR (Nonias) (Hindu).	Muzaffarpur	31	95	60	29	81	85	88
SADGOP (Hindu) ...	Bengal Proper	28	90	44	21	82	87	65
SANTAL (Hindu) ...	Province	37	124	41	3	25	61	84
	West Bengal	33	91	48	4	37	74	86
	Bihar	33	130	44	5	39	65	85
	Chota Nagpur Plateau ...	38	131	39	2	21	57	83
SANTAL (Animist) ...	Province	38	131	41	2	24	63	85
	West Bengal and Malda ...	37	116	42	2	27	69	84
	Sonthal Parganas	39	137	40	2	23	60	85
	Chota Nagpur Plateau ...	38	127	39	1	21	60	82
SHARPA BHOTIA (Buddhist).	Darjeeling and Sikkim ...	33	92	46	2	11	48	85
SIKKIM BHOTIA (Buddhist).	Darjeeling and Sikkim ...	20	62	54	·5	11	29	83
SONAR (Hindu) ...	Province	32	98	53	16	69	88	83
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	34	106	54	23	79	89	83
	Other Bihar Districts ...	32	96	50	12	65	87	82
SUDRA (Hindu) ...	East Bengal	31	102	40	5	74	90	71
SUNRI (Shaha) (Hindu)	Province	30	94	48	15	75	88	74
	Bengal Proper	29	94	45	12	77	88	71
	Bihar	30	90	55	24	67	82	84
	Hazaribagh	35	106	51	19	67	88	83
SUNUWAR (Hindu) ...	Darjeeling and Sikkim ...	31	94	45	·9	10	47	84
SUTRADHAR (Hindu)	Bengal Proper	32	105	43	10	74	87	70
TANTI and TATWA (Hindu).	Province	31	91	53	19	71	88	83
	Bengal Proper	29	89	47	18	83	88	72
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	31	90	63	40	82	90	88
	Other Bihar Districts ...	32	93	58	27	80	92	87
	Orissa	30	83	50	6	54	89	87
	Chota Nagpur Plateau ...	34	103	46	7	44	78	83
TELI (Hindu)	Province	31	92	53	21	76	89	83
	Bengal Proper	28	94	47	23	82	85	68
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	32	90	64	41	87	93	88
	Other Bihar Districts ...	31	89	54	18	70	86	85
	Orissa	23	82	49	8	66	91	84
	Chota Nagpur Plateau ...	36	105	52	17	75	90	85
THARU (Hindu) ...	Champaran	38	112	55	16	66	72	86
TIBETAN (Buddhist) ...	Darjeeling	22	60	48	.....	3	27	87
TILI (Hindu)	West Bengal	29	105	45	25	78	92	65
TIPARA (Hindu) ...	East Bengal	41	121	44	·9	30	78	93
TIPARA (Buddhist) ...	Chittagong Hill Tracts ...	41	120	46	·8	26	75	96
TIYAR (Hindu) ...	Monghyr and Purnea ...	32	94	56	21	72	88	85

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VII.—Showing the death-rate at different ages in 1897 and 1900.

Age.		Ratio per 1,000 living at same age in 1891.																	
		West Bengal.		Central Bengal.		North Bengal.		East Bengal.		North Bihar.		South Bihar.		Orissa.		Chota Nagpur Plateau.		Total.	
All ages.		Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.
0-1	1897	298·1	293·5	170·8	132·5	234·1	186·3	203·8	158·5	218·1	185·3	296·6	256·5	390·3	345·9	240·6	202·5	239·11	194·4
	1900	*308·1*	*240·1*	*291·9*	*164·2*	*285·2*	*229·3*	*259·6*	*202·4*	*232·6*	*194·0*	*351·8*	*291·1*	*389·7*	*349·1*	*237·7*	*195·3*	*271·7*	*220·6*
1-5	1897	58·6	54·8	37·8	32·8	44·7	38·7	50·2	45·1	46·5	38·6	59·8	51·6	45·8	42·1	44·5	34·3	45·8	38·7
	1900	*53·3*	*52·9*	*55·5*	*50·5*	*54·3*	*44·8*	*54·6*	*46·0*	*61·0*	*49·9*	*70·7*	*61·6*	*62·1*	*60·8*	*52·7*	*25·8*	*53·2*	*45·6*
5-10	1897	14·6	15·0	22·0	18·1	23·2	18·8	23·3	18·6	17·2	13·3	16·6	14·0	16·9	15·7	17·1	13·1	19·3	15·6
	1900	*14·4*	*13·0*	*30·4*	*25·8*	*25·4*	*19·8*	*25·4*	*20·2*	*26·0*	*20·8*	*21·2*	*18·5*	*20·9*	*17·7*	*10·8*	*8·8*	*22·7*	*18·5*
10-15	1897	12·5	10·9	15·4	13·3	20·0	17·6	16·8	14·1	17·6	12·7	14·3	11·9	11·5	9·9	10·3	13·0	16·1	13·1
	1900	*12·0*	*11·0*	*21·0*	*18·9*	*21·4*	*18·7*	*18·8*	*16·0*	*24·5*	*19·1*	*17·2*	*16·6*	*11·5*	*9·7*	*10·0*	*8·3*	*18·2*	*15·5*
15-20	1897	20·3	18·8	20·2	18·3	26·0	24·8	22·1	22·7	18·8	12·1	15·4	11·3	14·8	17·0	23·1	18·8	20·5	18·5
	1900	*19·6*	*17·3*	*23·4*	*22·5*	*27·0*	*26·0*	*24·7*	*26·9*	*25·0*	*20·7*	*18·0*	*16·7*	*15·1*	*18·1*	*14·2*	*12·4*	*22·0*	*21·4*
20-30	1897	21·6	17·5	19·6	16·8	27·0	25·2	26·6	21·9	23·4	13·6	20·2	15·2	28·5	20·8	28·4	19·5	22·4	18·7
	1900	*20·9*	*16·7*	*26·0*	*21·4*	*26·3*	*23·4*	*24·7*	*27·3*	*30·8*	*23·3*	*24·3*	*21·0*	*21·6*	*21·8*	*17·7*	*15·5*	*24·99*	*22·4*
30-40	1897	24·3	18·3	21·7	17·3	29·2	27·7	28·5	23·4	24·7	15·0	20·8	14·5	23·9	17·7	33·0	21·6	24·6	19·1
	1900	23·3	*17·9*	*25·2*	*21·5*	*27·7*	*28·1*	*25·3*	*25·6*	*30·6*	*23·8*	*23·3*	*20·2*	*24·2*	*18·7*	*18·7*	*15·8*	*25·7*	*22·1*
40-50	1897	30·8	21·3	25·6	20·7	36·6	31·8	29·4	24·7	31·8	23·2	29·6	21·6	28·9	17·6	43·7	29·8	31·89	23·3
	1900	*29·4*	*22·1*	*31·9*	*27·1*	*32·4*	*30·1*	*31·1*	*26·8*	*37·5*	*28·3*	*30·7*	*23·1*	*30·1*	*19·5*	*26·2*	*18·9*	*31·96*	*23·6*
50-60	1897	42·3	31·2	37·6	26·0	49·1	38·7	41·0	36·3	45·8	35·4	50·1	40·9	47·3	37·4	74·8	61·9	46·7	37·3
	1900	*42·9*	*34·5*	*46·0*	*36·8*	*53·3*	*36,7*	*43·6*	*38·1*	*47·0*	*41·7*	*46·2*	*41·5*	*51·9*	*42·5*	*44·4*	*36·9*	*43·1*	*38·8*
60 and over	1897	77·3	51·5	66·8	40·1	74·7	59·4	82·3	67·2	86·9	61·6	90·6	71·5	80·5	51·9	118·3	87·3	83·7	61·7
	1900	*84·1*	*59·5*	*85·9*	*67·6*	*68·7*	*47·6*	*82·8*	*64·4*	*93·0*	*74·4*	*89·8*	*80·3*	*97·1*	*66·5*	*67·5*	*50·6*	*84·1*	*65·8*

Chapter VI.

SEX.

406. In all European countries, except Italy and Bulgaria, the females outnumber the males, the excess varying from 5 females per 1,000 males in the case of France to 91 in Portugal. In India, on the other hand, the male population is generally in excess, and in the whole country taken together there are only 965 females to 1,000 males. The only exceptions to the general rule are furnished by Madras and the Central Provinces. At the census of Bengal taken in 1872 there was an equal number of each sex, but in 1881 the females exceeded the males by 8 per 1,000. Ten years later the excess fell to 5 per mille, and now the females are fewer than the males by 2 per mille. The actual deficiency in the number of the weaker sex at the present census is 62,962, but this result is due to migration. If only persons born in Bengal are taken into consideration, the females outnumber the males by 160,375, or about 3 per mille. The question how far the low average number of females compared with European countries is due to their omission from enumeration has often been discussed, but no final conclusion has been arrived at. It is theoretically possible that a certain number of unmarried girls who have passed the age of puberty and of young married women are not reported, but there is no evidence of this. If it occurred, the greatest deficiency of females would be amongst the highest castes and in the Muhammadan community. This, however, is not the case. It occurs mainly amongst certain race castes of East and North Bengal whose women move about freely, and many of whom suffer no loss of position if they fail to marry their girls before they attain the age of puberty. So far as I am aware, there is no reason to suppose that the return of females in Bengal is appreciably less accurate than that of males.

General proportion of the Sexes.

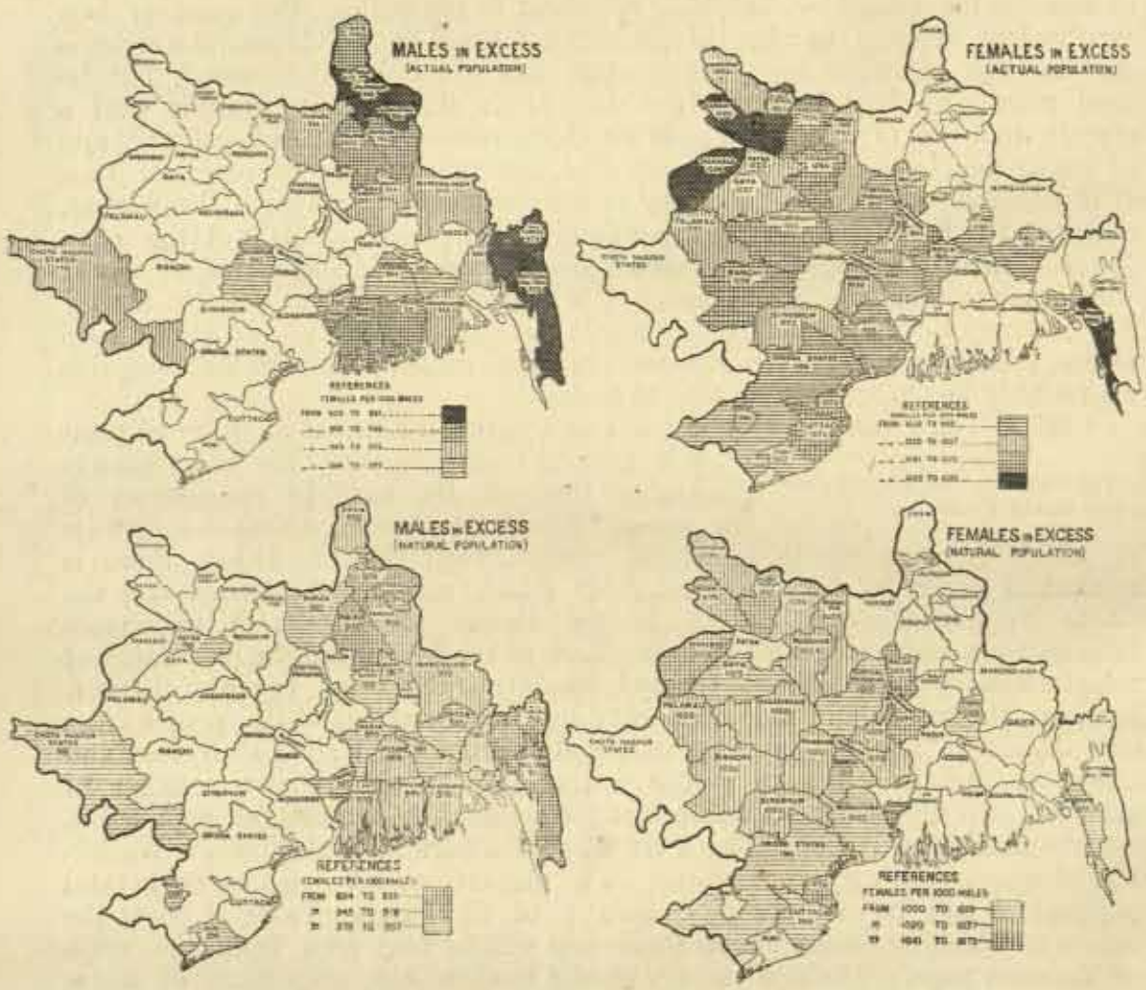
407. The great diversity which exists in the conditions of different parts of this great Province is nowhere more clearly illustrated than in the varying proportions of the sexes. Except in Purnea, a considerable part of which is more nearly allied to North Bengal than to Bihar, there is a marked excess of females throughout Bihar, and also in Orissa and the Chota Nagpur Plateau, but in Bengal Proper the only tract with more females than males is West Bengal. East of the Bhágirathi the proportion of females steadily diminishes, especially towards the north-east. In many districts, however, the results, are much disturbed by the movements of the people from one district to another, and by immigration from the United Provinces and elsewhere, and in order to gather a true idea of the relative number of each sex, it is necessary to consider not the actual, but the natural, population, *i.e.*, the number of persons of each sex who were born in each district regardless of where they were enumerated. The proportions calculated on the natural population will be found in column 3 of Subsidiary Table I, but the extent to which migration affects the figures will be best seen from the maps on the next page. The first two are shaded to show the proportion of males and females respectively in the actual population, or the persons *enumerated* in each district, while the second two show the corresponding proportions on the natural population, *i.e.*, the persons *born* in each district. The proportion of females to males in Chittagong is 1,110 per 1,000 if calculated on the number of persons of each sex enumerated in the district, but if we take into account the men temporarily absent in Akyab the proportion falls to 1,011. Though less marked, similar deviations occur in almost all districts. Bengal Proper contains numerous temporary immigrants from Bihar, Orissa and elsewhere, and most of these are males.

Proportions in different parts of the Province.

The differences in the proportion of the sexes, so far as they are due to the movements of the people, are of no physiological importance; it is the natural population which should be considered when comparing one tract with another.

The main result, however, is the same as before. Bihar shows a general excess of females, broken only in the case of Purnea, already referred to, and Patna. In North Bihar a steady decline may be observed in the proportion of females as one proceeds from west to east through Saran, Muzaffarpur, Darbhanga, Bhágalpur and Purnea,* and the same phenomenon continues on crossing into North Bengal and traversing Dinajpur and Jalpaiguri. West of the Bhágirathi the proportions in Bengal Proper resemble those in Bihar, but east of that river only Pabna and Chittagong contain more females than males.† The number of females per 1,000 males is least where the Mongoloid element in the population is strongest, *viz.*, in Jalpaiguri (894), the Chittagong Hill Tracts (901), Kuch Bihar (911), Hill Tippera (913), and Dinajpur (932). The proportion for the whole of Mymensingh is 943, but if we consider separately the police circles which adjoin the Garo Hills it appears that the proportion is there only 902 compared with 950 in the rest of the district.

In the Chota Nagpur Plateau the females are in excess everywhere except in the Chota Nagpur States and Angul. In Orissa their number is very high in Balasore, and fairly high in Cuttack, while in Puri it is slightly less than that of males.



* In Champaran, to the north of this line of districts, the proportion of females is smaller than the above arrangement would indicate; but Champaran has derived a larger share of its inhabitants from the north than have the other districts mentioned.

† I exclude Murshidabad, which is intersected by the Bhágirathi, the conditions on each side of which are very different, and Malda, which lies on both sides of the Mahánandá, the northward continuation of the same ethnic frontier. The difference in the proportion of females to 1,000 males in the parts of Purnea and Malda which lie respectively east and west of the Mahánandá is very noticeable—

	East.	West.
Purnea	926	967
Malda	973	1,042

The actual population is here taken. It is impossible to work out the natural population for any smaller unit than a district.

PROPORTIONS IN DIFFERENT RELIGIONS.

408. It might naturally be supposed that the Muhammadans, with their greater reticence in all matters which concern their women, would be credited with a smaller proportion of women at the census than the Hindus, but this is not the case. In the Province, as a whole, the proportion is smaller, but this is merely because the Muhammadans are found chiefly in the tracts where women are most in defect. If the figures for different parts of the Province are examined, it will be seen that in every Natural Division except Chota Nagpur, the proportion of females is higher amongst the Muhammadans than amongst the Hindus. There are no statistics showing the religion of immigrants, who are mostly males, but it is well known that the great majority of them are Hindus. If these could be excluded, there would be a nearer approach to equality between the figures for the two religions, but even then, the proportion would probably still be higher amongst the Muhammadans. The Animistic tribes have a relatively larger number of women than either Hindus or Muhammadans.

PROPORTIONS IN DIFFERENT CASTES.

409. An examination of the figures for each sex in individual castes and tribes (Subsidiary Table IV) shows that, on the whole, the smallest proportion of females is found amongst the tribes and race castes of Bengal Proper, *viz.*, Chákmá, Tipárá, Rájbansi, Mech, Hájang, Pod, Namasudra and Kaibartta. The Maghs appear at first sight to form an exception, but this is due to the figures for Chittagong where many of the men were away in Akyab at the time of the census. In the Chittagong Hill Tracts where the results are not disturbed by migration, males are in marked excess. The lowest proportions of all are found amongst the Mech, Tipárá and Rájbansi. As regards the Nepalese and Himalayan castes and tribes, the figures are too small for much stress to be laid on them, especially as amongst the immigrant from Nepal there are only 964 females to every 1,000 males. It appears, however, that females are generally in a minority except amongst the Murmis and Gurungs. The great majority of the Lepchas live within the area dealt with at the Census, and with them there are only 989 females to 1,000 males, or exactly the same proportion as in the case of the Namasudras and Kaibarttas. The Thárus of Champaran, who are supposed to have come from the north, have almost as low a proportion of females as the Rájbansis. So have the Dhárhis of Monghyr and Patna, whose original home was probably in the Nepal Terai. Next to these tribes and race castes the smallest proportion of women is found in a few of the lower functional groups such as Sutradhar, Bhuinmáli and Kalu, mostly belonging to Bengal Proper. The proportion is low also in several castes, such as Pási and Ahir, whose local head-quarters is in Bihar, but in their case it may be due in part to the immigration of males from the Upper Provinces. Then come some of the higher castes. The Baidyas have a slight excess of women, but with the Káyasths and Bábhans the two sexes are on a par, while with the Bráhmans and Rájputs males are in excess, especially in the latter caste. There has doubtless been some immigration of Rájputs from other Provinces, but the excess of males is characteristic of this caste not only in Bengal but also in Upper India. The two local Orissa castes of fairly high status (Karan and Khandáit) have a far larger proportion of women than those of equal rank elsewhere.* Amongst the functional groups the females are usually slightly in excess, but more so in Bihar than in Bengal, and most of all in Orissa. Some of the lower Bihar castes such as Bind and Dhánuk, have a very great excess of females, and the same is the case with most of the purely Orissa castes. The northern tribes of the Chota Nagpur Plateau, *viz.*, the Chero, Munda, Oráon and Santál have either an equality, or only a very slight excess, of women, but further south, amongst the Páns, Kandhs and Hos, the disproportion becomes more marked.

PROPORTIONS AT DIFFERENT AGES.

410. In Europe, as a whole, there are 1,019 females to every 1,000 males. The number of males born exceeds that of females in the ratio of 1,005 to 1,000† but "the rate of mortality of boys in every month of the first year

* It is unfortunately impossible to compare the proportions of the sexes amongst Bráhmans and Káyasths in different parts of the Province owing to the disturbing effect of immigration.

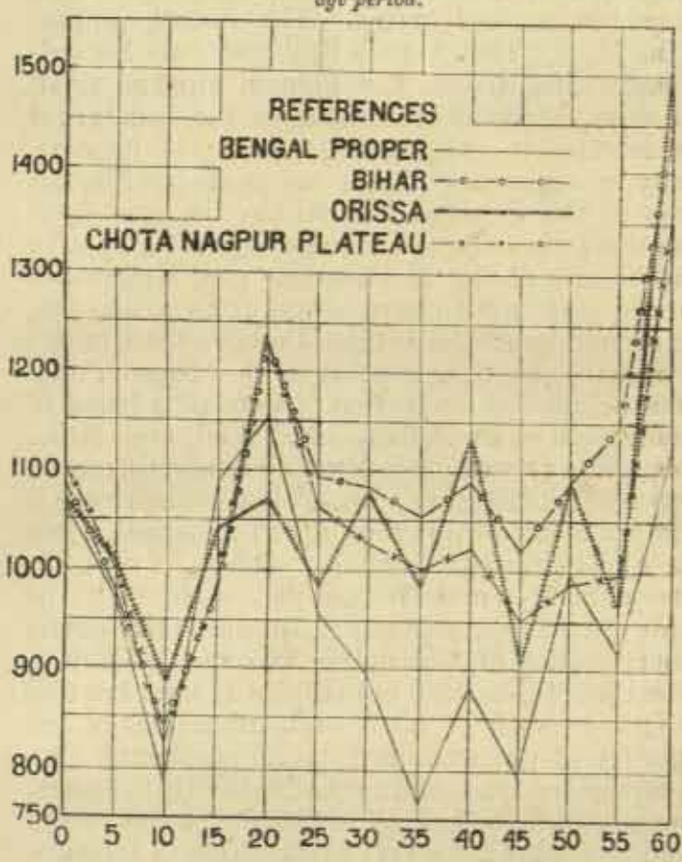
† Bertillon—"Cours Elémentaire de Statistique Administrative," page 459.

of life exceeds that of girls, so that in spite of the much larger number of boys at birth, they are fewer in number than girls at the end of the first year of life."* The general facts in Bengal are similar, but the excess number of boys born is greater, while the females living at the age 0—5 outnumber the males to a larger extent than in Europe. During the eight years 1892—1900, on an average, 1,065 male births were reported to every 1,000 female, while the Census shows that of the persons enumerated at the age 0—5 there are 1,073 females to every 1,000 males, compared with only 1,007 in England.

Locality.	Number of boys born to 1,000 girls.
Province ...	***1,065***
Bengal Proper ...	1,068
Bihar	1,064
Orissa	1,059
Chota Nagpur ...	1,049

The greater extremes shown by the Bengal figures compared with those of Europe must be due to one of three causes, *viz.*, (1) a greater relative infantile mortality amongst boys, (2) a greater degree of inaccuracy in the reporting of female, than in that of male, births, or (3) the under-statement of ages of girls, which has exaggerated the apparent number living at the earlier ages. Having regard to the fact that in the population as a whole the proportion of males is greater than in Europe, a larger proportion at birth is naturally to be expected, and there seems no *à priori* reason for supposing that the reporting of female births is much less accurate than that of males.† It is also very unlikely that infantile mortality is greater in the case of boys. Indeed the probabilities point in the other direction. The universal desire amongst natives of India is for male offspring, and when the desire is fulfilled, the child is treated with much more care than it would be if it proved to be a girl; boys are better clothed and better fed, and more thoroughly rubbed with mustard oil as a prophylactic against the colds and chills to which the greater part of the mortality amongst young children in this country is due. Girls are not as a rule actively neglected;‡ but there can, I think, be no doubt that, on the whole, they receive less care than boys, and it would be strange if the mortality amongst them compared with that amongst boys were relatively less than in Europe. The real reason appears to be that in this country there is a tendency to understate the ages of girls who are not yet married. This becomes very

Diagram showing the number of females to 1,000 males at each age period.



Note.—The numbers at the foot of this diagram refer to the initial figure of each age period *e.g.*, '0' means the period '0—5', 5 refers to '5—10' and so forth. The last number '60' includes all returned at the ages of 60 upwards.

* Newsholme's Vital Statistics, page 121.

† In an official paper relating to the vital statistics for 1892 the excess of male births reported was held to be due to the inaccuracy of the returns, and this may be so to a certain degree, but, having regard to the proportions existing in Europe, and to the fact that there has since been but little change in Bengal, in spite of greatly improved registration, it is possible that male births do really exceed those of females to a considerable extent. The same conclusion may also be drawn from the proportion of still-births reported for either sex. The proportion of male to 100 female still-births reported has varied from 127 in 1896 to 131 in 1899. In Europe the proportion ranges between 127 in Bavaria and 142 in France. It may be noted also that the proportion of still-births to total births reported is very much the same in Bengal as in European countries.

‡ It is a question whether this is not the case amongst the castes which pay a bridegroom price, when a woman gives birth to a number of girls in succession.

apparent when we compare the number of girls between 10 and 15 years of age with the corresponding number of boys. According to the census there are only 813 girls of this age to every 1,000 boys. A slur generally attaches to the parents of girls of this period of life if they are not married and their age is, therefore, in many cases, deliberately understated. There is also a certain, though smaller, error in the other direction. Once a girl is married, she is frequently reported to be older than she really is, and some of the married girls under 15 years of age have probably been shown in the next higher age period, while many properly belonging to that category have been returned as between 20 and 25 years of age.

Between the ages of 35 and 50, females are constantly in defect as compared with the other sex. There seems to be a greater tendency to exaggeration in one direction or the other in the case of women who have arrived at this time of life—those still capable of bearing children being returned as younger, while those who have passed the change of life, are said to be much older, than they really are. This accounts for the piling up of females at the age "60 and over," in the one direction, and at "20 to 25" in the other. The greater inaccuracy in the return of female ages may possibly be due in part to the fact that the enumerators were more dependent in their case on the statements of the house-holders, whereas in respect of men they were generally able to check the statements made by their own observation of the individuals concerned.* However that may be, there can be no doubt of the far greater inaccuracy in the age return of females, and there is nothing to be gained in lingering longer over the proportions which they bear to males at the different age periods.

PROGRESSIVE DECREASE IN PROPORTION OF FEMALES.

411. There has been a fall in the number of females per 1,000 males from 1,008 in 1881 and 1,005 in 1891 to 998 at the present census. A small part of this decline is due to the industrial development of the metropolitan area, which attracts an ever-growing number of workmen from the United Provinces, but although males largely predominate amongst these immigrants, they are not, to any great extent, responsible for the variation which has taken place during the decade in the proportion of the sexes in this Province. If the natural population alone be considered, the present proportion of females per 1,000 males is 1,003 compared with 1,009 in 1891. The result is due mainly to the varying rate of growth in the general population in different parts of the Province. In East Bengal, where the proportion of females, is very deficient, the general rate of increase has been high, whereas in Bihar where the women preponderate, the population is decadent. The proportion is much the same now as it was ten years ago in East and West Bengal; it has risen in North Bihar and Chota Nagpur and has fallen in Orissa, North and Central Bengal, and South Bihar. In the two tracts last mentioned the diminution in the proportion of women is very considerable.

CAUSES INFLUENCING SEX.

412. It remains to discuss as briefly as possible the extent to which the theories which have been put forward at different times as to the causes which influence sex are supported or contradicted by the conditions which prevail in this province.† It has

* The enumerators themselves were but indifferent judges of age, but, being literate, they were less liable to fall into serious error than the great majority of the persons whom they enumerated.

† There are some theories which cannot be confronted with the census statistics, *e.g.*, the view that the sex is inherent in the germ itself, or that it is determined by the degree of ovular maturity at the time of conception.

Many of the modern theories regarding the causation of sex have been anticipated by ancient Hindu writers. The idea underlying many of these theories, both ancient and modern, is that sex is determined by the preponderance of the male over the female principle, or the reverse, at the time of conception. It was stated, for example, in an old Hindu work on the subject, that the female principle is weaker on certain days than on others, and that conception on even days following the commencement of the menses tends to result in male, and on odd days in female, children. This general tendency, however, might be counteracted if one sex or the other were specially strong, and a strong and healthy woman is advised to fast, or reduce her diet, at the time when she expects to conceive, if she wishes to be blessed with male offspring. For the same reason it was ordained that the husband should be older than his wife, as he would then ordinarily be more vigorous and have a greater chance of influencing the sex. The great authority on sex amongst the Hindus is the Adi Shástra which is attributed to Nágárjuna, but some of the observations in this work, though they indicate an immense amount of research, are not fit for reproduction.

Male children are greatly desired by Hindus and many are the expedients resorted to in order to secure them. There is a special ceremony called *Punsavan*, which is often performed after *Garbhádhán* with the object of obtaining male offspring.

been said that the ratio of females to males has a tendency to be higher along the coast or within the influence of sea air, but Bengal Proper, which receives the monsoon current direct from the sea, has a much smaller proportion of females than Bihar. It has again been said to be higher in hill tracts, but we have seen that in the case of the Nepal and Sikkim tribes, and amongst those of Hill Tippera and the Chittagong Hills, women are very deficient. They are more plentiful in parts of the Chota Nagpur Plateau, but not so much so as in the plains of Bihar and Orissa. Various theories are connected with the amount of nutrition and the kind of food eaten by the mother. It has been suggested that if a woman is well nourished during the period of gestation, she is more likely to give birth to a girl, but the part of Bengal where girls are fewest is precisely the part where the people are most prosperous.*

With reference to the properties of the food eaten, it may be observed that rice is the main article of diet both in Orissa, where women are plentiful, and in Bengal Proper, where they are scarce. In Bihar millets of various kinds enter more largely into the dietary of the people, while in Chota Nagpur the wilder tribes rely to a great extent on fruits and roots and other products of the forest. As regards climate, Bihar is subject to greater extremes of temperature than Bengal, and Bengal than Orissa. Bengal and Orissa are damp, while Bihar is relatively dry, but North Bihar is considerably less so than South Bihar. In North and East Bengal the houses are larger, lighter and better ventilated than in West Bengal and Bihar. It seems difficult to establish any connection between these conditions and the proportions of the sexes. Neither does the extent to which the females share in the work of the men appear to affect the problem. The delicately-nurtured and secluded women of the higher castes (outside Orissa) occupy a middle place, and both extremes are found amongst the tribes and low castes whose women take their part in cultivation or other forms of labour.

CONNECTION BETWEEN SEX AND SEASON OF CONCEPTION.

413. I have been at some pains to analyse the annual returns of births and deaths in order to see if any connection could be traced between the season of conception and the sex of the child. The results are exhibited in Appendix IV, which shows for each sub-Province the number of births male and female, reported in each month from 1892 to 1900, the proportion which they bear to the yearly total, and the number of female, to 100 male, births,† but I must confess to having failed to trace any correlation between the two sets of figures. The statistics for the districts which suffered most from famine have been given separately on the last page of the Appendix, but here, too, the periods during and succeeding the famine disclose no abnormal features.

CONNECTION BETWEEN SEX AND RELATIVE AGE OF PARENTS.

414. In the English Census report for 1881 the view was repeated "that there are some reasons for believing that one, at any rate, of the causes that determine the sex of an infant, is the relative ages of the father and mother, the offspring having a tendency to be of the same sex as its elder parent." Space forbids a complete examination of the statistics of marriage by caste in order to see how far this or some kindred theory will fit in with the observed facts in India; but it may be noted generally that amongst the Rájbansis, Kaibarttas and other race castes of Bengal Proper the men are usually married as adults to girls much younger than themselves, usually before they have reached the age of puberty, and that co-habitation commences as soon as puberty is attained. The same custom generally prevails amongst the high castes throughout the province and almost all castes of Bengal Proper. In many parts of Bihar, amongst the

* So far as they go the facts in Bengal seem to confirm the opposite theory, that mal-nutrition on the part of the female leads to the production of female children, which was suggested by Sir Lewis McIver in the Madras Census Report for 1881. But too much reliance cannot be placed on a few coincidences of this sort. The figures require to be collated for many countries and a series of enumerations. There was no rise in the proportion of female children born in Bihar during the recent famine. It has been mentioned in the footnote on the last page that the Hindus attach importance to nutrition in connection with the causation of sex, but they do so only in so far as it affects the relative strength of the male and female principles at the time of conception.

† The results are exhibited graphically in the diagram shown against paragraph 403 of the last chapter.

lower castes, boys and girls alike are usually married in early youth, and in the Chota Nagpur Plateau there are very few marriages until both sexes have reached maturity; in both cases, therefore, there is less difference between the ages of husband and wife than there usually is in Bengal Proper and amongst the higher castes generally.

CONNECTION BETWEEN RACE AND SEX.

415. In 1891 Mr. O'Donnell suggested that the differences in the sex proportions noticed were due to race rather than climate or locality, and there seems to be no doubt that there is some kind of correspondence between sex and race. Women are fewest amongst the Mongoloid tribes of East and North Bengal and their Muhammadan congeners; and the proportion of females increases as one departs from the area where the Mongoloid element in the population is greatest. In Purnea and Malda there are marked differences in the proportion of the sexes on each side of the Mahánandá, which has already been mentioned as a great ethnic boundary, and in Bihar women are fewest in the case of tribes reputed to have immigrated from Nepal. The tracts bordering on Nepal, moreover, show a much smaller proportion of females than the rest of the districts concerned.* Away from Mongoloid influences the proportion of women is smallest in the Rájput and other high castes in which the Aryan strain is presumably strongest. On the other hand, women are, generally speaking, most numerous amongst the Dravidian tribes and the lower castes, especially those of Bihar and Orissa, which have been recruited mainly from Dravidian sources. In the Punjab women are very deficient,† and they are also in a minority, though to a less extent, in the United Provinces. The only Provinces where they preponderate lie to the south, where the population is in the main Dravidian. Women are most numerous in Madras, but chiefly in the south, where other races have least affected the population. Further north and west the males as a rule outnumber the females.‡

It does not, of course, follow that because the sex proportions appear to follow racial lines they are necessarily dependent on anything inherent in any particular race. They may equally well be the result of certain social practices peculiar to particular races. The Rájputs, for example, formerly practised female infanticide, and Darwin says that "we have some reason to believe that female infanticide, consistently practised for a long time, tends to make a male-producing race." There are numerous traces of polyandry amongst the Mongoloid tribes, including the Tipárá, Gáro, Koch and Mech, and it still exists amongst the Bhotias, and it is possible that this practice may have had the same effect as that attributed by Darwin to the persistent destruction of female children.

* In the part of Champaran bordering on Nepal there are only 1,007 females per 1,000 males compared with 1,039 in the rest of that district; in Muzaffarpur 1,034 compared with 1,112; in Darbhanga 1,034 as against 1,065; and in Bhagalpur 1,001 as against 1,040. Similarly in Mymensingh as already noted, the thanas under the Garo Hills have only 902 females per 1,000 males, while in the rest of the district there are 950. It must, however, be remembered, in the case of the Bihar districts, that there is more emigration from the southern than from the northern thanas.

† In the Punjab Census report for 1891 (page 218) Mr. Maclagan notices that even there the highest castes have the smallest, and the vagrants and menials, the largest proportion of females.

‡ In his report on the Madras Census of 1891 Mr. Stuart points out that the sex proportions vary with the language. Amongst the hill tribes and castes speaking Telugu and Canarese, males are in the majority, but they are outnumbered by the females in the case of the Tamil, Malayálam and Oriyá speaking castes.

SUBSIDIARY TABLES REFERRED TO IN CHAPTER VI—SEX.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE I.—Showing the general proportion of the Sexes by Natural Divisions, Districts and Cities.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE II.—Showing the number of females to 1,000 males at each age by Natural Divisions and Religion.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE III.—Showing the actual excess or deficiency of females by Natural Divisions.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE IV.—Showing by Religion the number of females per 1,000 males for certain selected castes.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE No. I—Showing the general proportion of the Sexes by Natural Divisions, Districts and Cities.

	NUMBER OF FEMALES TO 1,000 MALES.						
	1901.		1891.		1881.		1872.
	Actual population.	Natural population.	Actual population.	Natural population.	Actual population.	Natural population.	Actual population.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8
BENGAL	***998***	***1,003***	***1,005***	***1,009***	***1,008***	***1,014***	***1,000***
WEST BENGAL	***1,001***	***1,015***	***1,023***	***1,019***	***1,050***	***1,045***	***1,041***
Burdwan	1,004	1,008	1,038	1,026	1,083	1,081	1,044
Birbhum	1,029	1,028	1,048	1,049	1,082	1,084	1,090
Bankura	1,032	1,012	1,034	1,011	1,054	1,030	1,016
Midnapore	1,006	1,003	1,012	1,011	1,023	1,018	1,021
Hooghly	986	997	1,031	1,004	1,071	1,041	1,089
Howrah	935	1,050	984	1,044	1,011	1,056	1,038
CENTRAL BENGAL	***911***	***981***	***944***	***1,002***	***971***	***1,087***	***972***
24-Parganas	902	970	913	988	942	.....	963
Calcutta	567	828	526	983	556	1,618	552
Nadia	1,015	995	1,050	1,021	1,054	.....	1,058
Murshidabad	1,041	1,044	1,065	1,083	1,092	1,098	1,093
Jessore	984	970	1,007	981	1,022	.....	1,027
NORTH BENGAL	***938***	***969***	***953***	***985***	***973***	***995***	***973***
Rajshahi	972	990	1,001	1,023	1,092	1,043	1,014
Dinajpur	902	932	915	936	933	954	931
Jalpaiguri	862	894	858	933	904	934	930
Darjeeling	873	1,011	815	923	742	815	786
Rangpur	915	960	945	970	965	983	964
Bogra	954	967	952	999	968	1,003	981
Pabna	1,002	1,008	1,010	1,015	1,023	1,023	1,011
Malda	1,020	1,054	1,038	1,075	1,047	1,090	1,043
Kuch Bihar	881	911	914	930	933	947	912
Sikkim	916	956	935	.....	.....	.....	.....
EAST BENGAL	***976***	***975***	***975***	***976***	***990***	***999***	***988***
Khulna	918	945	936	940	980	.....	867
Dacca	1,019	995	1,017	1,003	1,048	1,018	1,047
Mymensingh	949	962	941	965	965	979	978
Faridpur	997	984	1,013	984	1,024	993	1,038
Backergunge	949	976	950	972	932	975	955
Tippera	950	961	955	968	970	976	959
Noakhali	1,007	979	985	963	977	967	973
Chittagong	1,110	1,011	1,096	1,011	1,136	1,124	1,103
Chittagong Hill Tracts	828	991	801	896	796	.....	703
Hill Tippera	874	913	920	988	859	.....	931
NORTH BIHAR	***1,064***	***1,038***	***1,049***	***1,030***	***1,026***	***1,015***	***999***
*Saran	1,200	1,075	1,178	1,077	1,105	1,092	1,070
*Champaran	1,022	1,030	986	1,023	977	999	954
*Muzaffarpur	1,089	1,055	1,077	1,025	1,040	1,023	1,028
*Darbhanga	1,056	1,035	1,044	1,034	1,032	1,029	972
*Bhagalpur	1,033	1,023	1,033	1,021	1,008	1,013	991
Purnea	956	983	957	978	973	987	957
SOUTH BIHAR	***1,050***	***1,020***	***1,059***	***1,047***	***1,045***	***1,027***	***1,043***
Patna	1,020	991	1,043	1,015	1,045	1,029	1,047
Gaya	1,037	1,009	1,046	1,026	1,036	1,026	1,043
Shahabad	1,094	1,054	1,082	1,126	1,068	1,023	1,064
Monghyr	1,045	1,024	1,063	1,023	1,032	1,028	1,021
ORISSA	***1,055***	***1,020***	***1,044***	***1,029***	***1,032***	***1,018***	***1,031***
Cuttack	1,072	1,015	1,069	1,034	1,045	1,014	1,053
Balasore	1,079	1,050	1,065	1,054	1,048	1,042	1,032
Puri	1,007	996	991	990	989	1,001	976
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	***1,019***	***1,017***	***1,015***	***1,011***	***1,002***	***1,002***	***984***
Hazaribagh	1,036	1,028	1,053	1,005	1,027	1,026	944
Ranchi	1,058	1,036	1,045	1,049	1,022	1,018	994
*Palamau	1,023	1,036	1,028	1,055	1,016		984
*Manbhum	992	1,020	1,012	1,012	1,014	1,030	985
Singhbhum	1,029	1,033	1,010	1,008	1,002	996	998
Santhal Parganas	1,019	1,002	1,015	1,010	997	995	1,000
Tributary States, Chota Nagpur	974	981	964	945	964	971	973
Ditto, Orissa	1,008	1,014	997	1,003	979	972	989
Angul	1,000	990	983	994	965		970
CITIES	***656***	.....	***712***	.....	***755***	.....	***740***
Calcutta	567	.....	526	.....	556	.....	552
Howrah	577	.....	655	.....	709	.....	781
Patna	1,011	.....	1,014	.....	1,051	.....	1,036
Dacca	891	.....	921	.....	896	.....	861
Bhagalpur	997	.....	991	.....	954	.....	983
Darbhanga	1,013	.....	922	.....	981	.....	1,013
Chapra	1,053	.....	995	.....	1,057	.....	1,096
Muzaffarpur	865	.....	811	.....	862	.....	779
Bihar	1,112	.....	1,082	.....	1,058	.....	1,044
Serampur	651	.....	780	.....	946	.....	965
Cossipor-Chitpur	536	.....	618	.....	635	.....	794
Monghyr	1,030	.....	1,099	.....	1,126	.....	1,079
Manicktolla	692	.....	715	.....	701	.....	669
Garden Reach	667	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....
Bally	639	.....	755	.....	891	.....	992
Gaya	959	.....	966	.....	985	.....	1,021

NOTE—Famine districts are marked with an asterisk.
The Natural population of 1872 cannot be ascertained.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE No. II—Showing the number of females to 1,000 males at each age by Natural Divisions and Religion.

Age and Religion.	Bengal.	West Bengal.	Central Bengal.	North Bengal.	East Bengal.	North Bihar.	South Bihar.	Orissa.	Chota Nagpur Plateau.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10
ALL RELIGIONS	***998***	***1,001***	***911***	***938***	***976***	***1,064***	***1,030***	***1,055***	***1,019***
0—5	1,073	1,052	1,047	1,079	1,046	1,093	1,078	1,055	1,098
5—10	978	972	919	955	1,000	989	957	997	1,001
10—15	813	787	752	753	815	833	841	898	844
15—20	1,045	1,085	959	1,123	1,140	967	955	1,043	1,011
20—25	1,173	1,106	968	1,225	1,230	1,237	1,193	1,049	1,201
25—30	1,066	995	859	980	991	1,118	1,077	1,001	1,030
30—35	977	985	844	864	904	1,113	1,074	1,122	1,006
35—40	881	884	771	681	760	1,072	1,078	1,030	964
40—45	978	973	872	791	908	1,089	1,101	1,223	1,010
45—50	854	929	824	721	755	1,034	1,014	928	933
50—55	1,034	1,169	1,031	933	956	1,086	1,102	1,137	993
55—60	997	1,062	1,006	880	787	1,172	1,110	970	1,004
60 and over	1,263	1,386	1,152	1,036	1,053	1,463	1,442	1,557	1,342
HINDU	***1,005***	***1,000***	***893***	***901***	***969***	***1,063***	***1,036***	***1,055***	***1,014***
0—5	1,076	1,048	1,031	1,066	1,070	1,095	1,077	1,056	1,101
5—10	982	973	920	977	1,008	990	953	999	1,009
10—15	820	791	754	757	805	838	833	898	834
15—20	1,005	1,077	917	1,025	1,090	996	939	1,039	1,000
20—25	1,121	1,085	866	1,070	1,155	1,249	1,167	1,047	1,178
25—30	996	996	800	895	950	1,102	1,056	1,000	1,020
30—35	988	980	787	826	894	1,096	1,051	1,120	995
35—40	928	885	779	682	797	1,071	1,058	1,032	946
40—45	997	967	855	749	905	1,083	1,078	1,220	1,012
45—50	925	928	863	690	812	1,053	999	924	899
50—55	1,032	1,113	1,053	862	991	1,086	1,078	1,134	1,001
55—60	1,047	1,067	1,084	884	863	1,101	1,101	970	964
60 and over	1,344	1,411	1,183	989	1,136	1,485	1,433	1,555	1,374
MUSALMAN	***983***	***1,013***	***933***	***963***	***978***	***1,066***	***1,195***	***1,090***	***997***
0—5	1,066	1,055	1,043	1,087	1,060	1,083	1,080	1,067	1,081
5—10	970	963	916	942	997	988	993	950	979
10—15	721	754	746	746	818	805	919	860	814
15—20	1,126	1,117	1,006	1,197	1,165	973	1,127	1,183	1,012
20—25	1,281	1,224	1,107	1,354	1,301	1,306	1,503	1,149	1,313
25—30	1,022	1,044	933	1,008	1,010	1,208	1,340	1,044	1,017
30—35	948	1,007	914	892	909	1,203	1,344	1,225	940
35—40	779	885	766	679	739	1,080	1,315	962	878
40—45	928	1,026	894	827	900	1,120	1,349	1,376	1,056
45—50	786	938	783	748	716	940	1,181	1,100	992
50—55	1,005	1,114	1,013	985	982	1,086	1,327	1,256	1,001
55—60	871	1,004	915	881	728	1,072	1,194	1,041	906
60 and over	1,102	1,293	1,185	1,084	979	1,352	1,515	1,728	1,207
ANIMIST	***1,031***	***1,015***	***985***	***934***	***969***	***983***	***1,025***	***1,022***	***1,040***
0—5	1,097	1,123	1,115	1,098	1,048	1,157	1,117	1,064	1,095
5—10	984	1,012	1,057	993	872	994	1,051	1,016	981
10—15	875	821	831	958	943	963	881	929	877
15—20	1,071	1,147	1,138	1,210	1,471	1,087	915	1,257	1,045
20—25	1,273	1,245	1,339	1,378	1,736	1,085	1,041	1,051	1,272
25—30	1,068	1,055	1,134	1,053	1,139	1,014	1,299	879	1,074
30—35	1,043	1,022	1,002	873	929	861	837	1,025	1,060
35—40	988	866	661	586	572	878	1,056	926	1,043
40—45	963	916	824	632	663	793	922	948	958
45—50	997	843	685	821	416	840	1,025	945	1,063
50—55	951	1,000	824	570	810	731	1,073	954	972
55—60	1,062	804	500	482	321	667	833	984	1,154
60 and over	1,236	1,125	917	634	702	1,123	1,185	1,340	1,286
BUDDHIST	***971***	***36***	***199***	***964***	***1,001***	.....	***294***	.....	***903***
0—5	998	1,000	838	1,015	993	.....	.....	.....	1,000
5—10	956	.....	758	974	952	.....	.....	.....	551
10—15	868	.....	553	887	862	.....	.....	.....	957
15—20	1,038	.....	204	923	1,124	.....	.....	.....	1,179
20—25	1,124	.....	177	988	1,288	.....	500	.....	959
25—30	1,054	.....	126	1,018	1,138	.....	.....	.....	1,194
30—35	905	53	114	942	947	.....	.....	.....	600
35—40	886	.....	184	931	838	.....	.....	.....	862
40—45	988	.....	122	1,015	1,617	.....	.....	.....	1,217
45—50	904	.....	125	895	956	.....	.....	.....	789
50—55	895	.....	196	883	932	.....	1,000	.....	667
55—60	1,045	.....	102	907	1,132	.....	.....	.....	667
60 and over	998	.....	100	110	967	.....	1,000	.....	1,167
CHRISTIAN	***946***	***753***	***797***	***911***	***1,011***	***982***	***716***	***1,001***	***1,020***
0—5	1,055	1,000	1,018	1,135	1,036	1,039	1,037	997	1,069
5—10	1,014	928	1,061	666	958	1,016	1,057	952	1,039
10—15	866	641	937	1,003	945	864	986	1,036	837
15—20	995	1,011	1,064	1,259	1,202	1,009	1,101	1,053	937
20—25	995	802	636	1,170	1,323	1,172	454	909	1,311
25—30	844	636	583	872	1,095	956	394	799	1,037
30—35	891	588	620	871	934	1,021	561	1,173	1,032
35—40	840	679	673	767	868	1,128	673	1,168	1,005
40—45	886	655	727	733	975	901	802	1,261	908
45—50	882	656	679	665	740	679	716	677	1,142
50—55	868	653	796	726	963	737	667	781	920
55—60	909	687	633	761	761	891	1,344	1,071	1,195
60 and over	1,116	960	1,042	1,140	1,091	1,385	1,156	1,426	1,146

SUBSIDIARY TABLE No. III—Showing the actual excess or defect of females by natural divisions.

	Number of Females in excess (+) or in defect (−).							
	1901.		1891.		1881.		1872.
	Population enumerated in natural division or district.	Population born in natural division or district.	Population enumerated in natural division or district.	Population born in natural division or district.	Population enumerated in natural division or district.	Population born in natural division or district.	Population enumerated in natural division or district.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8
BENGAL	***− 62,962***	***+ 160,375***	***+ 169,048***	***+ 333,136***	***+ 285,680***	***+ 436,550***	***+ 8,021***
WEST BENGAL	***+ 6,172***	***+ 59,976***	***+ 87,673***	***+ 74,843***	***+ 180,556***	***+ 166,982***	***+ 151,683***
Burdwan	+ 2,991	+ 18,828	+ 26,156	+ 17,855	+ 53,310	+ 35,577	+ 31,718
Birbhum	+ 12,982	+ 14,566	+ 18,570	+ 18,741	+ 31,225	+ 36,640	+ 36,629
Bankura	+ 17,443	+ 6,017	+ 17,786	+ 6,229	+ 27,480	+ 15,585	+ 7,919
Midnapore	+ 8,648	+ 3,674	+ 15,318	+ 14,942	+ 29,175	+ 22,571	+ 26,582
Hooghly	− 7,276	− 902	+ 15,920	+ 2,335	+ 33,580	+ 21,934	+ 37,123
Howrah	− 28,530	+ 17,793	− 6,063	+ 14,541	+ 3,786	+ 14,675	+ 11,712
CENTRAL BENGAL	***− 360,799***	***− 64,724***	***− 212,866***	***+ 8,149***	***− 106,748***	***+ 58,828***	***− 91,873***
24-Parganas	− 107,473	− 29,417	− 86,436	− 39,396	− 50,817	Not available.	− 3,070
Calcutta	− 277,396	− 31,169	− 212,019	− 1,950	− 174,599	+ 1,702	− 182,475
Nadia	+ 12,473	− 4,060	+ 39,814	+ 17,424	+ 44,011	Not available.	+ 42,277
Murshidabad	+ 26,492	+ 28,844	+ 39,616	+ 50,960	+ 53,824	+ 57,126	+ 53,774
Jessore	− 14,895	− 28,922	+ 6,159	− 18,919	+ 20,853	Not available.	+ 19,621
NORTH BENGAL	***− 321,251***	***− 145,297***	***− 218,045***	***− 68,735***	***− 121,734***	***− 20,441***	***− 118,090***
Rajshahi	− 20,973	− 6,851	+ 1,655	+ 15,963	+ 18,318	+ 27,429	+ 9,558
Dinajpur	− 80,864	− 50,888	− 66,190	− 46,413	− 50,238	− 54,421	− 50,238
Jalpaiguri	− 58,374	− 34,405	− 47,902	− 19,216	− 20,208	− 17,920	− 15,121
Darjeeling	− 16,893	+ 920	− 22,778	− 3,651	− 23,057	− 7,693	− 11,402
Rangpur	− 96,037	− 42,142	− 58,169	− 31,872	− 37,438	− 17,780	− 40,136
Bogra	− 20,165	− 13,812	− 18,893	− 464	− 10,976	+ 1,078	− 6,202
Pabna	+ 1,660	+ 7,020	+ 6,719	+ 10,400	+ 15,106	+ 15,296	+ 6,566
Malda	+ 8,752	+ 21,341	+ 13,885	+ 27,556	+ 16,471	+ 28,749	+ 14,250
Kuch Bihar	− 35,796	− 23,670	− 26,046	− 21,038	− 20,732	− 15,179	− 24,905
Sikkim	− 2,576	− 810	− 1,026	Nil.	Nil.	Nil.	Nil.
EAST BENGAL	***− 209,213***	***− 156,914***	***− 195,387***	***− 183,020***	***− 71,276***	***− 7,734***	***− 72,492***
Khulna	− 53,597	− 34,428	− 58,310	− 34,650	− 56,856	Not available.	− 74,580
Dacca	+ 24,688	− 653	+ 19,952	+ 3,367	+ 48,769	+ 18,867	+ 41,443
Mymensingh	− 114,542	− 72,253	− 165,046	− 61,844	− 54,773	− 31,801	− 23,937
Faridpur	− 2,682	− 14,459	+ 16,527	− 14,625	+ 19,647	− 5,565	+ 28,859
Backergunge	− 60,054	− 27,757	− 54,921	− 29,899	− 46,069	− 23,537	− 43,020
Tippera	− 53,987	− 42,839	− 46,993	− 28,791	− 22,539	− 18,374	− 29,587
Noakhali	+ 4,174	− 11,791	− 7,761	− 18,401	− 9,734	− 13,080	− 11,534
Chittagong	+ 70,466	+ 59,156	+ 58,431	+ 7,837	+ 69,043	+ 66,356	+ 55,284
Chittagong Hill Tracts	− 11,714	− 5,964	− 11,846	− 5,456	− 11,495	Nil.	− 12,159
Hill Tippera	− 11,665	− 5,926	− 5,750	− 647	− 7,379	Nil.	− 1,262
NORTH BIHAR	***+ 427,514***	***+ 267,427***	***+ 328,282***	***+ 204,580***	***+ 169,869***	***+ 93,961***	***− 8,432***
Saran	+ 218,953	+ 94,000	+ 199,667	+ 103,901	+ 114,621	+ 26,167	+ 70,492
Champaran	+ 19,240	+ 26,103	− 12,805	+ 19,069	− 19,646	− 725	− 34,243
Muzaffarpur	+ 117,496	+ 78,063	+ 100,803	+ 34,516	+ 50,598	+ 31,021	+ 31,376
Darbhanga	+ 79,663	+ 50,273	+ 59,985	+ 47,301	+ 41,838	+ 36,570	− 30,198
Bhagalpur	+ 33,863	+ 34,419	+ 22,966	+ 21,049	+ 8,225	+ 12,952	− 8,034
Purnea	− 42,110	− 15,445	− 42,334	− 21,247	− 25,707	− 12,024	− 37,845
SOUTH BIHAR	***+ 188,462***	***+ 65,704***	***+ 228,931***	***+ 192,672***	***+ 171,602***	***+ 105,552***	***+ 149,320***
Patna	+ 15,819	− 7,131	+ 37,358	+ 19,412	+ 38,594	+ 25,724	+ 35,985
Gaya	+ 37,391	+ 11,115	+ 48,309	+ 29,560	+ 37,500	+ 28,742	+ 41,414
Shahabad	+ 89,008	+ 53,749	+ 81,587	+ 125,207	+ 61,734	+ 23,173	+ 53,225
Monghyr	+ 45,644	+ 27,971	+ 61,677	+ 24,393	+ 31,474	+ 27,913	+ 18,796
ORISSA	***+ 111,657***	***+ 46,817***	***+ 83,843***	***+ 56,155***	***+ 57,291***	***+ 33,189***	***+ 46,467***
Cuttack	+ 71,940	+ 21,206	+ 56,557	+ 33,908	+ 30,661	+ 13,644	+ 43,610
Balasore	+ 36,111	+ 26,729	+ 31,347	+ 26,710	+ 22,358	+ 19,755	+ 12,078
Puri	+ 3,606	− 1,118	− 4,062	− 4,543	− 4,728	+ 290	− 9,221
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	***+ 94,696***	***+ 87,386***	***+ 66,618***	***+ 48,712***	***+ 6,140***	***+ 6,213***	***− 48,542***
Hazaribagh	+ 37,717	+ 20,635	+ 30,303	+ 2,727	+ 14,936	+ 14,293	− 22,215
Ranchi	+ 33,565	+ 25,459	+ 25,139	+ 48,203	+ 11,477	+ 14,345	− 2,600
Palamau	+ 7,194	+ 8,484	+ 8,120		+ 4,452		− 3,373
Manbhum	− 5,508	+ 14,151	+ 6,930	+ 7,402	+ 7,572	+ 10,452	− 6,221
Singbhum	+ 8,729	+ 11,808	+ 2,654	+ 2,298	+ 413	− 845	− 390
Santhal Parganas	+ 18,991	+ 7,679	+ 13,947	+ 8,558	− 2,512	− 3,676	− 143
Tributary States Chota Nagpur	− 12,089	− 9,250	− 16,007	− 22,177	− 12,474	− 8,537	− 6,315
Ditto Orissa	+ 7,856	+ 12,481	− 2,196	+ 2,136	− 14,887	− 19,819	− 6,105
Angul	+ 41	− 1,091	− 1,478	− 505	− 2,838		− 1,150

Note:—Figures are not available for "natural population" in 1872.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE IV—Showing by religion the number of females per 1,000 males for certain selected castes.

HINDU AND ANIMIST.

Caste.	Number of females per 1,000 males for each selected caste at all ages and each age period.						
	All ages.	0—5	5—12	12—15	15—20	20—40	40 and over
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8
Ahir and Goala	979	1,046	911	805	886	1,036	1,036
Atith	1,164	960	839	884	901	1,446	1,600
Bahhan	989	981	894	684	685	1,027	1,271
Bagdi	1,024	1,091	920	826	1,155	1,045	1,103
Baidya	1,012	900	847	625	1,073	1,116	1,235
Baishnab	1,177	1,042	961	849	1,180	1,259	1,403
Barhi	1,036	1,072	916	820	942	1,058	1,102
Barui	1,014	1,008	1,014	822	1,029	1,062	1,071
Bauri	1,026	1,103	971	810	1,103	1,047	1,047
Bhandari	1,032	1,045	988	846	1,045	1,024	1,137
Bhogta	1,063	1,061	965	808	986	1,175	1,157
Bhuinmali	979	1,015	967	869	1,199	981	941
Bhuiya	1,072	1,100	954	1,128	1,104	1,100	1,095
Bhumij (H. and A.) ...	1,050	1,112	950	971	1,008	1,061	1,118
Bind	1,074	950	858	754	935	1,301	1,311
Brahman	987	1,016	920	753	899	985	1,149
Chamar and Muchi	1,054	1,023	967	855	973	1,123	1,090
Chasa	1,016	1,082	988	874	938	997	1,115
Chero	997	1,023	968	963	878	1,076	965
Chik (Baraik)	1,064	1,143	1,011	840	937	1,182	1,059
Dhanuk	1,060	1,076	921	865	1,003	1,119	1,139
Dhoba	1,011	1,041	941	841	1,073	1,020	1,072
Dom	1,019	1,059	876	864	1,118	921	936
Dosadh	1,039	1,055	947	876	916	1,123	1,194
Garo (A)	972	1,052	883	927	1,498	1,096	635
Gaur	1,062	1,072	968	811	1,008	1,082	1,245
Ghasi	1,013	1,079	916	769	921	1,133	1,071
Gond	999	1,028	931	1,393	976	881	1,230
Gonr	1,113	953	870	723	1,009	1,558	1,257
Gurung	1,019	1,072	936	774	1,096	1,085	987
Hajjam and Napit	1,005	1,055	933	814	1,016	1,033	1,043
Hari	1,009	1,086	930	827	1,189	1,007	999
Ho (H. and A.)	1,050	924	993	921	1,117	1,174	1,005
Jogi	991	1,053	990	853	1,166	1,013	913
Kahar	1,041	1,004	879	782	986	1,101	1,232
Kaibartta (Total)	989	1,009	895	762	1,002	1,035	1,048
Kaibartta (unspecified) ...	843	950	841	744	943	863	867
Kaibartta (Chasi)	1,008	1,022	897	737	1,075	1,074	1,090
Kaibartta (Jaliya)	995	1,161	988	866	1,135	1,006	935
Kalu	978	995	888	807	1,037	975	1,082
Kalwar	983	1,057	883	765	891	1,082	1,107
Kamar and Lohar	1,009	1,072	944	816	980	1,051	1,056
Kandh (H. and A.)	1,029	1,098	1,036	876	1,144	1,002	1,030
Kandu	1,077	1,028	921	804	838	1,210	1,376
Karan	1,050	1,003	979	923	932	1,025	1,280
Kasarwani	973	1,064	936	730	869	982	1,139
Kayastha	1,003	990	954	725	999	1,019	1,157
Kewat	1,038	1,082	976	830	984	1,033	1,163
Khagura	953	980	856	871	1,008	997	958
Khandait	1,042	1,040	951	839	906	1,038	1,246
Kharia (A)	1,040	1,011	959	899	945	1,181	1,099
Kharwar	994	973	1,077	730	1,017	1,027	986
Khatwe	1,087	1,182	942	1,155	889	1,193	1,137
Kotri	1,027	1,061	949	893	893	1,087	1,097
Kumhar	1,009	1,009	936	879	1,111	1,025	1,002
Kurmi (H. and A.)	1,013	1,013	973	786	918	1,040	1,141
Limbu	899	953	796	984	915	817	1,056
Mahuri	977	973	862	541	1,128	1,000	1,142
Mallah	1,083	881	768	756	1,979	1,333	1,288
Mangar	845	952	1,080	705	921	769	782
Munda (H. and A.)	1,005	995	909	849	943	1,126	1,082
Musahar	1,021	1,209	913	907	1,127	1,058	927
Namasudra (Chandal) ...	989	1,059	896	819	1,167	1,013	980
Nuniya	1,030	1,028	739	857	1,011	1,259	1,217
Oraon (H. and A.)	1,003	1,054	935	796	955	1,088	1,087
Pan (H. and A.)	1,021	1,034	933	824	1,032	1,006	1,048
Pasi	969	1,087	897	777	928	993	1,096
Pod	981	1,048	880	833	1,122	1,041	947
Rajbansi (Koch)	936	1,117	954	679	950	987	815
Rajput	971	991	850	644	716	1,014	1,213
Rajwar	1,087	1,221	892	910	1,166	1,241	993
Sadgop	1,004	1,070	950	878	1,001	999	1,171
Santal (H. and A.)	1,006	1,112	906	790	1,058	1,037	1,001
Sonar	1,019	1,097	920	753	926	1,080	1,110

Note.—Chamár and Muchi have been shown together as it seems that there has been some confusion between the two. Chamár shows an excess of women and Muchi an excess of men. Apparently many Chamár immigrants (mostly males) to Bengal have been shown as Muchi, while their wives left in Bihar have been returned as Chamárs.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE IV—Showing by religion the number of female per 1,000 males for certain selected castes—*concluded.*

HINDU AND ANIMIST—concluded.

Caste.	Number of females per 1,000 males for each selected caste at all ages and each age period.						
	All ages.[1]	0—5	5—12	12—15	15—20	20—40	40 and over.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8
Sudra	1,037	956	876	720	1,194	1,164	1,280
Sunri (Shaha)	1,023	1,026	944	880	1,059	1,063	1,063
Sutradhar	952	1,051	922	763	1,062	973	913
Tanti and Tatwa	1,000	1,039	934	805	1,015	1,004	1,075
Teli	1,017	1,035	918	816	887	1,067	1,127
Tharu	938	1,290	1,145	698	768	840	919
Tili	1,106	1,187	1,052	791	1,137	1,098	1,244
Tipara	931	995	975	977	1,282	895	711
Tiyar	1,000	1,019	904	906	963	1,050	1,049
BUDDHIST.							
Chakma	881	983	884	883	1,045	907	701
Lepcha	989	1,193	734	960	887	1,071	958
Magh	1,062	980	938	971	1,136	1,181	1,134
Murmi	1,013	843	920	979	815	1,297	1,026
MUSALMAN.							
Ajlaf (Atraf)	939	1,043	892	884	1,173	936	819
Behara	992	975	847	843	1,201	1,133	955
Dai	1,016	1,216	897	900	1,208	1,004	1,001
Darzi	1,194	1,186	983	1,134	1,137	1,354	1,322
Dhobi	1,054	979	930	766	883	1,273	1,148
Dhunia	1,095	1,006	940	939	1,068	1,196	1,265
Fakir	1,057	996	923	816	961	1,228	1,290
Hajjam	1,101	1,134	925	744	1,012	1,286	1,205
Jolaha	1,074	1,039	961	882	1,109	1,179	1,136
Kalal	1,156	1,063	909	1,116	1,207	1,260	1,207
Kulu	1,003	1,048	959	949	1,131	1,003	963
Kunjra	1,121	1,045	952	937	1,105	1,248	1,253
Mallik	1,121	1,092	871	823	1,284	1,276	1,211
Nikari	1,041	1,108	1,029	918	1,246	1,096	1,040
CHRISTIAN.							
Kharia	1,020	1,004	1,011	774	930	1,112	1,001
Munda	1,015	1,053	968	844	900	1,119	1,057
Oraon	1,028	1,055	998	729	977	1,151	1,080

Chapter VII.

MARRIAGE.

416. The statistics regarding marriage will be found in Imperial Tables VII and XIV. In the former, civil condition is shown in combination with age and religion, and in the latter with age and caste. The more important features of the statistics are pourtrayed in the following Subsidiary Tables at the end of this Chapter :—

Subsidiary Table I.—Distribution by civil condition and age of 1,000 of each sex for natural divisions and districts.

Subsidiary Table II.—Distribution by civil condition of 1,000 of each main age period for religions.

Subsidiary Table III.—Distribution by civil condition of 1,000 persons of each main age period for natural divisions.

Subsidiary Table IV.—Proportion of married and widowed amongst Hindus and Muhammadans at certain ages by natural divisions and districts.

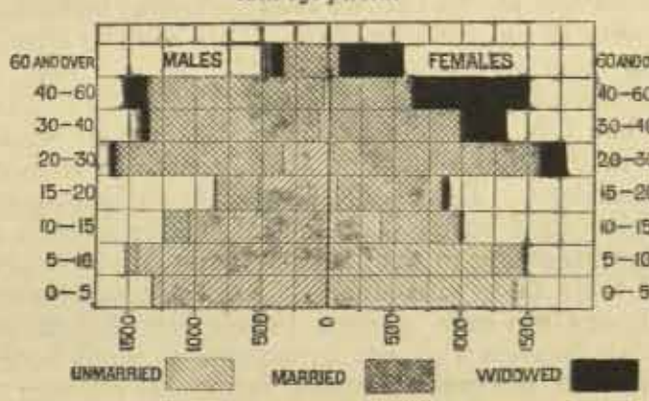
Subsidiary Table V.—Distribution of 1,000 of each age and sex by civil condition for the main castes.

Subsidiary Table VI.—Proportion of the sexes by civil condition for religions and natural divisions.

GENERAL FEATURES OF THE STATISTICS.

417. The most striking fact brought out by the statistics is the universality of marriage. Amongst males, nearly half the total number are unmarried, but a reference to the age details shows that four-fifths of these are under 15 years of age. Of the males enumerated at the ages 30 to 40, less than 5 per cent. are unmarried; between 40 and 60 the number of single men less than 3 per cent. and at the higher ages it is only 2 per cent. Amongst females the figures are even more striking. Less than a third of the total number are unmarried and of these four-fifths are under 10 and three quarters of the remainder are under 15; only 4 per cent. of the total number of single females are over 15 years of age. At the very early ages marriage amongst males, though not unknown is rare, but nearly two-fifths of the number enumerated at the age '15—20' are married. Nearly one-sixth of the females between the ages of 5 and 10 are married and nearly three-fifths of the number aged '10—15'; of those shown in this age period as unmarried the great majority doubtless belong to the earlier part of it. The females who are spinster at the age of 20 and upwards are either prostitutes or persons suffering from some bodily affliction, such as leprosy, blindness and the like. The number of genuine old maids is very small.* Comparatively few males were returned as widowed (about 4 per cent.) and most of these were fairly advanced in life. Amongst females, on the other hand, nearly a fifth of the total number are widows; and although in their case also the majority are of the age of 40 and upwards, the number at the lower age, is by no means inconsiderable. Of the females enumerated between the ages of 20 and 30, for example, a ninth were returned as widows.

Diagram showing the proportion of married, single and widowed at each age period.



Note.—For the purpose of this diagram the uncorrected ages have been taken.

418. The above proportions are based on the returns for the Province as a whole, but there are great local variations.† In Bihar 55 per cent. of the males are married but

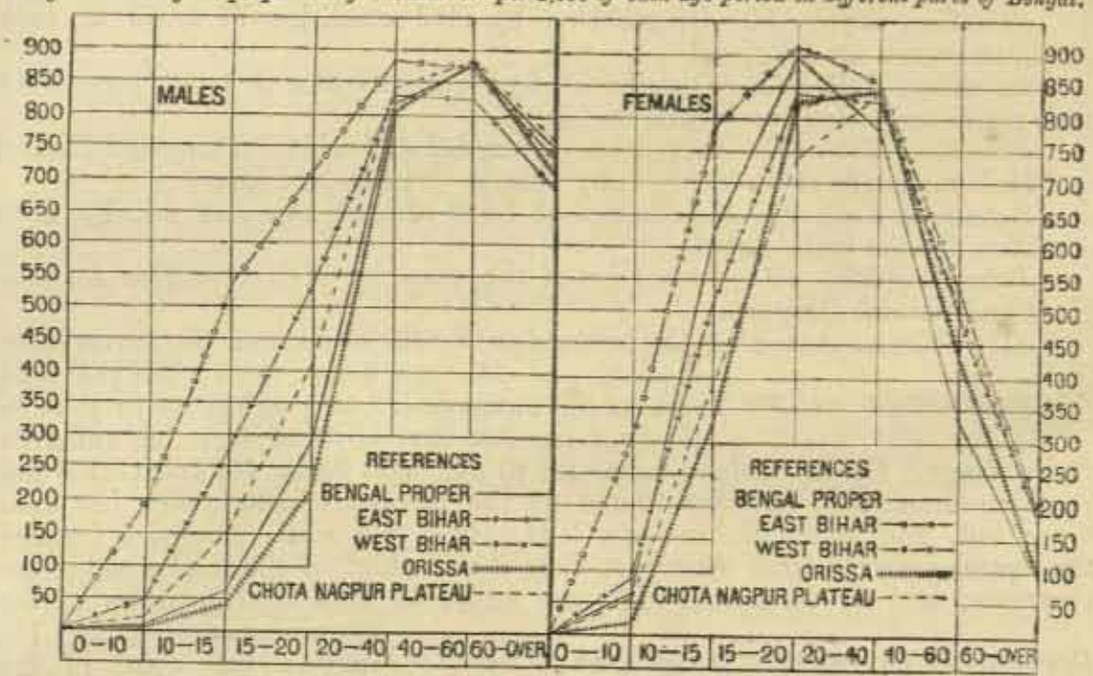
LOCAL VARIATIONS.

* It will be seen further on that amongst certain classes of Bráhmans a small number of girls remain unmarried owing to the difficulty of procuring suitable husbands.

† Subsidiary Table I.

only 43 per cent. in East Bengal. In most parts of the Province the number of males who are married before the age of 10 is only 1 or 2 per 1,000 of the population, but in Bihar it is much higher and rises in the case of Darbhanga to 80 per 1,000. The proportion of married females at the earlier ages is nowhere so small as that of males, but the statistics for Bihar show that the infant marriage of females is relatively more prevalent there than elsewhere. In Darbhanga, of every 1,000 females under 10 years of age, 385 are married compared with only 42 in East and 65 in North Bengal. Similar variations are to be noticed in respect of the widowed; they are most numerous in Central and West Bengal, and least so in the Chota Nagpur Plateau and Orissa.

Diagram showing the proportion of the married per 1,000 of each age-period in different parts of Bengal.



419. Nor are the differences less marked if we take religion instead of locality as the dividing line. This will be clearly seen from Subsidiary Table II. In the case of males the total number who are married is considerably greater amongst Hindus than amongst Muhammadans, but this is owing to the earlier age at which the Hindu male marries. From the age of 20 upwards, marriage is more universal amongst the Muhammadans. This is due in part to a slight excess of unmarried Hindus at the higher ages, but mainly to the smaller number of Muhammadans returned as widowed, owing to the greater readiness with which the latter marry again, should their first wife die. The differences between the followers of the two religions are even greater in respect of females. The proportion of Muhammadan females who are unmarried is much larger than it is amongst Hindus but, as in the case of males, this is due entirely to the smaller number of Muhammadan girls who are married in early childhood. The proportion of single females over 15 years of age is smaller in the Muhammadan community than in the Hindu. In spite of the earlier age at which they marry, the proportion of Hindu wives to the total number of Hindu females only slightly exceeds that amongst the Muhammadans, and between the ages of 15 and 40, it is very much smaller, the reason being that a Muhammadan woman who becomes a widow, while still capable of bearing children, finds it much easier to obtain a second husband than her Hindu sister, who in many cases, is not allowed to enter a second time into matrimony. This is clearly shown by the figures in the margin. It will be seen further on that the prohibition against widow marriage is not universal amongst Hindus, and if only the castes that forbid the practice were taken into account, the divergence would be still more marked. The difference between the marriage practices of the Animistic tribes and those of the Muhammadans is comparable to that which has been noticed in the case of the Muhammadans and the Hindus.

VARIATIONS BY RELIGION.

Age.	Percentage of widows.	
	Hindu.	Musalman.
10—15	3	2
15—20	6·6	3·9
20—30	12·8	8·4
30—40	27·9	24·2

The Animists marry even later than do the Muhammadans and there are consequently more single, and fewer married, persons. The proportion of widowed males is about the same as with the Muhammadans but that of widowed females is far smaller.

It appears, therefore, that there is little to be gained by dealing with the figures for the province as a whole, and that, to appreciate their true meaning, it is necessary to consider them for each religion separately. Moreover, in the case of the Hindus, the customs in respect of marriage vary so greatly in different parts of the Province, and amongst different classes of the community, that it is desirable to clear the way by a brief general account of the stand-point from which marriage is regarded, the principles on which it is based, the restrictions which surround it, and the manner in which it is effected.

MARRIAGE AMONGST THE HINDUS.

GENERAL RULES REGARDING MARRIAGE.

420. In the eyes of the Hindus marriage is a religious sacrament, essential and irrevocable A man must marry in order to beget a son who may perform his funeral ceremonies and rescue his soul and the souls of his ancestors from hell. It is equally obligatory for a father to obtain a husband for his daughter, and the most awful penalties are threatened if a girl should attain puberty while still unmarried. Parásara, for instance, says "the mother, the father and the elder brother of a girl go to hell on seeing her menstruate while yet unmarried." The most suitable age for the marriage of a girl is said to be 8, at which age Gauri is believed to have been married to Siva or 9, which was the age of Rohini at the time of her marrige with Chandra, the moon.* The general feeling amongst Hindus at the present day supports the view of the *Shástras*, and amongst many castes, a man who fails to procure a husband for his daughter before she becomes mature is liable to social ostracism. There are, however, many exceptions, and the Kulin Bráhmans of Bengal Proper prefer to allow their daughters to remain unwed rather than to give them to unsuitable bridegrooms. In Bihar also, in many cases, there is no penalty for allowing girls to grow up unmarried, but on the other hand many of the lower castes marry their children far earlier even than the early age mentioned in the *Shástras*. In Orissa, says Mr. K. G. Gupta, "among certain high caste Hindus, such as Khatris, Karans and Khandáits, early marriage is not compulsory, but, on the contrary, late marriages (after the girl has attained puberty) form the rule."† Amongst the lower castes of that part of the Province, however, the rule is even more stringent than it is elsewhere, and if a girl should happen to attain puberty while still unmarried, a mock ceremony is gone through with a bow and arrow. In the case of the Aulapatak Gauras of Keonjhar (I quote again from Mr. Gupta's report) the girl is taken into the forest and left tied to a tree, if not to the mercy of wild beasts, at least as a prize to the first comer. Usually, however, an arrangement has been made beforehand with a Gaura of some other sub-caste, who comes and carries the girl away as soon as her people have left her.

COHABITATION.

421. But although marriage is enjoined at an early age, cohabitation prior to sexual maturity is condemned.‡ It is said that the offspring of an immature girl will be sickly for ever, and the age of sixteen is mentioned as the proper time on the side of the female for commencing married life.§ The authorities, however, are conflicting,

* The following sloka is found in the Sabdakalpadruma:—

Ashta bárshá bhavet Gauri, Nava bárshácha Rohini,
Dashamé Kanyaká proktá, Ata urdhang rajasvalá.

'Married at 8 she is like Gauri, at 9 like Rohini, at 10 like a girl, but over this age it is the marriage of a woman.'

† In the Punjab also some of the Khatris who practise hypergamy allow their girls to grow to maturity before giving them in marriage.

‡ The first ceremony, not being usually followed by consummation, is frequently called a betrothal, but this is a misnomer. The moment the ceremony is performed, the pair are irrevocably bound together, whether consummation (in the English sense) ever ensues or not, whereas in England, a marriage which is never consummated can be declared void. Even if the Hindu husband dies before consummation or the performance of the second ceremony, the girl is none the less a widow. The vernacular word for the ceremony is *bibáha* which means "marriage" not "betrothal."

§ Twenty-five is mentioned as the proper age for the husband of a girl of 16.

and there is a passage in Manu where 12 years is named as a suitable age for the consummation of a girl's marriage.

In Bengal and Bihar the usual practice at the present day is for the newly-married girl to go for a few days to her father-in-law's house, after which, unless she has attained puberty or her husband is a widower, she returns home,* where she stays, usually for one year, but often, if very young, for much longer. She must not go to live with her husband in an even year from the date of her marriage or her birth (the practice varies), *i.e.*, she may go in the 1st, 3rd or 5th year, but not in the 2nd or 4th. The day and month must be auspicious, the rules in this respect being the same as those for the first marriage. When she goes a second ceremony is performed, called the *gáuná* or *dwirágaman*. This ceremony is usually of minor importance, but in parts of Bihar, amongst some of the lower castes, it is observed even more carefully than that of the actual marriage. Neither of these ceremonies has any necessary connection with the commencement of married life, which, in theory, is determined, at least in Bengal Proper, by the time when the bride attains puberty, whether she is then in her father's house or in that of her husband's father. A third ceremony is then performed which is known as *garbhádhán*, *tenga* or *punar bibáha*,† and cohabitation is supposed to commence on some night between the 4th and 16th days from the commencement of the menstrual flow.

In Orissa, when the girl is mature at the time of marriage, cohabitation commences on the following, night in the case of Karans and Khandáits, and on the fourth night in the case of other castes, after the performance of the ceremonies known as *chaturthi* and *lágáhom*. The first eight nights are called *ashtamangalá*, during which the pair can live together. The ninth and tenth nights are known as *bisharátri* and they must then remain separate.‡ When a girl is married before puberty, she remains with her parents until her first menstruation. An astrologer is then consulted and an auspicious day is fixed for her departure to her husband's house. There are certain conjunctions of the planets and other considerations which may cause delay, varying from 1½ to 14 months. Until she goes to live with her husband cohabitation is not allowed. When she goes, the *hom* ceremony is performed by the higher castes, while some of the lower ones have a custom known as *goswáli*, *i.e.*, the husband and wife each touch the tail of a female calf, after which they are allowed to live together.

WIDOW-MARRIAGE.

422. The remarriage of widows is forbidden by the Hindu religion§ and amongst the highest castes the prohibition is strictly enforced. But in Bihar and Orissa all other sections of the community allow their widows to marry again, and the practice is quite as common amongst the clean castes as it is amongst those who are generally regarded as impure.‖ In Bengal Proper, however, all the clean castes strictly forbid widow marriage, and east of the Bhágirathi, even the lower ranks of the community are beginning to refrain from it. It has already been given up by the Namasudras, and the Rájbansis are now following suit. The Baishnabs allow the practice, and this circumstance tends to swell their ranks by the accretion of outsiders who wish to escape from the restriction which the rules

* The favourite months for marriage are Baisákh, Jaishta, Áshár (in Bihar only) Agrahayan (in Tirhut only), Mágh and Fálgun. There is a sloka which says that a girl married in Agrahayan will be virtuous, in Mágh she will be a devoted wife, in Fálgun she will be endowed with all the qualities of her sex, in Baisákh she will be wealthy, in Jaishta fortune will smile on her, and in Áshár she will be blessed with a large family. In cases of urgency marriages take place in other months also. The eldest son or daughter may not marry in Jaishta, nor may a couple marry in the month in which either was born, nor within 12 months of the death of a parent, nor in an even year of one's age. These are the general rules, but there are numerous exceptions. The Maghs marry most freely in Mágh, Fálgun, Chaitra and Baisákh, and the same months are the favourite ones amongst the Animistic tribes of Chota Nagpur. The Namasudras crowd all their marriages into the month of Fálgun. They do not begin to think about the matter till the last few days of the month, when the time left is so short that the month is by common consent held to extend till the 3rd or 4th of Chaitra. But when once negociations are opened no time is lost. The parents may arrange a match while on their way to their fields in the morning and, as likely as not, they will have the ceremony performed the same evening.

† In Bihar the *Gáuná* usually takes place before the wife attains puberty, and cohabitation commences as soon as she is physically capable of it. The *Punar Bibáha*, or ceremony enjoined by the *Shástras* when the wife becomes mature is, therefore, in many parts no longer observed. In Bengal Proper both the *dwirágaman* and the *Punar Bibáha* are gradually falling into desuetude. They are seldom altogether omitted, but the presence of the bridegroom is no longer considered indispensable.

‡ In Bengal the night immediately following the wedding is regarded as the *Bisharátri*. The origin of the superstition is, that Lakhindar, the son of Chánd Sadágar, died of snake-bite on the night in question.

§ This is said to be a comparatively modern innovation.

‖ There are a few exceptions in Bihar, *e.g.*, the Chanaur sub-caste of Kurmi.

of their own castes place on marriage with widows. Where a widow is allowed to remarry, her first husband's younger brother has usually the first claim to her. This is often called the *levirate* but this word connotes a very different set of ideas. The object amongst the Jews was that a man should raise up seed unto his brother, but in India he succeeds to the widow as a matter of right, without any reference to the necessity of providing his brother with offspring, and if he does not want her for himself, he is at full liberty to renounce her. The practice seems rather to be a survival of the fraternal system of polyandry which is still in vogue amongst the Bhotiás, and of which traces are still to be seen in the domestic arrangements of the Santáls.* "In Nepal," says Hodgson, "it yet exists partially but is falling out of use."† Marriage with an elder brother (*uhá Shur* or *jer Shur*) of the deceased husband is almost always strictly forbidden, just as, where fraternal polyandry prevails, the *jus connubii* enjoyed by the younger brothers is under no circumstances permitted to those who are older than the actual husband. The marriage ceremony for widows, *sagái* or (in Oriyá) *dvutíya*, is a very informal one, and very often consists of little more than the exchange of presents or a public declaration, coupled with cohabitation and a feast to the caste people. Where the woman is taken by the deceased husband's younger brother, no payment is made and the ceremony, such as it is, takes place in the husband's house. In other cases it is performed in the house of her father who receives the customary bride price. The border line between marriage and concubinage would seem *a priori* to be a very uncertain one, and if so, it is possible that some persons who were practically married have been returned as widowed. I am told, however, that in Orissa at least, the distinction is well marked, and concubines, it is said, are kept only by the higher castes who do not allow their widows to marry again. Unfortunately, I omitted to institute enquiries on this point with reference to specific cases.‡

Polygamy.

423. The general rule amongst Hindus is that a man should content himself with one wife, and should not marry a second, unless the first is barren or afflicted with an incurable disease. In many cases he has to satisfy his caste *Panchâyat* on these points, and obtain their permission before he may take a second help-mate. In the Province as a whole, the census shows that there are only 986 married women to every 1,000 married men. The apparent excess of husbands is due to the great numbers of immigrants from the United Provinces, Rajputana and elsewhere, many of whom are married men who have left their wives at home, but even allowing for this, it is clear that monogamy must be the general rule and polygamy the exception. The disproportion shown by the census figures for individual districts is similarly explicable on the score of migration. Husbands are in defect in Bihar, Orissa, and Chota Nagpur, which are areas of emigration, and in excess in Bengal Proper, where the number of immigrants is greatest.

Consideration for Marriage.

424. It remains to notice briefly the varying practices in respect of the marriage contract. In some cases the bride's father has to pay the father of the bridegroom; in others the bridegroom's father has to pay, and in others again (a small minority) no money passes. The most respectable arrangement is when the bride's father presents money to the bridegroom§ and this is usually followed amongst the higher castes; it often happens also amongst the lower castes where the parties are respectable and well-to-do. But generally, it is mainly a question of demand and supply; the party who has to pay, and the amount he must give, depends on the relative demand for brides and bridegrooms, and this again is determined to a great extent by the existence or otherwise of certain practices, such as hypergamy, widow remarriage, and the like. Where the girl is paid for, her price depends very much on her age and also to some extent, on her fairness of complexion and personal charms. If a virgin, her

* Tribes and Castes of Bengal, Vol II, page 229.

†, Languages, Literature and History of Nepal, Vol. II, page 32.

‡ In other respects abnormal figures were subjected to enquiry in as many cases as possible, especially in respect of persons returned as married at very early ages, or of women shown as unmarried when more than 25 years of age. No general record was kept of the result of such enquiries, but it may be noted that in Balasore of 1,171 females over 25 years of age who were shown as unmarried, enquiries were made in 734 cases. In 699 cases the return was correct in all respects, in 25 the age had been wrongly entered, and in 10 the persons concerned were married and not single.

§ As it is the girl who leaves her home on marriage, a man who takes money for his daughter is popularly said to sell her.

value rises the nearer she approaches to maturity, while if a widow, it usually decreases as she grows older, but amongst a few of the functional castes a widow of mature age, who is an expert in the work by which people of the caste ordinarily live, commands a higher price than one who is younger and more attractive, but less useful from a professional point of view. When the bridegroom receives money, his educational qualifications are looked to, and the degree of B.A. is a very valuable asset in the matrimonial market.

MARRIAGE CUSTOMS AMONGST RÁRHI BRÁHMANS.

425. The marriage customs amongst the Bráhmans vary to a very remarkable degree. The most complicated system is that of the Rárhi sub-caste. Its original division into Kulin or high class, and Srotriya or Vedic students who had lost rank by intermarriage with families of inferior birth, is attributed to Ballála Sena. The Srotriyas were further distinguished as Suddha Srotriya or pure, and Kashta or impure. Subsequently the Kulins were subdivided into 36 *mels*. Intermarriage between the different *mels* was forbidden, and it was laid down that a man must take as his bride a girl of the same generation as himself, *i.e.*, if he were in the 25th generation from the founder of the *mel*, his wife must also be in the 25th generation. Kulins who offended against these rules or were guilty of certain other forms of misconduct were degraded and formed a new sub-caste called Bansaja.* A Kulin may take as his wife either a suitable bride of his own *mel* or a girl of the Suddha Srotriya class, and there is a rule that every Kulin must take at least one Suddha Srotriya bride in his family. He may not take a bride of the other subdivisions, on pain of gradual degradation of himself and his children and brothers to the same level. In addition to these rules, there is the complication introduced by the practice of hypergamy. It is considered the proper thing for a man who is not a Kulin to marry his daughter to a Bráhman of higher rank than himself, but he must on no account give her to one of lower status.

As a general rule the father gives a present to the proposed bridegroom (*pan*) and to the relatives who accompany him at his marriage (*gan*). Formerly the *pan* was a fixed sum of Rs. 16, but of recent years the difficulty of procuring suitable bridegrooms has caused the amount to grow inordinately and the most extravagant sums are now demanded.† The payment is highest in the case of Kulin girls, as the field of choice is in their case most restricted. If a girl is approaching puberty, or if she is of dark complexion, the price is proportionately increased, in the former case because the need for marrying her quickly is more pressing, and in the latter because she is personally less desirable. The possession of high educational qualifications is a factor which adds greatly to the value of the bridegroom. It is no uncommon thing for Rs. 1,000 to be paid in cash in addition to ornaments. In exceptional cases as much as Rs. 5,000 is paid. The father of a Srotriya girl can obtain a husband at a lower cost, partly because he can marry her to Kulins as well as to Srotriyas, and partly on account of the rule that every Kulin family must take at least one Srotriya bride. The bridegroom price in their case usually ranges between Rs. 200 and Rs. 500. As already stated, a Kulin who marries a girl of the Bansaja or Kashta Srotriya class suffers degradation, and the same is the case if he marries into an inferior *mel* of Kulins, but he will sometimes submit to this if the bribe be large enough. Owing to these extortionate demands on the part of the bridegroom, and also, in some cases, owing to the absence of a bridegroom of the proper *mel* and generation,‡ a Kulin has to choose between giving his daughter to a man of inferior status and leaving her unmarried. The religious prohibition against celibacy on the part of a nubile girl is stringent, but amongst many Kulins it is outweighed by the objections to giving her in marriage to a man of inferior rank, and the result is that it is now not uncommon to find spinsters of advanced age amongst the Rárhi Kulins. There are said to be many such in the Bikrampur pargana in Dacca and the Narail Subdivision of Jessore. The slur of celibacy is sometimes removed by inducing a Kulin bridegroom to marry, not only the young girl who is destined to be his real wife, but also several elder sisters for whom no husband has been

* A Bansaja may take a Srotriya girl as his wife but may not give his daughter in marriage to a man of this class.

† The demand is most extortionate in the neighbourhood of large towns. It is stated that in Faridpur a pure Kulin marrying in his own class still takes only a nominal *pan*.

‡ The rule regulating the respective generations of the bride and bridegroom is frequently neglected at the present day, but such neglect involves a certain loss of position.

found. In such cases the latter frequently return at once to the parental roof, and their condition is in no way changed, except that the stigma of spinsterhood has been wiped out. Sometimes the difficulty is solved by *paribarttan* or mutual accommodation.* The following is an actual case which is said to be typical of many others. A man, A, had two daughters aged respectively 22 and 32 and one son. Failing to secure husbands for his daughters in the regular way, he at last effected an arrangement with B, a Kulin of equal rank, under which his son married B's two daughters, while B married his own younger daughter and B's father his elder. The vicious system known as Kulinism, by which a Kulin contracted the marriage ceremony with an almost unlimited number of wives whom he never took to live with him, is said to have become very uncommon, but such cases still occur, and I was told of one instance where a Kulin had married nine wives. The custom of receiving a brideprice is held in abhorrence amongst the Rárhi Bráhmans, but the lowest classes of Srotriyas and Bansajas, when in poor circumstances, are not above the temptation. The practice is most common amongst a certain section in the districts west of the Bhágirathi, who are usually cooks by occupation. In their case a man has often to pay as much as Rs. 500 for his bride and many have to wait till an advanced age before they can secure a wife.† The circumstances under which a brideprice can be exacted when the general demand for husbands exceeds the supply are not very clear; presumably it can only be obtained when the husband follows a low occupation, or is otherwise regarded as not very eligible.

Bárendra Bráhmans.

426. The divisions of the Bárendra Bráhmans are the same as those of the Rárhi, but the class corresponding to Bansaja is known as Káp. The Srotriyas are divided into Siddha, Sádhya and Kashta. The rules of marriage are not so complicated as with the Rárhi sub-caste, and the *pan* is usually smaller, but otherwise the general system is the same. A Kulin who marries a Kulin girl is given from Rs. 50 to Rs. 100 as *pan*, and a Srotriya who marries a Srotriya receives about the same amount‡ but a Srotriya who wishes to obtain a Kulin or Káp bridegroom for his daughter has to pay a large sum, often exceeding Rs. 1,000. Here, too, amongst the lowest classes, the *pan* is replaced by the brideprice.

Baidik Bráhmans.

427. The Baidik Bráhmans are split into two endogamous groups, Páschátya and Dákshinátya. Social distinctions do not exist amongst the former, but the latter are divided into Kulin, Bansaja and Maulik. Formerly there was no payment at marriage on either side, and in Backergunge this is still the case. But as a rule, a *pan* is paid, varying from Rs. 100 to Rs. 500 and, in extreme cases, Rs. 1,000.

Maithil Bráhmans.

428. Amongst the Maithil or Tirhutiá Bráhmans the only bar on marriage is that the parties must not belong to the same *gotra* or be within the forbidden degrees of relationship to each other. There are three main divisions of the sub-caste, based on a classification said to have been made by Rájá Har Sing Deo of Tirhut, viz., Sarotri (high), Yog (middle), and Jaiwar (low). There is also a fourth division, Panjibodh, comprising the offspring of intermarriages between the Sarotri and the Yog classes, whose rank is intermediate between these two. These groups are to some extent hypergamous, *i.e.*, it is considered right that a man should bestow his daughter in his own or a higher group, but this is not compulsory, and if he is poor, he will often, for a sufficient consideration, give her to a man of a lower grade. It is all a question of money, and the party which ranks higher receives money from the other side, whether it be that of the bride or of the bridegroom.§ The amount varies according to the wealth and relative rank of the parties. The minimum payment is said to be Rs. 35, but it may be very much more. Some of the poorer Bráhmans of higher rank will occasionally marry a number of wives of the lower

* Known as *Golat* or *Golácat* in Bihar. *Paribarttan* has the further advantage of reducing marriage expenses, as the two couples are married at the same time.

† With this class, the expedient of *paribarttan* is frequently resorted to. The following is a case which actually occurred. A had a son aged 27, and a daughter aged 2. He arranged with B to give his daughter to B's son aged 15, in exchange for B's daughter aged 8 who was married to his son.

‡ Sometimes he gets only the ornaments which his wife brings with her.

§ In Bihar the payment to a bridegroom is called *tilak*, and that for a bride *shulka*.

grades for the sake of the money paid by their parents. The practice, however, is said to be falling into disfavour.

A succession of marriages into higher circles will gradually raise the position of a family and, in the same way, a family gradually sinks in social estimation if all its matrimonial alliances are with persons of lower rank.

In addition to *gotras* or exogamous groups, the Maithil Bráhmans are also distinguished according to their *mel* and *dih*. The *mel*, or origin, is the name of the village where the earliest known members of a *gotra* lived, while the *dihs* refer to the villages where their descendants subsequently settled. Thus the early progeny of Batsa Rishi lived, it is said, in a place called Karmahe, and this is the *mel* of all members of the Batsa *gotra*. Subsequent generations gradually spread abroad and settled in Majhaurá, Tarauni and other places, and the descendants of the residents in each place are distinguished accordingly as Karmahe Majhaurá, Karmahe Tarauni, etc. These are called *dihs*. The classification of Maithil Bráhmans according to their *mels* and *dihs*, like the other measures connected with their matrimonial arrangements, is ascribed to Rájá Har Sing Deo. It was effected in connection with the preparation of their pedigrees, and they attach much importance to it. It is a factor in estimating the relative rank of different members of the sub-caste, but it constitutes no bar on marriage. There is no objection to marrying a woman of the same *dih* provided she does not belong to the same *gotra* or fall within the prohibited degrees of relationship.

429. In arranging marriages the parties are assisted by Ghataks, who carry in their memory the pedigrees of the Bráhmans of ten or twelve villages, and who bring the parties together and help them to settle the amount of the consideration to be paid, for which service they receive a minimum fee of Rs. 2. When the parties have come to an agreement they go to the Panjiár (Skr. *Panjikár*) who keeps a record of the pedigrees of Tirhutiá Bráhmans and who, after satisfying himself that the bride and bridegroom may lawfully be married, grants them a written permission or *siddhánta patra* for which he receives a fee of one rupee. Panjiárs are said to have been first appointed by Rájá Har Sing Deo, in consequence of one of his ministers having married in ignorance a lady within the prohibited degrees of relationship. The office is now hereditary, but before practising, the candidate must obtain the permission of the Maháráját Báhádur of Darbhanga, who is the head of the Maithil Bráhmans, and who, after satisfying himself of his fitness, presents him with two loin cloths in token of his approval.

Marriages may be arranged at any time, but it is the fashion amongst Tirhutiá Bráhmans to meet for the purpose at certain regular assemblies held for the purpose towards the end of the *lagan* or marriage season. The largest of these gatherings is held at Sanráth and extends over a week. Carpets are spread under the trees and the Bráhmans assemble, gaily clad in crimson, with flowing turbans. The occasion is one of unwonted rowdiness, and the crowd indulges in uproarious laughter, hooting and even abusive shouts. When a marriage is decided on, the ceremony is at once performed at the house of the bride's father, whither the bridegroom proceeds, quite informally, accompanied only by a few of his near relations.

OTHER CLASSES OF BRÁHMANS IN BIHAR.

430. Amongst the Sakaldvipi Bráhmans no money is demanded, but the bride's father usually, of his own accord, presents the bridegroom with a sum varying, according to his means, from Rs. 5 to Rs. 100. The Jaishi Bráhmans charge for their daughters, and Rs. 200 or so is usually paid on behalf of the bridegroom. In Champaran and Shahabad the general practice of the Bráhmans is said to be to take money for their daughters, and the brideprice ranges from Rs. 100 to Rs. 300. Where a bride price is charged, the poorer males sometimes remain unmarried until late in life; where the opposite custom prevails, it is the girls who often have to wait for a husband.

ORISSA BRÁHMANS.

431. In Orissa the question of payment depends largely on the relative status of the parties. A man who marries into a very low family is paid for doing so, but usually the bride's father receives a sum varying from Rs. 10 to Rs. 250. A bride who is near, but has not actually attained, puberty, is worth more than one who is younger. About 3 per cent. of the males are reported to remain unmarried owing to their inability to find the money needed to procure a wife.

Káyasths.

432. In Bengal Proper the Káyasths are divided into Kulins and Mauliks. A Kulin must marry his eldest boy to a Kulin* but his other children may be married either to Kulins or Mauliks. A Maulik should, if possible, marry his children of both sexe to Kulins, and his social position is lowered if he fails to do so. The Uttar Rárhi Káyasths always pay the bridegroom. With the other sub-castes the matter depends on the relative rank of the parties, the degree of education possessed by the bridegroom, and the personal attractions of the bride. Where the rank of the parties is in all respects on a par, it may happen that neither side makes any money payment, but in such cases the father of the bride will often contribute towards the cost of his son-in-law's education. A Káyasth who is a graduate can often obtain a large *pan*, even when his social status is inferior to that of the bride. In Dacca, other things being equal, a graduate receives from Rs. 1,000 to Rs. 1,500, and an undergraduate from Rs. 500 to Rs. 700. The practice of demanding an extortionate *pan* is growing, and the father of a large family of girls often becomes seriously embarrassed by the heavy charges incidental to their settlement in life. The penalty for allowing a girl to attain puberty while still unmarried is social ostracism, and the father will therefore sacrifice everything rather than allow such a calamity to occur.† Where a Káyasth is of such a low position that he has to pay a heavy bride price, he sometimes remains unmarried; but such cases are less common than with the Bráhmans. In Bihar the bridegroom usually receives *pan* and girls marry late in consequence, although every effort is made to give them in marriage before they attain puberty. In Darbhanga the payment is made by the party of inferior, to the party of higher, rank. As a general rule, the amount, whether *pan* or bride price, ranges from Rs. 50 to Rs. 500. The charge is sometimes evaded by marrying into a family of lower rank or by a sort of three-cornered *paribarttan*, *e.g.*, A's daughter marries B's son, B's daughter marries C's son, and C's daughter marries A's son.

Rájput.

433. As with the other high castes, the general custom amongst the Rájputs is that the bridegroom receives money. The amount varies according to the means of the parties. With the poor it ranges from Re. 1 to Rs. 30, while the rich will pay as much as Rs. 1,000. Amongst the poorer classes the bride's father sometimes takes money to meet the marriage expenses, but he is looked down upon for doing so. Rájputs of doubtful origin have to pay from Rs. 100 to Rs. 200 to obtain a wife, and some, in consequence, remain unmarried until a late age, or, in extreme cases, altogether.

Báhan.

434. Respectable Báhhans usually pay *pan*, which, in special cases, has been known to amount to as much as Rs. 30,000. The practice of taking money for a daughter is looked down upon, but it prevails to a considerable extent amongst the poorer classes, the actual amount varying according to the relative rank of the parties. The necessity of paying for a wife often prevents or delays a man's marriage. There is no difficulty on the part of the girls in obtaining husbands.

Other castes in Bengal Proper.

435. Amongst other castes in Bengal Proper marriageable females are usually less numerous than the men. Widow marriage is as a rule strictly forbidden, but widowers often marry again. Wives, therefore, are in more demand than husbands and payment has to be made to the bride's father. It is known that the higher castes look down on the practice, and the educated and more respectable members of the clean castes, such as Águri, Sadgop, Tili, frequently imitate their betters and give money to the father of the bridegroom.‡ This, however, is the exception. The general rule is that a man has to pay for his bride and the sum is often by no means a small one. In the case of Goálás, Kaibarttas and Rájbansis§ it is said to range as high as Rs. 300 and is seldom

* The rule of isogamy is here on the boy's side, and not, as in the case of the hypergamy of the Bengal Bráhmans, on that of the girl.

† It is not the attaining of puberty which matters, so much as the general knowledge of the fact; it is consequently concealed by the parents, and so long as a girl is married by the time she is 14, it is assumed by the community that the rule has been complied with.

‡ The Chási Kaibarttas of Howrah and Nadia do this, and the amount of *pan* is rapidly increasing, with the usual result that girls remain unmarried until a comparatively late age.

§ The Koch proper, who allows his widows to marry again, often pays only Rs. 20 for a virgin wife and Rs. 10 for a widow.

less than Rs. 40 or Rs. 50. The Namasudras and Pods pay from Rs. 15 to Rs. 150, and the Baishnabs from Rs. 25 to Rs. 125. Amongst the Himalayan tribes also the price is high. The Lepcha gives from Rs. 50 to Rs. 300 for his wife and the Gurung, Mangar, Khas and Limbu from Rs. 60 to Rs. 120. It often happens that the poorer males are unable to meet the cost of a wife and they have then to remain single, or resort to some less reputable form of marriage, such as marriage by service, when the would-be husband, or *ghar jámái*, serves for a term of years in his father-in-law's house, and is then given his wife and a small sum to start in life with. This is regarded as a very contemptible way of gaining a wife, but it is common amongst the Meches, Koches, Santáls, Gonds and Kaibarttas. Another practice, common in North Bengal, and Purnea, is for a man who cannot afford a virgin wife of his own caste to marry a widow. If widow marriage is not allowed by the rules of the caste, and it very rarely is in Bengal Proper, he and the lady of his choice turn Baishnabs and after undergoing the usual initiation, are married by the *Málachandan* ceremony.

BIHAR.

436. In Bihar females outnumber males and, except in the highest castes, women are allowed to take a second husband if the first one dies. There is thus no dearth of wives, and the result is that the price paid for a bride is comparatively small. In Darbhanga, Bhagalpur and Monghyr many castes arrange their marriages without any payment on either side. The bride's father usually defrays the expenses of the ceremony and often gives the bridegroom a small present (*jahez*) according to his means, but this is purely voluntary. If he cannot afford to meet the cost of the ceremony, he is often helped by his caste-fellows. Even when a bride price is demanded, it is usually very small. In Patna a Chamár gives Re. 1-4 for his wife and a Pási Rs. 3. Sometimes the bridegroom is paid, as in the case of the Dhánuks and Kahárs in Patna. In some cases, where nothing is paid for a virgin wife, a small sum, varying from Rs. 5 to Rs. 10, is paid for a widow. In Gaya two kinds of marriage are recognised, *Charhui* and *Karhui*. In the former the ceremony takes place at the bride's house while the latter is performed at the house of the bridegroom. The *Karhui* form is usually resorted to when the bride's father is very poor.

ORISSA.

437. In Orissa and Chota Nagpur, widow marriage is freely allowed except amongst the highest castes. The general rule is that a bride price (called *Kanyá sonú* in Orissa) ranging from Rs. 5 to Rs. 50 is paid, but in some cases only sufficient is asked for to cover the cost of the ceremony. It is said that the Karans are beginning to imitate the practice in vogue amongst the higher castes elsewhere, of paying for the bridegroom, instead of the bride, and a case recently occurred where the father of a young man who had passed the First Arts examination received a *pan* of Rs. 1,800. This, however, is a recent development, and it has not yet come into vogue sufficiently to be called a custom.

CAUSES AFFECTING AGE AT MARRIAGE.

438. Various causes have been assigned for the origin of infant marriage. It has been attributed (1) to the practice of hypergamy; (2) to the exigencies of the caste system, and the necessity for providing a girl with a suitable husband before the time when she may indulge in fancies of her own and so perhaps bring social ruin on her family; and (3) to the survival of a practice necessary in the oldest type of society, where an unmarried woman was exposed to a double evil, the stain of communism within her own, and the risk of forcible abduction into an alien clan. The subject may be approached from two points of view, with reference, on the one side, to the injunction in the *Shástras* that a girl should be married before attaining puberty and preferably at the age of 8 or 9, and, on the other, to the variations in actual practice amongst different castes and in different parts of the Province. As regards the origin of the rule laid down in the *Shástras*, it is difficult to formulate a theory which can be verified by reference to actual facts, and the brief discussion which follows will therefore be confined to the reasons for the different customs which actually exist. To examine the subject thoroughly in the light of the statistics collected at the census would take up much more time than can be spared, but I venture to indicate briefly the directions in which it seems to me that a solution of the problem may be sought. We have seen that the amount of the consideration for marriage, and the person who pays it, vary according to

several circumstances of which the relative demand and supply are the most important. The bride price is highest where widow remarriage is forbidden, and wives are consequently scarce, and the bridegroom price, where considerations of hypergamy or of other qualifications, such as some educational degree, are regarded as of importance.

In the same way it seems to me that the age at marriage is largely influenced by the expense which marriage involves. As a rule, where the cost of procuring a wife is great, men are perforce compelled to wait until they have saved enough money to procure one, and we have seen that Bráhman cooks are occasionally obliged to live and die unmarried through want of means to obtain a wife. When a man is comparatively old at the time of his marriage, he is unwilling to wait long until his wife can take her place as a real helpmate, and there is also a prejudice against excessive difference in the ages of husband and wife, not only on religious grounds, but also because a father does not like to give his daughter to a man who, in the natural order of events, will leave her a widow while still in the prime of life. This feeling is especially strong in those parts of the province where widows are not allowed to marry again. Similarly, when a bridegroom has to be paid a high price, the father of several daughters is often unable to find the money until his daughters are comparatively old,* and where there is no social penalty, he will frequently allow them to arrive at puberty while still unwed. This view is fully borne out by the statistics of marriage by caste. The castes of Bihar amongst whom the bridegroom, or his father, is usually the recipient of a substantial *pan* or *tilak*, are the Bráhmans, Bábhans, Rájputs and Káyasths, and it will be seen from Subsidiary Table V that the girls of these castes are married much later than those of the Chamár, Dhánuk, Dhobá, Kurmi, Musahar and other low castes, where marriage costs very little to either party.† In Orissa the Karan, Khatri and Khandáit castes marry their daughters very much later than the Chásá, Gaura and other lower castes.‡

Amongst the higher castes, at least in Bengal Proper, other motives also affect the age of marriage. It is thought that early marriage interferes with a boy's studies, and many consider it desirable that he should be in a position to earn his own living and to support a wife before he is allowed to marry. Others again, who are not well off, endeavour to marry a boy while he is still young, so that the bride's father may help in defraying the cost of his education. Moreover, as it is difficult to contract a suitable alliance for a boy who has no educational qualifications at all, the father of a stupid lad will endeavour to settle him in life before he is old enough for his want of intelligence to be noticed by others.§

439. The high castes, however, do not bulk largely in the population, and the main line of cleavage is local, not personal.‖

Local Variations.

The infant marriage of girls is least common in Orissa, and next to Orissa in East Bengal. Then follow in order Chota Nagpur, North, Central and West Bengal, then South Bihar, and lastly North Bihar. In Bihar, however, the varying practices in respect of infant marriage are not conterminous with the boundaries of natural divisions. In Saran, infant marriage is more rare than it is in most districts of Bengal Proper, while in Darbhanga, the Sitamarhi subdivision of Muzaffarpur and the portions of Monghyr and Bhagalpur which lie on the north bank of the Ganges it is at least twice as prevalent as it is anywhere else in the Province. The differences in respect of

* Even if he can afford it he is unwilling to incur the expenditure until the girl is near puberty and the risk of her dying before that age is thus reduced to a minimum.

† Apart from the *pan* or bride price, as the case may be, the cost of the marriage ceremony is much greater in the case of the higher castes, and often runs to many hundreds of rupees, whereas amongst the lower orders, especially those who do not call in Bráhmans to assist, the expense is very trifling.

‡ It is commonly stated that in Bengal Proper girls of the Kulin Bráhmans marry much later than those of other grades, but the Census statistics throw no light on this point as no distinction was made in the return between the various grades and sub-castes. It is generally believed that the lower castes have borrowed the practice of infant marriage from their betters, but as was pointed out by Mr. O'Donnell in 1891, this does not seem to be the case in Bengal. In his report on the Census of the United Provinces in 1891 Mr. Baillie pointed out that there also female infant marriage is most extensive amongst the lower rather than the higher castes (*op cit.* page 255). This is also the case in the Punjab.

§ There is a Bengali saying: — *Kinchit likhanang bibdher kdranang*, *i.e.*, a man must have at least a smattering of learning if he wants a wife.

‖ Some of these local variations have been pointed out by Mr. Risley, *e.g.*, in the case of the Musahars he mentions that north of the Ganges they practise infant marriage, while in Shahabad they are usually not married till they have passed the age of puberty. [Tribes and Castes, vol. II, page 116].

marriage practices in the parts of Bhagalpur on either side of the Ganges are very marked, and on the north bank 597 girls per 1,000 are married between the ages of 5 and 10 compared with only 295 per 1,000 in the tract south of that river. The variations in the age of males at marriage follow those of females, and we find a very high proportion of married males at the earlier ages in Darbhanga and the neighbourhood.

To a great extent these variations can be accounted for on the ground already suggested, viz., the varying cost of marriage. In Orissa and Bengal Proper, a wife is usually expensive and men are, therefore, compelled to defer their marriage to a later period in life, with the natural result that when they do marry, they choose a girl who has nearly attained maturity. In Bihar, on the other hand, a bride or bridegroom costs very little, and the parents can settle their children in life without any very heavy sacrifice. Owing to the demand for wives on the part of widowers and persons who have reached maturity unmarried, a girl's price rises as she approaches maturity, and it is, therefore, more economical to engage her while she is still of tender age, especially as she remains in her parents' home until she approaches the time when she can become a mother. The result is that the practice has grown up of negociating marriages when the parties are still very young. The girls are given in marriage at a much earlier age than in Bengal, but the boys to whom they are married are also much younger, and it will be seen from Subsidiary Table VI that the inequality between the ages of young wives and their husbands is very much less marked in Bihar than in any other part of the province.

Caste.	Number per 1,000 girls aged 5-12 who are married in—		
	Bengal.	Bihar.	Orissa.
Ahir and Goala	362	414	70
Brâhman	191	180	224
Chamâr	208	609*	74
Dhobâ	198	373	74
Hajâm and Nâpit ...	250	500	.....
Kâmâr and Lohâr ...	277	493*	108
Kumhâr	273	675*	94
Tânti and Tâtwa	383	605*	109
Teli	397	626*	148

* These proportions refer to Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga and not to the whole of Bihar.

The influence of locality on marriage customs is shown by a comparison of the figures for the same castes in different parts of the province. A few instances are given in the margin, and others will be found in Subsidiary Table V.

SPECIAL PREVALENCE OF INFANT MARRIAGE IN PARTS OF NORTH BIHAR.

440. The theory propounded in paragraph 438 regarding the causes on which the age at which marriage takes place depends goes a long way towards accounting for the variations in the practices in different parts of the province, but it does not explain them in all cases. In Orissa, for example, a wife costs less than in Bengal Proper, but infant marriage is much less common. In and around Darbhanga infant marriage (*i.e.*, marriage before the age of 5) is far more frequent than in other parts of Bihar, while in Saran it is far less so. So far as the special prevalence of infant marriage in Darbhanga and the neighbourhood is concerned, the general explanation applies to some extent. The payment for the bride or bridegroom is either very small or is dispensed with altogether, and the general marriage expenses are by no means high, and there are thus no obstacles on either side in the way of early marriage. But the cost in Bihar generally, amongst all but the highest castes, is by no means prohibitive, and the difference in the expenditure involved does not by itself seem to account sufficiently for the exceptional degree to which infant marriage has obtained a hold on the people of this particular tract. To some extent its relatively greater prevalence is due to the comparatively small proportion borne to the total population by some of the higher castes, such as Rájput, who marry late, in this tract as elsewhere, and so raise the general average. But this does not go very far, and it will be seen from the figures reproduced in the margin that the practices of the same castes often differ very widely in this tract from those which obtain in other parts of Bihar.

Caste.	Number of females per 1,000 who are married before the age of 5.	
	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga.	Other parts of Bihar.
Barbi	122	32
Chamâr	128	43
Dhânuk	139	58
Hajjam	102	36
Lohâr	99	37
Tatwa	109	48

I have enquired regarding the causes of this state of affairs, but the result is not altogether conclusive. Every one agrees that infant marriage is

extraordinarily prevalent, so much so, that amongst some of the lower castes, if a boy remain unmarried after about 10 or 12 years of age, he is believed to have some physical or mental defect, and this belief makes it very difficult for him afterwards to obtain a wife. But how the custom originated is a question less easily answered. Mr. O'Donnell's conclusion was that the absence of the *pardá* system amongst the lower castes makes it necessary to marry girls early to protect them from their own fancies, and the risk of infringing caste rules; but this explanation, though it has been put forward elsewhere also,* seems insufficient, inasmuch as it does not account for the relative frequency of the practice in the particular tract under consideration. Amongst the people themselves, says Mr. J. H. Kerr, Settlement Officer, Darbhanga, the explanation "is generally discredited. Babu Romesh Chandra Dutt, Assistant Settlement Officer, says that he has conversed with many persons of the lower castes on the subject and that this explanation has never been put forward in defence of the system."

441. The absence of any restriction on widow marriage has been assigned as one of the reasons why infant marriage takes place. This tends to early marriage in two ways. By increasing the supply, it makes wives cheaper, so that males can marry at an earlier age, while the fact that their daughters can marry again if widowed, inclines their parents to see them settled in life as soon as possible, whereas, where widow marriage is forbidden, the general sentiment is against marrying girls long before the age of puberty. But amongst all but the highest castes, widows are allowed to remarry all over Bihar and also in Orissa, and this cannot, therefore, be an explanation of the special prevalence of infant marriage in and around Darbhanga. Neither can the desire to see children settled, nor the greater cheapness of infant marriage be held to explain the peculiarity. The only explanation which I have received that seems to account for it is that the area where infant marriage is most prevalent is under the influence of a special class of Bráhmans, the Maithil or Tirhutiá, and that they have exercised their influence in favour of the early celebration of a ceremony which is a source of profit to themselves. Why these particular Bráhmans should have inculcated the practice more than others it is difficult to say, but several reporters agree in attributing it to their teaching. According to the *shástras* a boy cannot perform any religious ceremony or offer the *pinda* until he has undergone the ceremony of *sanskár* or purification, which, in the case of the twice-born castes, takes place when they receive the thread, between the ages of 5 and 9. The Sudras, who do not wear the thread, consider marriage as their *sanskár*.

I have not ascertained why very early marriage is less common in Orissa than in Bengal, but it may be assumed to be due to some local feeling against binding children in matrimony until the age of puberty is near. Nor have I any explanation to offer for the figures for the Saran district where infant marriage is so much less common than in other parts of Bihar. It is not due to expense, as marriage costs almost as little there as it does further east.

CHANGES IN MARRIAGE PRACTICE SINCE 1881.

442. In Subsidiary Table IV, I have compared the number of each sex per mille at the age '0—10' who were returned as married and at the age '15—40' who were returned as widowed at each of the last three censuses. So far as Hindu males are concerned, the variations in the province, as a whole, have been slight. Except in parts of Bihar child marriage amongst males is rare, and the only point for note is that in the area where it is most prevalent, *i.e.*, in the district of Darbhanga, the custom seems to be still gaining ground. The proportion of males aged '15—40' who are widowed is also nearly stationary; widowers are slightly more numerous than they were in North Bengal, Bihar, and the Chota Nagpur Plateau and less so in other parts of the province, especially in West Bengal. The fluctuations in the case of females are more noticeable. There has been a continuous decline since 1881 in the proportion of widows at the age '15—40.' There are three possible explanations of this phenomenon; either widow marriage may be coming more into vogue, or the castes who permit the practice may be increasing more rapidly than those who forbid it, or it may be due to the postponement of marriage and the greater equality in the ages of husband and wife, so that fewer women outlive their

* Hoshiarpur Gazetteer, page 36.

husbands than was formerly the case. The first of these explanations may be at once dismissed. There is no reason for supposing that the castes who forbid their widows to marry again or who discourage the practice are losing their old prejudices. If anything the tendency is in the other direction. The second possible explanation, however, appears to apply to a considerable extent. The question whether a caste allows its widows to marry again or not is an important factor in determining its social position, and the practice, therefore, follows generally the lines of division adopted in the scale of social precedence given in Subsidiary Table I at the end of the Chapter on Caste. I have noted in the margin the net variation in the strength of each group of castes shown in this table and have marked with an asterisk the groups in which widow marriage is allowed by all or the majority of the castes contained in them. It will be seen in the Chapter on Caste (paragraphs 622 to 662) that the variations are in some cases due to differences in the character of the original return or in the system of classification adopted in the course of compilation.* But such changes cannot be sufficiently numerous to affect the general result indicated by the comparison, which is that the lower castes, amongst whom widows are permitted to remarry, are increasing far more rapidly than those whose members disallow this practice. The third explanation, however, must also be given credit for a share in the result. Subsidiary Table IV shows that at the present census only 115 girls per mille under 10 years of age were returned as married compared with 133 in 1881. In North Bihar, the great stronghold of infant marriage, there has been but little change, and in Darbhanga the practice is still becoming more prevalent. But in all other parts of the province it is steadily falling into disrepute, especially in East and Central Bengal. Amongst the higher castes the result is due partly to the great and growing cost of procuring suitable bridegrooms, but in addition to this, the conviction is spreading amongst the educated classes that early marriage is in many ways undesirable, and their views are gradually affecting, not only their own practices, but also those of the classes below them.

Group.	Net variation since 1881.	
	Bengal Proper.	Bihar.
I	+ 7·6	+ ·05
II	− 3·7	+ 5·2
III	+ 1·8	+ 8·8*
IV	− 2·5	+ 9·5*
V	+ 10·2*	+ 10·6*
VI	+ 27·3*	+ 15·4*
VII	+ 27·8*	.....

443. In conclusion a few peculiar beliefs and customs in connection with marriage may be briefly noted. There is a very general belief that infant marriage is a safeguard against early death, and when two or three children in a family have died in infancy, the parents frequently arrange that any children who may be born later are married before the age at which the others died. Very often again, friends will agree, before their children are born, to wed them to each other, if of opposite sexes. Amongst the higher castes the execution of such an agreement is postponed until the usual age for marriage, but the lower castes will often give effect to it while the children are still of very tender age. Again, the number 3 is regarded as very unlucky,† and when a man has lost two wives and contemplates a fresh matrimonial venture, he often goes through a mock marriage with a pigeon in East Bengal, and elsewhere, with a plantain, or (in Orissa) a *Sáhárá* (*Trophis aspera*)‡ tree or a flowering plant, so that his next wife may be his fourth, and not his third, as she otherwise would be. In Orissa, although widow marriage is allowed, it is considered proper for a man to take a virgin as his first wife. If he is too poor to be able to afford the bride price and the cost which the marriage ceremony involves when a virgin is the bride, he gets over the difficulty by celebrating a mock marriage with an arrow.§ A Kulin Bráhman of the Rárhi sub-caste, who is required to give his

Special customs connected with marriage.

* In Bengal Proper, for example, Group II has lost by the transfer to Group III of persons wrongly returned on previous occasions as Káyasths.

† In Bengal three Baidyas will never go together on business; either one is left behind or a fourth is taken.

‡ The *Sáhárá* tree is very sacred in Orissa and it is often consecrated to the Grám devtí or tutelary goddess of the village, where it is known as *Sáhárá Sundari Thakuráni*.

§ This may be connected with the rule mentioned in the Oriyá translation of the Manu Sanhitá that when a man of one caste marries a woman of another, the bride should hold an arrow, if of the Kshattriya caste; a goad, if of the Vaisya; and a bundle of thread, if of the Sudra caste.

daughter to a Bráhman of the corresponding *mel* is supposed to lose his *kul* should he have no daughter to give, but he can get over the difficulty either by saying in the presence of Ghataks, 'I would give you my daughter if I had one,' or by making an effigy of *kusa* grass and giving it in symbolical marriage. According to Wright, every Newár girl is married to a *bel* fruit before she is properly married to her real husband.

MARRIAGE AMONGST OTHER CLASSES.

INFANT-MARRIAGE AMONGST MUHAMMADANS.

444. The general features of the marriage statistics of Muhammadans have already been adverted to. With them marriage is a civil contract rather than a religious sacrament, and in theory at least, the girl should be of an age when she is capable of giving her consent. This, however, is not always attended to, and Muhammad himself married a girl of 7, Ayeshá, the daughter of his immediate successor, Abdulláh, who is better known as Abu Bakr, or the father of the virgin. The Muhammadan settles on his wife a sum of money, known as *den mahar* or dower, but he is not usually required to pay a bride-price, nor does he receive money unless he is specially eligible on account of his higher social position. Infant-marriage is far less common than with Hindus, and only 12 girls in 1,000 are married under 5 years of age, while between the ages of 5 and 10 only 108 in 1,000 are married. Amongst males only four boys in 1,000 are married under 5, and only 19 between 5 and 10 years of age. There is a noticeable difference between the cultivating Muhammadans and those who belong to the functional groups. The latter are much more affected by the example of the Hindus around them, and they give their girls in marriage at a comparatively early age. With other classes of Muhammadans infant-marriage is unpopular, and when it occurs it is usually due to the superstitious belief in the efficacy of marriage as a protection against death in early childhood. Parents who have lost a child often marry the next one who may be born before the age when the first died.* Occasionally when two men or two women are great friends, they will agree to unite in marriage children yet unborn, if of opposite sexes, and in such cases the agreement is often carried out while they are still infants. Another circumstance tending to encourage infant-marriage is the desire of well-to-do Muhammadans to prevent the extreme subdivision of property, which is the natural consequence of the Muhammadan law of inheritance, and cousins are often married to each other when still very young.

CASTE.	Number of married per 1,000 children aged—			
	0—5.		5—12.	
	M.	F.	M.	F.
Dhobi	14	20	159	274
Dhuniá	11	32	158	318
Fakir	4	35	64	163
Hajjám	6	14	59	179
Jolaha	9	20	115	287

WIDOW-MARRIAGE.

445. Amongst Muhammadans widowers are very rare. When a man's wife dies, unless he is already advanced in life, it is the almost universal practice to marry again. Widows also are comparatively fewer than amongst Hindus, but they still number more than a sixth of the total female population, whereas amongst the Animistic tribes only one woman in nine is a widow. The difference is due mainly to the influence of Hinduism. The marriage of widows is enjoined by Muhammadan law, and the Prophet himself married several widows, including his first wife, Khadíja. But in India the example of the Hindus has gradually created a prejudice in the other direction,† and at the present day it is seldom that a man takes a widow as his first wife. Widows who marry again usually become the wives of widowers or of men who have already got another wife. At the same time women who lose their husbands while fairly young find little difficulty in marrying a second time, and the proportion who fail to do so is not very large until after the age of 30, when it increases rapidly. At the age-period 10—15, only 1 woman in 50 is a widow, and at 15—20 only 1 in 25,

* In Bogra it is said that for the same reason the parents will sometimes marry a girl to a bamboo, emblematical of Gházi Miyán, either in fulfilment of a vow, or as a propitiatory offering for further additions to the family.

† The Urdu translator of the *Khalásat-at-Tawarikh*, written about 200 years ago, laments that the Hindu notions about widowhood have infected the Muhammadans, especially in the villages, and have led to their women remaining widows contrary to Muhammadan law [*J. R. A. S., 1894, page 748*].

compared with 1 in 33 and 1 in 15, respectively, among the Hindus. In the case of women over 40, *i.e.*, when the child-bearing age is past, the proportion of widows is higher amongst Muhammadans than amongst Hindus.

It is said that the Farázis and other reformed sects strongly advocate widow-marriage, and that in consequence the practice is gradually coming into greater favour. The census statistics lend some support to this statement, and the proportion of widows appears to be steadily falling;* that of widowers on the other hand has scarcely varied at all since 1881. During the same period there has been a slight falling off in the proportion of married men and women, due, in the case of the latter, to a marked diminution in the number of girls who are married between the ages of 10 and 15.

VARIATIONS IN MUHAMMADAN MARRIAGE CUSTOMS SINCE 1881.

YEAR OF CENSUS.	Number of widows per 1,000 females.
1881	193
1891	180
1901	171

446. A Muhammadan may marry as many as four wives, but as a rule he contents himself with one, and there are only 1,029 wives to every 1,000 husbands. The true proportion is obscured to some extent by the immigration from other places of married men who have left their wives at home, but not sufficiently so to disturb the conclusion that the great majority of Muhammadans are monogamists. The figures for Natural Divisions are obscured by migration, but unless Muhammadans migrate to a greater extent than Hindus, which is probably not the case, the number who take a second wife is greater in South Bihar than in any other part of the Province. As already observed, the second wife is frequently a widow, and she is often a mere household drudge.

POLYGAMY.

447. The Animistic tribes, as previously remarked, marry even later than Muhammadans, and they have no prejudices in respect of the marriage of widows. As a rule, both males and females are fairly mature before they enter the bonds of matrimony, and a smaller proportion of girls are married between 15 and 20 than is the case with Hindus between 10 and 15. The usual age for marriage in the case of a girl would appear to be between 17 and 18, and for a male between 23 and 26. The late age of marriage is due, to a great extent, to the pre-nuptial communism, which is so marked a feature of most of the Animistic tribes of Chota Nagpur. The bride-price is, as a rule, moderate, but amongst the Hos, it is excessive, and the result is that this is the tribe where the age at marriage is highest. Colonel Dalton says that, "owing to the high price placed on daughters by their fathers, the large number of adult unmarried girls is a very peculiar feature in the social state of the community."† This statement is fully borne out by the statistics collected at the census. The Hos marry much later than their neighbours—the Mundas, Oráons, and Santáls.

ANIMISTS.

TRIBE.	Number of spinsters aged 12—20.
Ho	783
Munda	585
Oráon	392
Santál	516

The proportion of widowers at each age-period amongst the Animistic tribes bears a strong resemblance to that amongst Muhammadans, but the widows are less than two-thirds as numerous. The difference is most marked after the age of 30. It is due partly to the fact that the Animist has no scruples at all concerning the marriage of widows, and partly to the fact that there is less difference between the ages of husband and wife at marriage. At the age of 10—15 there are more than six times as many married Muhammadan females as there are males, while with the Animists the married females at this age are only thrice as numerous as the males. Polygamy appears to prevail to about the same extent as in the case of the Muhammadans. According to the census statistics, there are 1,032 wives to every 1,000 husbands, but the real excess of wives is not so great as these figures would indicate. Many of the temporary emigrants from Chota Nagpur (who were

* As explained in the discussion regarding the decreasing number of widows amongst Hindus, this result is also attributable partly to the gradual disappearance of the practice of infant-marriage. In the Province as a whole the present census shows that of every 1,000 Muhammadan girls under ten years of age, only 61 are married, compared with 78 in 1881.

† The bride-price varies from 10 to 30 head of cattle; while with the Mundas it is only about 3 head, and with the Oráons about Rs. 5. A Gond pays from Rs. 2 to Rs. 10, and presents his mother-in-law with a new *sári* or dress cloth.

mostly males) were entered as Hindus, while the wives who stayed at home were returned as Animists.

CHRISTIANS.

448. Very little is to be gained by considering the marriage statistics of Christians. They are disturbed partly by the number of foreigners, and partly by that of new converts who were already married or widowed before they became Christians. The proportion which the converts made during the last few years bear to the total Christian population is very high, but, in spite of this, it is clear that infant-marriage amongst the Christian community is very rare, while the proportion of widows is almost as low as it is in the case of the Animists. The unmarried are relatively more numerous than in any other class of the community.

BUDDHISTS.

449. The Buddhists are not sufficiently numerous to deserve detailed examination. The two main Buddhist communities of East Bengal are the Maghs and Chákmás. The marriage customs of the former are very similar to those of the Hindus of Chittagong, while the latter follow the same practices as the other tribes in the Hill Tracts. Very few of their females are married before the age of puberty, and the proportion of widows is exceptionally small. On the Northern frontier there are Buddhists in Darjeeling, Sikkim, and Jalpaiguri, including Lepchas, Murmis, and Bhotiás of various denominations, who may be distinguished as Bhotiás of Sikkim, of Bhotan, and of Tibet. There is also a small sprinkling of Buddhist Newárs. The total number of persons belonging to these tribes who were enumerated in Bengal is very small, and the figures have been vitiated by migration and by the failure to distinguish uniformly between the different kinds of Bhotiás.

POLYANDRY.

450. The chapter would not be complete without a reference to the practice of polyandry in vogue amongst the Bhotiás.* The Lepchas are not polyandrous: nor is there at the present day any such custom amongst the tribes of Nepal, although it appears to have existed amongst some of them not very many years ago. The polyandry of the Bhotiás is of the fraternal order and not matriarchal, as in the case of the Nairs and Todas.† The children belong to the same exogamous clan as the male parent, and the property descends through the male, and not through the female, as in the case of matriarchal polyandry, *i.e.*, where a woman marries several men who are not related to each other. When a woman marries a man she is regarded as the wife of the *de jure* husband and also of his younger brothers or (in rare cases) cousins, but it does not necessarily follow that she cohabits with all of them. In this matter the choice rests with the lady, and in any case she is visited by the younger brothers only when the man who actually married her is away from the house. He stands on quite a different footing from the others, and the children call him father and his brothers uncle. If one of the younger brothers marries, he ceases to have any claim on his elder brother's wife, but leaves the family abode and sets up a new house of his own, being given at the time of departure his share of the family property. Brothers who are younger than he is can, with his permission, join him and share his wife, or they can remain in the old home.

The origin of polyandry amongst the Bhotiás is attributed by Mr. Earle to the poverty of the country and the desire to prevent the division of property. There is no very marked dearth of females, and the superfluous women usually become nuns or prostitutes. Polygamy prevails as well as polyandry, but only amongst the rich. In their case each wife is kept apart in a house of her own. Large families are desired by men and women alike, as the greater the number of children, the more can be dedicated to a religious life.

Three separate ceremonies, at intervals of a year, are necessary to complete a Bhotiá marriage. At the intermediate ceremony there is a pretence of capture. The bride-price varies from Rs. 80 to Rs. 500. It is paid at the first of the three ceremonies, but at the final one the bride's parents give her, as her dower, at least double the amount they have received.

* This paragraph is based on information received from Mr. Earle, to whom I am indebted for an interesting note on this subject, which will be found in Appendix V.

† There are instances in the Darjeeling district of a number of men other than near relatives taking a common wife, but this seems to be a new development and is apparently not known in Sikkim or Tibet.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE I.—Distribution by Civil Condition and age

Natural Divisions and Districts.	Civil condition of 1,000 Males.														
	At all ages.			0–10.			10–15.			15–40.			40 and over.		
	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15	16
BENGAL	***477***	***482***	***41***	***274***	***7***	...	***104***	***18***	***1***	***94***	***289***	***13***	***5***	***168***	***27***
WEST BENGAL	***484***	***472***	***44***	***258***	***9***	...	***113***	***9***	...	***106***	***289***	***10***	**7**	***172***	***34***
Burdwan	449	497	54	243	2	...	104	11	...	94	306	13	8	178	42
Birbhum	445	507	48	279	3	...	96	14	...	64	312	12	6	176	36
Bankura	518	442	40	287	1	...	121	9	...	104	365	9	6	167	31
Midnapore	514	448	38	263	1	...	119	7	...	124	275	9	8	165	29
Hooghly	458	488	54	226	1	...	114	6	...	111	295	12	7	188	43
Howrah	474	491	35	244	1	...	116	7	...	109	313	10	5	170	25
CENTRAL BENGAL	***469***	***491***	***40***	***252***	**2**	...	***107***	**9**	...	***105***	***301***	***11***	***5***	***179***	***29***
24-Parganas	458	506	36	259	2	...	105	11	...	89	310	10	5	183	26
Calcutta	319	637	44	110	2	...	62	10	...	137	423	16	10	202	28
Nadia	527	438	35	288	1	...	128	5	...	108	255	7	3	177	28
Murshidabad	506	459	35	300	2	...	116	10	...	86	283	9	4	164	26
Jessore	493	455	52	262	3	...	111	8	...	116	271	15	4	173	37
NORTH BENGAL	***509***	***453***	***38***	***297***	**2**	...	***104***	**9**	...	***104***	***282***	***13***	**4**	***160***	***25***
Rajshahi	498	471	31	290	2	...	116	9	...	81	302	12	2	158	19
Dinagpur	511	448	41	304	3	...	93	12	...	110	277	17	4	156	24
Jalpaiguri	518	432	50	273	3	...	101	6	...	138	259	18	6	164	32
Darjeeling	512	451	37	248	1	...	103	5	...	154	292	15	7	153	23
Rangpur	513	449	38	290	2	...	96	7	...	118	274	13	5	166	26
Bogra	480	485	35	315	4	...	97	10	...	66	308	12	5	157	23
Pabna	525	451	24	310	2	...	119	6	...	93	275	7	3	168	17
Malda	501	467	32	307	3	...	109	12	...	82	301	13	3	151	19
Kuch Bihar	524	409	67	274	1	...	100	5	...	143	249	29	7	154	47
Sikkim	507	471	22	250	2	...	115	9	...	132	272	6	10	188	10
EAST BENGAL	***538***	***432***	***30***	***304***	**2**	...	***122***	**7**	...	***108***	***263***	**9**	**4**	***160***	***21***
Khulna	489	466	45	271	3	...	108	10	...	105	285	14	5	169	31
Dacca	542	431	27	309	2	...	129	6	...	100	283	7	4	160	23
Mymensingh	549	424	27	311	2	...	116	5	...	118	296	9	4	151	18
Faridpur	514	453	33	286	3	...	125	10	...	99	274	9	4	166	24
Backergunge	490	472	38	279	4	...	111	12	...	97	286	12	3	170	26
Tippera	549	428	23	308	2	...	125	5	...	113	265	7	3	150	16
Noakhali	572	402	25	339	1	...	134	4	...	97	238	7	2	159	19
Chittagong	623	353	24	342	1	...	152	2	...	126	198	7	3	152	17
Chittagong Hill Tracts	527	434	39	282	1	...	107	1	...	134	263	12	4	169	27
Hill Tippera	518	443	39	295	1	...	107	2	...	119	285	14	5	155	25
NORTH BIHAR	***393***	***555***	***52***	***248***	***35***	***1***	**77**	***47***	**2**	**63**	***302***	***18***	**5**	***171***	***31***
Saran	402	482	46	291	6	...	116	25	1	78	266	13	7	165	32
Champaran	440	507	53	251	10	1	101	31	1	81	298	19	7	168	32
Muzaffarpur	376	575	49	240	37	1	70	55	2	60	309	16	6	150	38
Darbhanga	293	653	54	207	89	3	44	72	4	37	321	18	5	150	29
Bhagalpur	333	613	54	240	51	2	55	84	3	35	338	20	3	160	39
Purnea	468	475	57	269	10	1	95	20	1	100	280	23	4	165	32
SOUTH BIHAR	***390***	***553***	***57***	***242***	***20***	***1***	**76**	***45***	***1***	**64**	***316***	***19***	**8**	***172***	***36***
Patna	372	562	66	219	15	...	74	37	1	69	319	20	10	191	45
Gaya	394	545	61	245	18	1	77	41	1	64	315	19	8	171	40
Shahabad	428	519	53	256	16	...	88	45	1	76	314	18	8	144	34
Monghyr	365	585	50	246	30	1	65	54	2	49	318	18	5	183	29
ORISSA	***514***	***450***	***36***	***262***	***1***	...	***122***	***5***	...	***127***	***266***	**7**	**3**	***178***	***29***
Cuttack	525	440	35	267	1	...	125	5	...	130	257	7	3	177	28
Balasore	502	464	35	264	1	...	120	8	...	115	285	8	3	169	27
Puri	503	457	40	247	...	...	120	3	...	131	264	8	5	190	32
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	***508***	***459***	***33***	***301***	**7**	...	***116***	***21***	...	**87**	***281***	***12***	**4**	***150***	***21***
Hazaribagh	443	510	47	277	14	...	96	41	1	65	299	15	3	132	31
Ranchi	547	420	33	330	3	...	134	15	...	80	255	11	3	147	22
Palamau	475	487	38	309	11	...	103	33	1	69	306	16	3	135	21
Manbhum	476	490	34	281	7	...	109	28	...	80	304	11	6	151	23
Singhbhum	396	578	26	311	1	...	139	7	...	143	233	8	3	137	18
Santhal Parganas	406	473	22	319	9	...	105	25	1	69	290	11	2	149	20
Angul	523	447	30	293	2	...	118	11	...	110	278	12	3	156	18
Chota Nagpur Tributary States.	540	432	28	315	5	...	129	14	...	92	264	11	4	149	17
Orissa Tributary States	520	451	29	281	2	...	124	10	...	112	277	9	3	163	20

OF 1,000 OF EACH SEX FOR NATURAL DIVISIONS AND DISTRICTS.

NATURAL DIVISIONS AND DISTRICTS.	CIVIL CONDITION OF 1,000 FEMALES.														
	At all ages.			0—10.			10—15.			15—40.			40— and over.		
	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.
	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15	16
BENGAL	***318***	***483***	***199***	***264***	***27***	***1***	***41***	***58***	***3***	***12***	***329***	***60***	***1***	***69***	***135***
WEST BENGAL	***263***	***471***	***266***	***235***	***25***	***1***	***22***	***70***	***4***	***5***	***319***	***89***	***1***	***57***	***172***
Burdwan	242	477	281	216	30	1	21	68	4	4	313	88	1	66	188
Birbhum	275	486	239	249	30	1	20	68	2	5	323	68	1	65	165
Bankura	283	474	243	250	30	1	27	70	2	6	310	77	...	64	163
Midnapore	272	470	258	241	23	1	23	69	3	7	328	93	1	50	161
Hooghly	231	453	316	209	19	1	18	75	5	3	319	108	1	49	202
Howrah	279	468	253	248	17	1	20	77	4	2	319	90	...	55	167
CENTRAL BENGAL ...	***276***	***469***	***255***	***248***	***23***	***1***	***22***	***71***	***3***	***5***	***317***	***83***	***1***	***58***	***168***
24-Parganas	280	491	229	257	28	1	18	73	4	5	324	80	...	66	144
Calcutta	257	463	280	193	8	1	38	44	3	22	325	97	4	86	179
Nadia	282	456	262	257	22	1	22	75	3	3	306	80	...	53	178
Murshidabad	287	455	258	262	26	1	20	73	3	4	304	78	1	52	176
Jessore	265	471	264	237	24	1	22	70	3	5	325	90	1	51	170
NORTH BENGAL	***341***	***460***	***199***	***301***	***21***	***1***	***50***	***58***	***2***	***9***	***336***	***68***	***1***	***43***	***128***
Rajshahi	311	475	214	285	28	1	22	66	3	3	341	68	1	40	142
Dinajpur	365	468	172	317	18	1	33	51	2	9	356	57	1	43	112
Jalpaiguri	381	452	167	301	13	1	54	39	2	24	342	58	2	58	106
Darjeeling	451	449	100	277	2	...	98	17	1	73	338	29	3	92	70
Rangpur	320	463	217	295	27	1	20	64	2	4	336	77	1	36	137
Bogra	358	485	157	328	20	1	24	64	2	5	337	50	1	44	104
Pabna	341	449	210	305	14	1	30	60	2	5	326	61	1	40	146
Malda	331	441	228	288	20	1	35	58	4	7	315	81	1	48	142
Kuch Bihar	324	422	254	298	29	2	29	39	3	5	302	112	1	38	137
Sikkim	418	512	70	256	4	...	92	16	...	62	341	13	8	151	57
EAST BENGAL	***366***	***453***	***181***	***308***	***13***	***1***	***49***	***56***	***2***	***8***	***334***	***56***	***1***	***50***	***122***
Khulna	307	481	212	279	21	2	23	70	3	4	327	77	1	49	130
Dacca	365	444	191	336	10	1	32	56	2	6	327	68	1	51	130
Mymensingh	381	446	173	330	11	1	42	54	2	8	338	55	1	43	115
Faridpur	308	474	218	289	26	1	34	76	3	4	324	69	1	48	145
Backergunge	334	485	181	288	22	1	41	66	2	4	347	54	1	50	124
Tippera	404	445	151	331	9	1	63	46	1	9	339	47	1	51	102
Noakhali	407	447	146	333	7	1	66	48	2	7	338	44	1	54	99
Chittagong	400	406	194	305	3	1	80	33	1	14	317	56	1	53	136
Chittagong Hill Tracts ...	404	434	72	327	1	...	105	8	...	63	339	13	2	98	59
Hill Tippera	435	443	122	335	4	...	70	34	1	25	346	30	1	39	82
NORTH BIHAR	***265***	***546***	***189***	***218***	***55***	***3***	***35***	***60***	***3***	***10***	***336***	***52***	***2***	***95***	***151***
Saran	323	476	201	240	10	1	63	37	1	14	330	54	1	99	145
Champaran	321	507	172	245	25	1	55	48	2	19	336	47	2	98	123
Muzaffarpur	244	564	192	205	51	3	30	65	3	7	336	47	2	110	109
Darbhanga	187	633	180	167	108	5	14	77	5	4	342	45	2	106	125
Bhagalpur	226	591	183	202	83	4	17	69	4	6	345	51	1	83	124
Purnea	330	462	208	272	34	3	41	50	4	14	321	71	3	57	150
SOUTH BIHAR	***268***	***539***	***193***	***217***	***55***	***2***	***33***	***65***	***2***	***15***	***342***	***51***	***3***	***99***	***158***
Patna	211	545	204	208	25	1	33	55	2	9	380	52	1	115	140
Gaya	285	533	182	256	35	2	34	61	2	21	343	48	5	94	130
Shahabad	296	494	210	230	22	1	41	58	2	22	334	59	3	89	148
Monghyr	237	584	179	207	55	3	21	76	3	7	344	45	2	109	125
ORISSA	***342***	***453***	***205***	***232***	***4***	...	***73***	***36***	***1***	***16***	***333***	***47***	***1***	***82***	***155***
Cuttack	348	449	203	252	4	...	77	32	1	18	329	46	1	84	150
Balasore	314	465	221	244	10	...	58	45	1	11	338	58	1	72	162
Puri	347	458	195	253	2	...	76	32	1	17	337	41	1	87	153
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	***397***	***456***	***147***	***295***	***18***	***1***	***69***	***44***	***2***	***31***	***316***	***41***	***2***	***78***	***105***
Hazaribagh	321	514	165	264	33	1	43	67	3	13	334	50	1	74	111
Ranchi	432	419	149	318	8	1	83	35	1	29	294	42	2	83	105
Palamau	370	480	150	300	22	1	56	56	2	13	332	47	1	70	109
Manbhum	538	423	109	276	26	1	48	58	2	13	332	52	1	77	114
Singhbhum	502	372	126	290	6	...	101	29	1	25	276	30	18	70	89
Santhal Parganas	390	409	141	303	25	1	60	31	3	25	310	40	2	82	97
Angul	416	443	141	293	9	...	82	35	1	41	330	37	...	78	103
Chota Nagpur Tributary States.	456	432	113	330	11	1	84	32	1	41	369	30	1	80	80
Orissa Tributary States ...	413	440	147	291	7	...	83	30	1	38	337	34	1	70	112

SUBSIDIARY TABLE II.—Distribution by Civil Condition of 1,000 of each main age period for Religions.

Age.	Unmarried.			Married.			Widowed.		
	1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10
ALL RELIGIONS.									
Male	**477**	**478**	**467**	**482**	**480**	**493**	**41**	**42**	**40**
0—5	990	993	989	10	6	39	.....	1	1
5—10	941	945		57	53		2	2	
10—15	837	826	800	158	168	155	5	6	6
15—20	608	594	572	380	394	414	12	12	14
20—30	269	209	250	703	764	703	28	27	29
30—40	49	30	30	903	960	903	49	50	47
40—60	26	21	21	868	872	882	106	107	97
60 and over	21	14	19	739	741	750	240	245	231
Female	**318**	**315**	**297**	**483**	**481**	**490**	**199**	**404**	**213**
0—5	977	983	884	22	16	111	1	1	5
5—10	836	827		154	162		8	6	
10—15	402	372	313	572	604	657	26	24	30
15—20	77	64	50	868	882	885	55	54	65
20—30	19	13	12	870	873	864	111	114	124
30—40	10	6	6	726	729	724	264	265	270
40—60	7	4	4	415	416	428	578	580	568
60 and over	6	3	6	131	117	136	863	880	858
HINDUS.									
Male	**451**	**454**	**445**	**501**	**496**	**508**	**49**	**50**	**47**
0—5	985	990	945	15	9	54	.....	1	1
5—10	912	922		85	75		3	3	
10—15	789	777	758	204	215	234	7	8	8
15—20	567	566	537	418	429	447	15	15	16
20—30	212	213	211	737	736	736	31	31	33
30—40	59	62	60	885	881	886	56	57	54
40—60	33	28	26	844	846	861	123	126	113
60 and over	25	18	22	701	701	714	274	281	264
Female	**290**	**291**	**278**	**492**	**487**	**495**	**218**	**222**	**227**
0—5	968	978	861	30	21	133	2	1	6
5—10	793	791		197	201		10	8	
10—15	370	350	300	600	621	606	30	29	34
15—20	75	69	50	859	876	871	66	65	79
20—30	17	10	12	853	858	847	128	132	141
30—40	10	5	6	711	715	711	279	280	283
40—60	7	4	3	416	418	431	577	578	566
60 and over	5	3	5	132	117	138	863	880	857
MUSALMANS.									
Male	**516**	**513**	**504**	**457**	**460**	**469**	**27**	**27**	**27**
0—5	996	997	988	4	3	12	.....	.....	.....
5—10	980	982		19	18		1	.....	
10—15	912	904	898	86	93	99	2	3	
15—20	675	657	642	317	335	349	8	8	
20—30	196	193	203	781	786	775	23	21	22
30—40	26	26	31	938	938	935	36	36	34
40—60	11	8	9	919	924	927	70	68	64
60 and over	10	4	11	814	820	821	176	176	168
Female	**351**	**341**	**329**	**478**	**479**	**485**	**171**	**180**	**193**
0—5	987	988	918	13	11	79	1	1	3
5—10	887	872		108	124		5	4	
10—15	402	346	292	578	636	686	20	18	22
15—20	44	33	29	917	930	929	39	37	42
20—30	13	8	9	903	908	896	84	84	96
30—40	9	5	5	749	748	741	242	247	254
40—60	6	4	4	391	385	404	603	611	592
60 and over	4	3	6	112	101	121	884	896	873
ANIMISTS.									
Male	**575**	**589**	**550**	**400**	**393**	**451**	**26**	**23**	**19**
0—5	997	997	985	3	3	12	.....	.....	.....
5—10	985	983		11	7		4	.....	
10—15	935	931	904	64	67	85	1	2	1
15—20	702	688	638	291	306	354	7	8	8
20—30	258	256	206	719	731	775	23	23	19
30—40	57	55	56	904	907	930	39	38	25
40—60	21	18	12	902	911	935	77	71	53
60 and over	17	11	18	800	817	831	183	172	151
Female	**485**	**496**	**459**	**400**	**396**	**434**	**115**	**108**	**107**
0—5	993	996	977	6	4	22	1	.....	1
5—10	977	979		21	20		2	1	
10—15	798	802	731	184	191	261	8	7	8
15—20	376	380	265	593	594	707	31	26	28
20—30	97	97	42	838	846	903	65	58	53
30—40	55	53	14	813	827	861	132	140	125
40—60	24	21	8	576	619	636	400	360	366
60 and over	17	15	15	235	259	258	748	726	727
CHRISTIANS.									
Male	**594**	**599**	**597**	**374**	**375**	**377**	**32**	**26**	**26**
0—5	997	994	994	3	6	6	.....	.....	.....
5—10	994	988		6	11		.....	1	
10—15	970	965	957	29	34	42	1	1	1
15—20	812	780	822	184	214	174	4	6	4
20—30	431	430	531	549	553	473	20	17	6
30—40	140	148	198	813	817	759	47	35	43
40—60	69	74	53	842	847	837	89	79	80
60 and over	39	37	62	746	779	747	216	184	184
Female	**492**	**492**	**467**	**387**	**389**	**401**	**121**	**119**	**132**
0—5	996	996	989	4	4	10	.....	.....	1
5—10	992	988		7	9		1	3	
10—15	872	853	847	123	141	149	5	4	4
15—20	430	680	583	551	598	597	19	22	20
20—30	121	121	114	808	819	855	71	60	28
30—40	54	48	44	779	809	797	167	128	312
40—60	32	34	32	557	548	832	411	418	436
60 and over	29	23	38	207	207	184	764	770	777

SUBSIDIARY TABLE III—Distribution by Civil Condition of 1,000 persons of each main Age period.

(1) PROVINCE.

Age period.	Male.			Female.		
	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7
0—5	990	10	...	977	22	1
5—10	941	57	2	836	156	8
10—15	837	158	5	402	572	26
15—20	698	280	12	77	868	55
20—30	289	703	28	19	870	111
30—40	42	903	49	10	726	264
40—60	26	868	106	7	415	578
60 and over	21	739	240	6	131	863

(2) WEST BENGAL.

0—5	998	2	...	992	7	1
5—10	990	10	...	815	178	7
10—15	927	72	1	227	733	40
15—20	658	336	6	30	882	88
20—40	144	825	31	7	738	255
40—60	33	840	127	3	308	689
60 and over	27	627	276	2	84	914

(3) CENTRAL BENGAL.

0—5	997	3	...	989	10	1
5—10	986	13	1	827	166	7
10—15	923	75	2	228	737	35
15—20	673	318	9	37	694	79
20—40	142	827	31	10	748	242
40—60	25	869	106	4	312	680
60 and over	18	744	238	3	90	906

(4) NORTH BENGAL.

0—5	996	4	...	988	11	1
5—10	987	12	1	879	115	6
10—15	920	78	2	336	638	26
15—20	688	303	9	50	897	53
20—40	159	802	39	13	723	264
40—60	23	876	101	6	318	676
60 and over	17	759	224	4	89	907

(5) EAST BENGAL.

0—5	997	3	...	990	9	1
5—10	988	11	1	931	74	5
10—15	947	52	1	456	524	20
15—20	743	249	6	42	907	51
20—40	149	823	28	11	816	173
40—60	21	898	81	5	367	628
60 and over	17	777	206	4	84	912

(6) NORTH BIHAR.

0—5	964	35	1	929	67	4
5—10	793	200	7	666	318	16
10—15	613	371	16	354	611	35
15—20	394	576	30	79	871	50
20—40	109	848	43	13	840	147
40—60	28	858	114	9	509	482
60 and over	23	724	253	5	189	806

(7) SOUTH BIHAR.

0—5	978	21	1	954	43	3
5—10	870	126	4	754	234	12
10—15	693	307	10	331	645	24
15—20	368	611	21	82	875	43
20—40	106	849	54	26	833	142
40—60	37	831	132	14	510	476
60 and over	20	689	291	8	179	813

(8) ORISSA.

0—5	1,000	...	...	1,000	...	...
5—10	894	6	...	959	40	1
10—15	957	42	1	685	325	10
15—20	779	219	2	144	818	38
20—40	171	805	24	11	843	146
40—60	17	884	99	4	455	541
60 and over	14	714	272	3	94	903

(9) CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU.

0—5	993	6	1	987	12	1
5—10	962	37	1	894	102	4
10—15	841	155	4	599	385	16
15—20	570	418	12	229	743	28
20—40	122	843	35	36	838	126
40—60	24	889	96	13	513	474
60 and over	19	769	221	10	172	818

SUBSIDIARY TABLE No. IV.—Showing the Proportion who are

(I) HINDU.

District and Natural Division.	Number per 1,000 aged 0—10 who are married.						Number per 1,000 aged 15—40 who are widowed.					
	Male.			Female.			Male.			Female.		
	1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13
BENGAL	***59***	***44***	***54***	***115***	***111***	***133***	***36***	***37***	***38***	***166***	***172***	***181***
WEST BENGAL	***6***	***4***	***5***	***103***	***121***	***137***	***26***	***32***	***40***	***229***	***263***	***289***
Burdwan	9	5	5	126	133	157	28	38	44	230	273	312
Birbhum	11	9	8	125	134	137	35	46	53	191	238	251
Bankura	5	4	5	118	127	123	25	28	26	207	230	241
Midnapore	6	4	4	92	112	118	23	27	34	229	256	268
Hooghly	5	3	3	92	136	180	31	35	37	277	314	366
Howrah	4	3	4	74	95	148	22	23	35	239	272	235
CENTRAL BENGAL	***7***	***6***	***6***	***87***	***102***	***122***	***30***	***32***	***38***	***255***	***280***	***309***
24-Parganas	8	8	7	97	118	163	26	34	35	233	255	285
Calcutta	18	14	10	42	40	59	29	27	37	270	327	403
Nadia	4	2	5	81	94	100	27	31	40	261	281	287
Murshidabad	6	5	4	93	100	90	30	31	40	236	273	310
Jessore	7	4	5	87	102	137	46	37	38	229	290	319
NORTH BENGAL	***9***	***6***	***6***	***54***	***61***	***66***	***41***	***38***	***37***	***220***	***236***	***233***
Rajshahi	7	7	5	63	75	71	44	41	44	272	304	301
Dinajpur	13	8	7	40	48	54	46	41	40	154	157	159
Jalpaiguri	9	5	6	38	50	32	44	36	31	151	161	129
Darjeeling	5	2	22	9	8	30	32	28	23	66	66	59
Rangpur	8	3	5	71	80	80	37	40	35	288	305	286
Bogra	12	6	6	59	68	95	36	38	46	294	250	281
Pabna	6	4	4	54	62	68	29	34	28	296	283	303
Malda	10	9	8	60	61	63	43	36	43	224	231	233
Kuch Bihar	5	4	5	81	90	85	50	42	37	311	306	243
Sikkim	7	.....	.....	17	.....	.....	12	.....	.....	31	.....	.....
EAST BENGAL	***6***	***5***	***6***	***52***	***64***	***78***	***30***	***30***	***33***	***226***	***247***	***283***
Khulna	7	8	8	95	107	136	38	34	36	246	252	280
Dacca	6	4	6	44	55	67	26	27	32	217	235	277
Mymensingh	5	3	4	37	60	73	33	31	31	251	234	300
Faridpur	9	5	6	73	83	96	32	31	34	254	302	302
Backergunge	7	7	8	65	72	79	30	33	40	222	227	272
Tippera	6	3	3	40	38	63	22	21	25	196	208	240
Noakhali	5	3	4	37	51	73	27	23	41	191	212	275
Chittagong	3	2	2	23	33	44	23	33	25	235	280	294
Chittagong Hill Tracts	3	.....	.....	3	.....	.....	33	.....	.....	29	.....	.....
Hill Tippera	1	.....	.....	8	.....	.....	24	.....	.....	87	.....	.....
NORTH BIHAR	***143***	***115***	***134***	***222***	***191***	***226***	***49***	***47***	***47***	***128***	***112***	***119***
Saran	19	29	32	38	54	62	36	32	38	137	107	115
Champaran	43	42	31	97	85	100	48	48	49	117	90	93
Muzaffarpur	144	128	164	217	199	232	44	45	41	118	106	102
Darbhanga	302	245	256	418	347	375	50	47	49	112	101	111
Bhagalpur	188	138	165	301	262	318	53	58	61	126	125	129
Purnea	49	30	45	154	131	174	67	59	55	184	173	187
SOUTH BIHAR	***80***	***70***	***89***	***144***	***127***	***156***	***48***	***49***	***42***	***125***	***119***	***111***
Patna	69	75	90	118	136	153	52	47	47	127	116	120
Gaya	70	63	82	140	110	137	48	58	48	114	119	107
Shahabad	60	59	68	87	94	140	45	53	38	145	130	116
Monghyr	116	84	118	220	178	230	48	37	35	114	104	102
ORISSA	***3***	***3***	***3***	***19***	***18***	***32***	***18***	***20***	***23***	***121***	***120***	***123***
Cuttack	3	2	3	14	14	27	17	17	21	118	111	116
Balasore	6	6	6	39	35	55	18	21	25	141	152	157
Puri	2	2	2	8	8	18	20	23	26	104	101	101
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU.	***27***	***23***	***33***	***71***	***67***	***81***	***31***	***33***	***27***	***112***	***112***	***97***
Hazaribagh	66	59	82	139	137	168	43	40	32	134	135	119
Ranchi	26	26	35	56	56	62	40	46	35	118	112	96
Palamau	25	19	21	92	90	96	27	33	27	135	138	131
Manbhum	7	11	5	40	38	17	24	24	15	110	103	59
Singhbum	39	23	37	110	102	135	31	31	27	125	119	117
Santhal Parganas	7	8	8	39	27	41	27	25	19	86	86	56
Angul	19	8	7	45	17	17	33	34	23	86	78	86
Chota Nagpur Tributary States.	7	6	7	24	21	28	23	27	22	86	94	79
Orissa Tributary States												

MARRIED AND WIDOWED AT CERTAIN AGES.

(2) MUSALMAN.

District and Natural Division.	Number per 1,000 aged 0—10 who are married.						Number per 1,000 aged 15—40 who are widowed.					
	Male.			Female.			Male.			Female.		
	1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13
BENGAL	***12***	***11***	***12***	***61***	***65***	***78***	***25***	***23***	***24***	***122***	***126***	***138***
WEST BENGAL	***8***	***6***	***6***	***79***	***80***	***99***	***23***	***23***	***27***	***150***	***171***	***214***
Burdwan	8	7	5	115	105	128	31	26	27	177	200	246
Birbhum	12	8	15	81	89	109	18	19	30	126	161	189
Bankura	7	6	4	98	104	82	16	22	21	140	175	211
Midnapore	8	7	4	79	71	73	19	23	24	129	142	176
Hooghly	7	4	3	51	74	110	23	26	29	166	182	234
Howrah	7	4	4	40	46	71	22	21	23	142	144	189
CENTRAL BENGAL	***9***	***6***	***5***	***87***	***81***	***95***	***22***	***17***	***22***	***157***	***178***	***176***
24-Parganas	11	10	6	100	99	112	19	22	24	131	143	149
Calcutta	22	16	13	39	34	37	29	20	27	121	131	145
Nadia	3	2	4	76	64	80	15	11	21	169	183	178
Murshidabad	8	6	3	88	90	71	16	15	20	172	193	223
Jessore	12	6	7	94	86	127	31	19	20	161	183	167
NORTH BENGAL	***8***	***7***	***7***	***72***	***75***	***77***	***28***	***25***	***25***	***128***	***133***	***142***
Rajshahi	7	6	6	94	69	57	26	18	24	135	145	153
Dinajpur	11	10	9	67	79	90	39	40	34	122	128	131
Jalpaiguri	12	4	6	47	49	41	44	37	36	113	123	107
Darjeeling	25	10	8	32	33	37	60	38	36	104	98	95
Rangpur	7	9	7	89	103	102	29	31	27	125	142	150
Bogra	12	8	11	57	75	106	29	23	23	104	104	126
Pabna	6	4	4	42	42	52	14	13	12	117	108	115
Malda	9	8	5	68	48	65	19	12	24	184	185	219
Kutch Bihar	6	6	5	107	115	94	45	34	27	164	165	148
Sikkim	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....
EAST BENGAL	***7***	***7***	***7***	***39***	***45***	***60***	***20***	***21***	***20***	***101***	***97***	***111***
Khulna	12	9	9	72	83	109	28	29	26	133	137	141
Dacca	5	5	6	26	34	46	16	14	16	104	101	117
Mymensingh	5	4	4	30	46	68	18	20	17	93	96	101
Faridpur	12	11	8	95	75	89	18	16	17	122	120	143
Backergunj	12	16	17	70	78	93	29	26	33	90	87	108
Tippera	6	5	3	22	23	34	14	14	15	85	81	88
Noakhali	4	3	3	17	19	33	19	16	23	89	63	76
Chittagong	2	2	2	6	6	11	19	14	17	116	106	129
Chittagong Hill Tracts	5	.....	.....	11	.....	.....	22	.....	.....	106	.....	.....
Hill Tippera	5	.....	.....	53	.....	.....	29	.....	.....	125	.....	.....
NORTH BIHAR	***40***	***36***	***41***	***88***	***92***	***110***	***38***	***34***	***35***	***136***	***124***	***134***
Saran	19	20	30	42	29	60	20	20	36	120	92	106
Champaran	27	37	40	63	83	89	44	50	46	111	96	97
Muzaffarpur	49	69	69	107	132	143	39	37	36	126	117	118
Darbhanga	55	73	73	103	143	150	31	32	34	123	113	130
Bhagalpur	68	52	68	157	146	174	39	36	36	129	129	144
Purnea	19	6	17	56	59	88	42	29	31	164	154	164
SOUTH BIHAR	***37***	***33***	***38***	***76***	***74***	***84***	***37***	***37***	***32***	***125***	***124***	***126***
Patna	20	18	21	40	47	53	39	35	35	122	119	129
Gaya	46	34	40	83	76	95	40	45	34	135	140	133
Shahabad	41	47	43	80	80	79	38	41	32	117	112	115
Monghyr	40	35	48	97	90	109	30	29	26	121	118	124
ORISSA	***2***	***4***	***3***	***24***	***9***	***13***	***15***	***15***	***15***	***118***	***132***	***142***
Cuttack	1	4	3	7	9	9	14	11	14	123	133	147
Balasore	5	4	3	71	16	24	19	17	17	129	145	157
Puri	...	2	3	4	2	10	14	22	15	81	104	99
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	***53***	***55***	***67***	***126***	***127***	***147***	***28***	***46***	***26***	***106***	***129***	***106***
Hazaribagh	83	90	107	161	168	203	28	36	27	104	115	108
Ranchi	36	37	36	77	76	73	35	105	32	115	190	92
Palamau	54	33	45	132	120	138	29	29	24	96	112	107
Manbhum	20	16	16	61	58	31	14	30	17	93	101	114
Singhbhum	53	48	62	135	137	154	24	29	29	107	109	110
Santhal Parganas	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	13	25	116	84	90
Angul	27	17	6	65	29	37	41	45	32	96	118	82
Chota Nagpur Tributary States	19	12	6	19	35	11	15	28	17	113	115	92
Orissa Tributary States												

SUBSIDIARY TABLE V—Distribution by Civil Condition

Caste.	Distribution of 1,000 Males of each age by Civil Condition.																	
	Total.			0–5			5–12			12–20			20–40			40 and over.		
	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15	16	17	18	19
AHIR AND GOALA (Hindu)	***382***	***560***	***58***	***982***	***17***	***1***	***780***	***214***	***6***	***470***	***513***	***17***	***85***	***857***	***58***	***19***	***807***	***174***
Bengal Proper	458	478	64	998	2	...	979	20	1	771	223	6	163	790	47	32	762	206
Bihar	354	588	58	978	21	1	736	257	7	384	596	20	65	875	60	17	818	165
Chota Nagpur	460	488	52	991	9	...	853	146	1	546	440	14	105	832	63	20	795	185
AJLAF (ATRAF)-(Musalman)	.....	.....	.....	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Bengal Proper	492	479	29	999	1	...	975	25	...	743	252	5	77	897	26	19	885	100
BABHAN (Hindu)	***482***	***455***	***63***	***989***	***10***	***1***	***943***	***55***	***2***	***624***	***363***	***13***	***239***	***705***	***56***	***80***	***728***	***192***
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	498	447	55	989	10	1	969	29	2	661	328	11	243	717	40	71	744	185
Other Bihar Districts	478	457	65	999	9	1	939	59	2	615	372	13	240	698	62	84	722	194
Hazaribagh	441	491	68	955	43	2	874	122	4	494	477	29	184	757	59	49	736	215
BAGDI (Hindu)	***479***	***476***	***45***	***999***	***1***	...	***988***	***12***	...	***785***	***212***	***3***	***110***	***857***	***33***	***17***	***819***	***164***
West Benzal	478	477	45	999	1	...	988	12	...	795	202	3	107	881	32	17	820	163
Central Bengal	484	470	46	999	1	...	986	13	1	732	244	4	120	846	34	17	818	165
BAISHNAB (Hindu)	***483***	***455***	***62***	***999***	***1***	...	***980***	***19***	***1***	***756***	***236***	***8***	***170***	***781***	***49***	***75***	***737***	***190***
Bengal Proper	475	481	64	999	1	...	980	19	1	761	241	8	157	791	52	51	751	198
Orissa and Manbhum	542	413	45	999	1	...	977	22	1	788	206	6	252	714	34	220	640	140
BARHI (Hindu)	***392***	***555***	***53***	***965***	***34***	***1***	***768***	***224***	***8***	***432***	***519***	***29***	***84***	***867***	***49***	***30***	***818***	***152***
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	291	639	70	992	93	5	482	490	28	195	743	62	43	882	75	13	817	170
Other Bihar Districts	389	558	53	982	18	...	818	178	4	407	567	26	66	883	51	28	817	155
Hazaribagh, Cuttack and Puri	464	496	40	976	24	...	883	116	1	688	300	12	136	831	31	42	820	138
BARHI (Musalman)	.....	.....	.....	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Champaran	442	499	59	906	94	...	894	102	4	528	466	6	54	853	93	10	825	165
BAURI (Hindu)	***497***	***473***	***30***	***999***	***1***	...	***984***	***16***	...	***742***	***253***	***5***	***99***	***876***	***25***	***10***	***878***	***112***
West Bengal	481	491	28	999	1	...	983	17	...	676	318	6	61	911	28	11	888	101
Manbhum	493	479	28	998	2	...	971	29	...	626	368	6	46	924	30	10	879	114
Sonthal Parganas	474	496	30	994	6	...	963	37	...	378	610	12	44	924	32	20	869	111
Orissa	528	439	33	1,000	...	...	994	6	...	918	82	...	189	800	29	9	866	125
BHUIYA (Hindu)	***493***	***469***	***38***	***994***	***6***	...	***948***	***51***	***1***	***637***	***352***	***11***	***93***	***865***	***42***	***18***	***844***	***138***
Midnapore	515	461	34	1,000	...	...	983	17	...	765	228	7	102	861	35	14	860	126
Gaya and Bhagalpur	434	527	39	992	8	...	924	73	3	519	466	15	51	900	49	13	861	126
Chota Nagpur Plateau	510	462	38	994	6	...	963	36	1	600	389	11	106	852	42	19	838	143
BHUIYA (Animist)	.....	.....	.....	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Chota Nagpur Plateau	537	410	53	986	14	...	969	29	2	735	237	28	145	788	67	42	793	165
BHUMIJ (Hindu)	***564***	***405***	***31***	***999***	***1***	...	***987***	***13***	...	***848***	***148***	***4***	***190***	***777***	***33***	***22***	***864***	***114***
West Bengal	543	430	27	1,000	...	...	987	13	...	820	178	2	151	822	27	28	872	100
Chota Nagpur Plateau	572	396	32	999	1	...	987	13	...	856	139	5	202	763	35	20	862	118
BHUMIJ (Animist)	.....	.....	.....	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Chota Nagpur Plateau	601	366	33	997	3	...	986	14	...	890	106	4	255	700	45	21	866	113
BRAHMAN (Hindu)	***485***	***459***	***56***	***997***	***3***	...	***967***	***33***	...	***726***	***268***	***6***	***189***	***771***	***40***	***57***	***753***	***190***
Bengal Proper	510	439	51	999	1	...	989	10	1	813	184	3	208	761	31	72	749	179
Bihar	472	469	59	994	6	...	940	59	1	643	348	9	194	735	61	61	747	192
Orissa	407	474	50	1,000	...	...	987	13	...	753	244	3	144	823	33	25	770	205
Chota Nagpur	439	493	65	994	6	...	903	95	2	555	422	23	183	759	58	63	751	186
CHAMAR (Hindu)	***394***	***568***	***38***	***970***	***29***	***1***	***759***	***235***	***6***	***434***	***548***	***18***	***59***	***902***	***39***	***15***	***864***	***121***
Bengal Proper	477	490	33	999	1	...	975	24	1	695	299	6	112	856	32	16	874	110
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	277	678	45	917	82	1	479	505	16	202	763	35	31	930	39	9	867	124
Other Bihar Districts	401	559	40	978	21	1	794	201	5	453	532	15	55	903	42	17	850	134
Cuttack	536	438	24	1,000	...	...	968	32	...	815	184	1	148	841	11	5	880	115
Chota Nagpur Plateau	467	507	26	991	8	1	854	144	2	489	497	14	81	890	29	19	885	96
CHASA (Hindu)	.....	.....	.....	.....	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Orissa	508	463	29	1,000	...	...	984	16	...	830	168	2	183	816	21	9	881	110
DHANUK (Hindu)	***310***	***636***	***54***	***961***	***38***	***1***	***635***	***353***	***12***	***262***	***704***	***34***	***29***	***913***	***58***	***12***	***850***	***138***
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	239	703	58	925	73	2	472	510	18	135	824	41	15	923	62	7	858	135
Other Bihar Districts	347	601	52	979	21	...	755	236	9	327	648	25	36	908	56	14	846	140
DHOBA (Hindu)	***462***	***492***	***46***	***991***	***9***	...	***911***	***86***	***3***	***668***	***321***	***11***	***125***	***836***	***41***	***18***	***828***	***154***
Bengal Proper	506	443	51	998	2	...	987	12	1	813	182	5	183	776	41	27	802	171
Bihar	358	586	56	972	27	1	732	260	8	358	618	24	58	884	58	16	822	162
Orissa	506	463	31	1,000	...	...	987	13	...	819	178	3	115	861	24	6	876	118
Chota Nagpur	427	529	44	999	9	1	873	125	3	439	538	23	54	904	42	18	832	154

AND AGE OF 1,000 OF EACH SEX IN SOME OF THE MAIN CASTES.

DISTRIBUTION OF 1,000 FEMALES OF EACH AGE BY CIVIL CONDITION.																	CASTE.
TOTAL.			0—5			5—12			12—20			20—40			40 and over.			
Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	
20	21	22	23	24	25	26	27	28	29	30	31	32	33	34	35	36	37	
259	**539**	**182**	**947**	**50**	**3**	**595**	**389**	**16**	**142**	**811**	**47**	**12**	**844**	**144**	**5**	**424**	**571**	AHIR AND GOALA (Hindu).
239	464	297	988	11	1	823	302	15	62	843	95	6	680	314	2	225	773	Bengal Proper.
251	585	164	958	39	3	569	414	17	128	835	37	10	876	114	3	462	535	Bihar.
329	500	171	964	34	2	720	267	13	251	701	48	29	806	165	10	415	575	Chota Nagpur.
.....	.....	.....	.....	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	AJLAF (ATRAF)-(Musalman).
295	521	184	988	11	1	719	273	8	29	930	32	6	823	171	1	275	724	Bengal Proper.
275	**471**	**254**	**978**	**19**	**3**	**838**	**153**	**9**	**205**	**740**	**55**	**8**	**782**	**210**	**5**	**359**	**636**	BABHAN (Hindu).
288	447	265	979	18	4	862	130	8	225	709	66	8	772	220	6	325	669	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga.
270	479	251	980	18	2	840	151	9	204	747	49	8	787	205	5	372	623	Other Bihar Districts.
238	530	232	945	53	2	837	445	18	65	852	83	7	706	227	3	321	676	Hazaribagh.
261	**463**	**276**	**994**	**5**	**1**	**706**	**284**	**10**	**42**	**871**	**87**	**4**	**712**	**284**	**2**	**234**	**764**	BAGDI (Hindu).
252	483	285	995	5	...	698	298	10	43	868	89	4	708	288	2	223	775	West Bengal.
290	460	250	992	8	...	749	241	10	40	880	80	6	724	270	3	273	724	Central Bengal.
293	**493**	**354**	**993**	**6**	**1**	**720**	**267**	**13**	**82**	**823**	**95**	**8**	**632**	**360**	**3**	**214**	**783**	BAISHNAB (Hindu).
213	418	369	992	7	1	703	283	14	64	834	102	8	613	379	1	205	794	Bengal Proper.
302	484	244	994	5	1	831	164	5	223	735	42	11	802	187	7	293	698	Orissa and Manbhum.
273	**562**	**165**	**949**	**49**	**2**	**614**	**372**	**14**	**157**	**802**	**41**	**11**	**827**	**112**	**6**	**454**	**540**	BARHI (Hindu).
197	639	164	887	109	4	266	697	37	82	854	64	9	878	113	5	488	515	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga.
276	657	167	966	32	2	672	320	8	138	826	36	11	879	110	7	456	537	Other Bihar Districts.
324	514	162	954	15	1	785	209	6	231	733	34	11	872	117	6	429	565	Hazaribagh Cuttack and Puri.
.....	.....	.....	.....	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	BARHI (Musalman).
355	463	182	963	37	...	856	126	18	265	642	93	30	779	185	12	482	506	Champaran.
339	**477**	**184**	**997**	**3**	**...**	**891**	**106**	**3**	**234**	**728**	**38**	**9**	**849**	**142**	**2**	**415**	**583**	BAURI (Hindu).
338	493	169	997	3	...	861	135	4	118	831	51	5	843	152	2	408	590	West Bengal.
362	468	170	995	5	...	857	139	4	206	755	39	9	809	182	2	398	600	Manbhum.
341	514	145	987	13	...	818	180	2	99	851	50	16	858	126	5	450	545	Santhal Parganas.
390	449	156	999	1	...	982	17	1	451	534	15	15	880	105	3	428	569	Orissa.
334	**473**	**143**	**992**	**8**	**...**	**879**	**114**	**7**	**302**	**670**	**28**	**23**	**840**	**137**	**6**	**458**	**536**	BHUIYA (Hindu).
337	452	211	993	7	...	836	154	10	178	776	46	13	758	229	2	354	644	Midnapore.
354	525	121	984	15	1	813	182	5	176	811	13	15	870	115	7	501	492	Gaya and Bhagalpur.
393	460	147	992	6	2	898	95	7	342	627	31	26	833	141	6	450	544	Chota Nagpur Plateau.
.....	.....	.....	.....	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	BHUIYA (Animist).
440	394	167	994	3	3	943	55	2	468	465	67	42	805	153	14	440	546	Chota Nagpur Plateau.
411	**419**	**170**	**994**	**5**	**1**	**939**	**59**	**2**	**407**	**566**	**27**	**36**	**811**	**153**	**6**	**364**	**630**	BHUMIJ (Hindu).
408	405	189	991	8	1	924	73	3	328	636	36	10	783	207	4	331	665	West Bengal.
412	423	165	995	4	1	943	55	2	459	549	25	42	818	140	7	379	621	Chota Nagpur Plateau.
.....	.....	.....	.....	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	BHUMIJ (Animist).
500	377	123	981	4	15	960	31	9	686	286	28	91	798	111	94	456	450	Chota Nagpur Plateau.
270	**458**	**272**	**990**	**9**	**1**	**790**	**201**	**9**	**102**	**832**	**66**	**6**	**743**	**251**	**3**	**292**	**705**	BRAHMAN (Hindu).
273	441	286	993	6	1	800	191	9	67	862	71	6	718	276	2	233	765	Bengal Proper.
280	456	264	983	16	1	811	180	9	129	746	55	8	737	255	5	396	599	Bihar.
248	481	271	999	1	...	702	294	7	48	888	64	4	756	240	2	298	700	Orissa.
259	504	237	979	20	1	634	353	13	74	836	90	5	746	249	4	356	640	Chota Nagpur.
284	**538**	**178**	**944**	**54**	**2**	**647**	**339**	**14**	**183**	**782**	**35**	**15**	**861**	**124**	**7**	**464**	**529**	CHAMAR (Hindu).
316	470	214	991	8	1	785	208	7	71	877	52	10	761	229	4	297	699	Bengal Proper.
191	645	164	887	108	5	309	609	32	78	881	41	7	869	124	2	406	592	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga.
297	548	155	955	43	2	704	285	11	212	756	32	18	865	117	9	466	525	Other Bihar Districts.
348	457	197	998	2	...	994	74	2	321	651	28	13	828	159	2	363	635	Cuttack.
343	521	136	997	31	2	717	273	10	221	745	34	16	866	118	7	470	523	Chota Nagpur Plateau.
.....	.....	.....	.....	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	CHASA (Hindu).
367	461	172	1,000	...	...	933	66	1	342	642	16	11	853	104	5	381	614	Orissa.
207	**609**	**184**	**913**	**84**	**3**	**395**	**576**	**29**	**79**	**879**	**42**	**6**	**855**	**139**	**5**	**439**	**556**	DHANUK (Hindu).
160	662	178	863	133	4	204	751	45	41	909	50	4	869	127	3	475	522	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga.
230	582	188	939	58	3	504	476	20	98	864	38	8	847	145	6	429	574	Other Bihar Districts.
308	**494**	**198**	**982**	**17**	**1**	**769**	**223**	**8**	**181**	**767**	**52**	**12**	**813**	**175**	**5**	**372**	**623**	DHOBA (Hindu).
300	454	246	994	5	1	795	198	7	115	818	67	8	727	265	3	269	728	Bengal Proper.
267	568	165	948	51	1	690	373	18	156	782	62	21	802	117	9	487	504	Bihar.
356	488	156	999	1	...	924	74	2	302	676	22	10	872	118	3	392	615	Orissa.
320	508	172	979	19	2	696	297	8	162	799	39	11	826	163	6	267	627	Chota Nagpur.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE V.—Distribution by Civil Condition

Caste.	Distribution of 1,000 Males of each age by Civil Condition.																	
	Total.			0—5			5—12			12—20			20—40			40 and over.		
	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15	16	17	18	19
DHOBI (Musalman) ...	**423**	**530**	**47**	**986**	**14**	...	**839**	**159**	**2**	**446**	**537**	**17**	**77**	**877**	**46**	**15**	**827**	**160**
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	344	600	56	983	17	...	734	263	3	277	691	32	31	915	54	12	826	162
Other Bihar Districts ...	447	509	44	986	14	...	870	129	1	459	497	14	91	866	43	14	827	159
DHUNIA (Musalman) ...	**493**	**535**	**42**	**989**	**11**	...	**839**	**158**	**3**	**433**	**549**	**18**	**51**	**900**	**49**	**19**	**862**	**126**
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	386	577	37	979	20	1	27864	231	5	332	644	24	36	920	44	12	893	98
Other Bihar Districts including Malda.	443	513	44	993	7	...	5	113	2	489	503	8	89	891	51	12	846	142
DOM (Hindu)	**437**	**523**	**40**	**994**	**6**	...	**941**	**58**	**1**	**586**	**405**	**9**	**64**	**901**	**35**	**18**	**844**	**138**
West Bengal	438	517	45	998	2	...	974	26	...	646	349	5	68	894	38	15	832	153
Monghyr and Sonthal Parganas.	433	536	31	984	16	...	869	128	3	468	512	20	58	913	29	29	867	104
Manbhum	444	527	29	997	3	...	939	60	1	500	492	8	41	931	28	9	883	108
DOSADH (Hindu)	**352**	**597**	**51**	**975**	**24**	**1**	**740**	**253**	**7**	**386**	**588**	**26**	**50**	**898**	**52**	**15**	**846**	**139**
Muzaffarpur	322	631	47	958	41	1	682	306	12	311	655	34	30	920	50	10	877	113
Other Bihar Districts ...	352	595	53	979	20	1	753	241	6	394	541	25	176	650	174	17	835	148
Chota Nagpur	465	507	38	984	15	1	853	141	4	523	452	25	72	883	45	16	864	120
EURASIAN (Christian) ...	**658**	**299**	**43**	**1,000**	...	...	**993**	**7**	...	**980**	**18**	**2**	**485**	**481**	**34**	**168**	**657**	**175**
FAKIR (Musalman) ...	**481**	**471**	**48**	**996**	**4**	...	**933**	**64**	**3**	**592**	**396**	**12**	**96**	**842**	**62**	**36**	**826**	**138**
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	441	520	39	996	4	...	890	101	9	318	663	19	63	896	41	23	864	113
Other Bihar Districts ...	496	454	50	995	5	...	948	51	1	616	375	9	109	821	70	41	812	147
FIRINGI (Christian) ...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
East Bengal	566	392	42	1,000	...	...	992	1	...	944	56	...	319	641	40	31	829	140
GAUR (Hindu)	**508**	**459**	**33**	**1,000**	...	...	**979**	**21**	...	**796**	**201**	**3**	**132**	**841**	**27**	**10**	**866**	**124**
Orissa Districts	520	446	34	1,000	...	...	989	11	...	856	142	2	150	827	23	10	859	131
Orissa States	488	482	30	1,000	...	...	963	37	...	688	306	6	101	860	39	11	880	109
HAJJAM AND NAPIT (Hindu)	**438**	**508**	**54**	**985**	**15**	...	**875**	**121**	**4**	**592**	**393**	**15**	**115**	**838**	**47**	**25**	**800**	**175**
Bengal Proper	496	447	57	997	3	...	986	13	1	732	262	6	167	790	43	27	775	198
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	290	651	59	993	05	2	565	420	15	232	724	44	38	898	66	16	848	136
Other Bihar Districts ...	390	562	48	983	16	1	819	177	4	403	579	18	53	899	48	22	828	150
Chota Nagpur	433	519	48	979	20	1	834	162	4	488	492	20	95	857	48	33	803	164
HAJJAM (Musalman) ...	**469**	**482**	**49**	**994**	**6**	...	**938**	**59**	**3**	**635**	**347**	**18**	**75**	**875**	**50**	**19**	**832**	**149**
Bengal Proper	449	510	41	995	5	...	958	42	...	699	297	4	89	865	46	6	862	132
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	467	469	64	994	6	...	937	58	5	670	307	27	69	863	68	15	806	179
Other Bihar Districts ...	474	483	43	994	6	...	935	61	4	608	375	17	73	883	44	23	839	139
HO (Hindu)	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Orissa States	606	374	20	1,000	...	...	987	13	...	853	145	2	240	742	18	27	880	93
HO (Animist)	**646**	**330**	**24**	**999**	**1**	...	**994**	**6**	...	**901**	**97**	**2**	**317**	**659**	**24**	**56**	**830**	**114**
Singhbhum	660	315	25	1,000	...	...	997	3	...	901	97	2	342	633	25	69	809	122
Tributary States	610	367	23	998	2	...	986	14	...	899	98	3	255	723	22	38	875	95
JOLAHA (Musalman) ...	**439**	**523**	**38**	**991**	**9**	...	**883**	**115**	**2**	**540**	**446**	**14**	**62**	**900**	**38**	**12**	**864**	**124**
Bengal Proper	471	500	29	997	3	...	976	23	1	688	305	7	71	899	30	9	898	93
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	380	560	51	986	14	...	897	188	5	337	641	22	57	915	48	10	839	151
Other Bihar Districts ...	428	528	48	991	9	...	852	145	3	513	470	18	71	884	45	18	839	143
Chota Nagpur Plateau ...	421	543	36	986	14	...	817	180	3	389	594	17	40	923	37	9	860	131
JUGI (Hindu)	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Bengal Proper	489	460	51	998	2	...	987	12	1	811	183	6	171	789	40	28	803	169
KAHAR (Hindu)	**394**	**558**	**48**	**980**	**19**	**1**	**879**	**117**	**4**	**430**	**548**	**22**	**64**	**886**	**50**	**23**	**839**	**138**
Bihar	385	566	49	981	18	1	880	116	4	415	563	20	57	893	50	16	844	140
Chota Nagpur	466	490	44	977	22	1	873	123	4	530	439	32	126	828	46	85	787	128
KAIBARTTA (unspecified) (Hindu).	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Bengal Proper	481	481	58	998	2	...	987	12	1	825	170	5	215	745	40	32	774	194
KAIBARTTA, CHASI (Hindu)	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Bengal Proper	522	439	39	998	1	1	990	9	1	833	163	2	163	810	27	20	826	154

AND AGE OF 1,000 OF EACH SEX IN SOME OF THE MAIN CASTES—*continued*.

DISTRIBUTION OF 1,000 FEMALES OF EACH AGE BY CIVIL CONDITION.																		CASTE.
Total.			0—5			5—12			12—20			20—40			40 and over.			
Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	
20	21	22	23	24	25	26	27	28	29	30	31	32	33	34	35	36	37	
298	*547*	*155*	*967*	*30*	*3*	*718*	*274*	*8*	*186*	*784*	*30*	*24*	*862*	*114*	*5*	*474*	*521*	DHOBI (Musalman).
238	608	154	933	63	4	533	451	11	74	882	44	9	867	124	4	522	474	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga.
317	528	155	976	21	3	760	233	7	220	754	26	28	860	112	6	457	537	Other Bihar Districts.
292	*534*	*174*	*966*	*32*	*2*	*669*	*318*	*13*	*149*	*818*	*33*	*11*	*855*	*134*	*6*	*441*	*553*	DHUNIA (Musalman).
255	585	160	960	39	1	559	434	17	97	868	35	11	885	104	3	485	512	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga.
312	506	182	969	28	3	755	234	11	176	791	33	12	837	151	8	415	577	Other Bihar Districts including Malda.
283	*529*	*188*	*982*	*17*	*1*	*685*	*298*	*17*	*78*	*875*	*47*	*7*	*832*	*161*	*6*	*373*	*621*	DOM (Hindu).
258	523	219	989	10	1	664	325	11	50	903	47	4	805	191	3	297	700	West Bengal.
321	540	139	969	28	3	696	273	31	127	827	46	16	885	99	14	509	477	Monghyr and Santhal Parganas.
327	536	137	988	12	...	766	229	5	92	858	50	8	878	114	3	480	517	Manbhum.
254	*583*	*163*	*944*	*53*	*3*	*586*	*399*	*15*	*150*	*812*	*38*	*11*	*867*	*122*	*6*	*476*	*518*	DOSADH (Hindu).
223	605	172	914	82	4	556	423	21	96	866	38	8	869	123	3	488	509	Muzaffarpur.
258	580	162	940	48	3	595	391	14	162	801	37	11	867	122	7	474	519	Other Bihar Districts.
308	542	150	970	24	...	705	287	8	175	775	50	16	853	131	7	454	539	Chota Nagpur.
586	*322*	*92*	*1,000*	...	...	*996*	*4*	...	*209*	*183*	*8*	*260*	*661*	*79*	*112*	*453*	*435*	EURASIAN (Christian).
329	*497*	*174*	*965*	*33*	*2*	*833*	*163*	*4*	*232*	*729*	*39*	*18*	*853*	*129*	*15*	*447*	*538*	FAKIR (Musalman).
310	514	176	946	50	4	768	228	6	163	794	43	14	859	127	7	454	539	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga.
337	490	173	974	25	1	858	138	4	256	706	38	19	831	130	18	444	538	Other Bihar Districts.
...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	FIRINGI (Christian).
466	355	180	992	8	...	1,000	...	...	497	475	28	45	768	186	46	250	674	East Bengal.
344	*463*	*193*	*999*	*1*	...	*898*	*100*	*2*	*277*	*697*	*26*	*12*	*855*	*133*	*5*	*336*	*659*	GAUR (Hindu).
332	458	210	999	1	...	928	70	2	277	698	25	8	853	140	4	325	671	Orissa Districts.
368	473	159	1,000	...	...	845	151	4	276	697	27	19	862	119	7	365	628	Orissa States.
270	*506*	*224*	*969*	*28*	*3*	*660*	*326*	*14*	*91*	*840*	*69*	*8*	*777*	*215*	*7*	*330*	*663*	HAJJAM AND NAPIT (Hindu).
277	447	276	992	7	1	740	250	10	66	849	85	8	695	297	3	220	768	Bengal Proper.
213	622	165	890	102	8	379	590	31	94	851	55	6	854	140	4	409	586	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga.
272	552	176	959	38	3	639	346	15	134	826	50	10	858	132	13	426	561	Other Bihar Districts.
301	531	168	979	19	2	669	342	9	136	813	51	11	841	148	5	394	601	Chota Nagpur.
319	*503*	*176*	*985*	*14*	*1*	*84*	*179*	*7*	*215*	*754*	*31*	*13*	*861*	*126*	*5*	*421*	*574*	HAJJAM (Musalman).
262	514	224	961	39	...	722	271	7	47	899	54	11	812	177	...	254	706	Bengal Proper.
318	483	199	99	3	3	750	240	10	288	695	17	10	840	141	8	402	590	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga.
329	512	159	987	13	...	846	147	5	225	744	31	14	873	113	5	457	538	Other Bihar Districts.
...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	HO (Hindu).
528	373	99	999	1	...	979	20	1	700	290	10	107	807	86	15	501	484	Orissa States.
581	*325*	*94*	*999*	*1*	...	*988*	*11*	*1*	*783*	*210*	*7*	*245*	*680*	*75*	*103*	*462*	*435*	HO (Animist).
590	314	96	999	1	...	991	8	1	780	304	7	287	633	80	129	450	421	Singhbhum.
559	350	91	999	1	...	981	18	1	767	225	8	141	794	65	37	494	469	Tributary States.
295	*546*	*159*	*977*	*20*	*3*	*704*	*287*	*9*	*119*	*850*	*31*	*10*	*868*	*122*	*5*	*444*	*551*	JOLAHA (Musalman).
305	516	179	987	12	1	739	253	8	69	899	32	8	847	145	4	323	673	Bengal Proper.
240	604	156	956	32	2	584	401	15	146	822	32	8	889	103	5	507	488	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga.
287	548	165	973	22	5	737	253	8	182	789	29	12	871	117	7	489	504	Other Bihar Districts.
322	561	117	971	27	2	651	341	8	103	868	29	11	890	99	5	517	478	Chota Nagpur Plateau.
...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	JUGI (Hindu).
301	445	254	990	9	1	902	192	6	93	835	72	8	726	266	3	224	773	Bengal Proper.
268	*538*	*194*	*977*	*21*	*2*	*727*	*263*	*10*	*121*	*847*	*32*	*11*	*853*	*136*	*7*	*408*	*585*	KAHAR (Hindu).
260	544	196	977	22	1	719	271	10	113	855	32	10	855	135	7	411	582	Bihar.
330	467	183	982	17	1	761	212	7	184	788	28	15	838	147	8	378	614	Chota Nagpur.
...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	KAIBARTTA (Unspecified) (Hindu).
242	437	321	992	7	1	721	267	12	45	852	103	5	652	343	2	171	827	Bengal Proper.
...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	KAIBARTTA, CHASI (Hindu).
265	460	275	995	4	1	728	260	12	26	479	504	4	713	284	2	226	772	Bengal Proper.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE V.—Distribution by Civil Condition

Caste.	Distribution of 1,000 Males of each age by Civil Condition.																	
	Total.			0—5			5—12			12—20			20—40			40 and over.		
	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15	16	17	18	19
KAMAR AND LOHAR (Hindu)	***454***	***499***	***47***	***981***	***18***	***1***	***901***	***95***	***4***	***625***	***362***	***13***	***109***	***849***	***42***	***24***	***826***	***156***
Bengal Proper	484	463	53	999	1	...	984	16	...	759	234	7	147	817	36	29	783	188
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	317	634	49	906	91	3	843	342	15	287	683	30	38	910	52	19	862	119
Other Bihar districts ...	408	544	48	981	16	3	853	144	3	460	520	20	69	883	48	22	828	150
Orissa	506	460	34	999	1	...	989	11	...	830	168	2	156	822	22	8	860	132
Chota Nagpur Plateau ...	513	449	38	985	15	...	943	54	3	685	306	11	112	844	44	29	848	129
KANDU (Hindu)	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Bihar	394	555	51	975	24	1	828	167	5	424	552	24	62	887	51	20	828	152
KAYASTHA (Hindu) ...	***520***	***430***	***50***	***997***	***3***	...	***984***	***15***	***1***	***840***	***153***	***5***	***215***	***749***	***36***	***51***	***781***	***168***
Bengal Proper	535	420	45	998	1	1	992	7	1	881	116	3	220	749	31	45	797	158
Bihar	474	480	66	990	9	1	955	44	1	697	294	9	200	745	55	68	727	205
Orissa	498	461	40	1,000	...	...	989	11	...	899	99	2	217	764	19	34	815	151
KHANDAIT (Hindu) ...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Orissa	542	425	33	1,000	...	...	990	10	...	879	119	2	203	774	21	12	856	132
KOIRI (Hindu)	***370***	***571***	***59***	***981***	***18***	***1***	***769***	***226***	***5***	***416***	***566***	***18***	***81***	***863***	***56***	***18***	***808***	***174***
Bihar	367	573	60	981	18	1	770	225	5	419	564	17	81	863	56	18	805	177
Chota Nagpur	407	547	46	983	15	2	762	236	2	394	584	22	81	833	66	14	853	133
KUMHAR (Hindu)	***497***	***531***	***59***	***983***	***16***	***1***	***862***	***133***	***5***	***570***	***416***	***14***	***97***	***859***	***44***	***20***	***810***	***170***
Bengal Proper	489	451	60	998	2	...	980	18	2	761	232	7	158	800	42	30	763	207
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	280	657	63	902	94	4	827	450	23	222	735	43	28	912	60	13	830	157
Other Bihar Districts ...	380	584	56	978	21	1	797	199	4	394	587	19	50	900	50	15	818	167
Orissa	463	499	38	1,000	...	...	983	17	...	789	208	3	103	871	26	7	855	138
Chota Nagpur Plateau ...	451	512	37	994	6	...	896	102	2	513	474	13	77	885	38	13	853	134
KURMI (Hindu)	***404***	***549***	***47***	***989***	***10***	***1***	***847***	***149***	***4***	***453***	***508***	***9***	***81***	***876***	***43***	***27***	***821***	***152***
West Bengal	470	508	22	999	1	...	963	36	1	693	306	9	59	921	20	11	904	85
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	318	635	47	966	33	1	644	345	11	296	701	33	46	913	47	10	871	119
Other Bihar Districts ...	377	555	68	988	13	1	821	175	4	483	501	14	119	881	60	41	764	195
Chota Nagpur Plateau ...	448	525	27	996	3	1	969	29	2	502	493	5	44	931	25	19	882	108
KURMI (Animist)	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Orissa States	504	465	31	1,000	...	...	928	72	...	615	380	5	70	899	34	7	861	132
MUCHI (Hindu)	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Bengal Proper	452	516	32	998	2	...	973	27	...	646	348	6	68	903	29	11	881	108
MUNDA (Hindu)	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Chota Nagpur	549	419	32	997	3	...	976	23	1	688	306	6	144	816	40	21	854	125
MUNDA (Christian)	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Ranchi	598	381	21	999	1	...	997	2	1	900	99	1	116	861	23	13	891	96
MUNDA (Animist)	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Chota Nagpur	569	387	44	998	1	1	988	11	1	823	173	5	110	854	36	11	804	185
MUSAHAR (Hindu) ...	***379***	***582***	***46***	***969***	***30***	***1***	***782***	***212***	***6***	***388***	***588***	***24***	***48***	***904***	***48***	***18***	***855***	***127***
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	329	624	47	998	70	2	618	371	11	244	709	47	27	924	49	11	866	123
Other Bihar Districts ...	382	573	45	978	21	1	821	173	6	416	564	20	52	900	48	19	853	128
NAMASUDRA (CHANDAL) (Hindu).	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Bengal Proper	513	440	47	998	2	...	987	12	1	826	170	4	166	797	37	21	81	168
NUNIYA (Hindu)	***451***	***509***	***40***	***979***	***20***	***1***	***857***	***139***	***4***	***502***	***481***	***17***	***66***	***893***	***41***	***16***	***847***	***137***
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	310	644	46	947	51	2	669	329	12	262	701	37	30	925	45	10	867	123
Other Bihar Districts ...	501	480	39	990	9	1	922	70	1	586	403	11	81	879	40	19	839	142

AND AGE OF 1,000 OF EACH SEX IN SOME OF THE MAIN CASTES—*continued.*

DISTRIBUTION OF 1,000 FEMALES OF EACH AGE BY CIVIL CONDITION.																		CASTE.
TOTAL.			0—5			5—12			12—20			20—40			40 and over.			
Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	
20	21	22	23	24	25	26	27	28	29	30	31	32	33	34	35	36	37	
309	*493*	*196*	*974*	*25*	*1*	*744*	*246*	*10*	*172*	*771*	*57*	*14*	*807*	*179*	*7*	*378*	*615*	KAMAR AND LOHAR (Hindu).
274	465	261	993	7	...	715	277	8	65	853	82	8	717	275	5	251	744	Bengal Proper.
227	601	172	999	99	2	481	493	26	101	849	50	9	873	118	4	473	521	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga.
308	519	173	989	37	3	751	238	11	213	741	46	16	846	138	8	448	544	Other Bihar Districts.
324	476	200	998	2	...	894	102	4	245	728	27	7	869	133	1	339	660	Orissa.
410	462	128	988	12	...	869	128	3	330	629	39	27	858	115	13	477	510	Chota Nagpur Plateau.
...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	KANDU (Hindu).
277	537	186	972	26	2	716	273	11	164	804	34	8	862	130	4	425	571	Bihar.
293	*417*	*290*	*992*	*6*	*2*	*881*	*112*	*7*	*132*	*804*	*64*	*7*	*718*	*275*	*3*	*242*	*755*	KAYASTHA (Hindu).
290	412	298	994	5	1	874	119	7	98	835	67	6	701	293	3	214	783	Bengal Proper.
302	438	260	985	13	2	904	87	9	261	687	52	10	771	219	4	328	668	Bihar.
278	407	315	1,000	...	...	925	75	...	165	797	38	4	730	266	2	207	791	Orissa.
...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	KHANDAIT (Hindu).
358	426	216	999	1	...	944	54	2	400	575	25	8	825	169	3	330	667	Orissa.
271	*557*	*172*	*964*	*34*	*2*	*627*	*359*	*14*	*166*	*798*	*36*	*15*	*857*	*128*	*8*	*454*	*538*	KOIRI (Hindu).
269	558	173	964	34	2	627	358	15	174	792	34	16	859	125	8	458	534	Bihar.
291	541	168	966	32	2	624	367	9	103	846	51	7	835	158	4	307	589	Chota Nagpur.
284	*524*	*192*	*953*	*45*	*2*	*665*	*329*	*13*	*194*	*811*	*65*	*10*	*812*	*178*	*6*	*387*	*607*	KUMHAR (Hindu).
279	452	269	990	8	2	716	273	11	67	829	104	7	697	296	4	239	757	Bengal Proper.
188	681	151	770	227	3	293	675	32	71	871	58	9	882	109	5	535	460	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga.
268	576	156	952	46	2	627	359	14	130	831	39	14	876	110	9	472	519	Other Bihar Districts.
336	495	169	999	1	...	906	94	...	274	706	20	8	885	107	5	403	592	Orissa.
327	524	149	980	18	2	728	262	10	168	782	50	12	853	135	7	439	554	Chota Nagpur Plateau.
289	*528*	*190*	*975*	*23*	*2*	*701*	*288*	*11*	*147*	*819*	*41*	*9*	*830*	*161*	*4*	*414*	*582*	KURMI (Hindu).
295	538	167	986	13	1	700	295	5	100	862	38	5	843	152	1	374	625	West Bengal.
207	602	191	921	74	5	454	515	31	62	882	56	7	863	130	4	453	543	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga.
256	516	228	978	20	2	697	292	11	164	778	58	10	800	190	5	397	598	Other Bihar Districts.
333	516	151	987	12	1	775	219	6	163	811	26	10	855	135	5	429	566	Chota Nagpur Plateau.
...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	KURMI (Animist).
399	471	130	1,000	...	...	818	180	2	272	706	22	22	888	90	14	405	581	Orissa States.
...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	MUCHI (Hindu).
283	518	198	989	10	1	668	333	9	47	901	52	7	823	170	3	307	690	Bengal Proper.
...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	MUNDA (Hindu).
432	410	158	986	13	1	951	47	2	492	489	19	52	815	133	31	304	575	Chota Nagpur.
...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	MUNDA (Christian).
521	383	96	999	1	...	992	7	1	712	282	6	62	860	78	16	554	430	Ranchi.
...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	MUNDA (Animist).
478	388	134	996	3	1	965	33	2	685	396	17	57	833	110	14	474	512	Chota Nagpur.
318	*555*	*127*	*957*	*41*	*2*	*684*	*303*	*13*	*184*	*781*	*35*	*15*	*873*	*114*	*10*	*541*	*449*	MUSAHAR (Hindu).
273	611	116	984	13	3	512	467	21	99	862	39	9	906	85	7	379	614	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga.
328	542	130	964	34	2	727	262	11	200	765	35	14	861	125	11	532	457	Other Bihar Districts.
...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	NAMASUDRA (CHANDAL) (Hindu).
299	435	266	990	8	2	792	197	11	86	836	78	7	697	296	3	227	770	Bengal Proper.
294	*537*	*169*	*959*	*39*	*2*	*696*	*294*	*10*	*237*	*732*	*31*	*13*	*853*	*134*	*6*	*460*	*534*	NUNIYA (Hindu).
197	639	164	962	34	4	869	606	25	92	887	41	8	889	103	3	491	506	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga.
335	494	171	982	17	1	832	164	4	208	677	25	14	838	148	7	446	547	Other Bihar Districts.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE V.—Distribution by Civil Condition

Caste.	Distribution of 1,000 Males of each age by Civil Condition.																	
	Total.			0—5			5—12			12—20			20—40			40 and over.		
	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15	16	17	18	19
ORAON (Hindu)	***461***	***500***	***39***	***990***	***10***	...	***970***	***29***	***1***	***748***	***237***	***15***	***125***	***830***	***45***	***14***	***866***	***120***
Jalpaiguri	436	521	43	989	11	...	967	32	1	753	230	17	129	824	47	14	859	127
Chota Nagpur	559	416	25	994	5	1	977	22	1	732	258	10	98	868	34	16	893	91
ORAON (Animist)	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Chota Nagpur	578	403	21	997	3	...	985	15	...	744	251	5	99	865	36	7	923	70
ORAON (Christian)	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Ranchi	583	385	32	993	6	1	989	10	1	807	188	5	79	873	48	8	870	122
PAN (Hindu)	***551***	***424***	***25***	***1,000***	...	...	***989***	***11***	...	***882***	***115***	***3***	***139***	***837***	***24***	***12***	***887***	***101***
Orissa	539	433	28	1,000	...	...	990	10	...	898	101	1	140	832	19	10	874	116
Chota Nagpur Plateau	559	417	24	999	1	...	988	12	...	869	127	4	131	840	29	13	899	88
PAN (Animist)	***532***	***388***	***60***	***980***	***20***	...	***986***	***12***	***2***	***531***	***465***	***4***	***90***	***768***	***142***	***17***	***803***	***180***
Angul	637	329	34	1,000	...	...	992	8	...	910	87	3	302	634	64	26	872	102
Chota Nagpur Tributary States.	542	395	63	979	21	...	986	12	2	483	513	4	51	793	156	16	795	189
POD (Hindu)	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Bengal Proper	495	474	31	999	1	...	979	21	...	625	341	4	76	903	21	13	857	130
RAJBANSI (KOCH) (Hindu)	***551***	***391***	***58***	***998***	***2***	...	***989***	***10***	***1***	***845***	***150***	***5***	***262***	***684***	***54***	***36***	***769***	***195***
North Bengal	554	388	58	998	2	...	990	9	1	853	142	5	260	677	54	38	766	196
Dacca and Mymensingh	491	459	50	998	2	...	977	22	1	714	279	7	131	810	59	29	826	154
RAJPUT (Hindu)	***509***	***434***	***57***	***992***	***8***	...	***958***	***40***	***2***	***729***	***257***	***14***	***257***	***695***	***48***	***70***	***751***	***179***
West Bengal	491	455	54	999	1	...	992	7	1	665	333	2	216	738	46	50	771	179
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	536	409	55	991	9	...	967	32	1	757	219	24	318	642	40	103	730	167
Other Bihar Districts	509	435	56	994	6	...	961	38	1	738	253	9	250	703	47	66	756	178
Chota Nagpur	459	468	73	980	20	...	913	82	5	632	341	27	195	737	68	32	749	219
SADGOP (Hindu)	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...
Bengal Proper	494	436	70	999	1	...	986	14	...	823	174	3	214	741	45	46	713	241
SANTAL (Hindu)	***561***	***416***	***23***	***998***	***2***	...	***985***	***15***	...	***821***	***175***	***4***	***177***	***798***	***25***	***18***	***895***	***87***
West Bengal	488	484	28	999	1	...	986	14	...	785	213	2	130	832	29	15	895	90
Bihar	522	452	26	994	6	...	962	36	2	697	291	12	138	838	24	31	871	98
Chota Nagpur Plateau	583	396	21	999	1	...	987	13	...	844	153	3	192	783	25	17	898	85
SANTAL (Animist)	***573***	***403***	***24***	***997***	***3***	...	***988***	***12***	...	***826***	***171***	***3***	***156***	***816***	***28***	***14***	***896***	***90***
West Bengal and Malda	559	420	21	998	2	...	990	10	...	857	141	2	163	815	22	14	908	78
Santhal Parganas	578	397	25	997	3	...	986	14	...	808	188	4	146	821	33	15	892	93
Chota Nagpur Plateau	575	400	25	998	2	...	989	11	...	837	160	3	170	803	27	10	890	100
SUNRI (SHAHA) (Hindu)	***470***	***478***	***52***	***993***	***7***	...	***944***	***54***	***2***	***713***	***278***	***9***	***150***	***809***	***41***	***37***	***794***	***169***
Bengal Proper	489	459	52	998	2	...	984	15	1	782	213	5	166	797	37	37	789	174
Bihar	382	562	56	971	28	1	799	192	9	457	521	22	93	849	58	31	814	155
Hazaribagh	442	519	39	989	10	1	809	189	2	446	530	24	78	881	41	45	812	143
TANTI AND TATWA (Hindu)	***491***	***530***	***49***	***985***	***15***	...	***856***	***138***	***6***	***616***	***369***	***15***	***104***	***858***	***38***	***21***	***825***	***154***
Bengal Proper	466	476	58	999	2	...	984	15	1	708	227	5	102	798	39	35	768	197
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	274	671	55	941	58	1	530	448	22	201	754	45	22	919	59	8	865	127
Other Bihar Districts	341	611	48	971	28	1	712	276	12	325	641	34	30	921	43	14	852	134
Orissa	473	488	39	1,000	...	...	985	15	...	705	292	3	114	862	24	14	845	141
Chota Nagpur Plateau	503	462	35	999	1	...	978	21	1	733	261	7	115	851	34	18	863	120
TELI (Hindu)	***408***	***543***	***49***	***983***	***16***	***1***	***830***	***165***	***5***	***323***	***462***	***15***	***85***	***871***	***44***	***19***	***822***	***159***
Bengal Proper	472	470	58	999	1	...	981	18	1	729	264	7	163	798	39	31	764	204
Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga	278	668	54	940	58	2	504	481	15	209	750	41	29	914	57	17	851	132
Other Bihar Districts	380	566	54	982	17	1	805	189	6	414	567	19	63	883	54	30	816	154
Orissa	471	494	35	1,000	...	...	984	15	1	745	252	3	98	879	23	7	861	132
Chota Nagpur Plateau	426	553	41	988	12	...	856	142	2	490	498	12	68	889	43	15	844	141

AND AGE OF 1,000 OF EACH SEX IN SOME OF THE MAIN CASTES—*concluded.*

DISTRIBUTION OF 1,000 FEMALES OF EACH AGE BY CIVIL CONDITION.																	CASTE.
TOTAL.			0—5			5—12			12—20			20—40			40 and over.			
Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	
20	21	22	23	24	25	26	27	28	29	30	31	32	33	34	35	36	37	
423	*481*	*96*	*992*	*8*	...	*924*	*72*	*4*	*504*	*472*	*24*	*61*	*845*	*94*	*7*	*393*	*598*	ORAON (Hindu).
413	497	90	992	8	...	923	74	3	522	455	23	68	838	94	5	640	355	Jalpaiguri.
461	419	120	994	6	...	929	67	4	454	549	27	30	873	97	11	447	542	Chota Nagpur.
...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	ORAON (Animist).
454	406	140	993	6	1	947	51	2	302	584	24	24	835	141	7	438	555	Chota Nagpur.
...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	ORAON (Christian).
487	389	124	991	8	1	971	27	2	481	480	30	23	809	117	3	485	512	Ranchi.
434	*430*	*136*	*998*	*2*	...	*963*	*37*	*1*	*472*	*509*	*19*	*19*	*884*	*97*	*6*	*417*	*577*	PAN (Hindu).
402	438	160	1,000	...	...	962	37	1	424	559	17	12	873	115	5	383	612	Orissa.
460	423	117	997	3	...	965	36	1	509	470	21	25	893	84	6	450	544	Chota Nagpur Plateau.
457	*445*	*98*	*995*	*4*	*1*	*963*	*34*	*3*	*511*	*472*	*17*	*45*	*879*	*85*	*16*	*573*	*411*	PAN (Animist).
501	338	161	1,000	...	...	997	3	...	758	209	33	73	756	171	...	379	628	Angul.
451	459	90	995	4	1	959	38	3	476	510	14	39	889	72	18	599	383	Chota Nagpur Tributary States.
...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	POD (Hindu).
285	492	223	992	7	1	614	371	15	16	901	83	4	742	254	2	989	729	Bengal Proper.
351	*428*	*221*	*991*	*7*	*2*	*845*	*148*	*7*	*129*	*811*	*60*	*11*	*747*	*242*	*5*	*947*	*748*	RAJBANSI (KOCH) (Hindu).
349	428	223	991	8	1	844	149	7	120	821	59	10	746	244	5	943	752	North Bengal
370	436	194	999	1	...	876	118	6	241	686	73	25	765	210	9	930	661	Dacca and Mymensingh.
292	*445*	*263*	*984*	*14*	*2*	*857*	*136*	*7*	*248*	*702*	*50*	*10*	*764*	*226*	*5*	*396*	*669*	RAJPUT (Hindu).
285	469	246	996	4	...	784	200	7	101	835	64	6	720	274	4	318	678	West Bengal.
292	425	283	976	21	3	858	133	9	217	713	70	8	739	253	4	337	659	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga.
292	446	262	988	11	1	870	125	5	272	688	40	10	773	217	5	325	670	Other Bihar Districts.
300	454	246	960	37	3	761	224	15	181	737	82	14	755	231	7	300	693	Chota Nagpur.
...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	...	SADGOP (Hindu).
224	438	338	990	9	1	622	363	15	56	849	98	3	655	342	3	190	817	Bengal Proper.
466	*410*	*124*	*993*	*6*	*1*	*949*	*49*	*2*	*515*	*459*	*26*	*52*	*844*	*104*	*11*	*469*	*520*	SANTAL (Hindu).
384	482	134	995	5	...	925	72	3	363	594	43	23	862	115	4	485	511	West Bengal.
448	440	112	979	19	2	906	86	8	417	544	39	45	859	96	7	534	459	Bihar.
485	392	123	995	4	1	960	39	1	537	422	21	59	838	103	14	456	530	Chota Nagpur Plateau.
478	*402*	*113*	*993*	*7*	...	*961*	*37*	*2*	*516*	*459*	*25*	*52*	*848*	*100*	*10*	*512*	*478*	SANTAL (Animist).
451	420	129	996	4	...	960	38	2	449	522	29	42	840	118	9	457	534	West Bengal and Malda.
491	407	102	991	9	...	958	40	2	542	435	23	52	850	89	11	556	433	Santhal Parganas.
483	395	122	997	3	...	972	27	1	539	439	22	67	829	104	8	459	533	Chota Nagpur Plateau.
270	*475*	*255*	*978*	*20*	*2*	*743*	*247*	*10*	*106*	*826*	*68*	*9*	*743*	*248*	*4*	*288*	*708*	SUNRI (SHAHA) (Hindu).
269	457	274	990	9	1	773	219	8	90	841	69	8	717	275	5	256	741	Bengal Proper.
256	555	189	929	77	3	623	357	20	176	753	71	13	843	145	8	427	565	Bihar.
311	520	169	969	30	1	653	305	12	158	794	48	9	831	160	4	399	597	Hazaribagh.
269	*525*	*206*	*972*	*27*	*1*	*670*	*316*	*14*	*157*	*814*	*49*	*9*	*825*	*166*	*4*	*374*	*622*	TANTI AND TATWA (Hindu).
240	479	281	993	7	...	664	323	13	51	866	83	5	723	272	2	208	790	Bengal Proper.
188	632	180	887	109	4	556	405	39	53	890	57	5	879	116	3	482	515	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga.
247	583	170	956	48	2	536	446	18	109	866	24	10	869	121	6	452	542	Other Bihar Districts.
318	501	181	999	1	...	888	109	3	220	754	26	9	871	120	3	398	599	Orissa.
376	467	157	997	3	...	873	124	3	320	651	29	24	858	118	8	499	583	Chota Nagpur Plateau.
265	*534*	*201*	*962*	*36*	*2*	*652*	*334*	*14*	*116*	*831*	*53*	*10*	*830*	*160*	*4*	*376*	*620*	TELI (Hindu).
225	476	297	987	11	2	586	397	17	54	843	103	6	682	312	2	239	759	Bengal Proper.
190	643	167	873	120	7	352	626	22	45	900	46	10	880	110	3	487	510	Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga.
278	542	180	961	37	2	600	294	16	156	795	49	13	856	129	5	421	569	Other Bihar Districts.
288	493	219	999	1	...	849	148	3	150	819	31	6	844	150	3	319	678	Orissa.
313	522	165	974	24	2	705	288	9	122	842	36	10	857	133	5	353	642	Chota Nagpur Plateau.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE VI.—Proportions of the Sexes by Civil Condition for Religions and Natural Divisions.

Number of Females per 1,000 Males.

	At all ages.			0—10			10—15			15—40			40 and over		
	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried.	Married.	Widowed.	Unmarried	Married.	Widowed.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15	16
(1) PROVINCE.															
All religions...	698	1,001	4,893	959	2,921	3,884	391	2,955	3,947	126	1,140	4,742	284	415	4,209
Hindu ...	646	986	4,514	953	2,272	3,599	384	2,413	3,483	119	1,115	4,643	222	486	4,502
Musalman ...	667	1,029	6,275	962	5,188	7,185	348	5,337	3,407	82	1,208	5,172	499	333	6,839
Animist ...	870	1,032	4,620	1,027	2,095	5,382	749	2,637	4,902	328	1,240	3,769	1,122	571	5,059
Christian ...	784	977	3,353	1,031	1,535	3,900	779	3,649	3,737	389	1,208	3,179	627	532	3,780
(2) WEST BENGAL.															
All religions...	548	1,000	6,017	915	14,622	17,396	193	7,979	23,418	49	1,102	8,525	98	533	5,135
Hindu ...	522	995	5,923	905	16,304	17,239	158	8,381	28,344	33	1,082	8,814	73	522	4,947
Musalman ...	669	1,022	6,791	923	9,306	18,192	262	6,146	11,050	49	1,187	6,829	222	563	6,714
(3) CENTRAL BENGAL.															
All religions...	537	870	5,748	897	10,158	10,570	186	7,358	11,033	48	958	6,785	128	298	5,278
Hindu ...	506	802	5,374	849	11,194	11,960	174	7,815	13,836	33	870	6,955	117	297	4,557
Musalman ...	563	943	6,672	805	9,440	9,255	184	6,993	8,434	92	1,056	6,616	244	295	6,653
(4) NORTH BENGAL.															
All religions ...	628	953	4,945	902	7,612	8,180	275	6,174	9,090	79	1,122	4,739	210	262	4,999
Hindu ...	597	865	4 055	908	6,450	6,827	338	6,546	11,122	85	1,052	4,802	132	248	3,612
Musalman ...	641	1,010	6,251	940	8,455	9,750	226	6,092	7,940	53	1,164	4,651	373	262	7,251
(5) EAST BENGAL.															
All religions...	663	1,022	5,923	989	6,349	9,036	393	8,278	10,237	68	1,233	6,179	243	302	5,756
Hindu ...	586	963	5,191	985	8,878	10,163	300	9,262	15,168	44	1,144	7,901	116	270	4,384
Musalman ...	696	1,055	6,816	992	5,571	8,411	436	7,837	7,927	78	1,272	5,276	352	315	7,650
(6) NORTH BIHAR.															
All religions...	719	1,046	3,874	942	1,649	2,421	432	1,371	1,787	173	1,181	3,029	340	588	4,873
Hindu ...	719	1,041	3,753	929	1,612	2,353	478	1,311	1,709	165	1,162	2,878	278	603	4,494
Musalman ...	735	1,071	4,604	975	2,304	3,506	495	1,982	2,985	202	1,289	4,066	951	527	5,046
(7) SOUTH BIHAR.															
All religions...	721	1,024	3,537	941	1,836	3,183	448	1,477	1,905	243	1,137	3,845	427	604	3,989
Hindu ...	715	1,009	3,419	936	1,820	3,104	432	1,458	1,896	244	1,111	3,734	412	601	3,842
Musalman ...	780	1,189	5,337	960	2,137	4,883	553	2,092	2,480	233	1,431	4,436	706	649	5,740
(8) ORISSA.															
All religions ...	695	1,006	6,060	1,009	5,788	39,727	621	7,226	17,765	173	1,321	6,994	285	482	5,701
Hindu ...	698	1,005	5,996	1,017	5,608	29,727	619	7,212	17,977	131	1,319	6,961	279	482	5,719
Musalman ...	703	1,123	10,403	966	12,293	.....	682	9,285	10,500	164	1,438	8,709	527	476	11,914
(9) CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU.															
All religions ...	707	1,013	4,567	1,005	2,707	4,102	602	2,106	3,458	256	1,130	3,710	316	505	4,069
Hindu ...	708	1,007	4,483	1,000	2,811	3,948	545	2,092	3,426	269	1,134	3,731	334	502	4,012
Musalman ...	735	988	4,014	945	2,412	4,917	960	1,786	2,639	183	1,052	3,855	548	493	5,637

Chapter VIII.

INFIRMITIES.

General Observations.

THE INFIRMITIES RECORDED.

451. The infirmities regarding which information was collected at the census were the same as on previous occasions, *viz.*, unsoundness of mind, deaf-mutism, blindness, and leprosy. The instructions issued to the enumerators were identical with those of previous censuses, and were as follows:—

> If any person be blind of both eyes, or deaf-and-dumb from birth, or insane, or suffering from corrosive leprosy, enter the name of the infirmity in this column. Do not enter those who are blind of one eye only, or who have become deaf-and-dumb after birth, or who are suffering from white leprosy only.

ACCURACY OF THE STATISTICS.

452. In considering the statistics thus collected, it must be borne in mind that they were recorded, not by experts, but by the villagers who served as enumerators, whose education was, as a rule, of a very low order, and that in the case of each infirmity there is a considerable risk of error in the diagnosis. As regards unsoundness of mind, the main difficulty is in respect of cretins and of persons who are merely weak-headed, or whose mental derangement is of a purely temporary character. The tendency at each succeeding census is to be more and more rigid in excluding such persons from the category of the insane. In respect of deaf-mutism there is a marked tendency to show in this category persons who are merely deaf on account of old age.* In the return of the blind, there is the possibility of persons being included merely because their vision has grown dim on account of old age, or because they have lost the sight of one eye. There is a separate word (*kánâ*) which is used to indicate the one-eyed, but in some places it is also used with reference to those who are totally blind. In the course of tabulation we disregarded all entries of *kánâ*, but it is possible that this led occasionally to the omission of persons who were really blind. In the case of leprosy there is a tendency to show as lepers persons who are suffering from syphilitic taint or who have merely leucoderma, *i.e.*, what is commonly called white leprosy—an affection which, though sufficiently striking on the dark skin of a native of India, does not, of course, partake in any way of the nature of true leprosy. The Leprosy Commission found that of the persons produced before them as lepers by Police Inspectors and other non-medical men, about 10 per cent. were suffering from diseases other than true leprosy. The error must be still greater when the diagnosis is made by the simple villagers from whose ranks most of our enumerators were drawn.

It is thus apparent that in the case of all infirmities there is a tendency to make entries which are not contemplated by the instructions, and these can only be eliminated by careful instruction and supervision. The accuracy of the returns must therefore depend in a great measure on the extent to which the work of the enumerators is checked by the higher classes of census officers.

453. The total number of persons suffering from each infirmity, as recorded at each of the last three enumerations, is noted in the margin. The most striking feature of the figures is the progressive decline in the number of the afflicted, especially between 1881 and 1891. The decrease then recorded, far from being peculiar to Bengal, was common to almost all parts of India. It was attributed by general consent to a more accurate enumeration, *i.e.*, to the exclusion from the returns of persons whose infirmities, whatever they might be, did not fall within the scope of the definition laid down in the instructions to the enumerators. On the present occasion also there can be little doubt that the continued decline, which is again not confined to Bengal, is due, in part at least, to the same cause. The arrangements for the supervision of our army of nearly 400,000

Infirmity.	1901.	1891.	1881.
Insane	22,941	25,628	30,675
Deaf-mute ...	58,154	70,165	85,495
Blind	76,859	73,480	97,358
Lepers	37,377	46,390	56,523
Total ...	194,331	215,663	270,043

* In the English census of 1891 a separate return was prepared for persons who are deaf only.

enumerators—thanks to the experience gained in the past—were more complete in 1901 than they had ever been before, and the scrutiny of the schedules was far more thorough. It is thus only natural that the elimination of erroneous entries should have been even more complete than it was in 1891. The decrease is least marked the case of the blind, where the difficulty of diagnosis is smallest, and greatest in respect of leprosy and deaf-mutism, where error is most likely to occur. I should not omit to mention that the general change of system in working out the results of the census referred to in the introduction was not, in Bengal, applied to the infirmity table, which was obtained by means of the old method of abstraction by ticks; and I have shown elsewhere* that the abstraction was very carefully supervised and that the whole of the tabulation, or addition of the figures in the abstraction sheets, was checked in the head office. Consequently, so far as the compilation of the entries is concerned, it is probable that the omissions, if any, must have been very small indeed, and were certainly not greater than at any previous census.

454. The statistics collected regarding infirmities will be found in Imperial Table XII. At the end of this chapter subsidiary tables will be found showing—

(*i*) the number of persons afflicted in each district per 100,000 of the population at each of the last three censuses;
(*ii*) the distribution of 10,000 persons of each infirmity by age; and
(*iii*) the number of persons afflicted per 100,000 of the population at each age-period, and the number of females afflicted to 1,000 males.
(*iv*) The result of certain enquiries made after the census regarding persons returned as deaf-mute.

INSANITY.

455. The total number of the insane returned at the present census is less by 10 per cent. than the number returned in 1891. Some of the decrease is doubtless due, as already explained, to the greater care taken to ensure accuracy, and to the exclusion, in the course of tabulation, of entries such as *unmâd* (weak-headed) or *ádhpágal* (half-witted), which indicate only a minor form of mental aberration, but an examination of the age-table shows that this cause has not operated to any great extent. Imbecility is usually a congenital affection; and if the decrease were due mainly to the exclusion on this occasion of a larger proportion of imbeciles than in 1891, there would be a marked difference between the proportion borne by the insane to the total population during the earlier years of life. The diagram given in paragraph 460, however, shows that it is precisely at this period that there is least difference between the results of the two enumerations, and that it is not until the later years of life that the difference between the two sets of figures becomes very marked. Moreover, this explanation would not account for the variations in the rate of decrease, which are to be noticed in different parts of the Province. In Orissa and the Chota Nagpur Plateau the proportion borne by the insane to the total population is very much the same as it was ten years ago, and in West Bengal, which adjoins these tracts, the decrease is comparatively slight. It is greatest in East Bengal and North Bihar, but especially in the former tract, where the uninterrupted prosperity of the people and the consequent absence of want and worry, which are known to conduce to brain affections, may possibly account to some extent for the improvement. In Dacca it has been suggested that the diminished consumption of ganja, due to the higher price of that drug, may also have contributed to the result. In North Bihar the decade was by no means favourable, and a succession of bad crops has impoverished the people. The insane, when not in asylums, are to a great extent dependent on the charity of their neighbours for subsistence, and it is well known that the first result of scarcity is to dry up the springs of private benevolence. During the famines of 1891 and 1896 every effort was made to supply food to idiots and lunatics, in common with others who, by reason of age or infirmity, were incapable of earning their living; but owing to the nature of their affliction, the insane are, of all people, the most difficult to find and relieve, and doubtless they suffered more than any other class. It is to be feared therefore that in North Bihar a great part of the decrease in the number of these unfortunates

COMPARISON WITH 1891.

* Administrative Report, Chapter II, page 55.

must be attributed to the difficulties experienced by them in procuring sufficient nourishment during the two periods of scarcity that have occurred since the previous census. In Champaran, where the decrease is most marked, the Magistrate thinks that it must be due, in part at least, to a stricter definition of what constitutes unsoundness of mind, *i.e.*, to the more complete exclusion of the semi-imbecile deaf-mutes who are so frequently met with in that district. I shall refer to this subject again when discussing the statistics of deaf-mutism. There were 943 lunatics in the asylums of this Province at the end of the year 1900, compared with 1,055 ten years previously. Assuming that there has been no change in the principles on which lunatics are admitted to asylums, these figures would appear to show that dangerous lunatics are really less numerous than they were ten years ago.

COMPARISON WITH OTHER PROVINCES AND COUNTRIES.

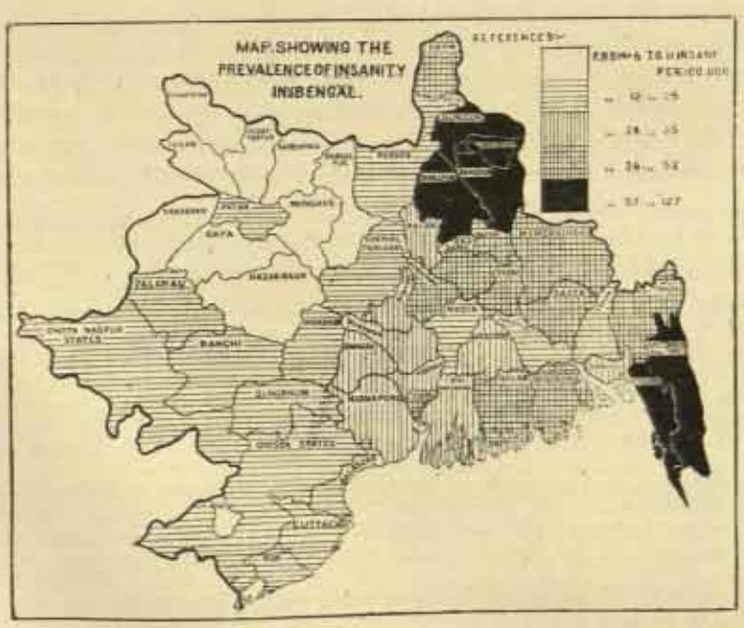
456. In comparison with European countries mental disease would appear to be comparatively rare in India. In England there are about 13 persons of unsound mind to one in India. This is due partly to the fact that in Europe many persons who suffer from imbecility or from other harmless manifestations of mental disease, or whose attacks are periodical, are included, whereas in India they are not usually taken into consideration; but the main reason is doubtless to be found in the very different conditions of life in the East. In Europe the competition between man and man is severe, and is yearly becoming more so. The mental wear and tear is very great, and the strain on the nervous system deranges many feeble intellects which in the calm and placid East would escape the storms to which they succumb. A crazy craft often plies with safety on inland waters that would not live for a day in the stress of the open sea.

As compared with the other large provinces of India, the proportion of the insane in Bengal is exceeded only in the Punjab, and is more than double that of the United Provinces. Bengal, however, consists of several sub-provinces with entirely different local conditions. The prevalence of insanity amongst the population of Bihar is, if anything, rather less than in the United Provinces, while in Northern and Eastern Bengal it is more common than in the adjoining Province of Assam.

PROVINCE.	Number of insane per 100,000.
Bengal ...	29
Punjab ...	34
Bombay ...	18
Madras ...	19
United Provinces ...	14

LOCAL DISTRIBUTION OF THE INSANE.

457. Insanity is most prevalent in North Bengal, and especially in Rangpur, Jalpaiguri, and Kuch Bihar. Then follows East Bengal with very high figures for Chittagong and the Chittagong Hill Tracts; then the other districts of Bengal Proper, Orissa, South Bihar,* Chota Nagpur, and North Bihar in order in which enumerated. In the three tracts last mentioned insanity is not a quarter as common as in North Bengal. As already explained, the very low figures in North Bihar may be due in part to high mortality in the famine years, but even in 1891 this tract was only one place higher in the list. It is difficult to find reasons for these local variations. They do not appear to support the view that the Himalayas have an evil influence or that the Himalayan rivers



* The relatively high figures for Patna are due to the presence of a lunatic asylum. Excluding the lunatics in the asylum, the ratio is very little higher than in the other districts of South Bihar.

are the main centres of insanity, as distinguished from cretinism*. It is true that the tract in North Bengal, where insanity is most rife, borders on the Himalayas, but so also does North Bihar, where it is least prevalent.† There is perhaps more to be said for Mr. O'Donnell's view that the result is due to differences of race rather than locality, and that the Mongoloid tribes, which form the main ingredient in the population of Northern and Eastern Bengal, are more prone to mental disease than the inhabitants of Bihar and Chota Nagpur, whose origin is, in the main, Dravidian. But here, too, the facts do not altogether fit in. The Mongoloid population, though great in North Bengal and Goalpara, is still greater higher up the Assam Valley. It would seem therefore that insanity should increase steadily as one proceeds eastwards across the Assam border. As a matter of fact, however, its incidence in the Brahmaputra Valley is greatest in Goalpara, which adjoins the great centre of the disease in Bengal, and rapidly decreases towards the east. The fact seems to be that while the Mongoloid races as a whole are far more prone to insanity than the Dravidian, the Koch is the tribe that suffers from it more than any other. The main habitat of this tribe is in the tract where insanity is most prevalent, *i.e.*, in North Bengal and in Goalpara in Assam; east of Goalpara the true Koch element forms a smaller proportion of the population. The proposed explanation does not account for the high ratio of insanity in the Chittagong Hill Tracts, but here also it is doubtless a matter of race, as this district adjoins Burma, and insanity is very prevalent amongst the Burmese.‡

458. Amongst the causes generally cited as productive of mental derangement the consumption of ganja stands high. The finding of the Hemp Drugs Commission was that the moderate use of ganja does no appreciable harm to the brain, although, when taken in excess, which is very rarely the case, it may induce insanity, especially when there is any weakness or hereditary predisposition,§ but this view does not seem to have received general acceptance. The enquiries made regarding the causes of insanity in cases sent to asylums in Bengal in 1901 resulted in the conclusion that in three quarters of the total number the causes were physical, and that of these the habitual use of ganja was the chief. However this may be, there appears to be no correspondence in this province between the consumption of the drug and the prevalence of insanity. Excluding Calcutta, the consumption is greatest in Purnea and Shahabad, where insanity is rare. Then come the 24-Parganas, Jalpaiguri, Mymensingh, Patna, and Monghyr. Jalpaiguri is one of the districts where the disease is most common, but it is less so than in Rangpur, where the average consumption of the drug is barely half of that in the districts mentioned above. It may, however, be mentioned that, concurrently with a decrease in the prevalence of insanity, the consumption of ganja has fallen off in this province.

Consanguineous marriages are also said to tend to insanity, but it does not appear that such marriages are more common than elsewhere in the districts where mental disease is most prevalent.

PROPORTIONS OF THE SEXES AND AGE DISTRIBUTION.

459. In most countries the number of insane males greatly exceeds that of females.‖ This is especially the case in India, where the women lead a quiet, secluded, and monotonous life; they are restrained from the excesses of various

* I have already said that the general tendency of census officers was to exclude cretins from the category of the insane, and it will be seen from Subsidiary Table IV that of 105 deaf-mutes who were found by subsequent enquiry to be also half-witted, very few appear to have been returned at the census as insane.

The total number of persons who were entered by the enumerators as insane as well as deaf-mute was only 666, or at the rate of 29 per 1,000 persons returned as insane.

† The rapidity with which the prevalence of insanity diminishes as one leaves the area of maximum intensity is very remarkable. In the Kishanganj subdivision of Purnea, which adjoins Jalpaiguri, the number of insane per 100,000 is only 26, against 71 in Jalpaiguri; in the Araria subdivision of the same district it is 14, and in the Supaul subdivision of Bhagalpur it is barely 7. Similarly, in the three northernmost thanas of Dinajpur it is 67, against a district average of 57, and in Malda, which is south of Dinajpur, it is only 29.

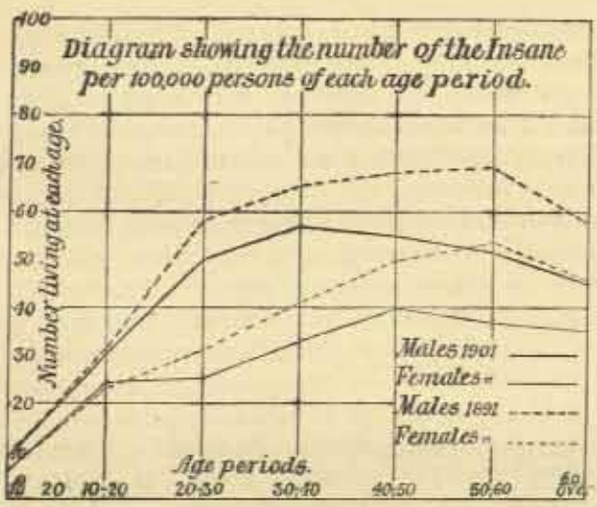
‡ An examination of the age statistics for the insane in the Chittagong Hill Tracts shows that the number at the earlier ages is higher than elsewhere. It is thus possible that a comparatively large proportion of idiots has been included in the returns. This tract was one where the census presented special difficulties, and the training of the enumerators and the supervision of their work were necessarily less elaborate than elsewhere.

§ This was the finding of the majority. Two members only of seven were of opinion that the use of these drugs is a fertile cause of insanity.

‖ It does not do so in England, but this is because there the female lunatics die, or are cured, less rapidly than the male, and therefore accumulate more rapidly. It is estimated that, for equal numbers living, the occurrence of lunacy is nearly 5 per cent. more common in the male than in the female sex.

kinds in which men indulge; their work is lighter, and they suffer less from hardship, exposure, and anxiety. In Bengal the proportion of males to females is roughly as 3 to 2; the ratio has fallen slightly since 1891, but it is still greater than that then recorded for India as a whole. The proportion of females to males is highest in North Bengal (5 to 6), where insanity is most prevalent, and next highest in East Bengal (3 to 4); in other parts of the province the ratio is almost uniform (1 to 2).* The only apparent explanation of the higher proportion of females in the tracts where it is most common is that in these tracts hereditary predisposition enters more largely into the causation of the affliction; whereas elsewhere, extraneous circumstances, such as excesses of various kinds, worry, etc., by which males are most affected, are the most common causes of mental derangement.

460. The proportions of the sexes at the different age-periods vary greatly. At the two extremes of life the figures approach equality, but the proportion of females steadily declines from both ends until it reaches a minimum at the age-period, "25 to 30," when there is only one female who is insane to every two males. The figures for both sexes are small in early youth, when there is a natural reluctance on the part of the relatives of persons thus afflicted to recognize the existence of the disease, and the increase during the early years of life is probably only apparent. From 20 to 30 the proportion of the insane amongst females is almost stationary; it then rises slowly, until it reaches its maximum between the ages of 40 and 50, *i.e.*, at the change of life, and it then declines slightly at the higher age-periods. Amongst males, on the other hand, there is a rapid increase of insanity between the ages of 20 and 30, the season of the passions, and a more gradual rise takes place up to 40, when the ratio again declines. The general tendency of the age statistics is to confirm the conclusion that, on the whole, cretinism enters to a very small extent into the census returns, and that the great majority of the persons shown as of unsound mind belong to the category of lunatics properly so called.



DEAF-MUTISM.

461. The figures for the deaf-mute show a decrease of 24 per cent., compared with the last census. Except in parts of the Chota Nagpur Plateau, where the return of 1891 was probably not very complete, the general result is shared by all parts of the province. It is attributed by District Officers to the elimination from the return of persons who are deaf only, and there can be no room for doubt as to the truth of this explanation. Deaf-mutism is a congenital defect, and deaf-mutes are known to be relatively short-lived. Consequently, the proportion of the deaf and dumb to the total number of persons living at each age-period should show a steady decline, and a reference to the diagram given in paragraph 465 below will show that, after allowing for an incomplete return for those under ten years of age, this is, on the whole, the case at the present census. In 1891, on the other hand, the proportion rises rapidly at the higher ages, and the same was still more markedly the case at the census of 1881. This shows clearly that on both those occasions many persons must have been included who were not really deaf-mute, but who had lost the sense of hearing in their old age. The improvement in the accuracy of the present return is due not only to a more careful preparation of the original entries, but also to the exclusion in the course of tabulation of all persons entered only as deaf.

COMPARISON WITH 1891.

* The proportion in East Bengal is very much the same as in the adjoining province of Assam, and that in Bihar agrees closely with the proportion in the United Provinces.